

A grammar of 18th century Haitian Creole

A description of “Ducoeurjoly’s
Haitian Creole” (1802)

Peter Bakker

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Dedicated to Pieter Muysken (1950-2021)
one of the pioneers in the study of older documents in
creole languages;
linguist, teacher, mentor, friend

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1 Introduction

This is an analysis of the grammar of 18th century Haitian Creole, based on a single source published in 1802 in France (Ducœurjoly 1802b). Simon Jérôme Ducœurjoly had resided in Haiti, and had returned to France, hence his material is from the end of the 18th century. In his book, he published five dialogues in both Creole and French.

I hope this study will contribute to the study of the genesis and development of creole languages in general, and that of Haitian Creole in particular. I also hope it will somehow contribute to the prestige of modern Haitian Creole and the improvement of the situation of the speakers.

I have strived to cover all the grammatical observations that can be made on the basis of the source materials (some 35 pages of French and Creole dialogues). There will undoubtedly be some gaps. There are other early sources of Haitian as well. This monograph, however, is a description based on this one source. I will occasionally refer to modern Haitian Creole as well, without claiming exhaustiveness or depth. Haitian is a French-lexifier creole language, and occasionally connections with French will also be mentioned, but again, without any claim for exhaustiveness, systematicity or depth. It is based on one source, yet, in a few rare cases, other older sources for Haitian are also mentioned. Modern continental French will also be referred to occasionally, as a proxy for late 18th century French, since only a few major differences separate the varieties of French in Ducœurjoly and modern written French. Both French and Creole have changed since the late 1700s. I keep the spelling of French and Creole as used in Ducœurjoly (1802b), except punctuation. The source dialogues, which are the source of the grammatical observations in this study, are printed in the back of this book. Numbers in this book refer to the numbered speaking turns in the dialogues in Ducœurjoly's book, as indicated in the appended dialogues.

In the title, the name of the author of the texts is spelled as <Ducoeurjoly>, which is an international spelling, in order to facilitate searches, bibliographical work and archiving. Throughout the book, however, the author's name is used as he spelled it himself, as <Ducœurjoly>, with the ligature of <o> and <e>, as usual in French.

A facsimile of the book, including the texts scrutinized here, is available here:

1 Introduction

- (1) a. <http://www.manioc.org/patrimon/SCH13063>
 b. <http://www.manioc.org/patrimon/SCH13064>

Readers are reminded that the original book was written in the colonial period and that some terms in the original are no longer appropriate in this day and age.

Ducœurjoly's dialogues constitute by far the most substantive sample of pre-revolutionary texts in Haitian Creole. They cover around 250 speaking turns with a length of between two words and a few dozen words each, totalling close to 4,000 words (tokens). This is the most extensive language material available on Early Haitian to be found anywhere.

In addition to the dialogues, there is also linguistic material in a section of Ducœurjoly's book called *Vocabulaire Français et Créole*, covering 72 pages (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 283–355). The title of that part is somewhat misleading, as it is more an alphabetized encyclopaedia, covering nature, tools, etc., and it also includes some grammatical observations on Creole. Information from that section is occasionally used as a supplement and cited as *Vocabulaire* in combination with a page number. The grammatical description is based on the dialogues, and information from the *Vocabulaire* is used as a supplement only. The reason for this is that texts and descriptive observations in grammatical descriptions do not always align, and priority is given to the texts in this study.

A few other more or less contemporary texts in Haitian Creole exist, but all of them are considerably less extensive. As mentioned above, no attempt has been undertaken to study the grammatical structures of pre-revolutionary Haitian Creole as found in other sources. There are some shorter texts by the Haitian revolutionary leader, Toussaint L'Ouverture, also Louverture (see Girard 2013, and below), as well as a few additional early sources (see Hazaël-Massieux 2008 and Section 2.4 below).

The dialogues were in all likelihood compiled by Ducœurjoly himself. They were published in his book on Saint-Domingue, which is the colonial French name for the country that became Haiti (the original indigenous Taino name for the island, chosen by the new regime) after the French colonials were ousted from power by 1804. Not much is known about the author. An anonymous referee wrote, without indicating a source, that Simon Jérôme Ducœurjoly was born in or about 1744 in Paris in a wealthy family. He was in Paris in 1765, so his claimed 20 years in Saint-Domingue were between that year and the uprising. He married in Paris in 1794. Some sources indicate that he was an ex-Jesuit (see Fattier 1995: 138; Moreira de Sousa et al. 2019), but there is no convincing evidence for this. It seems to be based on a misunderstanding (see 2.1).

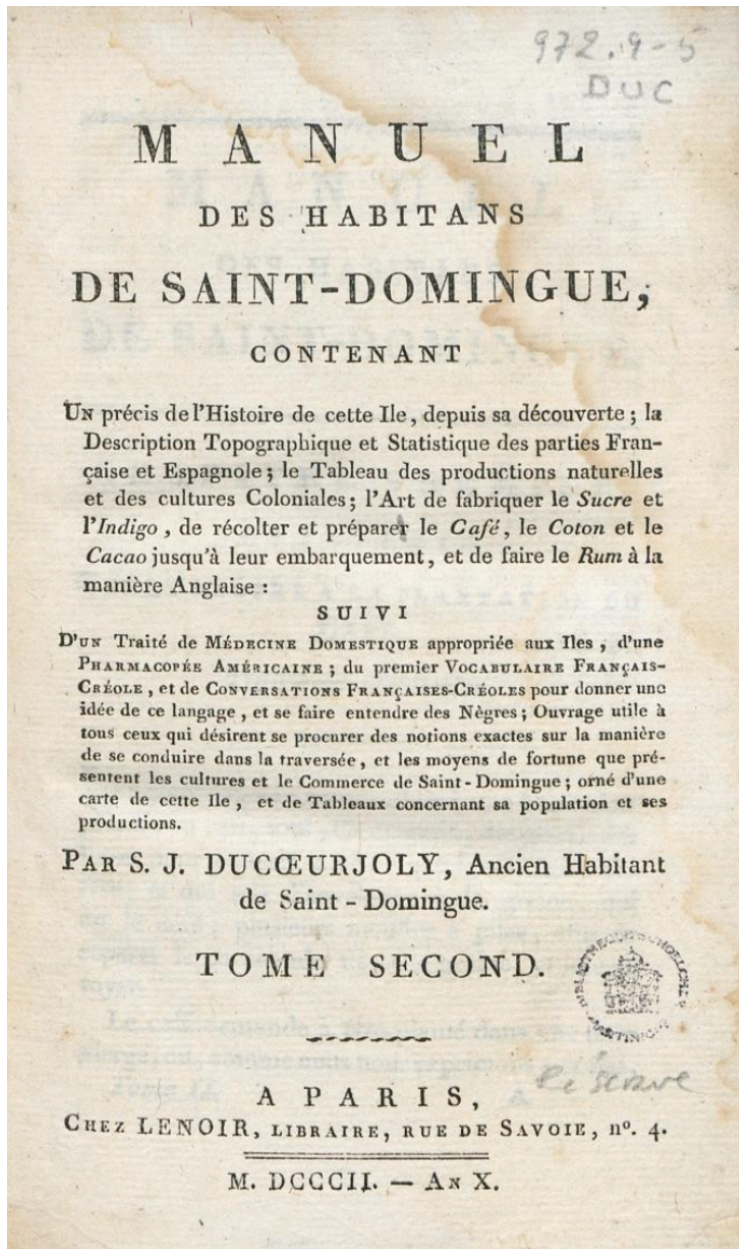


Figure 1.1: : the cover page of the second volume of Duceurjoly's book

1 Introduction

There are several reasons for the publication of this grammar. In the first place, it will make the materials of the texts more easily accessible. In the second place, grammar of an older stage of a creole is always welcome, as changes shed light on the development and origin of this language, and of creoles in general. The genesis of creole languages is a point of discussion in the field, and older sources are important links between the lexifier (French) and the modern language. Moreover, to date, no grammatical description of early Haitian Creole exists to bridge this gap.

The case of Ducœurjoly is not unique. Other colonialists have also produced language-learning materials, as well as religious texts and more. These have led to grammatical descriptions by modern scholars. To mention just a few, a grammar of Old Sranan was produced by Margot [van den Berg \(2007\)](#), and Jacques Arends also published studies of Old Sranan by (e.g. [Arends1986](#), [Arends 1995](#), [2017](#), [Arends & Perl 1995](#)), relating to Suriname. Sranan is one of the English-lexifier creole languages that developed in Suriname, South America. The oldest printed grammar of a creole language is the grammar of Virgin Islands Dutch Creole by J.M. Magens, published in Copenhagen in the 18th century ([Magens 1770](#); [Bakker & Van der Voort 2009](#)). However, grammar of Early Haitian did not exist yet. The dialogues in Ducœurjoly present an ideal foundation for such a grammar.

The fact that it is the idiolect of one person makes the enterprise easier. Ducœurjoly was no doubt a fluent speaker, who probably interacted on a daily basis with native speakers in their language in the twenty years he spent on the island. In the third place, some of the speakers of Haitian Creole and speakers of other creole languages may have an interest in the origin and development of their language, and this study may also serve some of their needs.

This grammar is based on a closed corpus: five dialogues in Creole published in 1802, representing a version of Haitian as used in the late 18th century. The dialogues are given in the appendix. The speaking turns have been numbered and the examples in the present grammar have reference numbers that indicate the turns in the dialogues so that the context of the examples quoted can be checked easily. I have strived to be as complete as possible, and try to discuss every aspect of the language that I could discern. It should not be forgotten, that it only represents the speech of one speaker.

There will be some remarks on the lexical source language of Haitian, French, and to Modern Haitian, where I think it will be relevant. This has not been done systematically, however: it is emphatically not a comparative grammar of French, Early Haitian, and Modern Haitian, despite the occasional comparison to other

languages. It is not a historical grammar of Haitian either, in that it does not discuss changes through time systematically. It represents the speech of one Haitian colonial as he used it in the late 18th century. Observations on differences between Haitian Creole and French are presented to facilitate the comparison of the two languages, the creole and its ancestor language, just like one could add observations on Latin when discussing its daughter languages like Italian and Spanish.

There is an ongoing discussion whether there are quantitative and qualitative difference between the transition from (Vulgar) Latin and Italian, compared to the transition between French and Haitian. My position is that the history of atrocities in the colonial situation, with displacements and oppression of ancestral cultural and linguistic traditions by colonial powers, cannot be equated with the transmission from one generation to the next in a regular familial and peer transmission. The linguistic facts of creoles, including Haitian, also demonstrate clearly that many grammatical features from the lexifiers, especially in the morphological domain, have not been transmitted. It is necessary to recognize the unusual sociohistorical situation of mass enslavement and blackbirding as the main reason for the unusual outcomes in the form of creole languages. Creole languages are perfectly normal natural languages, but their properties point to an earlier stage of a reduced form of French, which has been expanded to a fully-fledged language.

There are around 500 example sentences in this book. Some of them are used in different sections, to illustrate distinct constructions. The glosses and the translations may not always be the same in both cases. Every translation is an approximation, glosses can vary as well, and in different contexts the interpretations of the grammatical phenomena may vary slightly. No attempt has therefore been made to homogenize these aspects of the example sentences and their glosses and translations.

2 Ducœurjoly and his book

According to the introduction, which was not written by the author of the book himself (Ducœurjoly 1802b: part 1, page 1, note), Ducœurjoly spent more than 20 years in the colony (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 1: iv) called Saint-Domingue at the time, the country which was renamed Haiti in 1804. His two-volume book, written in French and published in Paris, was intended for those in France who wanted to settle in Saint-Domingue/Haiti. It is a guide with information about plants, animals, agriculture, plantation machinery, populations, etc. Obviously, it is a propaganda piece, intentionally positive, meant to lure European settlers to the colony.

2.1 Ducœurjoly's life

Not much is known about Ducœurjoly's life. In his book he claimed to have spent 20 years of his life in Saint-Domingue, where, according to the introduction in his book, he is said to have “managed several estates of considerable size”¹. His solid knowledge of Haitian Creole confirms indeed that he spent many years there, but there is as yet no independent evidence yet from local documents from Saint-Domingue.

Before embarking on his life, it is necessary to correct an error. Some authors have claimed that Ducœurjoly was a Jesuit missionary (e.g. Fattier 1995: n. 14; Moreira de Sousa et al. 2019), but that appears a wrong assumption. This misunderstanding is probably caused by his initials are S.J., for Simon Jérôme, which is also used for Jesuits (*Societas Jesu*), who add this abbreviation to their names. The Jesuits were expelled from France in 1764, when Ducœurjoly was 20 years old. I have found no mention of his involvement in religious activities in his book on Saint-Domingue, and neither did Murray 1985, who wrote about Ducœurjoly's book: “Nowhere did I find mention of religious instruction of the slaves, either as a positive or negative tactic”. He was a plantation manager, with no particular interest in religion.

¹“géré en chef plusieurs Habitations très-considérables” (Ducœurjoly 1802b, part 1: iv).

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

Most of the following information about Ducœurjoly's life given here has been unearthed by William Jennings, to whom I am very grateful for his permission to use his findings ².

Simon Jérôme Du Coeur Jolly was born in Paris in late 1744. He was the son of Gilles, a *marchand mercier* (merchant), and Marie Mouvant. A legal document places him in Paris in 1765 as a *clerc tonsuré* (seminary student). He appeared in Corsica as a bailiff in 1769 (**Morati1893**: 31, 62, 128, 129, 145, 146, 149, 151) and he was in Paris again in 1794. There he married Rose Félicité Mauguien in Paris on 9 vendémaire an 3 (30 September 1794). Soon after, he married Marguerite Deghenot in Paris on 24 frimaire an 3 (14 December 1794). The twenty years he claimed to have spent in Saint-Domingue were therefore most likely from about 1770-1790. Born in Paris and having been educated there, his French must have been close to Standard French. The year of his death is not known. He was active as a writer between 1801 and 1818. As his last book appeared in 1818, he may have died in that year, or after.

2.2 Ducœurjoly as a writer: five (or more) other books.

Ducœurjoly wrote not only his two-volume book on Saint-Domingue (**Ducœurjoly 1802b**), but also a handful of books with anecdotes, games, jokes, tricks, trivia and educational books for the youth, all of them in French. Ducœurjoly started writing after he came back from his colonial adventure. His first book came out in 1801, when he was around 56 years old. I give English translations of the titles of his books in this brief survey; the original titles are given in the list of references. Ducœurjoly's first book was *Three hours of fun, or The new Comus containing the easiest, most enjoyable and most interesting card tricks, problems of arithmetic, geometry and physics* (**Ducœurjoly 1801**). It is named after a Greek God of festivity Komos. The first edition of the book appeared in 1801, but it seems to have been lost. Its appearance was announced in *l'Année Littéraire* in 1801 (vol. 6, first issue, p. 104-106). Three subsequent editions or print runs were published: the second in 1802, the third in 1808 and the fourth in 1812. This fourth edition is readily available. In the introduction, the author says that he regularly entertains his company with mathematical riddles, and that both adults and children can test their intelligence with them. The books contains hundreds of riddles on 357 pages. It does not contain biographical data.

²Documents consulted:[AN Y4882B] - Paris (Paris, France) - Registres de tutelles | 15/11/1765 - 30/11/1765 - Geneanet <https://www.geneanet.org/registres/view/32797/399>
<https://www.geneanet.org/registres/view/32797/50>

2.2 Ducœurjoly as a writer: five (or more) other books.

His second book was published the same year as his *Manuel*, under the title *The Ferret of Literature, a collection of the most enjoyable anecdotes, historical facts and tales* (Ducœurjoly 1802a). It is an anthology of stories, narratives and trivia. Perhaps a second print came out in 1803.

Three years later he published a book for the youth, entitled *Instruction of youth, or Elementary notions on the French language, geography, mythology, Greek and Roman history and the history of France* (Ducœurjoly 1805). This was a typical book for that period of time, a book informing the youth about realia deemed important for the youth, perhaps for use in the schools. It covered a broad range of topics.

In 1808 he published *The New Scholars of the Society, or Collection of Games, Most of Them New and Unknown...* (Ducœurjoly 1808), containing descriptions of dozens of games, including games played by non-western people, in two volumes. It was reprinted the following year.

In 1818, the fourth edition came out of a book entitled *The New French Momus, or Collection of anecdotes, witticisms, adventures, and comical, piquant, satirical, anecdotal, instructive, useful, amusing traits, etc., etc., collected by Ducœur Joly* (Ducœurjoly 1818). This is a book with fictitious anecdotes, the first version of which was published in 1808, under the title *Le Momus Français*. It is called after Momos, the Greek personification of satire. Momus and Comus are sometimes mentioned together, as representatives two sides of carnivalesque traditions. It cannot be excluded that Ducœurjoly was also involved in the earlier editions.

In addition, an anonymous thin book is ascribed to him as well: *Copy of a letter from a dead man, resident of Ténare, to the illustrious and honoured Tartuffe Bégearss, his friend, head of one of the Academies of games established in Lutetia* (Ducœurjoly, n.d.). *Lutetia* is the Latin name for Paris, and *Tartuffe Bégearss* was a figure in a theatre play by the French playwright Beaumarchais, called “The other Tartuffe”. The name Tartuffe had been used earlier by the French playwright Molière for a gentleman-impostor. This seems to be a pamphlet.

All his (known) books have appeared between 1801 and 1818, when he was between 56 and 73 years old. His *Manual* is the odd one out among the books. All the other books were written for entertainment and amusing instruction, in a range of different fields. No in-depth study of his other books was made for this book, which is a grammatical study of a creole language.

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

2.3 *Ducœurjoly's manual for Saint-Domingue and its creole material*

Not surprisingly, Ducœurjoly's book on Saint-Domingue also contains information about the major language of the colony, Créole, a new language with French lexicon and an innovated grammatical system. On the cover of the book, the author writes that the goal of the language material is to "give an idea of the language" and that it is useful "in order to be understood by Blacks" ("donner une idée de ce langage" "et se faire entendre des Nègres"). In the introduction to the book itself, it is mentioned that he wants to provide "an idea of the usage of the language, of its genius, and of its special character" ("une idée de l'usage de cette langue, de son génie, et de son caractère particulier.") (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 1: iv).

It is clear that he considers Créole to be a language in its own right, and not a variety of French, or a 'deformed' version of the lexifier, in contrast to some other observers who considered creole languages a distortion of French. The language was used mostly by the local enslaved population, and a significant number of Europeans and others in the colony also learned it and used it to communicate in it. There is a quote from one of Ducœurjoly's contemporaries that confirms this observation in 1785:

In any case, the Creole language has prevailed. Not only is it the language of people of color, but even of the Whites living in the colony, who speak it more readily than French, either out of habit or because they like it more."³ (my translation from Girod de Chantrons 1785: 191)

Ducœurjoly is one of those locals who learned the language of Haiti, as developed by the enslaved. No doubt, he had a good grasp of the language. His materials are quite close to, yet different from, modern Haitian Creole.

There are dialogues between a ship captain (arriving from Europe) and a stevedore (black), between a ship captain and a shipwright (black), between a captain, and French settlers ('habitans') in Saint-Domingue/Haiti. The latter may have been free coloured ones. The other dialogues involve a sugar factory owner, a coffee plantation owner, and a settler, all conversing with their black commanders/overseers in Creole. The ethnicity of these people is not always indicated in the text, but it is in the table of contents of the book. Thus, four of the five dialogues take place with certainty between a European and a Black person, and it is not excluded that the dialogue with the "habitans" likewise involved people of

³Quoi qu'il en soit, le langage créole a prévalu. Non seulement il est celui des gens de couleur, mais même des blancs domiciliés dans la colonie, qui le parlent plus volontiers que le français, soit par habitude, soit parce qu'il leur plait davantage» (Girod de Chantrons 1785: 191)

2.3 Ducœurjoly's manual for Saint-Domingue and its creole material

African descent. The surprise expressed by Prudent (1999: 32) and Valdman (2015: 108) that Europeans used creole among themselves is understandable, but there is no reason to assume that it was indeed the intention to show inter-European communication with these dialogues, even though we know that that did happen. I am grateful to William Jennings who pointed this out.

One can only speculate about why Ducœurjoly included those rather technical dialogues in Creole. One reason may be that the author wants to show that the creole language could also be used for discussions about ship repairs, financial negotiations, and other technical issues relating to situations proper to the initial development of a colony, such as agricultural practices. In that way, he would show that Haitian Creole is a complete and fully expressive language, on a par with French. In addition, he may have wanted to emphasize that there were good relationship between the local populations, notably the colonials and the enslaved. This was of course not the case. The Haitian revolt of the enslaved against the French colonials had started in 1791 and it would culminate in the takeover in 1804. Haiti became the first fully emancipated territory governed by former slaves. Alternatively, as suggested by Stéphane Goyette (p.c.), Creole could be a natural choice for oral communication among French people, as only around 20% of the inhabitants of France in the late 1700s were actual speakers of French, and Creole could be their common language. In Europe, regional languages like Breton, Occitan, Basque and deviant dialects of French were spoken widely, especially in the maritime communities along the Atlantic coast.

Nowhere in the book does Ducœurjoly, or, for that matter, the anonymous author of the introduction to his text, use pejorative terms or negative remarks about the structure, expressiveness, or any other aspect of Creole. This, of course, does not make him a saint: he sees the enslaved people as property, and the author of the introduction does make prejudiced and ethnocentric remarks (e.g. p. 23), but the Creole language is nowhere in the book subject to contempt, in contrast to attitudes held by many 19th century observers and some early 20th century students of creole languages. In addition, some later observers confound their opinions about the languages with their opinions about the populations who speak the languages. That is not the case with Ducœurjoly. He does not express prejudices about racial superiority. In line with ideas among French scientists at the time (Spary 2018), skin color was related by him to climatic influence, and not to inherent properties of humans. “The color of negroes, as well as their particular traits, are thus purely extrinsic and accidental to them, and do not make them into a separate species of humans [...]”⁴ (Ducœurjoly 1802b, I, 17).

⁴ “La couleur des nègres de même que leurs traits particuliers, leur sont donc purement extrinsèques et accidentels, et n’en font point une espèce d’hommes particulière”

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

It is not clear how Krämer (2023) could come to opposite conclusions, namely that Ducœurjoly uttered prejudices about the creole language and its colored speakers. Krämer does not present pertinent quotes from Ducœurjoly on these matters.

The linguistic material can be taken as representative of 18th century Haitian Creole, but perhaps it is safer to assume that it corresponds to Ducœurjoly’s idiolect, or a settler variety, that would be in more general use. At any rate, Ducœurjoly’s linguistic material appears very consistent, and clearly a reliable representation of a language variety that he knew very well. There is of course some variability, especially in the way it is written, but other than that, it reflects the status of a form of Haitian that was a fully expressive language. DeGraff (2008: 354 n.36) confirms that the parts of Ducœurjoly that he studied, are also found in other contemporary sources: “As it turns out, the basic TMA patterns in *Ducœurjoly1802* are by and large corroborated by similar data in a variety of eighteenth- and nineteenth-century Creole samples, from a variety of native and nonnative idiolects”.

A more thorough comparison with other early materials in Haitian would be a desideratum, but that is not undertaken here. Here I give a brief overview of other pre-revolutionary sources of Haitian Creole, and Hazaël-Massieux (2008) can be consulted for further information.

2.4 Early materials in Haitian Creole

Ducœurjoly was not the first to publish texts, or quotes, in Haitian Creole. M.C. Hazaël-Massieux (2008) provides an excellent overview of early texts from the French Caribbean in general. It includes not only Haitian Creole, but also Creole French from French Guiana and the Lesser Antilles. She lists the following texts, or publications and manuscripts, published more recently, that contain language quotations from Haiti. The complete list can be found in Hazaël-Massieux’s book (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 471–476).

- (1) list of sources of Haitian Creole prior to 1802
 - 1720–1740? *Passion de Notre Seigneur selon St Jean en langage nègre* (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 31, 47; G. Hazaël-Massieux 1994, 1996a)
 - 1752 *Jeannot et Thérèse (Clément)* (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 127ff.)

2.4 Early materials in Haitian Creole

- 1757 *Lisette quitté la plaine*; song (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 87), reprinted many times, with variations; also present in Ducœurjoly's book.
- 1770 Du Simitière word list (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 87; Girard 2013)
- 1772 De Wailly letter (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 31)
- 1785 Justin Girod de Chantrans (universally deemed unreliable)
- 1793–1802 Nine official proclamations, translated from French (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 186–187)
- 1797 Moreau de Saint-Méry; songs, miscellaneous observations (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: passim)
- 1802 Ducœurjoly; encyclopaedic vocabulary, dialogues, song.

These are just listed here for convenience. As mentioned above, no attempt is made to make a systematic grammatical comparison between Ducœurjoly and other early sources, which I leave to researchers with the right competence. The impression of remarkable similarities between the older sources, are indicative of the reliability and authenticity of the language at the time. It should be noted that, according to Valdman, who studied the early materials, the “texts show a relative uniformity” (Valdman 2015: 152). He also adds that “there is no reason to depreciate the keen linguistic awareness of the authors and scribes of these early days and to doubt that the latter provide a reliable view of SDC [pre-revolutionary Saint-Domingue Creole], the direct ancestor of NHC [Creole spoken in northern Haiti].” (Valdman 2015: 153). Eminent specialist in Haitian dialects Fattier confirms the impression of reliability of the material (1995: 138 n. 14): “The comparison of the state of the language described in Ducoeurjoly’s Manual with contemporary regional Haitian, often positive, testifies to the reliability of the description”.⁵

In this study, I do not try to compare the different features with the two major dialects of Haitian. Northern Haitian used to be the most important variety, but when the capital city was moved from Cap-Français (present-day Cap-Haitien) to Port-au-Prince in the south of the country in 1770, Southern Haitian became the dominant variety. Differences between Northern and Southern dialects can be found in Fattier (1998), Valdman et al. (2015) and Valdman (2015: 334–356). I just deal with the description of the Ducœurjoly variety, which presents traits of both the Southern and the Northern varieties.

⁵La comparaison de l’état de langue décrit dans le Manuel de Ducoeurjoly avec l’haïtien régional contemporain, souvent positive, témoigne de la fiabilité de la description.

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

2.5 Previous discussions of Ducœurjoly's Creole: 1803–2023

Ducœurjoly's book was reviewed, shortly after being published, in the *Allgemeine Literatur-Zeitung* on October 1, 1803. This seems to be the only review. The anonymous reviewer ([Anonymous 1803](#)) mentions that the dialogues could be very useful for newly arriving settlers (from Europe). The reviewer adds, however, that the linguistic material has only little to offer for the linguist, "because the Creole language is a corrupted French" ([Anonymous 1803](#): 5). I am not aware of any other contemporary reviews. The book seems to have made no impact whatsoever after its publication. The main reason for that is likely the independence of Haiti, and the lack of interest in migration to the island, which was the main purpose of the book.

The next mention of the language in the book dates from more than half a century later. Carl Scherzer (or Karl Von Scherzer) was an Austrian explorer and natural scientist who mentioned Ducœurjoly's book in his travel report to the Indian Ocean ([Scherzer 1858](#)). Most of his short discussion relates to how he obtained the book, but he also mentions an ill-informed remark on the Creole in relation to French:

[Ducœurjoly's book contains] a small French-Creole dictionary, which contains a great number of words of quaint jargon, that is still spoken at this day by the native Black people of that splendid West Indian island, it is one of the most capricious corruptions of the French language that can be imagined.⁶

The first one to make use of Ducœurjoly's book for a linguistic analysis was Addison van Name, in a famous article ([van Name 1869](#)) that can be considered to be the first comparative study of creole grammars. He compared French creoles (Haitian and four others), Spanish Creole (Papiamentu), Dutch Creole (Virgin Islands Dutch Creole), and English Creole (Sranan). One of his sources for Haitian Creole was Ducœurjoly. In his article, he mentions the following properties of the languages as attested in the book:

- Phonology
 - Words tend to start with a consonant (Fr. *aimer* > Creole *haimé*) (131)
 - There are agglutinated articles (Fr. *un homme* > Creole *zomme*) (137)

⁶Ein französisch-creolisches Wörterbüchlein, welches eine grosse Anzahl von Wörtern wunderlichen Jargons enthält, der noch heutzutage von den eingebornen Negern jener herrlichen westindischen Insel gesprochen wird, derselbe ist eine der launenhaftesten Corruptionen der französischen Sprache die man sich denken kann. (German original)

2.5 Previous discussions of Duccœurjoly's Creole: 1803–2023

- innovated words
 - There is an indefinite article *nion* (131)
 - The roots *capable*, *save* are used for potential (145)
- forms of words
 - Personal pronouns *toué* and *to* for 'you' and *moue* and *mo* for 'I' (137) are used.
 - Generally, just one form is used for verbs (141)
 - The form *necque* 'only' (148), is derived from *unique* (in reality more likely from *rien que*).
 - Demonstratives are *la/yo/ça/cela*
 - *Astor* is used for 'now' (from French *à cet heure*) (148)
 - Several forms are derived from *être* 'to be', but many French forms are not in use (146)
 - Sometimes two forms are used for one meaning: (Fr. *homme* > Creole *zomme*, *nomme*) (137)
 - *Crére* is used for 'to believe' (French *croire*) (141)
 - The Haitian auxiliary *apoué* is still written as *après*, the French form (144)
- Syntax
 - Possessives formed by POSSESSED à POSSESSOR (*zami à li (yo)* 'his friend(s)', French *son ami*, or *ami à lui*).
 - Present and past conditional are expressed with *seré*, *té seré*, *seré té* (145)
 - *avla part ayo* 'theirs' or *quien à toue* 'yours' are used for independent possessives (138)
- others
 - There are more plural nouns than singular nouns (135), but that is probably just so because of the nature of the corpus.

The observations can be seen as appetizers for many more observations in this this grammatical description. Until the current monograph, *van Name's* (1869)

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

article remained the most detailed study of Ducœurjoly. It would take another sixty years until the next mention.

Many decades later, a Hungarian scholar wrote the first article with a comparative study of French-lexifier creoles (Göbl-Gáldi 1934), rather overlooked by subsequent scholarship, which was based on his dissertation. Ducœurjoly was one of the many sources he used. He included sundry observations on phonological processes, archaisms and dialectal forms, possessive constructions, plural marking, forms of verbs, demonstratives, TMA marking, give-serials, the verbs ‘to have’ and ‘to be’ (or lack of them). These are all also discussed below.

A few years later, Haitian scholar Sylvain (1936: 14) mentioned Ducœurjoly’s book in her grammar of Haitian Creole among earlier publications on the language, but she does not refer to it otherwise in her book.

In more modern times, it was probably first mentioned by Goodman (1964: 107), in his comparative study of French-lexifier creoles. Goodman considered the work “the first truly informative work on Creole” and he added that it “is extremely valuable for a historical study of these dialects in that it records features now obsolete (see nos. 8, 9, 37, for examples), and thus helps to date the age of certain innovations.” These three numbered features refer to the first and second person personal pronouns *moi/toi* and an imperative derived from *allons*. His view of the dialogues as a historical source is clearly positive.

Mervyn Alleyne (1966) also knew the dialogues. He considered the creole represented in Ducœurjoly as intermediate variety between French and Creole. He wrote:

We have, on the other hand, a linguistic document of the 18th century which contains a Creole-French lexicon and conversation pieces in Creole and whose language is distinguished by its two-case declension system for personal pronouns (*mo*, subject case, *mwé* oblique case) and by the use of a number of French prepositions and conjunctions unknown in modern Creole. Far from being the precursor of modern Creole, this document represents an intermediate style between Creole and French used by Blacks and mulattoes who had particularly close contact with the French language. These styles still exist, sometimes referred to as ‘salon creole’ in contrast to ‘broad creole’, or ‘creole’. (Alleyne 1966: 281)⁷

⁷Nous avons, par contre, un document linguistique du XVIII^e siècle qui contient un lexique créole-français et de; morceaux de conversation en créole et dont la langue se distingue par son système de déclinaison à deux cas pour les pronoms personnels (*mo*, cas sujet, *mwé* cas régime) et par l’emploi de nombre de prépositions et de conjonctions françaises inconnues en créole moderne. Loin d’être le précurseur du créole moderne, ce document représente un style intermédiaire entre le créole et le français employés par les noirs et les mulâtres qui avaient un

2.5 Previous discussions of Ducœurjoly's Creole: 1803–2023

Alleyne's view, in line with the dominant thinking of the time, considered the variety different from the colloquial language of Haiti (which is an assumption) of the time and closer to French than to modern Haitian (which can be shown to be the case).

Goodman (1984) discussed pronouns and an historic process of possessive *tien a toué* 'yours' developed into modern Haitian *kin-a-m*, here given with a first person pronoun 'mine'.

Hull (1988: 90), in a review of grammatical description of Louisiana Creole, with a French lexifiers, mentions similarities between this creole and Haitian, especially the older variety described by Ducœurjoly.

Zéphir's dissertation on bilingualism in Haiti (Zéphir 1990) mentions Ducœurjoly's work, but I have no access to it; it seems to be limited to metalinguistic observations rather than a grammatical analysis.

Guy Hazaël-Massieux referred several times to Ducœurjoly in his publications between 1988 and 1994, collected in a 1996 anthology (G. Hazaël-Massieux 1996b). On the basis of Ducœurjoly's language materials, he observed in 1988 that Haitian Creole had become a distinct language by 1802, the year that Ducœurjoly published his book (G. Hazaël-Massieux 1996b: 80, 160)⁸. As to pronunciation, in 1990, he remarked the change of French /y/ to Creole /u/, based on data from Ducœurjoly (G. Hazaël-Massieux 1990). In 1992, he mentioned *après* as a TMA marker in Ducœurjoly. He also noted the dominance of Northern dialect features in Ducœurjoly's work⁹. He observed in 1994 that the language materials were written on the basis of real language usage. Thus, his observations are fragmentary and quite general. He clearly has a positive view of Ducœurjoly's observations and the achievements in his work.

In his study of copulas in creoles, McWhorter (1997) mentions Ducœurjoly, indicating that the French copula system was not continued from French, but innovated: sometimes it is expressed as a zero copula, even in locative functions, sometimes in an innovated form, still present in modern Haitian.

contact particulièrement étroit avec la langue française. Ces styles existent toujours, désignés parfois 'créole de salon' en contraste avec le 'gros créole', ou bien 'créole francisé'." (French original)

⁸Ducœurjoly et Longin constituent des cas intermédiaires: Ducœurjoly, dans un *Manuel de l'Habitant de Saint-Domingue*, outre un petit lexique alphabétique, propose quelques dialogues en créole; il ne manque certes pas de donner son interprétation de la grammaire (cf. par exemple ce qu'il dit de l'agglutination de l'article français), mais d'une part, ses incohérences même semblent confirmer qu'il écrit d'après des usages réellement en vigueur (...)

⁹Par suite des événements, le centre intellectuel et économique de Haïti s'est déplacé du Cap vers Port-au-Prince, en sorte que bien des différences sont en fait attribuables à ce que l'on fait des comparaisons entre dialectes qui ne sont pas en filiation continue et directe.

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

Dominique Fattier, the compiler of the monumental language atlas of Haiti (Fattier 1998), discussed the development of personal pronouns in Haitian, for which she also consulted Ducœurjoly. She observed that there was a politeness distinction, like French *tu/vous*, which is no longer present in modern Haitian, and possibly a case distinction in the second person (Fattier 1995: 139 n. 15): “We also observe, for the first person singular as well as for the third persons, this formal distinction of cases: short forms permitted in the subject case (mo/m’; ly/l’), always long forms in the object case (moué/mo; ly).” (but see chapter 14 concerning the incorrectness of this latter observation).

Fattier also wrote two articles specifically devoted to Ducœurjoly’s linguistic material (Fattier 1994, 2000). Fattier (Fattier 1994: 53) called Ducœurjoly “a knowledge source still very little used”, compiled by a bilingual French/Haitian speaker. The dialogues are intended for self-study of the language. She characterizes it as a rather consensual and stable variety, representing Ducœurjoly’s own idiolect of Haitian Creole. The article deals with the sociohistorical background of the book, spelling, and a selection of grammatical topics: noun-noun compounds, loss of French gender, indefinite and definite articles, plural marking with postposed *yo* (third person plural pronoun), demonstratives, numerals, possessive pronouns, interrogative pronouns, indefinite pronouns, personal pronouns and the noun phrase in general. Further, she discusses prepositions and their link with verbs for some of them. The discussion of verbal and sentential issues is limited to a brief discussion of copula sentences and negative markers. The partial grammar takes up some six pages of the paper, a modest number considering the wide range of topics mentioned.

For some of these phenomena, Fattier points to an origin in vernacular or dialectal French, retaining elements from non-standard varieties of French at the phonetic, lexical and syntactic levels (Fattier 1994: 69). Likewise, she points to phenomena in the 1802 source that are still in use in Modern Haitian. She also mentions that some grammatical traits in Ducœurjoly have been retained in Northern Haitian and others in Southern Haitian. Fattier summarizes Ducœurjoly’s qualities as follows:

...despite the shortcomings of a non-professional description, many data in the Manual offer an obvious systematicity, sometimes converging with those attested in other ancient (or modern) creoles or in certain French dialects (in France or the New World), and often have their culmination in contemporary regional Haitian (cf. the corpus of the Linguistic and Ethnographic Atlas of Haiti). (Fattier 1994: 57)¹⁰

¹⁰...en dépit des défaillances d’une description non professionnelle, de nombreuses données

2.5 Previous discussions of Ducœurjoly's Creole: 1803–2023

All in all, the grammatical discussion represents less than one third of the article's 19 pages. It is clear that these observations only cover a small part of the language. A more detailed grammatical description thus remains to be done, and this study intends to fill that gap.

The other article by Fattier discusses Ducœurjoly's lexicography (Fattier 2000). There, she focuses on the bilingual vocabulary of the book "*Vocabulaire Français et Créole*", which covers 72 pages (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 283–355). It is not a French-Creole dictionary in the modern sense, but a mixture of translation equivalents of French and Creole words, grammatical explanations, and encyclopaedic knowledge, especially concerning local flora, fauna, and food. Fattier notices that it contains quite a few words that are not used in the dialogues. She also observes that the lexicon of French remains available for creole speakers like Ducœurjoly (for instance the wide range of technical vocabulary used).

French words in Creole are subjected to the rules of adjustment, for instance agglutinated articles in the word for 'needle': the French word *aiguille* (/eguij/ in modern standard French) is written by Ducœurjoly as <gouil>, <égouil>, and <z'égouil> (Fattier omits the diacritics of the original), suggesting a drop of the initial vowel, or the insertion of a hiatus consonant, which are recurring, perhaps even regular, processes in the dialogues. This article is less relevant for the study of the grammar of Early Haitian Creole.

Ducœurjoly is quoted extensively in Fattier's impressive (1998) dissertation on regional differences in Haitian Creole. The material convinced her that Haitian Creole had developed gradually out of French. (p. XLI). Much of her discussion relates to specific vocabulary items and those need not concern us in a grammatical description (p. 3, 7, 10, 11, 16, 19, 30, 46, 48, 100, 107, 112, 116, 123, 125, 127, 131, 323, 328, 354, 360, 398, 407, 459, 461, 61, 635, 636, 676, 677, 693, 700, 705, 708–710, 715–717, 719–723, 741, 755, 756, 790, 795, 808, 809, 811–813, 820, 882, 888).

Sometimes Fattier makes remarks about changes, such as about regional forms like *outi* (Nord) and *ouéti* 'where?', where Ducœurjoly has *où éti*/*où éte* (p. 853), now almost completely replaced by *ki zon* and *ki bo* (22). Phonetic changes are discussed (23, 110, 116, 131, 360, 844, 853, 897), and several were also mentioned in the context of the lexical items summed up above. Further she mentioned the double forms *kaba* and *fni* 'completive' (p. 407). She also observes that the allomorphs of the definite determiner *-la* must be a recent phenomenon, as it is not found in Ducœurjoly yet.

du Manuel offrent une évidente systématique, convergent parfois avec celles attestées dans d'autres créoles anciens (ou modernes) ou dans certains dialectes français (hexagonaux ou du Nouveau Monde), et souvent, ont leurs aboutissements dans l'haïtien régional contemporain (cf. le corpus de l'Atlas Linguistique et Ethnographique d'Haïti) “.

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In the more grammatical realm, Fattier discusses the particle *-ci* (Ducœurjoly -cy) (p. 50), double negation like *pas+jamais* (p. 67), the use of French-derived *encore* ‘still’ with the different meaning ‘no longer’ (p. 70). She also observes that *là-yo* is used for plural, and that a suffixed *-yo* is never used without *là* (844, 850). She discusses a number of free grammatical markers: *nyon* ‘one/a’ (844), reflexives (864), tense-mood-aspect particles *va*, *té*, *-ré*, *save*, *capable* (870, 871, 873, 877, 968-969) and others, and also traces of verbal inflection (864). A number of adverbs and conjunctions with innovated meanings: *plutôt* (885) ‘comparative verb’, *assez* (927), *trop* (921), *ici/-cy* (934), *necque* ‘only’, *tan seulement* ‘only’. Some conjunctions are also discussed: *acquie* ‘with, and’, *tan com* ‘like’, *parce* ‘because’ (969) and some prepositions, like *ledans* (893), *sous/sûr* (897), *après* (929) and the often suppressed *de* and *à* (902).

In the grammatical description in this book, all of these grammatical phenomena are discussed, but for details about diachronic developments and etymologies (and much more), the reader is recommended to consult Fattier (1998). This rich unpublished source is the one that made most use of Ducœurjoly’s Creole materials.

Prudent (Prudent 1999: 32), in his study of the genesis of Lesser Antilles Creole, mentions Ducœurjoly’s book, without going into details. He just expresses his amazement that French speakers converse in Creole in the book and that Ducœurjoly provides some grammatical observations in the *Vocabulaire* part, among others about the forms of the verb “to be”. Prudent sees this book as one of the first in a tradition of colonials who held a positive view of the language.

Valdman2005 wrote on early texts in Haitian Creole, and he briefly mentioned Ducœurjoly’s book in the context of the modifications of a song text *Lisette quitté laplaine* (not analyzed in my study, which is limited to the dialogues) preserved in different versions, and the variation in the expression of possession and some phonological adjustments.

Bollée (2005: 54) called Ducœurjoly’s book “a very precious source” (*une source très précieuse*) for the study of the development of the Haitian lexicon, and she also mentions the dialogues, but she does not go into detail in this overview of Creole lexicography. She did make use of the material in the study of etymology of French creoles by Bollée and her team (Bollée et al. 2017).

Marie-Christine Hazaël-Massieux (2008) published a monograph on older texts in creoles of the Caribbean, and this book may constitute the best published study of Ducœurjoly thus far. Yet, her study is also limited to fragmentary remarks and occasional shortcomings as she was not able to study all the texts. She looked at the different versions of the song *Lisette quitté la plaine*, including Ducœurjoly’s version (Ducœurjoly1802: 392–393). She mentioned the elisions

2.5 Previous discussions of Ducœurjoly's Creole: 1803–2023

of forms like *mo(i) va* to *m'a* (p. 156), the absence of *t'a/ta* (p. 210), the presence of a *tu/vous* distinction which is absent in Modern Haitian, and the apparent lack of merger of first and second person plural pronouns found in Modern Haitian (p. 225, 366). She mentions *va/allé* as markers of future tense (p. 157) and the stress-related distinction between first person pronoun forms *mo* and *moué*, including the absence of *mo* as object (which is not quite true, see sections Section 5.2, Section 6.7 and chapter 13). She also mentions plural marking (p. 255), both the variability and the (inconsistent) use of French plural forms in Ducœurjoly. She notes that *après* is not discussed in Ducœurjoly's *Vocabulaire*, but in the texts, there are instances of *après* functioning as a progressive marker (p. 155 n. 355, p. 430). She mentions the absence of verb serialization (p. 447), but there are indeed examples of serial verbs in his texts (see Section 8.2 below). The use of accents in the texts is quite unsystematic (p. 225). She rightly says that Ducœurjoly's depiction of Haitian does not qualify as a grammatical study, even though he does make some grammatical remarks (p. 365–367). She presents the full Creole version of one of the dialogues in her book (p. 221–225).

DeGraff (2008) discussed a number of phenomena in Haitian relating to the verb phrase, in which he relied on a.o. Ducœurjoly, in order to track developments from French and its dialects to Modern Haitian, as an intermediate stage. He discusses the loss of the French verb *avoir* and its replacement with *gagner*, meaning in French 'to win, to obtain' to express possession, leading to Modern Haitian *gen(yen)* (p. 355 n. 41). He mentions the imperative negative /*napa/* and its occurrence in Ducœurjoly (p. 292, 325, 332, and 393), and in other contact varieties of French. Most of the discussion relates to TMA markers, as intermediate forms between French and Modern Haitian: Ducœurjoly *va, fini, après*; French *va, fini(r), après*, Haitian *ava, fin(i), ap*. (p. 322, 324, 354, 355).

Girard (2013: 112) discussed Ducœurjoly briefly in his article about one of his contemporaries of the revolutionary period in Haiti. He considers the authenticity of Ducœurjoly doubtful, as the intended audience is not the speakers of the language, but language learners:

The revolutionary period is richer in texts, but their linguistic authenticity is sometimes doubtful because they often have non-Creole speakers as their origin or audience. S. J. Ducœurjoly compiled a French-Kreyòl dictionary accompanied by a few typical conversations, but he intended it for the use of merchants from mainland France.¹¹

¹¹“La période révolutionnaire est plus riche en textes, mais leur authenticité linguistique est parfois douteuse car ils ont souvent pour origine ou pour public des non-créolophones. S. J. Ducœurjoly établit un dictionnaire français-kreyòl accompagné de quelques conversations types, mais il le destinait à l'usage des négociants venus de métropole.”

2 Ducœurjoly and his book

More recently, Valdman wrote about Ducœurjoly in his detailed study of Haitian Creole. Valdman (2015) considers Ducœurjoly's book the one that "best reflects late Saint Domingue Creole", i.e. pre-revolutionary Haitian Creole. He characterizes the first three dialogues "artificial situations", as it is not likely that e.g. a captain of an incoming ship from France would speak creole to a French native speaker. Valdman (2015: 108) notes: "It is unlikely that the captain would have had a knowledge of the Saint-Domingue vernacular."

He adds that the other dialogues are aimed at future settlers who want to learn to communicate with the enslaved. Valdman does not provide an in-depth analysis of DHC, but he does mention some observations like the use of *caba* and *sorti* for completed action, and *seré té* for the conditional perfect (Valdman 2015: 110). His characterization of the meaning of *sorti* is, as shall be shown later, inaccurate (see Section 8.7.6).

Bollée (2018) is a lexicographic study of the French Caribbean creoles, including Haitian, and a masterpiece for the lexicon. Ducœurjoly's material is also taken into account, but no grammatical information is discussed. Much of the discussion of the lexicon in chapter 3 below builds on the work of her and her team.

Albertan-Coppola (2023) only mentions Ducœurjoly's book as the "founding work of French-Creole vocabulary" (*l'œuvre fondatrice du vocabulaire français-créole*), without providing any detail.

Most recently, Philipp Krämer published an article devoted to demonstrating the artificiality of Ducœurjoly language (Krämer 2023). Krämer is quite critical of the grammatical aspects of the book, considering DHC more French-influenced than (presumably) creole as spoken by the enslaved, and calling it unrealistic that French people would use creole. It appears, however, that at least four, and maybe all five, of the dialogues included a Black speaker. He mentions that Ducœurjoly's attitudes towards the creole were negative, but his proof for that are quotes from other, later observers, rather than actual excerpts from the book. He also calls Ducœurjoly's work influential, but as discussed above, the impact of Ducœurjoly on creole studies was minimal when it came out, virtually absent for over a century, and limited also in the 20th and 21st centuries.

Contemporary authors ignored the book, and there are no in-depth studies of Ducœurjoly's language in modern times. In an otherwise fine article, the author seems to be influenced more by his own preconceptions about Ducœurjoly's book and the past, rather than basing his analysis on the facts that can be deduced from the available materials.

In short, a thorough grammatical study of Ducœurjoly has never been undertaken, except for a limited numbers of selected and unsystematic observations,

2.6 The “*Vocabulaire*” in Ducœurjoly

in some cases also incorrect ones. Thus, there are enough reasons to make a comprehensive grammatical study based on the available dialogues. This can be perused in future studies of the diachrony of Haitian Creole, and it can shed light on the genesis of the creole, and development of creoles in general. For instance, previously, Ducœurjoly’s data led Fattier to her belief in a gradual development: “It is following a thorough examination of this document [Ducœurjoly] (it contains essential information on an ancient state of Creole) that we have adopted the idea that the emergence of Haitian Creole occurred gradually” (Fattier 1998: XLI).¹²

2.6 The “*Vocabulaire*” in Ducœurjoly

One part of the book is called a “*Vocabulaire*” (Ducœurjoly 1802b: part 2, 283–355). It was quite common at the time for administrators in the colonies, or in some cases natural scientists, e.g. botanists and/or other curious scholars (both Europeans and of local origins) to compile word lists in the local vernacular with equivalents in a European language, usually that of the colonizing nation. Those were mainly intended as an introduction to life in the colonies, often with the goal to supplement field guides on how to start up a plantation to entice prospective colonists from Europe, who were the target audience.

The “*Vocabulaire*” also contains observations by the author. The grammatical description presented below is based on an analysis of the texts in the dialogues. The reason for that is that, in my experience, different types of sources in the same study or text collection can point in different directions. It is useful, however, to also take the *Vocabulaire* into account, for instance, when new or necessary aspects of the grammar are only available in the *Vocabulaire* section. Remember that what Ducœurjoly calls a *Vocabulaire* “Vocabulary” is quite different from what one understands today about a vocabulary. It is not just a list of words, carefully chosen or comprehensive, and their equivalents in another language. It is rather a somewhat haphazard discussion of local flora and fauna and technical information useful for colonists, like in an encyclopaedia, with occasional grammatical observations as well.

¹²It is following a thorough examination of this document (it contains essential information on an ancient state of Creole) that we have adopted the idea that the emergence of Haitian Creole occurred gradually.

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2.7 The dialogues

There are five dialogues in the book, one between a ship captain and a master stevedore, between a ship captain arriving from Europe and a local shipwright, one between a ship captain and inhabitants of Haiti (colonials or enslaved or free Blacks), one between the owner of a sugar plantation and an (enslaved?) overseer, and one between the owner of a coffee plantation and a Black overseer. As rightly remarked by Krämer (2023), none of the dialogues represent in-group conversations between the grand majority of creole users, i.e. the enslaved population. Still, the dialogues between colonials and overseers, especially those of African ancestry, in Creole could have a connection with reality. Colonials from France, after a longer stay in a plantation environment, would likely use creole when communicating with the enslaved. They could engage in business transactions in Creole (as remarked earlier by Prudent (1999: 31), Valdman (2015: 108), cited by Krämer (2023). It is, by the way, not at all uncommon for enslavers to use the language of the enslaved in communicating with them. There are also examples from the Danish West Indies (Magens 1770) and Suriname, e.g. Weygandt (1798) and others discussed in Arends and Perl (Arends & Perl 1995) and van den Berg (2007).

These are the titles of the dialogues¹³ in English, first as they are given in the dialogues, thereafter in brackets how they are given in the table of contents:

- a ship captain arriving from Europe and a master stevedore (Ducœurjoly 1802b: Ducœurjoly 1802b, II, pages 357-363; speaking turns 1-45) (conversation between a Captain of a ship, arriving from Europe, and a Black stevedore)
- a captain arriving from Europe, and a shipwright, entrepreneur (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 363-367; speaking turns 46-68) (Dialogue between a Captain arriving from France, and a Black contractor of Careening)
- a Captain and settlers (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 367-376, speaking turns 69-138) (Conversation between a Captain and settlers)

a sugar factory owner and the Black commander of his habitation (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 376-386; speaking turns 139-211) (Conversation between a

¹³un capitaine de navire arrivant d'Europe et un maître acconier un Capitaine arrivant d'Europe, et un Charpentier de Navire, entrepreneur un Capitaine et des Habitans un Propriétaire de Sucrierie et le Nègre Commandeur de son Habitation un autre Propriétaire d'Habitation plantée en café, et son Nègre Commandeur

Sugar Refinery Owner and the Negro Commander of his Habitation)another owner of a dwelling planted with coffee, and his Black commander (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 386–391; speaking turns 212–253)

- Conversation between another Owner of a Dwelling planted with coffee, and his Black Commander).

In the process, a number of editorial decisions were made, which will be discussed now.

2.8 Editorial decisions

The example sentences in this grammar almost all have four lines: Creole, gloss, original French and an English translation. The following example illustrates the four levels:

- (2) mai mo senti pas ben jordy 33
 but 1SG feel NEG good today
 ‘mais je ne me sens pas bien aujourd’hui’ (French)
 ”but I am not feeling well today”

The first line is an exact copy of the original sentence in Creole, or a fragment of the sentence, as found in the source book. The only things that are modified are the elimination of spaces before commas and other signs of punctuation, and occasional clarifications are indicated between [] or footnotes. The first line is always followed by a number between 1 and 253, and this number refers to the speaking turns in the dialogues. This facilitates the reader who may want to find the discourse context of the isolated sentences. These numbers refer to the speaking turns in the dialogues. Faithful transcriptions of the dialogues in both French and the Creole can be found in the appendix. In a few cases, an example is used from other parts of Ducœurjoly’s book, typically the *Vocabulaire* part. In such cases, a page number is included, preceded by <p.>, in order to differentiate it from the material from the dialogues.

The second line constitutes a gloss, which means that, for each morpheme in the example sentence, a meaning is given. Lexical meanings are indicated in plain type, grammatical meanings in SMALL CAPITALS, following linguistic conventions, such as the Leipzig Glossing Rules (<https://www.eva.mpg.de/lingua/resources/glossing-rules.php>), were the guidelines. Boundaries between bound

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morphemes, or between bound morphemes and stems, are indicated with a hyphen. In some cases, there is no exact parallel between the first line and the second line, as sometimes (following the decision for a diplomatic edition mentioned above for the first line) two morphemes are written together, or there are multiword expressions that only have one meaning, e.g. *il y a* translating into English as “ago” or “there is”.

The third line constitutes the original French equivalent of the Creole sentence. It is taken over diplomatically, i.e. exactly as given in Ducœurjoly, again with the exception of eliminating blank spaces.

The fourth line is an English translation of the Creole sentences. Sometimes the meaning of the Creole sentence deviates from the French translation in the original. When the French version is not an accurate equivalent, the Creole version was translated into English. In the translation, contextual information is sometimes given. Clarifications may be given in cases of discrepancies between the Creole and French versions.

It was not always easy to find the exact equivalents of the technical shipbuilding terminology, as the terms are no longer in use, and an effort has been made to reduce potential errors to a minimum.

In the examples, some elements may be printed in **bold**, and these bold words or sequences of words illustrate the pertinent issues discussed in that part of the grammar.

As I wanted to reproduce the Creole sentences and the French sentences exactly as they were in the original, the number of hyphens is not always exactly the same in the sentences as in the glosses, against one of the principles of the Leipzig Glossing Rules, which ideally were followed, as no further hyphens have been added to the Creole phrases and sentences.

Conventions for punctuation are somewhat different for French and English, and I have adjusted French norms to English norms: commas, colons, and semicolons only have a space behind these signs; quotation marks have been changed to double quotes.

2.9 Ducœurjoly’s spelling conventions for DHC

Ducœurjoly’s spelling conventions are close to those for French. Most words are spelled as they would be in French, but an alternative pronunciation is frequently given as well, indicated by a different spelling. This is discussed in more detail in the section on phonology.

French spelling also uses a few other signs or modifications of letters, e.g. with accents ‘ ` and ^ . Many of these conventions are taken over in DHC.

2.9 Ducœurjoly's spelling conventions for DHC

2.9.1 Accent circonflexe, circumflex accent

Some French diacritics have no impact on pronunciation, yet they are used in DHC. Words spelled with circumflex in French are also spelled with a circumflex in DHC: e.g. *même* 'self, even', *côté* 'side', *gâter* 'to spoil', *coûteux* 'costly', *maître* 'master' (modern French pronunciations: /mɛm, ko'te, ga'te, ku'tø, metr/). The circumflex here is purely historical, used for words that have lost an /s/ phoneme (cf. Spanish *mismo*, *costa*, *gastar*, *costar*, *maestro*).

2.9.2 Accented versus non-accented words

In French, a very small number of homophones are distinguished in the writing system by means of an accent. That is the case with *où* 'where' and *ou* 'or' and with *la* 'definite article feminine singular', *là* 'third person oblique feminine singular pronoun', *là* 'there', *-là* 'postnominal distal deictic', *l'a* 'has her/him/it' (from the third person pronoun *le* 'him' or *la* 'her' and third person singular auxiliary *a* of the verb *avoir* 'to have').

The form for 'or' never gets an accent in the *Dialogues*. The form for 'where' gets an accent in 211: *Où éti* 'where', but mostly the form has no accent. The spoken language, however, seems to have formed a new interrogative pronoun *où éti*. Indeed, 'where' in DHC is almost always *où éti*, probably from French 'where is he/it', and 'or' is almost always *ou ben* from French. See Section 6.2.1 and Section 7.8.3 for more discussion.

2.9.3 Hyphens: no systematicity

Ducœurjoly uses hyphens, but his practice is not consistent. It seems loosely inspired by French, but it does not follow strict rules. His hyphens are sometimes unconventional, like *s'ympatiser* 'to sympathize', where it seems to be influenced by vowel-initial verbs preceded by a third person reflexive pronoun, as in *engager*, *s'engager* 'to commit (oneself)'.

Hyphens can be used in French between person clitics and certain verb forms, and before certain deictic suffixes. There are no logical reasons for having hyphens in some cases, but not in others, but that is how it is.

In French, hyphens are used between the components of complex numerals: *quatre-vingts* '80', lit. 'four twenties'. Also, the deictic suffixes following noun phrases with demonstratives will have the suffixes *-ci* 'here, this' and *-là* 'there, that': *celui-ci* 'this one', *cet homme-là* 'that man there'. The other case is between imperative verbs and pronominal clitics or suffixes: *donne-le-moi* 'give it to me'.

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Hyphens are also used between imperative verbs and pronouns: *aide-moi, fais-le, allez-y* ‘help me, do it, go there’. Finally, when the verb and the pronoun are inverted, as in questions, hyphens are inserted, as in *veux-tu?, pouvez-vous?, a-t-il?* ‘do you want?, can you?, does he have?’.

In DHC, one can find hyphens between two numerals in complex numbers (*vingt-quatre* ‘24’), but they are only written in forms that are the same as in French (*quatre-vingt* ‘80’ but *trois vingt* ‘60’, French *soixante*). The deictic suffix *là* is sometimes preceded by a hyphen, like in *tem-là* ‘that time’ (113), *barrils-là* ‘those barrels’ (121, others: 106, 109, 138, 234, 239, 250), but more often there is no hyphen, as in *maître là* (43, others: 1, 11, 23, 29, 49, 66, 67. etc.). Similar inconsistencies can be spotted with definite plurals, which are followed by *là yo*. Sometimes, there is a hyphen between the two markers, as in *pièces là-yo* (127, other cases 145, 147, 148, 149, 150, 187, 188, 191, 195, 196, 199, 201, 202, 204, 211, 216, 220, 224, 236, 242, 247), but often there is no hyphen, e.g. *chaudières là yo* (171 and others 173, 175, 178, 179, 180, 242, etc.).

Finally, personal pronominals that are connected to the verb require hyphens in DHC. All the forms of the cliticized person markers have not been transmitted to DHC, such as *-me, -te, -le*. Instead, formerly emphatic forms from French have become the default terms in DHC (DHC *moué, toué, ly* < Fr. *moi, toi, lui*) and some of these have in their turn developed into reduced forms, even clitics (*mo, to*). Also here, the spelling in DHC follows the French conventions with regard to hyphens partly. There are attestations of hyphen-preceded pronominals following verbs for first person plural *musé-nou* ‘entertain us’ (115, also 109, 111), polite second person/second person plural, e.g. *livré-vou* ‘deliver to you’ (113, also 9, 33, 82, 116) and third person singular *planté-ly* ‘plant it’ (232, also 106, 124, 146, 167, 169, 181, 231, 232, 248). Third person plural is only found following *avla* ‘here you have, voilà’: *avla-yo* ‘here you have them’ (128).

Sometimes the combinations of two also trigger hyphenations, such as *tou-plein* ‘much’ (52) and *après-démain* ‘day after tomorrow’ (138).) The only forms with inversion of verb and pronoun (otherwise unattested in DHC) are *faut-il*, probably a fossilized form, which has a hyphen as in French *faut-il nou* ‘should we’ (251), and *paraît-moué* ‘(it) seems to me’ (119), possibly also taken over as a chunk. Both attestations show a hyphen.

There are a few additional places where hyphens show up, and here too, there is no consistency. In two cases, a hyphen is placed between a pronominal marker (clitic?) and a TMA (tense-mood-aspect) marker, in both cases marking tense: *vou-va* (YOU FUT) (63), *mo-té* (247) (1SG PST). The components of the French locative-existential expression *il y a, il y en a*, have a hyphen in DHC in rare

2.9 Ducœurjoly's spelling conventions for DHC

cases: *y-en-a* 'there are' (20) and *ni n'y en-a necqué* (37) 'there are none but...', but more often, there are no hyphens.

Some adverbs, or combinations of them, are connected by a hyphen, occasionally unlike modern French (and also unlike DHCs French), as in *très-bien* (71), *sur-tout* (71, 97), *très-possible* (76), *peut-être* (84), *bon-heur* (200) 'early', lit. 'good-hour', *tré-bon* 'very good' (107), *très-ben* 'very well' (206), *par-tou* 'everywhere' (211), *assez-long-tems* 'sufficiently long time' (239).

In short, one cannot conclude that the hyphens indicate a particular grammatical feature, such as cliticization. In none of the different constellations, the hyphens are used according to an identifiable rule. They seem to be loosely based on French conventions. It is not always possible to distinguish between such conventional hyphens and hyphens indicating line breaks when these coincide.

2.9.4 Apostrophes

Ducœurjoly has also taken over the convention of using an apostrophe when words drop a vowel in contact with another vowel – a habit found in several European, but one that is most prominent in French, the so-called elision. It happens with pronominal clitics, with the negator *ne*, with definite articles, etc. Here are some examples from French:

- (3) a. J'ai < * je ai 'I have' (French)
- b. Je m'ennuie < * je me ennuie 'I am bored' (French)
- c. Il n'est pas < * il ne est pas 'he is not' (French)
- d. L'envers < * le envers 'the reverse' (French)

In DHC, the forms that lead to this process of vowel elision do not exist in the same contexts, with few exceptions. However, in quite comparable situations, similar processes take place in the spelling of DHC, and these are also indicated with an apostrophe.

Some liaison consonants have become part of French **vowel-initial nouns**, thus becoming consonant-initial nouns in DHC:

- (4) a. *z-*: *z'orage* < Fr. *les orages* 'storm(s)', *z'usage* 'usage' < Fr. *les usages*
- b. *n-*: *n'etivée* < *une etivée* 'a stew'; *n'écluse* < Fr. *une écluse* 'locks'

Also the definite article *le/la* may become part of a vowel-initial noun:

- (5) *l-*: *l'autre* < Fr. *l'autre* = *le autre* /lotr/, *l'endrét* < Fr. *l'endroit* /ladɛwa/

2 Duccœurjoly and his book

This is a list of all these nouns found in Duccœurjoly:

- (6) *d'au, d'iau, d'Estampe, d'igo, l'indigo, l'acajou, l'adan, l'air, l'anisette, l'autre, l'avant, l'embarcadair, l'embarcadair, l'Embarcadair, l'endrét, l'entourage, l'espèce, l'heur, l'honneur, l'hospitalière, l'huile, l'ombre, l'usage, n'écluse, n'égard, n'équipage, n'etivée, n'étoupe, z'abitude, z'accon, z'accons, z'acconniers, z'afaire, z'aide, z'anchoix, z'animaux, z'anisette, z'approvisionnement, z'armateur, z'armateurs, z'autres, z'écumes, z'écumoirs, z'emplette, z'encombrage, z'envergure, z'équipage, z'essentes, z'habitans, z'igname, z'intention, z'occupations, z'oeuf, z'eux, z'olives, z'ome, z'orage, z'ordres, z'ouragan, zouragan, z'ouvrier, z'usage.*

More discussion can be found in Section 4.3.7.

The **negator ne** in front of preverbal particles becomes **n'**. The **negator pa** in front of preverbal particles becomes **p'**. The preposition **de** is occasionally used as **d'**, when followed by a vowel.

- (7) *n'a* (35) *p'alé* (88) *d'Estampe* (118)

The first person singular and plural **pronouns** can be reduced as well when appearing in front of TMA markers. It happens more rarely in front of vowel-initial verbs:

- (8) *m'a* < *mo a* (65, 113, 114, 116, 151) *n'a* < *nou a* (138, 151, 163, 212) *l'adan* 'inside it' (246) < *là dedans* 'there inside' (the DHC form may reflect a colloquial French pronunciation)
- (9) **Ma** fair possible à moue (ma < mo va) 116
1SG.FUT do possible TO 1SG
'Je ferai mon possible'
'I will do my best'

There are some idiosyncratic forms like *d'igo* for 'indigo' /ɛdi'go/ (as if it would be *un digo*) and *d'iau/d'au* for 'water', *l'a plie* (239, 240) for 'the rain' (French: *la pluie*). One finds also once *c'est* (186) and *c'éte* (227), *s'éte* (10, 11) as well as *que à* > *qu'à* among the grammatical words. Even the form *s'ympatiser* is used (p. 363), as if the initial consonant of the root is a third person reflexive pronoun, as in French *s'engager* 'to commit' from **se engager*.

2.9 Ducœurjoly's spelling conventions for DHC

- (10) *fau qu'à 5 heur 20*
 NEEDED COMP-AT 5 hour
 'il faut **qu'à** 5 heures...' (French)
 'it is needed **that at** 5 o'clock...'
- (11) *qu'à z'armateur à moue 67*
 COMP-to shipowner(s) TO 1SG
 'qu'à mes armateurs' (French)
 'except to my shipowners'
- (12) *nou gagné nec qu'à chargé ly 23*
 1PL have ONLY THAN TO charge 3SG
 'nous n'ayons **qu'à** le charger' (French)
 'we **just** have to load it'
- (13) *ni n'y en-a necqué cilà 37*
 ? NEG-there have ONLY THAT
 '(il n'y en a 'there is no')
 'il **a que** celle-ci' (French)
 'There is **only** this one'
- (14) *qui ça li s'agit? 74*
 Q DEM 3 act
 'de quoi **s'agit-il?**' (French)
 'What is it **about?**'

The examples do not follow French patterns in (1), (4), (5) or (6).

2.9.5 Punctuation, especially question marks

Ducœurjoly regularly uses question marks in sentences that seem to be statements, and the other way around. Word order in questions in DHC is the same as in statements, probably only distinguished on the basis of intonation, which is not indicated in writing. Therefore, it is not always clear whether sentences in the dialogues are intended as questions or as statements. This uncertainty is strengthened by the frequency of inconsistent marking, where the French version has a full stop (statement) and the creole version has a question mark (interrogative), or the other way around. Here are some inconsistencies between the two languages:

2 *Ducœurjoly and his book*

- (15) French question mark, Creole full stop. 42, 105, 167, 175, 189, 201, 203
French full stop, Creole question mark 9, (30), 86, 140, 187, 216, 220

These differences in punctuation do not seem to be systematic, but rather an arbitrary choice and not something indicating a functional difference. It is probably due to an inconsistent system by the author, poor typesetting (the printer's staff had surely never dealt with a text in HC before) and insufficient proofreading.

2.9.6 Glosses and translations

As mentioned above, glosses and translations may differ throughout the grammar, when the same examples are used.

3 Lexicon

Virtually all of the lexical and grammatical roots in the dialogues have a French etymology. That does not mean that the meanings of cognates in French and DHC are the same. Especially many of the grammatical markers have different meanings and functions in the two languages. The creole words sometimes have a different form.

A few words in the dialogues do not have a French etymology, including some that were borrowed into local Caribbean French, both French from the Lesser Antilles, French Guiana, and Haiti. An example is the word *joupa/ajoupa*, which was documented in Martinique and the Lesser Antilles before Haitian, where Duceœurjoly seems to have been the first to use it in print (Duceœurjoly 1802b: 378). It became part of the *vocabulaire des îles*, a set of borrowings from indigenous languages and creoles into Caribbean French (Valdman 2015: 169–170). Some words in DHC are part of the so-called *langage des îles* (language of the islands) (Jansen 2012; Bollée 2015), a set of local borrowed terms that was identified already in the 1600s by Rochefort (Rochefort 1666, Rochefort 1658, 1665). Several go back to Pidgin Carib (Bakker et al. 2018; Bakker 2022). See also Bollée (2018: 162). We discuss the non-French words here. For the etymologies, Bollée et al. 2018 was a great help.

3.1 *bagasse* ([151, 177])

The creole word *bagasse* is widespread in the French-lexifier creoles of the Caribbean, but also in e.g. Virgin Islands Dutch Creole, as *megas*, *mogas*. It is a standard term in the sugar plantation industry. Its French translation equivalent is also ‘bagasse’, indicating its use in local French as well. It was absent in the *Dictionnaire* of the Académie Française in 1762, but it appeared in the subsequent 1798 edition. Duceœurjoly describes it as follows:

sugar cane, from which the juice has been extracted, which is used, when dry, to replace wood in the furnaces of sugar plants and other necessities. It is kept in large sheds, which are called bagasse huts.¹ (p. 295).

¹canne à sucre, dont on a extrait le suc, qui sert, étant sèche, à remplacer le bois dans les

3 *Lexicon*

It is derived from Spanish *bagazo*, *bagaso* or Portuguese *bagajo*. It is part of the ‘*langage des îles*’. It could be applied to all waste products of the sugar production.

3.2 *caba* ‘to finish’ ([140, 146, 376])

The Creole word *caba* is used as a preverbal marker to indicate completive aspect. It is derived from *acabar* ‘to reach, to finish’. It is also attested in Guyanese Creole French and in the creoles of the Lesser Antilles (Guadeloupe), as well as in Papiamentu (Antillean Spanish/Portuguese Creole) and Virgin Islands Dutch Creole. It derives from Spanish or Portuguese *acabar* ‘to finish’.

3.3 *canari* ‘earthen vessel’ (164)

The creole word *canari(s)* is of Amerindian origin, specifically Island Carib. It is widespread in the Caribbean, and the French equivalent is *canari(s)*. Most French speakers would associate it with the homograph that refers to a bird. It is one of several dozens of words that are part of the so-called *langage des îles* (‘language of the islands’). See also [Bollée \(2018: 162\)](#)

3.4 *joupa*, *ajoupa* (149)

The creole word *joupa* ‘hut’ is translated as *ajoupa* in French by Ducœurjoly. It has been borrowed into local French. It was first documented in 1614 in a Brazilian context ([Bollée 2015: 9–10](#)). It probably goes back to Tupi *tajupare* ‘hut’, with the first attestation found by Bollée dating from 1587. The exact route is not clear, but this and other Tupi words were probably widespread in the Caribbean.

3.5 *l’acajou* ‘cashew’ (221)

This word comes from French *acajou* ‘cashew mahogany wood’, and goes back to Tupi (Brazil) *acajuba*, ‘cashew tree’.

fourneaux des sucreries et autres nécessités. On la conserve sous de grands hangars, qu’on nomme caze à bagasse’ (p. 295)

3.6 *punch* ([24, 32, 44])3.6 *punch* ([24, 32, 44])

This is a word for a drink offered by one of the French to another. The word is borrowed from English, where it is known from the early 17th century. It is sometimes said to be derived from the Hindi numeral *panch* ‘five’, as it contains five ingredients, but this etymology is speculative.

3.7 *taffia*, *tafia* (26)

This is a widespread term for ‘rum’ in French-lexifier creoles of the Indian Ocean. Its first use may be in Pidgin French or the Lesser Antilles. It was first taken up in the *Dictionnaire* of the Académie Française in 1762. The word *taffia* (ex. 47, 146) from the pidgin survives in Martinican dialects as *taffa* ‘rum’ (Le Du & Brun-Trigaud 2011; Le Dù et al. 2013: map 272). See also Labat (1724: 29, 404–405, vol. 1). It is also found in *La passion de Notre Seigneur selon St Jean en Langage Negre* (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 66). Also used on pages 32, 80, 82, 84, 89, 90, 301, 311, 313, 320, 332, 375, 478 in Hazaël-Massieux (2008).

3.8 *vezou* (156)

Vesou is a cane juice drink. The form *vezou* is given as its French translation equivalent. It was, according to Bollée, first documented in the Lesser Antilles in 1667, and also documented in French Guiana and Haiti. William Jennings (p.c.) points out that it was used in 1664 by Chalon (2021). It is also encountered in Reunion and Mauritius. It is of unknown origin, originating probably in the Antilles (Bollée et al. 2017: 366).

If these words are counted as French, as they were likely introduced into the creole by French speakers, the non-French component is absent in the dialogues. Dutch and Portuguese settlers and traders, Carib traders and Native Americans from South America could also be sources. These are the only non-French words used in the dialogues, but there are of course many more. In fact, in the *Vocabulaire* part, almost 60 more words of non-French origin are attested. These are from African languages, European languages other than French, and indigenous South American languages.

Of the 59 terms, 27 are from Amerindian languages, mostly from the indigenous languages of the Caribbean Islands, but also from several languages from Brazil and Mexico. 15 words are from African languages, covering much of the coast between Senegal and Angola: Wolof of Senegal, Kwa languages of West

3 *Lexicon*

Africa, Bantu languages of Kongo and Angola. Most of the words are not unique to Haiti but also found in other French creoles of the Caribbean. 14 words are from European languages, almost exclusively Spanish or Portuguese. Three are of unknown or contested origin. The information about etymologies is from [Bollée \(2018\)](#), a solid study about the lexicon of French-lexifier creoles of the Americas.

The origin of the Amerindian words suggests that they were diffused by the early explorers, the Spanish, the Dutch and the Portuguese. As for the African words, it is remarkable that there are so few, and that their number is roughly the same as the number of non-French European words.

Non-French words in the *Vocabulaire* part clearly cover limited semantic domains. Many of them relate to local flora and fauna, some to the personal sphere of life, including intimate life, and several to food and culture (music, traditional medicine). A rough count reveals 28 words for food, 14 words for fauna, nine words relating to culture, five to intimacy, two to the landscape, and two to the work sphere. Obviously, it is not so easy to decide whether a plant or fish is primarily an item of nature or food, so the categories should be taken with a grain of salt, especially since each word was only assigned one semantic category. Table 3.1 lists the borrowings from local and African languages. For the etymologies, I use not only [Bollée \(2018\)](#), but also [Parkvall's](#) extensive Afrolex database ([Parkvall 2023](#)), kindly made available by the compiler.

The words form the *Vocabulaire* as listed here, are treated separately, as a supplement, the dialogues being the main source. The domains are rough indications; the referents may belong to several categories, e.g. fauna and food.

Finally, it must be remarked that all of the French lexicon remained at the disposal of creole speakers like Duceurjoly, as already remarked by [Fattier](#)². This is especially clear in the technical realm and in fixed expressions. It is also indicated how French words can be adjusted to creole formal constraints.

For more information about African and Indigenous words in Haitian and other creoles, there are a number of recommendable studies that have been consulted as well ([Baker 1993](#); [Bartens & Baker 2012](#); [Bollée 2018](#); [Parkvall 2023](#)).

Thus, the bulk of the lexicon of DHC is French, with Amerindian, European and African elements mostly found in the private sphere, in the cultural realm and in terms for local flora and fauna, including those used as food.

²⁶L'auteur indique au lecteur que le lexique français reste éventuellement disponible, en précisant de quelle série d'opérations on peut transformer un mot français en un mot créole (par aphérèse, prosthèse, maintien en l'état [...])." ([Fattier 1997](#), 261)

3.8 vezou (156)

Table 3.1: borrowings from European, Indigenous and African languages in DHC.

aconna	tree species	arbre, spec.	287	11	Amer.; Island Carib, Kaliña <i>akuma</i>	flora
akra, zakra	doughnut	beignet	286	12	African; Fon aklà, Yoruba akàlà	food
z'anana	pineapple	ananas	289	15	Amer.; Tupi <i>ananá, nana</i> , Guarani <i>naná</i> , Galibi/Carib <i>nana</i>	flora, food
z'andoly	lizard spec.	lézard spec.	290	18	Amer.; Island Carib	fauna
z'avocat	avocado	avocado	293	23	Amer.; Nahuatl <i>auacatl</i>	flora, food
azi	spider species	araignée spec.	295	26	African; Fon <i>aziin</i>	fauna
balahou	fish species	poisson spec.	296	33	Amer.; Island Carib	fauna
banbula	drum	tambour	296	36	African; Bantu	culture
bangala	penis	membre viril	296	37	African; Kikongo ma-lंगा	intimate
banza	musical instr.	instrument de musique	296	39	African; Kimbundu <i>mbanza</i>	culture
bécune	fish species	poisson spec.	298	44	European; Spanish <i>becuna</i>	fauna
beringène	eggplant	aubergine	333	47	European; Latin <i>melongena</i> ; alternatively from Hindi 'brīzel', also found in the Indian Ocean	flora, food
bobo	embrace, kiss, have sex	baiser	295	54	African?; Kikongo (Bantu)?	intimate
chique	chigger, tick	esp. de ciron	304	77	Amer.; Carib (Kalina si:ko)	fauna
dombo	lover	concubine, amant	305	95	African; Bambara	intimate

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godo	protective cloth for women	linge de propreté des femmes	320	122	African; Fon	intimate
gombo	fruit, vegetable spec.	fruit	322	124	African; Kongo, Umbundu	flora, food
gouyavier	guava tree	goyavier	322	127	Amer.; Arawak (Taïno) guayabo	flora
grenadille	granadilla	grenadille	323	128	European; Spanish	flora, food
hatier	overseer of stable	chef du lieu pour des animaux	323-324	132	European; Spanish <i>hato</i>	work
icaque	fruit species	fruit species	325	137	Amerindian (Carib or Arawak); <i>hicaco</i> , (<i>j</i>) <i>icaco</i> ,	flora, food
genipaye	genipa tree	genipa	320	140	Amer.; Tupi, Lingua Geral	flora
gigiri	pulverized shrub spec. in food	sésame, Sesamum indicum	320	141	European; Portuguese, from Arabic	food, flora
giraumont	pumpkin spec.	giraumont	321	142	Amer.; Tupi-Guarani (Lingua Geral <i>jurumú</i>)	flora, food
cachiman	fruit species	fruit spec.	299	148	Amer.; Arawak	flora, food
cacao	fruit species	fruit spec.	299	152	European; Spanish from Nahuatl	flora, food
caconnitte	fruit species	fruit spec.	300	154	Amer.; Taïno cacona	flora, food
kalalou	plate, soup-like	mets	300	155	Amer.; Tupi <i>caàrurú</i>	food
calinda	dance	dance	300	158	African; probably	culture
canari	earthen vessel	vase de terre cuite	300	162	Amer.; Island Carib	culture
carrapattes	tick	tique	301	171	European; Portuguese	fauna
cassave	cassava	cassave	302	175	Amer.; Arawakan, Taino	flora, food

3.8 vezou (156)

kayi	fish species	poisson spec.	302	180	unknown	fauna
cayemite	fruit species	fruit spec.	302	181	Amer.; Arawakan, Taino	fauna
corosol	fruit species	fruit spec.	306	196	contested; possibly Amerindian, Carib	flora, food
coucouye	insect spec.	insect spec.	306	199	Amer.; Island Carib, Arawak	fauna
couï	calabash bowl	assiette de calebasse	306	204	Amer.; Brazil	food
lama	plant species	plante spec.	326	218	African; Fon <i>amà</i>	culture
latanier	palm tree spec.	latanier, palmier	327	219	Amer.; Island Carib	flora
layou	basket	panier	354	220	African; Wolof	culture
mabouya	lizard spec.	lézard spec.	330	231	Amer.; Island Carib	fauna
manchette	machete	machette	332	233	European; Spanish	culture
macandal	traditional healer	magicien, magicienne	330	236	African; Kikongo <i>makwanda</i>	culture
malanga	plant species	plante spec.	331	240	African; Kikongo <i>ma-lânga</i>	flora
machenilier, mancenillier	tree species	arbre, spec.	330, 332	247	European; Spanish <i>manzanilla</i>	flora
manioc	shrub, species	arbrisseau	332	249	Amer.; Tupi <i>manihoca</i>	flora
mantéque	butter, lard	beurre, saindoux	349	248	Spanish <i>mantega</i>	food
maringouin	mosquito	moustique	332	251-252	Amer.; probably Tupi <i>maruím</i>	fauna
marron	maroon	marron	310, 319	254-256	Amer.; Arawak or European; Spanish	culture
mahoca	worm, species	ver, species	330	262	unknown	fauna

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morne	mountain	montagne	334	273	European; Spanish <i>morro</i>	landscape
moussa	food dish	mets	334	276-278	African; probably European;	fauna
palmiste	palm kernel	palmiste	339	290	Portuguese <i>palmito</i>	food
pian	sickness, type	épián (maladie)	315	311	Amer.; Tupi-Guarani <i>pian</i>	personal
ravet	insect spec.	insect spec.	323	315	Amer.; Tupi-Guarani and Carib	fauna
savanne	savanna	patûrage	339-340	325	Amer.; Taïno <i>savána</i>	landscape
cirigouelle	fruit species	fruit spec.	305	331	European; Spanish <i>ciruelo</i>	food
tanga	loincloth	pagne	351-351	340	Amer.; Tupi, Lingua Geral <i>tanga</i>	intimate
tayo	root, spec.	racine, spec.	352	342	European; Portuguese <i>tajoba</i>	flora, food
vaptapa	boiled bananas	bananes bouillies	354	365	European; Braz. Portuguese <i>vatapá</i> , perhaps Amerindian	flora, food

4 Phonology

Ducœurjoly generally uses French spelling for his dialogues in Haitian. Therefore, not much can be said with certainty about how Haitian Creole sounded in the 1790s. No detailed analysis of the phonological system will therefore be attempted. When Ducœurjoly deviates from French spelling, one can assume that he made a conscious choice, so as to reflect the pronunciation of these particular forms which deviate from the French spelling. Some obvious sound changes are reflected in the spelling, indicating that the local pronunciation differed from the French source words. The focus will be on those. First a tentative list of phonemes will be proposed, based on the French spelling, and on the deviations from French spelling.

4.1 Segmental inventory

In this overview, I compare the segmental inventory of French and DHC. The consonants appear quite similar, but there may be some differences in the vowels. It is hard to decide, however, on the basis of written sources only, the pronunciation of which is uncertain. Here the probable phonemes will be presented, and, for the consonants, the positions in the word where they have been observed in DHC (initial, medial, final). Obviously, some inferences are made in the compilation of this list, for instance, that the final *-e* in *canne* is unpronounced, as it is in French, and neither is *-es* in *ignames* and similar words ending in the vowel *-e* or a plural *-e(s)*.

(1)	French	DHC
	a. Nasal consonants	
	m	m meté, demain, madam, ignames
	n	n nou, conné, canne
	ɲ	ɲ nion, gagné, [ligne ¹ ??]
	(ŋ)	(no evidence)

¹In many creoles, it is pronounced as /lin/.

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b. Voiceless plosives

p	p	partie, épy, coupé, capable, chaloupe
t	t	tête, mété, drét, tout, soixante
k	k	qui, manqué, nécque, barrique

c. Voiced plosives

b	b	bagasse, tombé, capab
d	d	douzaine, madame, malade
g	g	gagné, magazine, vergue [no -Vg]

d. Voiceless fricatives

f	f	fair, z'afaire, boeuf
s	s	superbe, casser, bagasse
ʃ	ʃ	chargé, fraîche, blanch

e. Voiced fricatives

v	v	vou, travers, lessive
z	z	z'équipage, douzaine, treize
ʒ	ʒ	jours, régimes, z'orage
ʁ	r/ʁ/ɣ	rue, farine, pur. The consonant written <r> could be an alveolar trill of standard French, or a uvular trill as in Paris. Modern Haitian has a velar fricative.

f. Approximant plain

j	j	yo, miyor, quille
ɥ	ɥ	there is no direct evidence for the sound found in [121]: huit /ɥ(t)/; [150]: suif /sɥf/ [196, 200]: minuit /minɥ/. pluie is written as <plie> or <pli>. The word huile 'oil' [6, 201] is spelled 'houil' [6] and 'huile' (/ɥil/ in French); (201) could reflect an actual (free?) variation in DHC with the presence of the phoneme /ɥ/.
w	w	oui, moué, [no -w]

g. Labial

l	l	légèrement, chaloupe, bel/canal
---	---	---------------------------------

h. Oral vowels

i	i	qui, rivé, riz
y	y	sur 'sure' (see below)
u	u	nou, coupé, bijou
e	e	planté, démonté
ø	ø	deux, vigoureux, heureux, peur
ə		[uncertain]. In 18 th century French, the final vowel <e> in the end of words, like <canne> or <patates>, was probably pronounced as a schwa. On the other hand, several schwas are accented, e.g.

4.2 Phonotactics

demain/démain, suggesting that at least some schwas in French are pronounced as /e/ in DHC.

o o *faudré, rouleau, moment*

ε (ε:) ε *fair, piquets, terre, l'air*

œ œ *bœuf ?*

ɔ ɔ *offri, note[not final]*

a a *tellier, bagage, patates.*

(ɑ) ɑ *[uncertain]*

i. Nasal vowels

ẽ ẽ *brin, vingt, comben*

(œ̃) *[no evidence]*

õ õ *bon, chevron, comben*

ã ã *anvant, dan, pendant, gran(d)*

4.2 Phonotactics

It is not easy to make inferences on the basis of the spelling. One can observe the following generalizations. DHC has initial consonant clusters. There is a tendency for nouns to become consonant-initial by integrating hiatus consonants l, n, z into nouns (e.g. *z'accon*), but there are a handful of exceptions *atelier* 'work gang', *accueil* 'welcome', *état* 'state, situation', *étivé* 'oven', but these could be consonant-initial if the liaison consonants were not written here. The possibility that these words were perceived as loans from French and therefore lacking the initial consonant was suggested by Stéphane Goyette.

We have to take modern French pronunciation as a point of departure. It is very well possible that final *-e* was pronounced at the time, or that <r> in DHC was not pronounced in all cases. For these and other reasons, these observations are preliminary.

The list of examples of single phonemes in the listing above shows that it is not the case that DHC only has cv syllables, as is sometimes claimed to be typical for creoles. There are many words ending in consonants. Of the consonants, only /g m p w/ seem to be unattested in final position, while all identified consonants occur in initial and medial positions. But what about consonant clusters?

Initial sequences of consonants are limited to combinations of stops (b, d, g, p, t, k) and liquids:

- (2) **bloc, brûlé, crééré, clair, drét, flambeau, fréquin, grand, plaisir, premier, traverse**

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Final sequences are also limited to combinations of liquids and stops, but only these are attested:

- (3) *gard, quatre*

There are more possibilities for consonant sequences in the middle of the word.

- (4) Combinations of stops + /r/ (b, d, g, p, k, t, f, v) are:
cabrouets, faudra, nègre, soucre, capres, contraire, offri, l'ouvri
- (5) Combinations of stops + /l/ (only b, p, k)
ensemble, complet, n'écuse,
- (6) Combinations of /r/ followed by consonant (d, t, g, k, p, b, s, ʒ, n, m, l, w)
bordage, assorti, personne, bourlé, cargaison, chargement, dernier, charrois, murmuré, marqué, circonstances, serpes, corbin, fermé

There are also a few combinations of consonants with /s/: *-ks-, -rs-, -sp-, -st-:*

- (7) *excellent, merci, Estampe, dispense*

Finally, there are three combinations of three consonants *-lgr-, rkl-, -rpr-, -rtr-* again, if indeed all liquids are indeed pronounced:

- (8) *malgré, sarclé, surprendre, Courtrai*

If one would assume that consonant clusters in the middle of a word can be broken up between syllables, then there are very few convincing consonant clusters within the syllable structure.

The patterns observed all conform to sonority hierarchies in that more sonorant consonants (sibilants, nasals, liquids) are found between stops and vowels.

4.3 Processes of phonological adjustment

Some phonological adjustments can be observed on the basis of spelling differences between Duceurjoly's spelling and French.

4.3.1 wa/we

The French diphthong written <oi>, pronounced /wa/ in modern standard French, is written <oué> in Creole, reflecting the older French pronunciation /we/ or /wɛ/ (preserved in some dialects of Western France). Examples are <*moué, touéle, vouéle, l'endrét*> for *moi* '1sg', *toi* '2sg', *toile* 'sheet', *voile* 'sail', *endroit* 'place'. (French /*mwa, twa, twal, vwal, āndrwa*/).

4.3 Processes of phonological adjustment

4.3.2 Unrounding of /y/

The round vowel /y/, generally written <u> in French, is unrounded to /i/ (but not always in DHC spelling) or, less frequently to /u/ written <ou>:

- (9) a. du vin > di vin 'wine' [6, 21, 22, 71, 90, 98, 107, 135] (117: vin)
- b. étuvée > n'etivée 'stew' [146]
- c. sucre > soucre 'sugar' [113, 153], etc.
- d. sùr > sir 'certain' 9
- e. sur > sir 'sour' [190]
- f. du feu > dy feu 'fire' [216, 222]
- g. plusieurs > plisieurs 'several' [125]
- h. mutuellement > mitiyuellement 'mutually' [44]
- i. pluie > plie, pli 'rain' [176, 238, 239, 240, 244]
- j. du riz > dou riz 'rice' [251]
- k. jusqu'à > jouc 'until' [196, 198]

It seems that the French phoneme /y/ (written <u>) is sometimes pronounced as /y/ in DHC. In the *Vocabulaire* part, Ducœurjoly writes: “*sur*, quelquefois *sir*”, indicating that, for this word at least, there are two pronunciations. The same appears to be the case with the entry for ‘lunettes’ (glasses), where he writes “All words that begin with these three letters, *lut* [lyt], can be pronounced as *lit*”² [lit] (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 329). Probably the rounded vowels were in use, beside unrounded versions, for other words as well. French rounded vowels might have been used in fluctuation with their unrounded counterparts in DHC.

4.3.3 unrounding of /ø/ and /œ/ to /e/ or /o/

The rounded vowel written <eu> in French is sometimes adjusted to an unrounded vowel as in *mouché* (F. monsieur), and *miyor* for *meilleur* ‘better’ /mejœʁ/, *sol* for ‘seul’ /soel/, *astor* for ‘à cet heure’ [asetør], but these are exceptions. The speech sound is almost always written as <eu> also in DHC, e.g. <deux, feu, neuf, heur, preuve, hauteur> etc. (‘two, fire, nine, hour, sample, height’), as in French (/dø/ /fø/ /nœf/, /nœv/ /œʁ/ /pœʁv/ /’otœʁ/). The change *y* > *i* is more common than *ø* > *o*.

Thus, the presence of French rounded vowels seems to be in flux.

²Tous les mots qui commencent par ces trois lettres, *lut*, peuvent se prononcer par *lit*.

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4.3.4 schwa to full vowel /u/ or /i/ or /e/

French schwa is sometimes changed to full vowels such as /u/ in DHC, as in *douvan* /duva/ from *devant* /dəva/ ‘in front of’ and DHC *mouché* /muʃe/ from *monsieur* /məsjø/ ‘Sir, Mister’, or <i> in *primier* /primje/ from Fr. *premier* /prəmje/ ‘first’ and *divini* /divini/ from *devenir* /dəvəniʁ/ ‘become’; *pītit* from *petit(e)* /pəti(t)/, /pti(t)/; *finettes* from *fenêtres* /fənɛtʁ/ ‘window’. (161), *bisoin* from *besoin* ‘need’ /bəzwɛ/. The spelling *qué* suggests that the schwa in this word has developed into /e/.

There is a possible exception in this form where /e/ became /i/: *Michant* from *méchant* /mɛʃa/, unless a schwa-pronunciation was common at the time. It is thus most likely that schwa was not a phoneme in DHC.

4.3.5 vowel /ɔ/ to /u/

The high mid back vowel /ɔ/ is sometimes indicated as being pronounced as /u/, as in *cōumencé* ‘to start’ (Fr. *commencer*) /kɔmase/ [147].

4.3.6 Vowel /ɛ/ to /e/

The high mid front vowel /ɛ/ is sometimes indicated as being pronounced as /e/, as in *aprés* from French *après* ‘after’ and aspect marker and *pièce* from French *pièce* ‘piece’.

4.3.7 Palatalization? k > tʃ

At various places in the vocabulary, it seems that /k/ before front vowels can be pronounced as /tʃ/. This is the case on p. [308], where *cul* ‘bottom’ is realized as <quiou> or <tiou>, presumably /kiu/ and /tiu/ “because one rarely pronounces the Q” (“car on très-peu le Q”). This trait can be traced to Western French dialectal pronunciation. Note also that this observation can be extended to other words, e.g. <quien> (/kiɛ/) for *tien* ‘yours’ (/tiɛ/). This is confirmed on p. [318], where it is written <qien>.

4.3.8 Vowel-initial nouns and liaison consonants

In standard French, hiatus consonants are inserted (among others) between an article or adjective with an underlying final consonant and a noun with an initial vowel. In DHC, etymologically vowel-initial nouns are generally preceded by a

4.3 Processes of phonological adjustment

liaison consonant, usually derived from an article or an adjective (*objet* /ɔˈbʒɛ/, *l'objet* /lɔˈbʒɛ/, *un objet* /nɔˈbʒɛ/, *un petit objet* /tɔˈbʒɛ/, *les objets* /zɔˈbʒɛ/).

In Modern Haitian Creole, the hiatus consonants have often become part of the word, so that vowel-initial words have become consonant-initial, e.g. *laj* from *l'âge* 'age', *nonm* from *un homme* 'a man', *lide* 'idea' from *l'idée*, *zo* 'bones' from *les os*.

In DHC, however, there are often variable forms, with vowel-initial and consonant-initial variants, where the consonants are derived from the hiatus consonants. Likewise, there are words that vary between different initial consonants, derived from different liaison consonants. Thus, French vowel-initial nouns become consonant-initial in DHC, starting with *n-*, *l-* or *z-*. The vast majority of these nouns (more than 50) have a fixed form, but there are a few that have shifting consonants, viz. these three consonants, and there are five words with two possibilities, listed here with their Modern Haitian (MH) equivalents, in the words for 'anis liquor', 'crew', 'settler' and 'other'.

- (10) a. anisette > z'anisette, l'anisette MH: anisèt ([122, 132])
- b. usage > l'usage, z'usage MH: itilizasyon ([112, 126])
- c. équipage > z'équipage, n'équipage MH: ekipaj ([37,39, 41, 42])
- d. habitant > l'habitant, z'habitans MH: abitan [77]
- e. autre > l'autre, z'autres MH: lòt ([22, 38, 43, 92, 100, 106, 107, 128, 135, 172, 175, 177, 252])

The *z*-initial form *z'autres bagages* is used with the plural form of the noun and adjectives (sometimes also written *les autres* as in French), and *l'autre* with singular forms. On the other hand, *z'équipage* and *n'équipage* are both used as singular nouns. An illustrative example can be found in the vocabulary part: *a vla nion z'étrange z'abu* p. [286] (Fr. *voilà un étrange abus* 'that is a strange error'), where both the adjective and the noun have added an initial *z-*, derived from the plural article, but here clearly referring to a singular form. The liaison consonants are not productive, and they are not fixed either. The variability is illustrated in this quote from the *Vocabulaire* p. [285]: *Abreuvoir. On peut ajouter le z.* p. 285. The author says (here and elsewhere) that one can add an initial *z-* to this vowel-initial French root meaning 'a drinking trough'. The situation is reminiscent of what one finds in Michif (Bakker 1997), where several nouns can have variable initial consonants.

Ducœurjoly is aware of the variation. He mentions it a few times in the *Vocabulaire*, e.g. Ducœurjoly (1802b: 284–285) where he writes that the liaison conso-

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nant ‘z’ is facultative with the word ‘abbesse’ (“on peut ajouter ‘z’ sans blesser la prononciation”), and the same goes for *abeille* ‘bee’ according to footnote 1.

The vast majority of the words undergoing merger with the liaison consonant use the consonant *z*- (31, or 58%), 17 (32 %) use *l*-, and 5 use *n*- (9 %). There may be also forms derived from both singular and plural forms (‘egg’ 192: *z’oeuf* /zøf/ singular; 28: *z’eux* /zø/ plural).

In addition, a few words have incorporated the partitive marker *de/du* into the word.

- (11) a. *d’au, d’iau* ‘water’ (*de l’eau*)
 b. *d’Estampe* ‘brand of wine’ *d’igo, l’indigo* ‘indigo’ (*de l’indigo*)

The last one is the result of a reinterpretation: the form *indigo* (/ɛ̃di’go/) was interpreted as ‘un digo’, hence an indefinite article *un* and a root *digo*. A list of words that have incorporated the French liaison consonant into their stems is given in 2.9.3.

4.4 Phonology: summary

DHC phonology is difficult to study on just the basis of the approximative French-based orthography. All conclusions are preliminary. Generally, phonology seems to be close to French, except that some or most rounded vowels have become unrounded, and some high mid-vowels have become high vowels, and the schwa seems to have become a full vowel. There is a tendency towards consonant-initial nouns, to a lesser extent for verbs.

5 Morphology

Creoles are often characterized as being overwhelmingly isolating languages: “A striking characteristic about creoles and pidgins is their dominant isolating morphosyntax”, (Szeto et al. 2021) as their typological profile. Whether it is indeed the case that all creoles are isolating, can be contested. Research convincingly shows that creoles have a distinctive typological profile (e.g. Schneider 2012 for English-lexifier creoles, and Bakker et al. 2011, 2017 for all creoles), but (lack of) morphology is not the main characteristic of creole languages. It is beyond discussion, however, that all or almost all morphological markers of the lexifiers have disappeared in all creoles.

DHC indeed appears to have almost no morphology. On the other hand, the creole as documented in DHC developed some morphological processes unknown to its lexifier, French. In the DHC material, three derivational morphemes are encountered, all three of them derived from French. These are discussed first, and thereafter the newly developed morphology.

New morphology can develop via cliticization of frequent elements to lexical elements, for instance, the merger of person markers with nouns in possessive constructions or merging with verbs as agreement markers. The boundary between clitics and bound morphemes is fluid, and the exact status of the bound elements in DHC is uncertain. First, the three or five endings (depending on one’s criteria) that have been inherited from French will be dealt with. Thereafter innovated morphology will be discussed, a topic which is often neglected in descriptions of creoles.

5.1 French affixes

There are a few endings in DHC that were inherited from French. For example, there is the present participle ending in *-ant*.

5.1.1 *En V-ant*

The construction *en V-ant*, meaning ‘while V-ing’, is taken over from French. Here are three examples:

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(1) *DHC French*

- a. *en battant* [250] *en abattant* ‘while knocking down’
- b. *en rivant* [23] *en arrivant* ‘when arriving’
- c. *en entrant* [87] *en entrant* ‘when entering’

Note that these constructions are the same as the French equivalents, except for some minor phonological adjustments (such as loss of initial vowels, as in *rivant* from *arrivant*).

However, there are also examples where the same meaning is given with the conjunction *pendant* ‘while’, rather than the *en V-ant* construction, as in:

- (2) **pendant** yo va balisé ma fair yo couper lianes. [221]
 WHILE 3PL PL mark 1SG.FUT make 3PL cut vine
 ‘en balisant je ferai couper de la liane.’
 ‘while they mark out[by cutting small trees], I will have them cut the vine.’
- (3) **pendant** nou après parlé patates [148]
 WHILE 1PL PROG talk potato(es)
 ‘en parlant de patates’
 ‘Talking about potatoes....’

The *-ant* morpheme is likely to be productive, but there is a competing construction with *pendant*, perhaps with a slightly different function. Whereas *-ant* describes an action occurring simultaneously with another action or state, the *pendant* construction implies a causal relation and possibly an element of surprise.

5.1.2 *-(e)ment* ‘manner adverbial’ from adjectives

The manner adverbial suffix *-(e)ment* seems to be a productive formation with an adjectival base. It is fairly frequent in the material. All forms, however, are also used in French, and of these, *vittement*, *vitement* seems to be only present in colloquial French.

- (4) a. *facilement* ‘easily’ [23]
- b. *vittement*, *vitement* ‘quickly’ [10, 161]
- c. *mitiyuellement* ‘mutually’ [44]
- d. *ordinairement* ‘ordinarily’ [64]

5.1 French affixes

e. *positivement* ‘positively’ [113]

f. *légèrement* ‘lightly’ [53]

5.1.3 *V-ons* ‘hortative’

There are a few examples of hortatives (‘let us V’), which show an ending *-ons* /*õ*/ after the verb stem. Only two different verbs are found. Examples are:

(5) **allons** nous prend preuve ... [208]

HORT 1PL take sample

‘prenons la preuve’

‘let us take a sample’

(6) **alon** nou meté nou à table [98]

HORT 1PL put 1PL LOC table

‘allons mettons nous à table.’

‘let’s sit down at the table’

(7) **anon** nou fini punch à-nou [44]

HORT 1PL finish punch POSS-1PL

‘Finissons notre punch’

‘Let us finish our punch’

(8) **voyon** farine à vou? [117]

see.HORT flour LOC 2.POL

‘voyons votre farine?’

‘let us look at your flour’

Its productivity is unclear. The forms *allons/alon/anon* seem grammaticalized as such, and *voyon* may also be a fixed expression. In Modern Haitian *ann wè* (‘let us see/look’) or *ann ale* (‘let us go’), where *ann* is clearly derived from French *allons* ‘let’s go’, via Older Haitian *anon* with the same meaning.

5.1.4 Nominalizing *-age*, *-ement*

Other affixes are quite frequent in the Ducœurjoly Haitian Creole (DHC) texts. In all cases, they are exact copies of French affixes, and no case can be made for productivity. This includes the affix *-age* as in *équipage* ‘crew’, *cordage* ‘rope’, and *entourage* ‘surroundings’ ([22, 23, 43, 53, 112, 214, 221], etc.). The nominal suffix

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-ement, as in *chargement* ‘load’ and *traitement* ‘treatment’ ([15, 18, 40, 42, 56, 97], etc.) is used for nominalization of verbs. The forms found, are also common in standard French, but their productivity in DHC cannot be established. This contrasts both with French and with modern HC.

All bound morphemes are derivational. There are no inflectional affixes in DHC, but there are some new developments in the inflectional realm, to be discussed below.

5.1.5 In short: inherited morphology

The number of inherited morphemes from French is very small, and the productivity of some can be doubted. There are no inflectional affixes at all in DHC that have their source in French.

5.2 Innovated morphology: merged forms

There is a type of morphology which is usually present in creoles, but which is often neglected in descriptions of creole languages. These are the newly developing combinations of e.g. personal pronouns to agreement markers in verbs and to possessive markers. Also, personal pronouns with TMA markers and TMA markers with verbs. The writing conventions in DHC suggest that several such processes were going on in DHC at the time. Frequently, the pronouns and following vowel-initial verbs merge in DHC, pointing to cliticization of the pronouns.

5.2.1 Pronoun + TMA

In the following examples, the 1SG, 1PL and 3PL pronouns *moue/mo* and *nou* merge to *m’a-* and *n’a-* respectively:

- (9) **M’allé** veillé ça, fau ben d’abord **n’allé** roulé, mo faire aussi
 1SG-go watch THIS must well BECAUSE 1PL-go run 1SG CAUS also
 remonter grand chaudière acue batterie¹ là. [151]
 put.up big kettle AND last.kettle DEF
 ‘J’y veillerai, il faut, puisque nous allons rouler, que je fasse aussi
 remonter la grande chaudière et la batterie.’
 ‘I’ll see to it, we must, since we’re first going to be running (the sugar
 plant), I must also put up the big kettle and the last kettle.’

¹Part 1, p. 318: “The equipment is made up of five iron boilers, which can be distinguished from

5.2 *Innovated morphology: merged forms*

- (10) Qué profondeur ya fouillé yo? [237]
 WHAT depth 3PL.FUT dig 3PL
 ‘A quelle profondeur fouillera-t-on?’
 ‘How deep **will they** dig them?’
- (11) cabrouets là-yo, va prend douvan jounpa à yo, quant ya vini
 carts DEF-PL FUT take IN.FRONT hut TO 3PL WHEN 3PL.FUT come
 à midy. [149]
 AT noon
 ‘les cabrouets prendront devant leurs ajoupa, en revenant à midi.’
 ‘The carts will take [the products] in front of their hut, on their return at noon.’

In the *Vocabulaire* one can also find (p. 315) one with a third person pronoun:

- (12) l’alé cherché z’épicerie.
 3SG.go look.for groceries
 ‘Il a été chercher des épicerie.’
 ‘He went looking for groceries’

In the following example, the 1PL pronoun *nou* merges with the future tense marker *a*:

5.2.2 **Pronoun + TMA**

- (13) N’a voir ça dans deux trois jours [163]
 1PL-go see 3SG in two three days
 ‘Nous verrons cela dans quelques jours’
 ‘We will see that in a few days’ (*nou + va*)

Also negative markers *pa/pas* /pa/ and *ne* /nə/ merge with some subsequent TMA markers.

each other by their different names and their different sizes; the first is called *la grande* (the big one), the second one *la propre* (the proper one), the third *le flambeau* (the torch), the fourth one *le sirop* ‘the syrup’, and the fifth one *la batterie* (the battery)”. (In original French: “L’équipage est composé de cinq chaudières de fer, que l’on distingue les unes des autres par leurs différents noms, et leurs différentes grandeurs; la première se nomme la grande, la seconde la propre, la troisième le flambeau, la quatrième le sirop, et la cinquième la batterie.” (Ducœurjoly 1802b: Part 1, 318)

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5.2.3 NEG + TMA

- (14) Vou p'alé blâmé sans doute prudence à moué [88]
 2.POL NEG-go blame without doubt prudence TO 1SG
 'Vous **ne** blâmez sans doute pas ma prudence'
 'You probably **won't** blame my prudence' (*pa* + *alé*)

5.2.4 NEG + TMA

- (15) mo n'a mangé biscuit blanc [35]
 1SG NEG-have.3SG eat biscuit white
 'je n'ai mangé du biscuit blanc'
 'I **have not** eaten white biscuit'

In the following example, the future marker *va* merges with *alé* 'to go'.

5.2.5 TMA + V

- (16) le² pitit atelie valé hcherché [sic] plant [143]
 DEF? little atelier FUT-GO look.for plant
 'le petit atelier **ira** chercher du plant'
 'the small work.gang/workshop **will go** look for plants.'

In short, some grammatical words ending in a vowel may merge with a grammatical word beginning with a vowel, here negators, personal pronouns, and TMA markers. These are not the only mergers.

5.3 Innovated morphology: clitics

Some of the personal pronouns have short and long forms (second person *to* and *toué*, first person *mo* and *moué*). The short forms can be considered clitics, and loosely attached to their hosts, and thus displaying potentially emerging morphology. See Section 6.7, however, for reference to a different (but incorrect) interpretation of the contrasting forms.

Whereas most Haitian authors write these clitics as separate words, Suzanne Sylvain used apostrophes to indicate the perception of the cliticized nature of the

²This is the only place in the DHC dialogues that a form identical to the French definite article is used.

5.3 *Innovated morphology: clitics*

short pronominal clitics for modern Haitian. In her book, she lists these personal pronouns, including cliticized ones for almost all forms:

- (17) a. 1SG mwě, mrě, m'
 b. 2SG u
 c. 3SG li, l'
 d. 1PL nu, n'
 e. 2PL u, nu, zòt, n'
 f. 3PL yo, y', zòt

Here are some examples from Sylvain, with examples of verbal pronominal clitics for first, second and third persons in both subject and object position:

- (18) **n'**al³ koté-l
 2PL-go near-3SG
 'avez-vous été auprès de lui' (French)
 'Have you been with him/her OR close to him/her.' (Sylvain 1936: 61)
- (19) **m'**wè-**u**
 1SG-see-2
 'je te vois, je vous vois' (French) (Sylvain 1936: 61)
 'I see you'
- (20) l'a-pòté-l ba zòt
 3-FUT-carry-3 to/give 3PL
 'il le leur apportera (French)'
 'He will bring it to them' (Sylvain 1936: 62)

In DHC, it is slightly different from Sylvain's analysis. The use of the emphatic forms *to* and *mo*, for *toué* and *moué* in DHC, usually corresponds to the full pronouns and clitics in French (second person *toi* and *te/tu*, first person *moi* and *me/je*).

- (21) **moué**, **mo** coné monde à moué [43]
 1SG 1SG know people TO 1SG
moi, je connois mon monde
 'I know my people'

³Whereas Ducœurjoly uses *to/toué* and *vou* for second person, both forms have disappeared from (most forms of) Modern Haitian. The form *nu* <nou>, abbreviated <n> is used in an abbreviated form in plural, and *u/wu/w* in singular, see DeGraff (2007: 119–120).

5 Morphology

The short forms are much more frequent in subject position than in object or indirect object position, but they are used in object position as well, as in:

- (22) Ça va arrangé **mo** ben [114]
 THAT FUT suit 1SG well
 ‘Cela m’arrangera très-bien’
 ‘That will suit me very well’

This frequency led to an interpretation that *moué* and *toué* mark object and *mo* and *to* marks subject (see Section 6.7), but this appears to be a misinterpretation. The contrast is in reality between full pronouns and their reduced equivalents the clitics, as a result of grammaticalization from independent forms to semi-dependent forms.

5.4 Morphology: summary

In short, DHC has inherited no inflectional morphemes from French, and only few of the derivational ones, and the productivity of most of those is unclear. On the other hand, DHC has innovated morphology, as in the morphological merger of frequent grammatical forms as indicated by the written forms, as well as in having developed a new set of clitic pronouns.

6 Parts of speech

DHC has nouns, verbs, numerals, quantifiers, adverbs, prepositions, and (personal pronouns, possessive pronouns, indefinite pronouns).

6.1 Nouns

Nouns have one fixed form. There are no case endings, no gender distinctions and no distinctions either. In written French, plural nouns are followed by a plural marker *-s* that is not pronounced, so number is not marked with plural suffixes. There are some irregular plurals like *animal/animaux* (/animol/) in French of the day, and only the latter plural forms could be heard by the people who invented Haitian Creole. In spoken French, the singular versus plural contrast is present, not as affixes, but in forms like the pronominal articles and demonstratives, but these have not found their way into Haitian.

In DHC, plurality is optionally indicated with a postposed third person plural personal pronoun *yo*. This is a fairly typical pattern in creole languages in general: a third person plural pronoun or a noun meaning something like ‘quantity’ becomes an optional plural marker: *z’acon la yo* ‘les accons/the boats’ [21] ; *membre là yo* ‘les membres/the members’ [54] ; *quatre pièces là-yo* ‘ces quatre pièces/those four piece’ [127]. There are more examples in this sentence :

- (1) *Vieux là-yo va sarclé hayies là-yo, et nourrices là-yo va*
 Old DEF-PL FUT weed hedge DEF-PL AND childminder DEF-PL FUT
semé plant [145]
sow plant
 ‘Tes vieux sarcleront les haies, et les nourrices jetteront ou sèmeront le
 plant.’
 ‘Your/the old people will weed the hedges, and the childminders will
 spread or sow the plant(s)’

The French irregular plurals are not used. It is not **canaux* (as in French) or **canau-yo* (French irregular plural with third person plural marker) but *canal là-yo* for ‘(the) canals’.

6 Parts of speech

- (2) *terre-là* ‘the soil’ [141] (Fr. *la terre* ‘the soil’)
canal là-yo ‘(the) canals’ [187] (* *canal-yo*) (Fr. *les canaux*)
maître-sucrier là ‘the sugar master’ [151] (Fr. *le maître sucrier*)

A plural marker *yo* is only used in combination with the definite determiner *là*. Roots that are etymologically adjectives can be used as nouns as well, and then they are followed by the definite article: *grand là* ‘the big one’ (164).

6.2 Verbs

All DHC verbs have only one fixed form. Often it is written as the infinitive or the past participle would be in French, which are often homophones. Except for the present participles in *-ant* (see Section 5.1.1), there are no morphological forms. For most verbs, these forms differ in writing only, but others differ in form and sound.

With very few exceptions, only one form of the verb is used, chosen from dozens of different verb forms possible in French. When several forms are used, they are both indicated in the list below (e.g. *aligné*, *aligner*). It would be interesting to know what forms of the verbs have made their way into the creole. On the basis of studies of pidgins and creoles, the most likely candidates would be infinitives, participles, third person singular forms, or singular imperatives. For many verbs, as shown in Table 3, there may be an overlap between some of these classes. It should be pointed out, that I indicate the written form in DHC, and that this may have been an arbitrary choice when several forms have the same phonemic shape, e.g. *acheter* and *acheté* ‘to buy’ and ‘bought’ respectively), and *aller*, *allé* and *allez* (‘to go’, ‘gone’ and ‘go!’), all pronounced the same but written differently. Given that earlier sources for Lesser Antilles Creole more consistently have infinitive forms, also in the preceding pidgin sources, it is most likely the infinitive that was the source of all the verbs, even if conceived differently by Ducœurjoly. That would also be the case for *apprend* and *dépende*, which is just ‘apprendre’ minus the final ‘r’ (a common deletion). Even ‘couit’ is from ‘cuire’, assuming Ducœurjoly spelt it with a silent ‘t’ (thanks to William Jennings for these observations).

This is a list of all the verbs in the dialogues, and their probable origin, at least if the forms are taken as point of departure:

- (3) DHC verbs with their French equivalents and most likely origin.

6.2 Verbs

acheté	buy	acheter	acheté	achète	PP
agir	act	agir	agi	agit	INF
alé, allé	go	aller	allé	va	PP
aligné, aligner					
	align	aligner	aligné	aligne	INF, PP
apprendre	learn	apprendre	appris	apprend	3SG
arrangé	arrange	arranger	arrangé	arrange	PP
assorti	match	assortir	assorti	assorte	PP
avoir	have	avoir	eu	a	INF
avoyé	send	envoyer	envoyé	envoie	PP
ba, bay, baye					
	give	bailler	baillé	baille	INF, 3SG
balisé	tag, mark, cut trees				
		baliser	balisé	balise	PP
barassé	clutter	embarrasser			
			embarrassé	embarrasse	PP
bâtir	build	bâtir	bâti	bâtit	INF
battre	fell	abattre	abattu	abat	INF
biller	dress	habiller	habillé	habille	PP
blâmé	blame	blâmer	blâmé	blâme	PP
blessés	hurt	blessar	blessé	blesse	PP
blié	forget	oublier	oubli	oublie	PP
bligé	obligate, oblige				
		obliger	obligé	oblige	PP
boir	drink	boire	bu	boit	INF
bourlé	burn	brûler	brûlé	brûle	PP
calfeter	caulk	calfater	calfaté	calfate	INF
carené	careen	caréner	caréné	carène	PP
carté	dismiss	écarter	écarté	écarte	PP
cassé, casser					
	break	casser	cassé	casse	INF, PP
chargé	load	charger	chargé	charge	PP
charmé	charm	charmer	charmé	charme	PP
charrié, charrier					
	cart	charrier	charrier	charrie	INF, PP
chauffé	heat	chauffer	chauffé	chauffe	PP
chéché, cherché					
	seek	chercher	cherché	cherche	PP
chivelé	dishevel	écheveler	échevelé	échevelle	PP

6 Parts of speech

clarifier	clarify	clarifier	clarifié	clarifie	INF
comandé, commandé	order	commander			
			commandé	commande	PP
commencé	start	commencer			
			commencé	commence	PP
compté	count	compter	compté	compte	PP
conné, coné	know	connaître	connu	connait	3SG
contenté	satisfy	contenter	contenté	contente	PP
continé	continue	continuer	continué	continue	PP
contré	meet	rencontrer	rencontré	rencontre	PP
contribué	contribute	contribuer	contribué	contribue	PP
convini	suit	convenir	convenu	convient	INF, PP
cordé	agree	accorder	accordé	accorde	PP
couché	sleep	coucher	couché	couche	PP
cuit, cuit	cook	cuire	cuit	cuis	PP
coupé, coupée, couper	cut	couper	coupé	coupe	INF, PP
coutumé	be used to	accoutumer			
			accoutumé	accoutume	PP
couveni	suit	convenir	convenu	convient	INF, PP
couvrir	cover	couvrir	couvert	couvre	INF
crére	believe	croire	cru	croit	INF
crir	write	écrire	écrit	écrit	INF
débarasser, débarrassé, débarrassée	get rid of	débarasser	débarassé	débarasse	INF, PP
débité	cut tree in small pieces				
		débiter	débité	débite	PP
déchargé	unload	décharger	déchargé	décharge	PP
décidé	decide	décider	décidé	décide	PP
dégagé	disengage	dégager	dégagé	dégage	PP
degradé	degrade	dégrader	dégradé	dégrade	PP
dégraissé	degrease	dégraisser	dégraissé	dégraisse	PP
démonté	disassemble	démonter	démonté	démonte	PP
dépêcher	hurry	dépêcher	dépêché	dépêche	INF
dépende	depend	dépendre	dépendu	dépend	3SG
dessouché	destump	dessoucher	dessouché	dessouche	PP
dispensé	dispense	dispenser	dispensé	dispense	PP
distingué	distinguish	distinguer	distingué	distingue	PP

6.2 Verbs

divini	become	devenir	devenu	devient	PP
employé	employ, use	employer	employé	emploie	PP
engagé	engage	engager	engagé	engage	PP
engorgé	engorge	engorger	engorgé.	engorge	PP
enlevé	remove	enlever	enlevé	enlève	PP
entré	enter	entrer	entré	entre	PP
entreprendre	undertake	entreprendre			
			entrepris	entreprend	INF
éprouvé	experience	éprouver	éprouvé	éprouve	PP
étoné	astonish	étonner	étonné	étonne	PP
exiger	require	exiger	exigé	exige	INF
exposé	expose	exposer	exposé	expose	PP
fai, fair, faire, fait					
	do, make	faire	fait	fait	INF, PP
fané	wither	faner	fané	fane	PP
fermé	close	fermer	fermé	ferme	PP
filé	sharpen	filer	filé	file	PP
fini	finish	finir	fini	finit	PP
forcé	force	forcer	forcé	force	PP
formé	form	former	formé	forme	PP
fouillé, fouiller					
	dig	fouiller	fouillé	fouille	INF, PP
foulé	trample	fouler	foulé	foule	PP
fournir	provide	fournir	fourni	fournit	INF
gagné	earn (have)	gagner	gagné	gagne	PP
gardé	keep	garder	gardé	garde	PP
goûté, goûter	taste	goûter	goûté	goûte	INF, PP
graisser	grease	graisser	graisé	graisse	INF
grisé	intoxicate	griser	grisé	grise	PP
gueté	watch, see	guetter	guetté	guette	PP
haché	chop	hacher	haché	hache	PP
haimé	love, like	aimer	aimé	aime	PP
helé, hélé	call	appeler	appelé	appelle	PP
hinder	help	aider	aidé	aide	INF
l'ouvri	open	ouvrir	ouvert	ouvre	INF, PP
laissé	let, leave	laisser	laissé	laisse	PP
langui	languish	languir	langui	languit	3SG, PP
lévé	get up	lever	levé	lève	PP
livré	deliver	livrer	livré	livre	PP

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loué	rent out	louer	loué	loue	PP
mandé	ask	demander	demandé	demande	PP
mangé	eat	manger	mangé	mange	PP
marché	walk	marcher	marché	marche	PP
marqué	mark	marquer	marqué	marque	PP
mêlé	mingle	mêler	mêlé	mêle	PP
méné	take, lead	mener	mené	mène	PP
meté, mété, metté					
	put	mettre	mis	met	INNO
mouri	die	mourir	mort	meurt	INF
mouvé	move	mouvoir	mouvé	mouve	PP
murmuré	whisper	murmurer	murmuré	murmure	PP
musé	amuse	amuser	amusé	amuse	PP
navigué	navigate	naviguer	navigué	navigue	PP
netéyé/nétéyé					
	clean	nettoyer	nettoyé	nettoye	PP
nommé	appoint	nommer	nommé	nomme	PP
nourri	feed	nourrir	nourri	nourrit	PP
offri	offer	offrir	offert	offre	INF
ordonné	order	ordonner	ordonné	ordonne	PP
ouété, ouéter	remove	ôter	ôté	ôte	PP, INF
paraître, paroître					
	appear	paraître	paru	paraît	INF
parlé	talk	parler	parlé	parle	PP
parti	leave	partir	parti	part	PP
passé	pass	passer	passer	passe	PP
payé	pay	payer	payé	paie	PP
pénétré	penetrate	pénétrer	pénétré	pénètre	PP
perdi	lose	perdre	perdu	perd	PP
piqué	damage	piquer	piquer	pique	PP
plaindre	complain	plaindre	plaindre	plaint	INF
planté	plant	planter	planter	plante	PP
plimoter	pluck	plumoter	plumoter	plumote	INF
porté	carry	porter	porter	porte	PP
posé	set down	poser	posé	pose	PP
pourvoir	provide	pourvoir	pourvu	pourvoit	INF
prend, prende					
	take	prendre	pris	prend	3SG, INF
préparé, préparer					

6.2 Verbs

	prepare	préparer	préparé	prépare	INF, PP
prété	prepare	apprêter	apprêté	apprête	PP
prié	pray	prier	prié	prie	PP
prin garde	beware	prendre garde			
			pris garde	prend garde	COMM
profité, profiter					
	enjoy	profiter	profité	profite	INF, PP
promettre, promette-vou		promise	promettre	promis	promet
INF					
prouvé	prove	prouver	prouvé	prouve	PP
provisionné	provision	provisionner			
			provisionné		provisionne
PP					
pu, peu	power	pouvoir	pu	peut	3SG, PP
quité	leave	quitter	quitté	quitte	PP
raché	tear out	arracher	arraché	arrache	PP
rangé	tidy	ranger	rangé	range	PP
recevoir	receive	recevoir	reçu	reçoit	INF
recommandé	recommend	recommander			
			recommandé		
				recommande	
					PP
refair	redo	refaire	refait	refait	INF
remettre	put back	remettre	remis	remet	INF
remonter	go back up	remonter	remonté	remonte	INF
rend	give back	rendre	rendu	rend	3SG
renvoyé	send back	renvoyer	renvoyé	renvoie	PP
réservé	book, reserve				
		réserver	réservé	réserve	PP
resté	stay	rester	resté	reste	PP
reté	stop	arrêter	arrêté	arrête	PP
retrempé	retemper	retremper	retrempé	retrempe	PP
rivé, rivant	arrive	arriver	arrivé	arrive	PP
roulé, rouler	roll, run	rouler	roulé	roule	PP
rouzé	water	arroser	arrosé	arrose	PP
salé	salt	saler	salé	sale	PP
salué	greet	saluer	salué	salue	PP
sarclé	weed	sarcler	sarclé	sarcle	PP

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save	know	savoir	su	sait	INNO
semblé	seem	sembler	semblé	semble	PP
semé	sow	semer	semé	sème	PP
senti	feel	sentir	senti	sentir	PP
sondé	probe	sonder	sondé	sonder	PP
songé	think	songer	songé	songer	PP
sorti	go out	sortir	sorti	sortir	PP
souffri, souffri					
	suffer	souffrir	souffert	souffre	INF
souré	ensure	assurer	assuré	assure	PP
souveni	memory	souvenir	souvenu	souvient	INF
sufi	suffice	suffir	suffi	suffit	ALL
suivre	follow	suivre	suivi	suit	INF
surprend	surprise	surprendre	surpris	surprend	3SG
suyé	wipe	essuyer	essuyé	essuie	PP
taché	attach	attacher	attaché	attache	PP
tancher	quench	étancher	étanché	étanche	INF
tape	tap	tapper	tappé	tappe	?
terré	land	terrer	terré	terre	PP
tien, tienbé	contain	tenir	tenu	tient	3SG
tiré, tirer	pull	tirer	tiré	tire	INF, PP
tombé	fall	tomber	tombé	tombe	PP
traité	treat	traiter	traité	traite	PP
travailler	work	travailler	travaillé	travaille	INF
trem pé	soak	tremper	trempe	trempe	PP
trouvé	find	trouver	trouver	trouve	PP
veillé	watch	veiller	veillé	veille	PP
vende, vendre					
	sell	vendre	vendu	vend	INF, PP
verti	warn	avertir	averti	avertit	pp
vidé	empty	vider	vidé	vide	PP
vini	come	venir	venu	vient	PP
viré	turn	virer	viré	vire	PP
vlé, voudré					
	want	vouloir	voulu	veut	INNO or dialect
voir, voyon	see	voir	vu	voit	INF
voyé, avoyé	send	envoyer	envoyé	envoie	PP

6.2 Verbs

(COMM = command; INF = infinitive; INNO = innovation; PP = past participle; 3SG = third person singular).

It is not always easy to determine the most likely origin of the DHC Creole form. It was decided to rely mostly on the chosen spelling and find the form, or forms, that were most similar.

If one would rely on the choice of the spelling, past participles dominate. On the other hand, in many cases, the forms of the infinitives and past participle have the same pronunciation, even though the spellings differ. Sometimes the forms are similar to several forms.

There are 197 verbs in the list, but some in several forms, and a few of them not in use in modern French:

- (4) a. 130 (67%) of the verbs have the form of the past participle,
- b. 14 (7%) are ambiguous between the past participle and the infinitive, in that both are used,
- c. 31 (17 %) are derived from the infinitive,
- d. 6 (2%) are derived from the third person singular
- e. 3 (1%) are innovated (1%),
- f. 1 is ambiguous between third person and an infinitive,
- g. 1 is most likely derived from a command and
- h. 1 is ambiguous.

If one would consider the cases where the forms are homophonous in the infinitive and the past participle, or between a third person and a past participle, the ambiguous group would be much higher, but here we just took the spelling into account. In many cases, the polite imperative is also identical in pronunciation to the infinitive and the participle, but in no cases, the spelling was indicative of this origin.

French verbs can be divided into three main classes of regular verbs, based on the ending of the infinitive: *-er* class, *-ir* class, *-re* class. In addition, there are a number of irregular verbs. In Table 6.1, these classes and some of the irregular verbs are listed.

Verbs from the ‘*marcher*’ class (the most frequent ones), are overwhelmingly written with an ending *-é /e/* in DHC, and could be derived from both the infinitive, the past participle or the second person plural. These forms are homophonous in French, but different in meaning.

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Table 6.1: Selected French verbs in four different forms (written forms in < > and pronunciation in / /)

French verb	Infinitive	Participle	Third person	Imperative singular	Imperative plural/
<i>marcher</i> 'walk' (-er)	marʃe <marcher>	marʃe <marché>	marʃ <marche>	marʃ <marche>	marʃe <marchez>
<i>nourrir</i> 'feed' (-ir)	nurir <nourir>	nuri <nourri>	nuri <nourrit>	nuris <nourris>	nurise <nourrissez>
<i>dépendre</i> 'depend' (-dre)	depadr <dépendre>	depady <dépendu>	depa <dépend>	depa <dépends>	depade <dépendez>
<i>paraître</i> 'appear' (-tre)	paretr < paraître>	pary <paru>	pare <paraît>	pare <parais>	parese <paraissez>
<i>promettre</i> 'promise' (-tre)	prometr <promettre>	promi <promis>	promε <promet>	promε <promets>	promete <promettez>
<i>voir</i> 'see' (irregular)	vwar < voir>	vy <vu>	vwa <voit>	vwa <vois>	vwaje <voyez>
<i>pouvoir</i> glt 'can, be able' (irregular)	puvwar <pouvoir>	py <pu>	pø <peut>	-	-
<i>avoir</i> 'have' (irregular)	avwar <avoir>	y <eu>	a <a>	ε <aie>	εje <ayez>

6.2 Verbs

For 75% of the verbs, the only, or one of the chosen forms, is derived from the past participle. If one would take that as a default, one can take a look at the exceptions.

Three verbs are innovations, or at least not identical to the common sources in Table 6.1. The verb *meté, mété, metté* is not derived from the forms proposed. However, it is identical to second person imperative: *mettez* /mete/ and the second person plural of the present tense *vous mettez* /mete/ ‘you (pl) put’. The same can be said of the forms *save* and *vlé*, *vous savez* /save/ ‘you (pl.) know’, *vous voulez* /vule/ ‘you (pl.) want’. The imperative forms, however, are different: *sachez* and *veuillez*.

6.2.1 Derived forms of the French verb *être* ‘to be’

There are around half a dozen forms that are derived from inflected forms of the verb *être* ‘to be’, but they have all obtained ranges of meanings that differ from their French cognates, and sometimes also the form has changed. In many cases in which a form of the verb ‘to be’ is used in standard French, DHC does not use any.

- (5) a. *yé, déyé* infinitive (*de* + *yé*)
- b. *té* past, preverbal marker for past tense [1-3, 42, 46, 49, 51, 53, 57, 62, 72, 75, 81-87, 91, 96, 140, 147, 168, 172, 179, 182, 185-190, 221, 227, 235, 239]
- c. *sété, s’été, seté* subjunctive, counterfactual, preverbal
- d. *seré* counterfactual, preverbal
- e. *lité, li té* 3SG BE.PST [168]
- f. *lé* present tense ‘be’ 9
- g. *éti* (only used with ‘where’) [149]
- h. *Yé* could be derived from the 3d. person singular *est* /ε, e/ ‘is’, or from ‘il est’, which in its colloquial /je/ realization would fit. Alternatively, it could be from *ça y est* /sayε/ or from *il y est* /ilije, ije/. It seems to be used as an infinitive verb ‘to be’ in DHC, but there are only three cases in the material ([15, 44, 139]). The form *yé/déye* is used for an infinitive verb with a locative meaning ([44, 139]).
- i. *Té* is derived from the past particle *été* /ete/ ‘been’. In DHC, it is a preverbal TMA marker and it marks past or preterit. It is not used for the past participle. See Section 8.7.2 for more discussion.

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- j. *Seté* is derived from the imperfect form *c'était* 'it was'. In DHC, it functions as a counterfactual or an irrealis. It is a preverbal TMA marker. It is not used with the meaning 'it was'. See Section 8.7.20.
 - k. *Lité* is derived from the imperfect form *il était* 'he was'. It is only used once in this form (168), in the sentence: *si lité vendre* 'whether/if it would be sold', and as *ly té* in [49, 96, 172], and twice with NEG in [186] (*ly pa té*). ex *Lé* could be derived from French *il est* 'he/it is'. There is only one example (9), where it seems to cover the meaning as in French. An origin in *aller* (suggested by a reviewer) seems less likely, as no movement is involved, and a meaning of an unrealised situation is less obvious. The construction here is not completely transparent because of the *-vou* clitic.
- (6) vou doi sir personne pa lé comandé-vou com moué? [9]
 2.POL MUST certain nobody NEG he.is accommodate 2.POL THAN 1SG
 'soyez sûr que personne n'est plus accommodant que moi.'
 'be assured that no one is more accommodating than me'

Séré, derived from the present conditional *serait* 'it/he/she would be' or similar homophonous forms in French, where the verb has a counterfactual function in French. Note that French *serait* is consistently spelled *seroit* in Ducœurjoly (10), as was common at the time. It is interesting that the form *seré* appears, as if the sound change had not occurred yet in French. Actually, the same applies to the various forms with *té*, as the spelling of the French imparfait is always with <o>, viz. *étais/était/étaient*. It is placed before the main verb in DHC. See Section 8.7.19. The spelling *seroit/était* etc. was changed officially to *serait/était* in 1835, reflecting the actual pronunciation that had gradually overtaken during many decades.

The form *éti* is of less clear origin, most likely from the question phrase *est-il* 'is he/she/it?'. It is only used in combination with the question word *ou* 'where' [149]. It seems to be the case that the fixed phrase *où est-il* 'where is he/she/it' has provided the template for the standard way to ask 'where' in DHC ([139, 149, 211, 225]). Thus, the meaning no longer has a connection with 'to be'. See also Section 9.2. and Section 9.3.

6.2.2 Derived forms of the verb *aller* 'to go'

Several forms derived from the French verb *aller* 'to go' are used in the dialogues. The form *va* is exclusively used to mark future, in preverbal position. Forms like

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allé/alé may also indicate the meaning ‘to go’. In addition, there are (allomorphic) hortative forms like *allons*, *alon*, *anon*, which are used to mark the hortative mood.

- (7) a. *allé* infinitive ‘to go’ [65, 126, 143, 151, 212]
- b. *alé* infinitive ‘to go’ [44, 88, 177]
- c. *allons* hortative [208]
- d. *alon* hortative [98]
- e. *anon* hortative [117, 131]
- f. *va* future 9 etc.
- g. *valé* future (*va aller*) [143] (French: *ira* ‘will go’)

The form *va* is very frequent. It is unambiguously a future marker, placed before a verb, a modal marker or an adjective ([9, 11, 12, 13, 17-22, 28, 29, 35, 37-39, 45, 56-59, 63, 68, 92, 100, 103, 106, 111, 113-116, 123, 127, 128, 131, 135, 138, 143-145, 149, 151, 153, 157, 158, 161, 162, 165, 171, 174, 177, 180, 181, 183, 186, 190, 191, 195, 197, 198, 211, 212, 214, 216, 221, 222, 225, 230-232, 236, 238, 240-242, 244, 249, 250, 252, 253]).

- (8) to *va allé* demain [143]
 2SG FUT go tomorrow
 ‘tu ira demain’
 ‘you will go tomorrow’
- (9) Nou *va planté-ly carré*, ou ben *quinconce*? [232]
 1PL FUT plant-3 square or rather staggered
 ‘Le planterons-nous carrément ou en quinconce?’
 ‘Will we plant it squarely or staggered’

The forms *allé* and *alé* are the invariant forms, in two arbitrary ways of spelling, of the verbal meaning ‘to go’, as well as future.

- (10) vous *pa allé trouvé nion plu bel blan* [126]
 2.POL NEG FUT find INDEF more fine white
 ‘vous n’en trouverez-pas d’un plus beau blanc’
 ‘you won’t find a finer white’

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- (11) **M'allé** veillé ça, fau ben d'abord **n'allé** roulé [151]
 1SG-FUT take.care 3.INAN MOD WELL first 1PL-FUT roll
 'J'y veillerai, il faut, puisque nous allons rouler'
 'I will take care of it, it is necessary, since we are going to roll [the carts]'

It seems that the form *allé/alé* not only refers to future tense but also to the original meaning of movement, as in:

- (12) ... pour **n'allé** battre bois neuf. [212]
 In.order.to 1PL-go cut wood new
 'pour aller abattre un bois neuf.'
 '... to (go and) cut down new wood'
- (13) tou ça qui pas capable **alé** dan bois [221]
 ALL DEM REL.SUBJ NEG ABIL go in woods
 'tous ceux qui ne pourront pas aller dans le bois'
 'all those who will not be able to go into the woods'

6.2.3 Derived forms of the verb *avoir* 'to have'

Only two forms of the frequent French verb *avoir* 'to have' are attested, the form *avoir* and the third person present form *a*, but only indirectly. The infinitive *avoir* is used only once, with unclear function. No other forms are used. All functions of 'to have' have been taken over by the French verb *gagner* 'to obtain, to win', and by preverbal tense-aspect markers. In the only example with *avoir*, the exact meaning is unclear. It may be connected with expressions with *avoir* like *avoir soif* 'to be thirsty', *avoir froid* 'to be cold', *avoir envie* 'to like to', all referring to a state of mind.

- (14) Membre là yo doué **avoir** aussi fatigué. [54]
 Member DEF PL MUST HAVE also tire
 'Les membres doivent aussi avoir fatigué?'
 'The crew mbe '

In addition, the form *a* (French *a* 'he/she/it has') is attested, but only in the locative/existential expression *il y a /il y en a* 'there is, there are' and variants. These are discussed in Section 7.8 and Section 7.9.

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big boxes) and *gros bois* [214] ‘le gros bois’ (timber). No doubt the phonological form is /gro/, as both <gro> and <gros> would be pronounced as such in French.

The word for ‘dry, dryness’ is <scheh>, probably derived from the feminine form *sèche* /seʃ/ rather than from masculine form *sec* /sek/.

Another example is French *grand* ‘big’, French masculine form <grand> /gra/, feminine form <grande> /grad/. In DHC, however, the form is always <grand>, occasionally written <gran>. Thus, feminine ‘une grande chaloupe’ becomes *nion grand chaloupe* [18] and ‘la grande chaudière’ becomes *grand Chaudière* and *grand chaudiier là* [151, 154]. Sometimes the form is identical to the French masculine as in ‘le grand bassin’, as in DHC *grand bassin* [169].

The forms for ‘pretty, beautiful’ are quite different in French: *beau* (M), pronounced /bo/, and *bel(le)* (feminine), pronounced /bel/, both in singular and plural. The following forms can be found in the material:

- (17) *bel Flandre*
 belle(F) Flandre(F) [125]
 ‘beautiful Flanders’
- (18) *nion plu bel blan* [126]
 INDEF MORE beautiful white
 ‘un plus beau(M) blanc(M)’
 ‘a nicer white’
- (19) *bel pieds l’acajou* [221]
 beautiful leg(s)/trees mahogany
 ‘quelques beaux (M) pieds (M) d’acajou (M PL)’
 ‘some beautiful mahogany trees’
- (20) *z’equipage qui tré bel* [37]
 crew REL.SUBJ very beautiful
 ‘équipage (M), qui est très beau (M)’
 ‘crew, which is very nice’

It seems that the default form is *bel*, in connection with both masculine and feminine nouns. The only exception is *dan beau tem* [50] (French: *au beau temps* (M)), perhaps because of a frequent association, and as part of a fixed weather expression.

Adjectives can be nominalized: *grand là* ‘the big one’ (163). Other examples are [184, 203].

In short, adjectives have no special forms for masculine and feminine referents, they are gender-neutral. Neither do they mark number.

6.4 Adverbs

This is an alphabetical list of adverbs/adverbial expressions. Remember also that there is possibly a deadjectival suffix *-ment* creating adverbs (see Section 5.1.2). Below, I will treat some of them in more detail, organized by adverbs of time, place, and manner.

- (21) *à midy* ‘at midday’ Fr. *midi* [149]
à present ‘now’ Fr. *à présent* [51]
assé(s), assez ‘enough’ Fr. *assez* [157, 162, 170, 176, 177, 205, 209, 231, 239]
astor ‘now’ Fr. *maintenant* (< Fr. *à cette heure*, lit. ‘at that hour’) [107, 117]
aussi ‘also’ Fr. *aussi* [21, 22, 23, 54, 62, 81, 96, 99, 108, 113, 128, 131, 150, 151, 171, 211, 221, 244]
autant ‘so much’ Fr. *autant* [86, 190]
ben ‘well, somewhat’ Fr. *bien* [1, 14, 25, 33, 39, 39, 42, 45, 57, 79, 80, 81, 83, 89, 89, 94, 98, 100, 141, 143, 146, 151, 171, 195, 210, 229, 232, 242, 244],
bentot, bientôt ‘soon’ Fr. *bientôt* [73, 146]
davantage ‘more’ Fr. *davantage* ‘more’ [40]
d’ailleurs ‘elsewhere’ Fr. *d’ailleurs* [53]
dan ‘inside’ Fr. *dedans* [195]
en haut ‘above’ Fr. *en haut* [244]
en même temps ‘at the same time’ Fr. *en même temps* [92]
en plein ‘in full, completely’ Fr. *en plein* [60]
encor(e) ‘still, better’ Fr. *encore* [20, 29, 49, 130, 164, 196, 207, 209, 240, 249]
engaise, enguise ‘instead’ Fr. *en guise* ‘by way of’, ‘pretend’ [227, 233]
ensemble ‘together’ Fr. *ensemble* [44, 92]
ensuite ‘next’ Fr. *ensuite* [2, 59, 111]
néqué, nec, necqu ‘only, just’ Fr. *rien que* ‘nothing than’ [2, 23, 33, 37, 38, 43, 50, 53, 235, 248] (see Section 6.11.6).
par-tou ‘everywhere’ Fr. *partout* [211]
quasi ‘almost’ Fr. *quasi* [164]
seulement ‘only’ Fr. *seulement* [63, 66]
sol ‘alone’ Fr. *seul* [62]
sur-tout, surtout ‘above all’ Fr. *surtout* [71, 95, 97, 242]

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- tant* ‘so much’ Fr. *tant* [63, 66]
tan com, tan quon ‘just like’ Fr. *tant comme* [43, 59, 103]
tan mieu ‘so much the better’ Fr. *tant mieux* [39]
tou ‘very, totally’ Fr. *tout* [62, 188]
toujour(s) ‘always’ Fr. *toujours* [80, 173]
tou même ‘as much’ (lit. ‘all same’) Fr. *tout même* [183]
tou(-)plein ‘much, many’ Fr. *beaucoup* ‘much, many’ [44, 52, 55, 97, 184]
(tout plein ‘all full’)
tou suit, tou souit(e) ‘immediately’ Fr. *tout de suite* [181, 210, 236]
tré ben ‘very well’ Fr. *très bien* [80]
très-ben ‘very well’ Fr. *très bien* [206]
tré-bon ‘very good’ Fr. *très bon* [107]
très-bien ‘very well’ Fr. *très bien* [71]
très-possible ‘very well possible’ Fr. *très bien possible* [76]
trop ‘too much’ Fr. *trop* [18], [62]
yto ‘also’ Fr. *itou* see Section 6.4.6
“yana” ‘ago’ Fr. *il y en a* see Section 6.4.2
-ment adv. suffix Fr. *-ment* see Section 5.1.3

6.4.1 Adverbial time expressions

Tense can be expressed by preverbal particles to be discussed in Section 8.7. There are other ways to express time, for instance, through adverbs. The following expressions are used to indicate days or

(22) time of day:

- jordy* today < Fr. *aujourd’hui* [147]
demain tomorrow < Fr. *demain* [20]
ahier yesterday < Fr. *hier* (only in *Vocabulaire* p. 324)
demain matin tomorrow morning < Fr. *demain matin* [20]
après-démain day after tomorrow < Fr. *jour après demain* [138]
minuit midnight < Fr. *demain* [196, 200]
à midy noon < Fr. *midi* [149]

The following expressions of frequency are found:

- #### (23)
- souvent* often < Fr. *souvent* [42]
jamai(s) never < Fr. *jamais* [41, 67]
tems en tems from time to time < Fr. *de temps en temps, de temps à autre* [211]

6.4 Adverbs

The following expression of temporal **sequence** are found:

- (24) *d'abord* first of all [125, 135] < Fr. *d'abord*
ensuite (soon?) after [2, 59, 111, 125, 216] < Fr. *ensuite*
tou souite, tou suit immediately [181, 210, 236] < Fr. *tout de suite*
pui after [216] < Fr. *puis*
en même temps at the same time [92] < Fr. *au même temps*
pendant là during this time [218] < Fr. *pendant ce temps*

The adverbial expression *d'abord* has the meaning 'first, first of all', as in French. It is also used as a conjunction in DHC with a causal or motivational meaning. See Section 10.4.4 for the conjunction.

- (25) Nou gagné besoin plisieurs sorte toile, **d'abord**, bel Flandre [125]
 1PL have NEED several kind cloth first (name)
 'Nous avons besoin de plusieurs sortes de toile: **d'abord**, de belle Flandre'
 'We need several kinds of cloth: **first-of-all**, Belle Flandre'
- (26) **D'abord**, 4 caisses vin
 '1°. 4 Caisses de vin [135]
 ,
 'first of all, four crates of wine'

6.4.2 *Li en à 'ago', pui dans 'later'*

The English expression *ago* refers to a point in time before the time of speech. DHC has taken over the French phrase *il y a* (lit. 'there is/are') or *il y en a* 'there is/are some' in a modified form. For the existential/locative construction, see Section 9.8, Section 9.9 and Section 9.10. In the DHC dialogues one can find: *lyen à*, *ly en à*, *lien à*.

- (27) a. *Lyen à long-tem* 'ago' (probably *il y en a* /(l)jana/) [35]
 b. *ly en à* 'ago' (probably *il y en a* /(l)jana/) [43]
 c. *li en à* 'ago' (probably *il y en a* /(l)jana/) [94]
 d. *lien à* 'ago' (probably *il y en a* /(l)jana/) [235]

There is a variety of spellings, and there is no reason that the 'ago' meaning is different in form from the 'there is/are' meaning.

For the opposite direction in time, the future, one can find this example:

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- (28) *Pui dan quinze jours* [216]
 Then in 15 days
 ‘Quinze jours après’
 ‘fifteen days later’

6.4.3 Adverbial expressions of space and place

There are very few place adverbials in the material.

- (29) a. *ici* ‘here’ Fr. *ici* [44, 108, 118, 119] (also derived -cy [6, 229])
 b. *côté-cy côté-là* ‘here and there’ Fr. *par-ci par-là*, [229]
 c. *par-tou* ‘everywhere’ Fr. *partout* [221]
 d. *en haut* ‘at the top’ Fr. *en haut* [244]
 e. *à* ‘‘ ‘here’ *à terre*
 f. *d’ailleur* ‘elsewhere’ Fr. *d’ailleurs* [53]

6.4.4 Adverbs of manner

As discussed above in Section ??., the suffix *-(e)ment* seems to be a productive formation for expressing manner adverbials.

6.4.5 Adverbs of degree

Some adverbs specify the degree to which an adjective or another adverb applies. These include *assé(s)*, *assez* ‘enough’, *autant* ‘so much’, *ben* ‘well, somewhat’, *en plein* ‘in full, completely’, *quasi* ‘almost’, *seulement* ‘only’, *tant* ‘so much’, *tou* ‘very, totally’ *trop* ‘too much’. They are close in form and meaning to their French equivalents. Here is one example of *autant* ‘so much’.

- (30) *Vou té coné vou gagné crédit là caze à moué, mo pa fair*
 2.POL PST know 2.POL have credit DEF house TO 1SG 1SG NEG do
autant à tout monde? [86]
 so.much TO all people
 ‘Vous saviez que vous avez crédit chez moi, ce que je ne ferois pas à tout le monde.’
 ‘You knew you have credit with me, which I don’t do as much to everyone.’

The adverb *a assé(s), assez* ‘enough’ can appear both before and after the predicate. It appears before the noun in [157] and after the noun in [176] and [177], and before the predicate in [231] and [239], and after the predicate in [209]. It functions as a main predicate in [162] and as an adverb in [205].

6.4.6 Other adverbs

Other adverbs include one that is not used in modern French, the form *yto* ‘also’

The element *yto* only appears once:

- (31) Tou ça en état, rafraîchissoir là-**yto** [202]
 All 3SG in state cooler DEF-also
 ‘Tout ça est en état, ainsi que le rafraîchissoir.’
 ‘All of this is in good condition, as well as the cooler’

The adverb *yto* is from French *itou* from Old French *atut* (*à tout*) and means ‘also, the same’. The hyphen doesn’t seem justified here though, as the DEF marker *là* belongs to the preceding noun. Hazaël Massieux (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 224 n. 385) writes about *là-yto*: “Long form for ‘also’, most often in Haitian we simply have ‘tou’, the context can favor the reduction when for example we have ‘li (i) tou’.”¹

The adverb *encor(e)* has two meanings in Creole. It can mean ‘still, even’, as in French, but in one case it has acquired a meaning of ‘no longer’.

- (32) nous gagné **encor** trois vingt, ou ben quatre vingt canaris pour vidé
 1PL HAVE still three twenty or four twenty [161]
 ‘Nous avons **encore** soixante ou quatre-vingts pots ou canaris à y mettre’
 ‘We **still** have sixty or eighty pots to put in there.’
- (33) ça va **encore** py miyor [29]
 DEM FUT STILL MORE BETTER
 ‘cela sera **encore** mieux’
 ‘It/that will be **even** better’
- (34) n’a pa parlé moué ça **encore** [332]
 NEG.IMPER speak 1SG that anymore
 ‘ne m’en parlez **plus**’

¹Forme longue pour “aussi”, le plus souvent en haïtien on a simplement “tou”, le contexte pouvant favoriser la réduction quand par exemple on a “li (i) tou”.

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‘don’t talk to me about it **anymore**’

In general, the adverbs are close to French. There are some innovative aspects as well, in that several adverbs (and prepositions) have grammaticalized to conjunctions connecting clauses, to be dealt with in Section 10.4 below.

6.5 Prepositions

More than ten different prepositions are used in the dialogues, all of them derived from French, but not all of them are translation equivalents of the French prepositions. Some only occur once, others are reasonably frequent. First, an overview is given in a list, and then examples will be provided. Several of them are also used as conjunctions. Those will also be dealt with elsewhere (Section 10.4).

6.5.1 Overview prepositions

à ‘in, to, on, for’

- (35) Possessive: [1, 2, 4, 9, 10, 15, 17, 18, 21, 23, 30, 31, 37?, 39, 43, 44, 45, 48, 52, 56, 58, 60, 61, 62, 65, 67, 82, 83, 86, 88, 93, 96, 97, 103, 107, 112, 114, 116, 117, 122, 125, 131, 138, 149, 161, 226]
 General: [26, 131]
 Recipient: [44, 52, 65, 66, 86, 165, 190, 200]
 Connector: [6, 151, 177, 179, 192, 195, 221]
 Locative: [17, 20, 21, 39, 42, 62, 65, 93, 98, 184, 200, 231]
 Locative or temporal: [43, 51, 53, 65, 103, 149, 196, 247]
 Idiomatic: [59, 66, 67, 107, 156, 227, 249]
 Infinitival: [44, 171]
 Undetermined: [78]
acque ‘with’ < French *avec* [43, 128, 143?, 186?]
après ‘after’ (also conjunction) < French *après* [51]
a(n)vant ‘before’ (also conjunction) < French *avant* [44, 49, 61]
auparavant ‘beforehand’ < French [59]
com, quon ‘like’ (also conjunction) < French *comme* [28, 59, 92, 103] (CONJ: [17, 43, 103])
dan ‘in’ < French *dans*
Dan: [46, 49, 51, 61, 102, 103, 112, 113, 138, 153, 157, 160, 181, 184, 185, 190, 192, 201, 203, 211, 216, 221, 226, 227, 238, 240, 242].

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Dans: [6, 10, 156, 163, 171, 174, 180, 211, 221, 222, 227].

de ‘of, from’ [21, 109, 132, 135, 136, 211]

dempy, dan py ‘since’ < French *depuis* [43, 190]

douvan ‘in front of’ < French *devant* [149]

en ‘in, on’ < French *en* [13, 17, 38, 56, 60, 92, 93, 108, 113, 153, 173, 202, 211, 223, 244]

entre ‘between’ < French *entre* [53]

jouc ‘until’ < French *jusqu’à* [196, 198]

par ‘by’ < French *par* [11, 12, 22, 51, 64, 188] (also infinitival) [90]

pour ‘for’ (also conjunction and infinitival) < French *pour*

It is not only a preposition, but also a conjunction and a connective in a small clause, as in French.

Prep: [13, 19, 37, 57, 66, 94, 148, 150, 165, 177, 196, 197, 235]. (often used as small clause connective: [11, 22, 43, 44, 54, 56, 62, 72, 97, 112, 125, 125, 146, 150, 151, 152, 156, 161, 164, 170, 173, 176, 179, 181, 190, 192, 195, 200, 208, 210, 211, 212, 214, 218, 221, 222, 241, 244])

sans ‘without’ < French *sans* [88]

sous ‘under’ < French *sous* [222]

sur, la sur, là sus ‘on top of’ < French (*là* ‘there’) *sur*

su [23], *sur* [1, 66], *là sur* [103], *la/là sus* [157, 174, 200]

There are some additional examples of *là sur* and *là sus* in the *Vocabulaire* part (p. 310, p. 311, p. 325, p. 333, where it is given as the equivalent of *dessus* ‘on top’).

Note that all DHC prepositions are also French prepositions and that some DHC prepositions also function as conjunctions (see Section 10.4). Here the prepositions will be exemplified, and in sections Section 10.4 and Section 10.5 the conjunctions, infinitivals, and small clauses will be discussed.

6.5.2 Individual prepositions

6.5.3 *à* ‘to’

The preposition *à* has several uses: a locative, a connector of nouns, a marker of possession (POSSESSED *à* POSSESSOR), and possibly also some fossilized uses in expressions.

- (36) *touéle à vouéle* 6 (connector)
 cloth to sail
 ‘*toiles à voile*’
 ‘*sailcloth*’

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Possessors with *à* are often personal pronouns, but nouns are also found.

- (37) depart *à* moué [2]
 departure TO 1SG
 ‘mon départ’
 ‘my departure’
- (38) mai mo va ba-vou quien² *à* z’equipage qui tré bel [37]
 BUT 1SG FUT give-2.POL ?? TO crew REL very good/beautiful
 ‘mais je vais vous en donner de celui d’équipage, qui est très beau.’
 ‘but I’m going to give you some **of** the crew’s, which is very good.’

Some indicate a location.

- (39) mo engagé moué mète tout cargaison *à* vou *à* terre en 4 jours
 1SG promise 1SG put ALL load TO 2.POL LOC land IN four day(s) [17]
 ‘je m’engage *à* mettre votre cargaison *à* terre en 4 jours’
 ‘I promise to put your cargo **in** land in four days’

Some seem to be idiomatic, and taken over from French with the preposition, such as *à présent* ‘now’ (51), *à bord* ‘on board’ ([21, 65]), *à part* ‘apart, aside’ (103).

- (40) quant ya [SIC: 3PL? yo va 3PL FUT?] vini *à* midy. [149]
 WHEN 3PL come TO noon
 ‘en revenant *à* midi’
 ‘on their return at noon’
- (41) Vou haimé ly *à* taffia ou ben *à* rum? [26]
 2.POL love 3SG PREP taffia OR well PREP rum
 ‘L’aimez-vous **au** taffia ou **au** rum?’
 ‘Do you like it **with** taffia or **with** rum?’
- (42) 8 Barils farine, *à* . . . 82 [132]
 8 barrels flour, FOR
 ‘eight barrels of flour **for** 82’

The preposition *à* is no longer in use in Standard Southern Haitian Creole, but it is still in use in the north (Sylvain 1936: 66; Fattier 2013) for the expression of possession. The meanings for DHC found here, do not differ substantially from the equivalents in French.

²See Section 13.1 for possible interpretations of *quien*.

6.5 Prepositions

6.5.4 *acque* ‘with, and’

No doubt, *acque* is derived from the French preposition *avec*. In DHC, it has three basic functions. It can be a preposition, presumably both comitative and instrumental (often indeed a translation equivalent of French *avec* ‘with’). It can also be a coordinating conjunction ‘and’. This combination of functions for the preposition meaning ‘with’ is found in many creole languages. The equivalence of ‘with’ and ‘and’ is found in APiCS as feature 71, WALs feature 63A. Also in modern Haitian (see <https://apics-online.info/valuesets/49-71>; Fattier 2013), *ak* can be used as a preposition ‘with’ and as a conjunction ‘and’ to connect noun phrases, and it also functions as a conjunction with the short form *a* ‘and’. In DHC, *avec* is used as an instrumental preposition, a conjunction and a comitative:

- (43) Nourrices (...) yo va fouillé trou l’entourage **acque** louchet [221]
 childminder (...) 3PL FUT search hole surrounding WITH spade
 ‘Les nourrices (...) fouilleront les trous de l’entourage **avec** l’ouchet.’
 ‘The childminders (...) will search the holes in the surroundings **with** the spade’

- (44) D’abord ça com ça, nou va fair ly au z’eux **acque** rom.
 CONJ THAT like THAT 1PL FUT make 3SG PREP egg with/and rum [28]
 ‘Puisque cela est ainsi, nous allons la faire aux œufs, **et** au rum.’
 ‘Since that’s how it is, we’ll make it [punch drink] with eggs **and** rum’

- (45) mo gagné nion grand chaloupe qui capable fair voyage conséquens
 1SG have INDEF big boat REL CAN make trip long
avec matelot là yo (18)
 with sailor DEF PL
 ‘j’ai une grande chaloupe qui peut faire des voyages conséquens **avec** les matelots’
 ‘I have a big boat that can make long trips **with** the sailors’

6.5.5 *anvant, avant* ‘before’

The preposition *anvant/avant* is used for temporal ‘before’. There are no examples of a spatial meaning ‘in front of’ for this preposition. For that function *douvan* is used.

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- (46) même **avant** coup canon [44]
 even BEFORE shot cannon
 ‘même **avant** le coup de canon.’
 ‘even **before** the cannon shot.’
- (47) Ly té carené **avant** nou parti [49]
 3SG PST careen BEFORE 1PL depart
 ‘Il a été caréné **avant** notre départ’
 ‘It [the ship] was careened **before** we left’
- (48) mo pas capable entreprendre ly **avant** nion mois [61]
 1SG NEG ABLE undertake 3SG BEFORE one month
 ‘je ne puis l’entreprendre que **dans** un mois’
 ‘I can only start it **in** a month’

It seems that *avant* is more often used as a preposition, and *avan(t)* more often as a conjunction. It could be that *avant* is derived from French *en avant de* ‘before, in front of’. That would explain the presence of a nasal vowel in the first syllable, which is not original to French *avant*.

6.5.6 *après* ‘after’

There is only one example of the prepositional use of *après*.

- (49) Primié jours **après** z’orage [51]
 First day-PL after storm
 ‘Les premiers jours **d’après** l’orage’
 ‘The first days **after** the storm’

It is more common as a progressive aspect marker. See Section 8.7.8.

6.5.7 *com, quon* ‘like’ ‘than’

As suggested by the spelling, this preposition is most likely pronounced /kõ/ or /kɔ/ rather than as French *comme* /kɔm/. It is used in DHC not only as the preposition *comme* in French ‘like’, as in:

- (50) Mo coné ça tan **quon** vous [59]
 1SG know THIS SAME LIKE 2.POL
 ‘Je sais cela comme vous’
 ‘I know this like you’

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It is also used in a type of comparative construction: unlike French, where *que* would be used.

- (51) vou doi sir personne pa lé comandé-vou **com** moué? [9]
 2.POL MUST be.sure nobody NEG ??? accommodate-2.POL like 1SG
 ‘soyez sûr que personne n’est plus accommodant **que** moi.’
 ‘Be assured that no one is more accommodating **than** me.’

6.5.8 *coté/côté* ‘near’

[23, 45, 49, 107, 151, 249] (not all prepositional)

This preposition *coté/côté* is derived from the French prepositional expression *à côté de*, meaning ‘beside’. The form *coté/côté* is also used as a noun (‘side’) or adverb (‘near’) in DHC.

- (52) tou ça qui coté grand panneau [23]
 ALL THIS REL NEAR big panel
 ‘tout ce qui est auprès du grand panneau’³
 ‘everything near the cargo hatch cover’

6.5.9 *dan, dans* ‘in’

The preposition *dan* is derived from the French preposition *dans* ‘in’. It is used with location and time.

- (53) **dan** vieux cafés à ly [226]
 IN old coffee.plant TO 3SG
 ‘dans ses vieux cafés’
 ‘in his old coffee plants’
- (54) Nou té rouzé ly **dan** tems là [185]
 1PL PST water 3SG in time DEF
 ‘Nous l’avons arrosée, **dans** le temps.’
 ‘We watered it **in** time/at the time/at that time of the year’
- (55) Nou **dan** saison [240]
 1PL LOC season
 ‘Nous sommes **dans** la saison’
 ‘we are **in** season’

³See Willaumez (1831: 425)

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Even though the DHC and French prepositions have quite similar functions, there are also differences, like creole *dan fond*, French *au fond* ‘at the bottom’, *dan purgerie* and French in Ducœurjoly *à la purgerie* ‘in the purgery’ (but *dans la purgerie* is also correct French). DHC *dan* has a broader use than French *dans*.

(56) De ‘of, from’

The French preposition *de* is not often used in DHC. Yet, is quite frequent in French. It indicates origin, it is used in partitive constructions with non-count nouns and as a connector in some compounds. Ducœurjoly expressed it like this in his *Vocabulaire* (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 308): “There are many sentences where we delete *de*, but there is no rule”⁴. Some examples seem to be copies of the French expression *coup de canon* ‘cannon shot’ [21] (also *coup canon*, [44]), others relate to quantities. One has the meaning ‘from’:

- (57) Ça ben Cap-Breton, car yo vendé-nou **de** l’endrèt-là six foi passé
 That well Cap-Breton, for 3PL sell-1PL from place-DET six time PASS
 qué yo fair. [109]
 THAT 3PL do
 ‘Est-ce bien du Cap Breton, car on nous en vend **de** cet endroit, six fois
 plus qu’on n’en fait.’
 ‘Is it from Capbreton, for they sell to us from this place, six times more
 than they produce.’

6.5.10 dempy (dans py) ‘since’

This preposition is derived from French *depuis* ‘since’. There are only one or two examples in the dialogues. This is the clearest one:

- (58) dempy cinq jours [190]
 ‘for five days’

The other is written as <dans py>, as if it consists of the French-derived words *dans* ‘in’ and *plus* ‘more’, but it would be pronounced the same as *dempy* /dāpi/.

- (59) plu-part les autres suivre moué **dans py** plusieurs voyages. [43]
 majority ??? others follow 1SG since several voyages
 ‘la plupart des autres m’ont suivi **depuis** plusieurs voyages.’
 ‘most of the others have followed me **for** several trips.’

The meanings in DHC and French are parallel.

⁴Il est beaucoup de phrases où l’on supprime *de*, mais il n’y a pas de règle.

6.5 Prepositions

6.5.11 *douvan* ‘in front of’

The preposition *douvan* is derived from the French preposition *devant* ‘in front of’. The preposition *douvan* is only found once in the dialogues, and it has the spatial meaning ‘in front of’. In the *Vocabulaire* part, there are some additional examples, all spatial (*Ducœurjoly 1802b*: 310).

- (60) cabrouets là-yo, va prend **douvan** jounpa à yo, quant ya [sic: yo?]
 carts DEF-PL FUT take IN.FRONT hut TO 3PL WHEN 3PL
 vini à midy. (149)
 come AT noon
 ‘les cabrouets prendront **devant** leurs ajounpa, en revenant à midi.’
 ‘the carts will take [the products] **in front of** their hut, on their return at noon.’

6.5.12 *en* ‘in, on’

The preposition *en* is derived from French. Even though *en* is reasonably frequent with some 17 appearances, it seems that all of them are direct copies of French set phrases. They may have been taken over directly from French in a PREP-NOUN combination. Examples are *en bloc* ‘in bulk’ (13), *en ville* ‘in town’ (93), *en bouteille* ‘bottled, in bottle’ (211), *en état* ‘in good condition’ [153, 173, 202], all of which are used in the same way in French.

6.5.13 *entre* ‘between’

There is only one example of *entre* ‘between’, with the same function as the French equivalent *entre*, in this case, a spatial meaning.

- (61) **entre** bordage carté là yo [53]
 between plank spread DEF PL
 ‘entre les bordages écartés’
 ‘between the spread planks’

6.5.14 *jouc* ‘until’

The preposition *jouc* ‘until’ is undoubtedly derived from French *jusqu’à* ‘until’, with a spatial and temporal meaning. It is only used twice in DHC, both with a temporal meaning.

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- (62) *jouc demain*
jusqu'à demain [198]
 'until tomorrow'
- (63) *jouc minuit*
jusqu'à minuit [196]
 'until midnight'

6.5.15 *par* 'by', 'through', 'per'

The preposition *par* is used in essentially the same functions as its equivalent would be used in French. It can have a distributive meaning with regards to time (per trip/day), a temporal meaning (in 24 hours), and it can indicate an agent in a causative or passive-like construction (by the guards).

- (64) *vous s'été gagné vingt par jour.* [11]
 2.POL IRR have 20 per day
 'en eussiez-vous vingt par jour.'
 'if you had twenty per day'
- (65) *comben vous va prendre moué par voyage z'accon?* [12]
 how.much 2.POL FUT take 1SG per trip barge
 'Combien me prendrez-vous par voyage d'accon?'
 'How much will you charge me per barge trip?'
- (66) *6 gourdes par jour* [64]
6 gourdes par jour
 '6 gourds⁵ a day'
- (67) *Nou va commencé aussi par farine* [22]
 1PL FUT begin also PER flour
 'Nous commencerons aussi par la farine'
 'We will also start with the flour'
- (68) *nou té fair trente-six pouces par vingt-quatre heurs* [51]
 1PL PST make 36 inch(es) PER 20-4 hour(s)
 'nous en faisions trente-six pouces par vingt-quatre heures'
 '[The water was rising], we were doing thirty-six inches in twenty-four hours'

⁵Gourds are not only food items, but *gourd* is also the name of the local currency.

6.5 Prepositions

- (69) Mo fair yo tou débarrassée **par** gardien là-yo [188]
 1SG make 3PL ALL clear BY guard DEF-PL
 ‘J’ai tout fait débarrasser **par** les gardiens’
 ‘I had everything cleared **by** the guards’

It is possibly used once as an indicator of an agent in a passive construction, which is remarkable as passive constructions are rare in creole languages in general, if indeed the next example indicates a passive, rather than adjectival with a meaning like ‘before it’s full of wine-casks’.

- (70) anvant ly barassé **par** di vin [22]
 BEFORE 3SG clutter BY wine
 ‘avant qu’il ne soit embarrassé **par** le vin’
 ‘before it gets cluttered **by** the wine’

It can also be used to introduce small clauses, see Section 10.5. The preposition *par* is used in DHC in similar ways as it is in French. Note that French includes a negative element *ne*, which is not used in DHC.

6.5.16 *pour* ‘for’

The preposition *pour* ‘for’ is identical in form French *pour*, and the context of use also the same. The preposition *pour* can be used for a benefactive, for purpose, for amounts, for arranged time, similarly to the use of this preposition in French.

- (71) *pour* madame Dumas [37]
 ‘*pour* madame Dumas’
 ‘for madame Dumas’
- (72) *pour* demain [157]
 ‘*pour* demain’
 ‘for tomorrow’
- (73) Vou premier à qui mo laissé ly *pour* prix-là [66]
 2.POL first TO WHO.REL 1SG LET 3SG FOR price-DEF
 ‘Vous êtes le premier à qui je l’aurai laissé *pour* ce prix’
 ‘You are the first to whom I have sold it **for** this price’

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- (74) mo vende ly li en à troi jour **pour** 3 ou ben 4
 1SG sell 3SG ago three day for three or four thousand pound goods
 mille livres marchandises [94]

‘je lui ai vendu il y a trois jours **pour** 3 ou 4 mille livres de différentes marchandises.’

‘I sold to him **for** 3 or 4 thousand pounds of different goods three days ago.’

- (75) l’embarcadair, **pour** dernière n’etivée [147]
 pier FOR last stew
 ‘l’embarcadair **de** la dernière étuvée’
 ‘the boarding **of** the last stew’

6.5.17 *sans* ‘without’

Sans ‘without’ is only found in the fixed expression *sans doubt* ‘without doubt’ (88), identical to its use in French.

6.5.18 *là sou* ‘under’

This preposition is derived from French *là* ‘there’ and *sous* ‘under’. It is used only once in the *Dialogues*, and it has the same meaning as in French.

- (76) *là sou vent*
 sous le vent [222]
 ‘under the wind’

The form *sou* is not used in isolation. Further examples of *là sou* can be found in the *Vocabulaire* on p. 310 and 351.

6.5.19 *la su(r)*, *la sus* ‘on’

[1, 66, 103, 157, 174, 200]

The preposition *su*, *sur* is derived from the French preposition *sur* ‘on top of, upon’. There is also an archaic form *sus*, also *en sus de* ‘on top of’. As *sus* sounds the same as *su*, the different spelling is not important. In DHC, the meanings are similar to French. Three times it is written *sus*, a variant known in French in *dessus* ‘on top’ or rather *là dessus*, going back to the archaic form *sus* (*Dictionnaire*

6.5 Prepositions

de Moyen Français, under *sus*). The preposition is almost always preceded by the deictic *la/là*, hence *là su*, *là sus*. The preposition *sus* is always accompanied by the deictic element *la* or *là*, so the form is actually *lasus*. Probably it is derived from *là dessus* ‘on it’. There are also some examples in the vocabulary part (p. 287, p. 295).

- (77) **Là sur** rade [66]
 ON harbour
 ‘en rade’
 ‘in the harbour’
- (78) **Là sur** 2 barils beuf la [103]
 ON two barrels beef DEF
 ‘sur ces 2 barils de bœuf’
 ‘on these two barrels of beef’
- (79) **su l’avant**
sur l’avant [23]
 ‘at the front’
- (80) blessés **la sus** garrot [174]
 wounded ON withers
 ‘blessés au garrot’
 ‘injured at the withers’
- (81) **là sus** chaudière [200]
 ON kettle
 ‘à leur chaudière’
 ‘at their kettle’

The preposition is not always used as in French, but reasonably close. Several locative prepositions compete, both in French and in DHC. The following example contains two locative prepositions, both of which are different in the French and Creole versions.

- (82) Fau dépêcher **la sus** sucre la yo qui **dan** purgerie. [157]
 MUST hurry ON sugar DEF PL REL in purgery
 ‘Il faut se dépêcher **sur** les sucres qui sont à la purgerie.’
 ‘We have to hurry **on** the sugars which are **in** the purgery.’

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A rough count of the number of times that French uses *dans* ‘in’ reveals that in twenty-one cases the creole version also has *dan(s)*, and in 20 cases a different preposition is used, hence roughly 50% *dans*, and otherwise *à/au*, *de*, *en*, *après* (postposition). French *en* ‘on, in, at’ is translated 12 times as *en* in Creole, and thrice in a different way [211, 223, 244].

6.5.20 Lacking prepositions

In a few cases, prepositions are lacking where they would be expected, and usually they are present in the French versions.

- (83) charrois là-yo nou sorti fair l'embarcadair [147]
 cartloads DEF-PL 1PL RP make pier
 ‘charrois que nous avons fait à l'embarcadair’
 ‘transportations by cart that we just did at the pier’
- (84) Mo tiré ly mo-même l'endrét? [110]
 1SG PULL 3SG 1G-SELF place
 ‘Je l'ai tiré moi-même du lieu?’
 ‘I pulled it myself from the place?’
- (85) ly pa té resté guère d'iau la rivière [186]
 3SG NEG PST stay hardly water THERE river
 ‘il ne restoit guère d'eau à la rivière’
 ‘There was hardly any water left in the river’

6.5.21 Summary prepositions

The number of prepositions in DHC is relatively large, with some 15 attested forms, and many of them are close to French usage. However, locative prepositions may differ in use and meaning between French and Creole.

6.6 Numerals

These are the numerals encountered in DHC:

- (86) CARDINAL ORDINAL
 1 *nion* [238] *primié* [51]
 2 *deux* [123, 178, 235, 238] *deuxième* [158, 170]

6.6 Numerals

- second* [181]
 3 *troi(s)* [94, 112, 238] (part of the fixed expression 'deux trois')
 4 *quatre* [123, 127, 128]
 5 *cinq* [235]
 6 *six* [43, 109, 241] *sixième* 2
 7 (n.a.)
 8 *huit* [121, 214]
 9 (n.a.)
 10 (n.a.)
 11 (n.a.)
 12 (n.a.)
 13 *treize* [51]
 15 *quinze* [182]
 16 *seize* [182]
 20 *vingt* [11, 149, 164, 182, 233, 248] (most as part of compounds)
 21 *vingt-nion* [233] (modern standard French: *vingt-et-un*)
 22 *vingt-deux* [248]
 24 *vingt-quatre* [51, 197]
 36 *trente-six* [51]
 60 *trois vingt* [149, 164] (modern standard French: *soixante*)
 80 *quatre-vingt* [164, 197]
 100 *cent* [247]
 225 *deux cent vingt-cinq* [248]
 300 *quinze vingt* [182] (modern standard French: *trois cents*)
 320 *seize vingt* [182]
 400 *vingt fois vingt* [182] (modern standard French: *quatre-cents*)
 20,000 *vingt mille* [233]
 21,000 *vingt-nion mille* [233]
 22,500 *Vingt-deux mille cinq cents* [248]
 FRACTIONS
 1/2 *dimi* [238]
 1/3 *tiers* [204]

The numerals are directly taken over from French. Up to the number 36, all attested numbers are identical to standard French. The higher numerals in the teens and hundreds, however, are based on scores, more so than in French, including the French text in the book: *trois vingt* (Fr. *soixante*) 'sixty', *quinze vingt* = fifteen

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twenty (Fr. *trois cents* = three hundreds) ‘three hundred’, *seize vingt* = sixteen twenty (*trois cents et quelques* = three hundreds and something) ‘320’, *vingt fois vingt* = twenty times twenty (Fr. *quatre cents* ‘four hundreds’) ‘four hundred’. Counting in twenties was more common in the 17th and 18th centuries. *Trois vingts* for 60 was used in some French dialects until recently (thanks to William Jennings for this information).

The etymon of *nion* ‘one’ is French ‘une’, realized as /jun/ with allophonic nasalization. The DHC spelling seems to indicate regressive nasalization affecting an entire syllable. There is an interesting spelling contrast worth mentioning: in the PASSION text in Early Haitian Creole of 1720–1740 (G. Hazaël-Massieux 1994, 1996b; M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008), the word is spelled <ïoune>, and one could maintain that the indefinite articles <nion> and <ïoune> ‘a, an’ are both different choices made to represent the same word: /jun/ with nasalisation of the /u/ and the /j/. (Stéphane Goyette, p.c.)

There are a couple of cases of an approximate numeral: *douzaine* ‘dozen’ (113), *vingtaine* ‘some twenty, a score’ (21). The expression *deux trois* for ‘some, a few’ is also an approximative numeral.

The ordinal numerals also appear to be from French, concluded on the basis of the only four forms that are attested. As in French, two forms for ‘second’ are attested, and these may shed light on variation. In [158] and [170], the French form ‘seconde’ is translated with ‘deuxième’. The speaker is the “maître sucrier”, the sugar master. This seems all the more likely considering that in French *second* is more elevated style and ‘deuxième’ more colloquial, sociolinguistically. Traditionally, *deuxième* is used when there are more than two in the series, second when there are only two, as pointed out by a reviewer, but that distinction is not compatible with the contexts. In [181], *second* is used both in French and Creole, and the speaker is the owner of the sugar plant, no doubt a person of European extraction.

- (87) nou té fair **trente-six** pouces par **vingt-quatre** heurs [51]
 1PL PST make 36 inch by 24 hour
 ‘nous en faisons **trente-six** pouces par **vingt-quatre** heures’
 ‘we were making **thirty-six** inches per **twenty-four** hours’ [in a ship]

Numerals can also be used independently, as in:

- (88) Mo gagné **nion** rue Bacq. [8]
 1SG have one street Bacq
 ‘J’en ai **un** dans la rue du Bacq.’
 ‘I have **one** [sale location, store] in the rue du Bacq.’

6.7 Personal and possessive pronouns

Remember that the numeral *nion* ‘one’ is also used as an indefinite article. See Section 6.10.

6.7 Personal and possessive pronouns

There are the usual six pronouns, three singular and three plural ones. The first and second person singular have long and short forms. The long forms are also used in the possessive.

(89) Personal pronouns examples

Long short possessive

1SG *moué mo à moue* [1, 2, 9, 12]

2SG.F *toué to à toué* [143, 147], (p. 316, 353, 392)

2SG.P *vou(s) - à vous, à vou* [1, 2, 30]

3SG *ly - à lyi* [38, 62, 226]

1PL *nou(s) n’* (before V) *à nou* [1, 93, 97, 103, 125, 131, 138]

[81, 164, 171 2 x, 177, 208, 236]

2PL *vou? - à vous, à vou* [15, 17, 21, 23, 30, 31, 48, 46] etc.

3PL *yo - à yo* [42, 45, 58, 149, 190, 200]

The short forms of the first and second person singular seem to be used in all phonological environments. DHC distinguishes between a familiar pronoun *toué/to* and a polite second person pronoun (*vous, vou*). This distinction is also encountered in other early Haitian texts, see e.g. Hazaël-Massieux (2008: 17, 49, 110, 11, 120) for examples and discussion. Modern Haitian Creole does not make that distinction, and the forms for first person plural and second person plural have merged (Fattier 2013). I have listed a second person plural form, but there are no examples of unambiguous second person plural reference. Yet, as the polite singular *vou(s)* is derived from the plural, it is quite likely that it can also have plural reference, perhaps accompanied *autres*.

The meanings of the personal pronouns are generally straightforward. There is one exception. The third person plural pronoun *yo* sometimes has the French translation equivalent *on*, referring to an unspecified agent, ‘someone’, which is used both as an impersonal pronoun and often as the first person plural pronoun in modern colloquial French. In several cases, the translation ‘we/us’ seemed more appropriate than ‘they/them’.

The existence of double forms discussed above that the contrast between emphatic and non-emphatic plays a more important role. These could be called long

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and short/emphatic and non-emphatic /tonic and atonic / cliticized and independent. Some authors have extrapolated a subject-oblique or subject-object contrast, based on examples like these:

- (90) *To va bay moué nouvelles*
 2SG FUT give 1SG news
 ‘Tu m’en diras des nouvelles’
 ‘You (SG) will give me news’

- (91) *Mo te byen di toué*
 1SG PST well say 2SG
 ‘Je te l’avais bien dit’
 ‘I had told you well.’

There are, however, several examples with the non-emphatic forms in an oblique position, as here:

- (92) *comben vou-va loué mo ly?* [63]
 how.much 2.POL-FUT rent 1SG 3G
 ‘combien me le louerez-vous?’
 ‘for how much will you rent it to me?’

- (93) *Ça va arrangé mo ben* [114]
 THIS FUT suit 1SG well
 ‘Cela m’arrangera très-bien’
 ‘That will suit me very well’

Also in the *Vocabulaire* part there are cases of *mo* in object position:

- (94) *z’oreille à moué fair mo mal.* (page 337)
 ear TO 1SG make 1SG pain
 ‘l’oreille me fait mal’
 ‘My ear hurts me’

In the *Vocabulaire* part, there are some examples of sentences combining short and long forms. These are not encountered in the dialogues. Here are the examples from the *Vocabulaire* part.

6.7 Personal and possessive pronouns

- (95) **Mo**, promettre **to toué** (p. 353)
 1SG promise 2SG 2SG
 ‘je te le promets’
 ‘I promise it to **you**’
- (96) **Toué, to** qui fair, tant brave à **toué**
 2SG 2SG REL make so.much courageous PREP 2SG
 ‘**toi** qui fais tant le brave’
 ‘**you** who acted so bravely’

Alternatively, they could be disjunctive pronouns as in French *Je te le promets à toi*. At any rate, these examples show that the full forms are used for emphasis, and the short forms in ways similar to the short forms in French (*je, me, te, tu, il, elle*), in contrast to the long forms (*moi, toi, lui, elle*). This is similar to French, where the long forms *moi, toi*, etc. can be used in subject and object position for emphasis.

The possessive pronouns are identical to the personal pronouns. They follow the nouns, and they are consistently preceded by a preposition *à*. In Modern HC, the possessive pronouns also follow the noun, but there is no preposition (except in the north of Haiti). The possessive pronouns can also be reduced in form to a possessive clitic or affix, like *papa-m* ‘my father’ in modern Haitian.

- (97) 1SG *à moué* [2, 9] (p. 239)
 2SG.F *à toué* [147] (p. 316, 353, 392)
 2SG.P *à vou* [30, 31, 62]
 3SG *à ly* [62, 226] (p. 350)
 1PL *à nou* [1, 93, 97, 103, 125, 131, 138] (p. 335: *quien à nou*)
 2PL *à vou* [15, 17, 21, 23, 30, 31, 48], etc. [probably all polite 2SG]
 3PL *à yo* [42, 45, 58, 149, 190, 200] (p. 327–328)

There is minimal documentation of nominal possessive pronouns (‘mine’, ‘yours’). In the *Vocabulaire* part one can find *le tien* (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 352).

The personal pronouns in Ducœurjoly have led to some discussion in the linguistic literature on Haitian Creole. There are two remarkable issues with the set of personal pronouns, which are not often found in creole languages. One is the distinction between polite and familiar pronouns, well known from French and several other Western European languages (German *du/Sie*, Dutch *jij/U*, French *tu/vous*, Spanish *tu/Usted*). Such politeness distinctions are typically absent from creoles. In the DHC dialogues, however, most speakers use polite forms (*vous*,

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vou) in speaking with each other, and some use familiar forms (*to*, *toue*) in communicating with the enslaved (see Section 12.1). The enslaved also use the polite forms when speaking with Europeans. Hazaël-Massieux (2008) discussed it several times in her book. Such politeness distinctions are otherwise quite rare in creoles, even when the lexifiers have the distinction (Dutch, French, German, Spanish).

There is no evidence for a case distinction (*toué/to*, *moué/mo*, pace Alleyne (1966: 281). Some authors have claimed that DHC made a formal distinction between subject pronouns and object pronouns, but that appears to be based on misreadings of examples and a superficial selection of examples. It will be discussed in more detail in Chapter 14.

6.8 Demonstrative pronouns

The independent pronominal *ça* is quite common, and it occurs in different positions. The French translation equivalent is usually *cela* ‘that’. There are no differences in gender, number or distance, in contrast to what one finds in French. There are several other forms, in French as well as in DHC. The most common translation equivalents of the French and DHC demonstrative elements are as follows, starting with the independent pronouns and thereafter the nominal modifiers.

(98) CREOLE FRENCH DIALOGUE EQUIVALENT

ça cela [28, 29, 43, 47, 52, 53, 57, 59, 61, 63, 76], etc.

cé cela [27] (*cela est*)

cé c’est [45, 53, 64, 73, 74, 78, 94, 98, 102, 108, 123], etc.

cila celui [82, 227] (2x)

N là ce N [66, 98, 102, 221, 230, 231, 233]

N cy ce N 6

N là cette N [113, 128, 179, 181, 196]

They will be exemplified here.

6.8.1 *ça* ‘short independent pronominal’

The short form *ça* is used without a contrastive distinction, like in English *this/that* or in French *ceci/celà* for near and far, and perhaps it can also have plural reference. It functions as a definite demonstrative pronoun.

6.8 Demonstrative pronouns

- (99) *ça va encore py miyor* [29]
 DEM FUT STILL MORE BETTER
 ‘cela sera encore mieux’
 ‘It/that will be even better’
- (100) *Mo coné ça tan quon vous* [59]
 1SG know DEM as.much LIKE 2.POL
 ‘Je sais cela comme vous’
 ‘I know this as well as you’
- (101) *Mo gagné temps pourvoir tou ça* [63]
 1SG have time provide ALL DEM
 ‘J’ai le temps de pourvoir à tout cela’
 ‘I have time to provide for all this’

In modern Haitian, the element *sa*, a continuation of the French independent demonstrative *ça* ‘that’), functions as a demonstrative, connected to the noun, and it is postnominal, as in *chemiz sa* ‘that shirt’ (Fattier 2013; Valdman 2015: 262). In Modern Haitian *sa* can be used as noun modifier or as an independent element (DeGraff 2007: 117). In DHC, *ça* is not used as a nominal modifier, and in French, it isn’t either. In addition, one can have the following element *a* interpreted by DeGraff as marking singular or *yo* marking plural: *sa* ‘that’, *sa a* ‘this one/that one’, *sa yo* ‘these/those’.

6.8.2 *cila* ‘long independent pronominal’

The long form *cila* is much less frequent than *ça*. Like *ça*, it is only used as independent pronoun. The demonstrative pronoun *cila* ‘this, that’ is more emphatic, and it often precedes a dependent clause. It has a function comparable to French *celui-ci/celui-là* ‘individualized specific’. The French version usually has translation equivalents such as *celle-ci* (feminine singular proximate), *ceux* (plural), *celui* (masculine singular), *celui-là* (masculine singular distant). The DHC form is neutral as to gender and number. The form *cila* can be followed by a plural marker *yo*, when the referent has plural reference. A second function of *cila* is presentative, often with contrasting items.

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- (102) ni n' y en-a necqué **cilà** vou-té fair moué gardé pour
 EXIST only that 2.POL-PST CAUS 1SG keep for mrs (name)
 madame Dumas [37]

'il a que **celle-ci** que vous m'avez fait réserver pour madame Dumas'
 'he only has/there is only **this one** that you made me reserve for
 Madame Dumas'

- (103) miyor lá-yo té souvent **cilà-yo**, qui té prouvé py grand
 better DEF-PL PST often DEM-PL REL.S PST experience MORE big
 désagrément [42]
 inconvenience
 'les meilleurs étoient souvent **ceux** qui éprouvoient plus de désagrément'
 'the best ones were often **those** who experienced the most
 inconvenience'

- (104) qui **cila** mo gagné l'honneur parlé? [76]
 who DEM 1SG have honor speak
 'à qui ai-je l'honneur de parler?'
 'to whom do I have the honor of speaking?'

- (105) mo pas té gagné **cila** voir vou [82]
 1SG NEG PST have DEM see 2.POL
 'je n'ai pas eu **celui** de vous voir?'
 'I didn't have **that one** [the honour] of seeing you?'

6.8.3 *cilà ici, cilà là*

The demonstrative pronoun *cila* can also be followed by a distance marker *ici* or *là*. This shows that the final syllable of *cila*, derived from the distant demonstrative marker *-là*, has lost its original meaning, and an additional *là* could be added to indicate the distal meaning (and *ici* for proximal).

- (106) **cilà ici** paroît-moué py fraîche, et py blanch? [119]
 DEM here seem-1SG MORE fresh AND MORE white
 'Celle-ci me paroît plus fraîche, et plus blanche?'
 'This one seems fresher to me, and whiter?'

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- (107) *Et cilà-là?* [129]
 AND DEM-there
 ‘Et celle là?’
 ‘And that one?’
- (108) *Cila là cé Ségur, cilà ici cé Château-Margau* [108]
 DEM THERE THIS (name) DEM HERE THIS (name)
 ‘En voici du Ségur; celui-ci est du Château-Margau’
 ‘Here is the one [wine] from Ségur; this one is from Château-Margau’
- (109) *cilà ici, cé Moissac, cilà là, cé d’Estampe.*
 En voici de Moissac, et en voilà d’Etampes. [118]
 ‘Here are some from Moissac, and there are some from Etampes.’ OR
 ‘This one /these ones are from Moissac, and that one/those ones are from Estampe’

6.8.4 *là, la* postnominal attributive demonstrative (and -*cy/ici*)

In French, there are two forms that combine with the prenominal demonstrative *ce/cet/celle/ces* ‘this, that, these, those’. The French forms are distinct for gender and number. In order to specify distance, one can add postnominal *-ci* or *-là*. In many French creoles, these prenominal demonstratives are lost, and so is the proximate form *-ci*. Similarly, in Modern Haitian, the postnominal form *là* has been preserved, where it functions both as a postnominal demonstrative pronoun and as a definite article/specific marker.

One can consider DHC as an intermediate stage between French and Modern Haitian. Postnominal *là* can be used both as a demonstrative and as a definite article. The French version of the text has the demonstrative *ce* as an equivalent of creole *là*, or the prenominal definite article *le/la*.

- (110) *mo té voir dans bois là, bel pieds l’acajou* [221]
 1SG PST see IN forest DEM beautiful tree mahogany
 ‘j’ai vu dans ce bois quelques beaux pieds d’acajou’
 ‘I saw in this forest some beautiful mahogany trees’
- (111) *terre-là doi assé mouillé.* [239]
 ground/earth-DEF MUST quite wet
 ‘la terre doit être assez mouillée’
 ‘the earth/ground must be quite wet’

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In the dialogues, there is only one example of *-ci*, written *-cy*:

- (112) tous ça qui capable servi dans pays cy.
 ALL DEM REL.SUBJ ABIL serve in land DEM.PROX
 ‘un peu de tout ce qui peut être utile en ce pays.’
 ‘everything that can be useful in **this** country.’

Despite this, it seems that *là* in DHC has lost the distance aspect of its meaning, which would mean that there would be no real between proximal and distal demonstratives in the creole. In all five cases where the French version has the *proximal* *cette* ‘this’ is used, the creole version has the etymologically *distal* demonstrative marker *là*, indicating that the distance distinction is actually lost in DHC, the one case of *-cy* being a remnant.

6.9 Ideophones: absent, but....

There are no ideophones in the dialogues. This cannot be taken to be evidence for their absence. This absence might be explained by the fact that Ducœurjoly spoke HC as a second language, or the fact that the dialogues are all rather formal business interactions, whereas ideophones are more frequent in colloquial narratives. Alternatively, it may hint at a distinction between HC spoken by Europeans and that spoken by people of African origin, in whose languages ideophones may be prevalent, as in the Kwa languages. From another source, we know that there were ideophones in 18th century Haitian Creole.

An observer contemporary with Ducœurjoly, the colonial Moreau de St. Mery, had discussed ideophones in Haitian Creole five years earlier, in 1797, which is the first known discussion of ideophones in a creole language (citealtMoreauDeSaintMéry1797: 36–37). This is an English translation of the pertinent passage from the book about what is called here “imitative sounds” (“sons imitatifs” in French).

‘With the blacks’, says Moreau de St. Mery, writing of Hayti [sic] at the close of the last century, ‘gestures are very numerous, and they form an intrinsic part of their language. They love, above all, to express imitative sounds. Do they speak of a cannon shot, they add *bōūme*; of a musket shot, *poūme*; of a blow on the face, *pîmme*; of a kick, or blow with a stick, *bimme*; of whipping, *v’lap v’lap*. Does one fall down lightly, they add, *bap*; heavy, it is *boum*; in tumbling down, *blôu couteūm*; and whenever they wish to render an imitative sound, they repeat the

6.10 *Definite and indefinite articles*

term as far, far, far, far away, — which signifies at a great distance’. (English translation by Redpath (1860: 135) (original in Moreau de Saint-Méry (1797: 36–37)⁶. Thus, ideophones existed also at the time, but they were not included in Ducœurjoly’s grammar.

6.10 Definite and indefinite articles

In DHC, the numeral one *nion* thus functions both as a numeral (see Section 6.6) and as an indefinite article in DHC.

- (113) *mai mo pas capable entreprendre ly avant nion mois* [61]
 but 1SG NEG ABLE undertake 3SG before one/a month
 ‘mais je ne puis l’entreprendre que dans **un** mois’
 ‘but I can only undertake it in a month’

- (114) *à vla nion heureux rencontre, comment vou porté?* [78]
 PRESENTATIVE INDEF happy encounter HOW 2.POL behave
 ‘voilà **une** heureuse rencontre, comment vous portez-vous?’
 ‘Here is a happy meeting, how are you?’

French has indefinite articles *un* (M.SG), *une* (F.SG), *des* (PL), and definite articles *le* (M.SG), *la* (F.SG), and *les* (PL). These have not been transmitted to DHC. However, DHC innovated new definite and indefinite articles, which are derived from a French demonstrative and the French numeral ‘one’ respectively. These are grammaticalization developments found in many creole languages, and also in non-creoles (e.g. from Latin to Romance, and from Early Germanic to the Germanic languages).

The definite article in DHC has the form of *là*, plural *là-yo*, both following the nouns (see also Section 7.2. and Section 7.4).

⁶The original French text (with apologies for the original author’s ethnic attitudes): “Chez les nègres, comme chez tous les peuples non-civilisés, les gestes sont très-multipliés & ils forment une partie intrinsèque du langage. Ils aiment surtout à exprimer les sons imitatifs. Parlent-ils d’un coup de canon? Ils ajoutent *boume*; un coup de fusil, *poum*; un soufflet, *pimme*; un coup de pied ou de bâton *bimme*; des coups de fouet, *v’lap v’lap*. Est-on tombé légèrement? c’est *bap*; fort, c’est *boum*; en dégringolant, *blou coutoum*; & toutes les fois qu’on veut rendre un son augmentatif, on le répète, *loin, loin, loin, loin*, qui exprime une grande distance. “

6 Parts of speech

6.11 Negative markers

There are several negative markers in DHC. One can distinguish four types of negative markers encountered in DHC: discursive negation, sentential negation, negative indefinite pronouns and negative imperatives.

6.11.1 Discourse negation

Discursive negations are terms like ‘yes’ and ‘no’; they negate previous utterances. They are not common in the dialogues. Even though several of them certainly existed at the time, as in French *oui*, *non*, *si*, only *oui* is found in the dialogues [142, 213, 215, 217, 219, 223, 243, 252], invariably followed by *mouché* ‘Mister’, as it is always the subordinate who uses it. The colonist is the one asking the questions. Whether the enslaved avoided a negation, or whether it is an accidental gap in the data, cannot be established.

6.11.2 Sentential negation

The most common group consist of markers that only indicate sentential negation. Those are *pa(s)* (common), *n’* (rare), *ni* (rare), and *necque* (rare). In addition, there are those morphemes that normally combine with negative markers, but which can also appear alone, and which can have positive and negative meanings. Those are *jamai(s)* ‘never/ever’, *a rien* ‘nothing’, and *personne* ‘nobody/person’.

Thus, there are a few direct negators, or forms derived from negative forms:

- (115) *pa(s)*, *p’* ‘not’
ni ‘neither...nor’
necque ‘nothing but’
point ‘not’ (only once; [66]; see also Section 9.10)

6.11.3 Double negation

In DHC, as in French, there are often two negative elements, and these combine to express a negative meaning rather than becoming positive. Examples from the DHC materials are: NEG...*guère* [66, 186], NEG...*jamais*, NEG...*pas*, NEG...*personne*, NEG...*point* (66), NEG...*que*, NEG...*rien*. The French NEG form *ne* is not found in the Dialogues, and it Ducœurjoly confirms that it is never used (1802b: 335), and in DHC the NEG element is *pa(s)*.

The forms *guère* and *point* were common in the 1600s, but in today’s French they are archaic. Also, *ne...peu* and NEG..*plus* (‘no longer’, ‘not anymore’) are

6.11 Negative markers

possible in DHC, but they are absent in the *Dialogues*. The *Vocabulaire* (p. 341) mentions that *peu* and *pas guère* are interchangeable. Moreover, *pitit brin* 'few, little' is used in combination with a negator, hence instances of *NEG...pitit brin* 'not a little' also occur in DHC (with *nec/necqué* etc. as NEG; [33, 38]).

6.11.4 negation with indefinite pronouns *rien*, *jamais*, *personne*

There are also some indefinite pronouns that combine with a negative marker:

- (116) *jamai(s)* 'never, ever'
arien, à rien 'nothing'
personne 'nobody'

In French, the indefinite pronouns *rien* 'nothing, anything', *jamais* 'never, ever', *personne* 'nobody' (but: *une personne* 'a person') are used in combination with the unstressed particle *ne* in negative contexts.

Something similar happens in DHC, but here the negative element is not *ne*, but always *pa(s)*. In DHC, the form for 'nothing' is *arien* (written *à rien* in the *Dialogues*, and sometimes *arien* in the *Vocabulaire*, p.312, 335, 349, 350), a form common in colloquial varieties of French, and in most contact varieties of French like the creoles (Bollée 2018: 1307).

- (117) *N'équipage a moué pas, jamais murmuré quand circonstances vlé*
 Crew TO 1SG NEG NEVER murmur when circumstance want
nion travail forcé. [41]
 INDEF work hard
 'Mon équipage n'a jamais murmuré, quand les circonstances ont exigé
 un travail forcé.'
 'My crew never murmured, when circumstances demanded hard labor.'

- (118) *mo pa jamais rend compte z'affaire à moué qu'à z'armateur à*
 1SG NEG NEVER give account business TO 1SG THAN.TO shipowners TO
moué. [67]
 1SG
 'je ne rends jamais compte de mes affaires, qu'à mes. armateurs.'
 'I never account for my affairs except to my shipowners.'

In both cited examples, the order is *pas jamais V* (NEG never VERB). The combination *pas jamai(s)* [41, 67] is also used in vernacular French and standard French. In other cases, *pa* and the indefinite pronouns are separated, or they display an order where the definite pronoun precedes the negative marker.

6 *Parts of speech*

- (119) nou **pas** gagné à **rien** pour metté dans vezou. [156]
 1PL NEG have NOTHING FOR put LOC cane.juice
 ‘nous **n**’avons **rien** à mettre dans le vesou.’
 ‘we have nothing to put in the cane juice.’
- (120) vou doi sir **personne pa** lé comandé-vou com moué?
 2.POL MUST certain NOBODY NEG ?? accommodate-2.POL THAN 1SG [9]
 ‘soyez sûr que **personne n**’est plus accommodant que moi.’
 ‘Be assured that **no one** is more accommodating than I am.’

Sentences can contain several of these forms, but those equal one sole negative meaning in English.

- (121) mo prié vou tant seulement vou **pas** dir **personne à rien**. [66]
 1SG beg 2.POL so.much only 2.POL NEG say NOBODY NOTHING
 ‘je vous prie seulement de **n**’en parler à **personne**.’
 ‘I just beg you so much **not** to tell **anything to anyone**.’

There is one example without negation, and here the meaning of *à rien* is ‘anything’ rather than ‘nothing’, similar to what would happen in French if *ne* is lacking.

- (122) auparavant décidé à **rien**, faut laissé déchargé bâtiment là [59]
 BEFORE decide NOTHING MUST CAUS unload ship DEF
 ‘avant de **rien** décider, il faut laisser décharger le navire’
 ‘before deciding **anything**, you have to let the ship unload’

6.11.5 *ni* ‘neither, nor’

In French, the particle *ni* is used in ‘neither-nor’ constructions. There is only one example of this in the material, but with only *ni*.

- (123) vous **pa** allé trouvé nion plu bel blan, **ni** nion l’usage miyor.
 2.POL NEG go find INDEF MORE fine white NOR INDEF usage better [126]
 ‘vous **n**’en trouverez-**pas** d’un plus beau blanc, **ni** d’un meilleur usage.’
 ‘you will not find a finer white, **nor** one of a better use.’

This usage is also possible in French. Other sentences with *ni* [37, 66] are not examples of negation, but they are part of a negative existential derived from *il n’y a pas* ‘there is/are no’. This will be discussed in Chapter 7.

6.11 Negative markers

6.11.6 *néqué, necque, nécque, nec* ‘only, just’ (< French *rien que*)

[2, 33, 37, 38, 43, 51, 53, 93, 172, 177, 198, 248]

The particle *necque/néqué* is not strictly a negative marker. It is derived from *ne que*, which contains the French negative element *ne* and *que* ‘that, than’. It can be translated into English roughly as ‘nothing but’. The most fitting translation equivalent would be ‘only’ or ‘just’.

- (124) malgré ça mo mété **necque** 45 jours dans traversée à moué. [2]
 despite that 1SG put only 45 day in crossing TO 1SG
 ‘néanmoins je n’ai mis **que** 45 jours dans ma traversée’
 ‘Despite that, I **only** used 45 days for my crossing’

- (125) Nou gagné **nécque** deux blanchets. [172]
 1PL have only two piece.of-fabric
 ‘Nous n’avons **que** deux blanchets’
 ‘We **only** have two pieces of fabric’

6.11.7 *Napa* ‘negative imperative’ (From French *n’a pas* ‘has not’)

The form /*napa*/ is not used in the dialogues, but there are several examples in the *Vocabulaire* (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 292, 325, 332), and in the song *Lisette quitté la plaine*, which was not written by Ducœurjoly (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 392–393). It originates in French *n’a pas* ‘has not’, which also has the meaning ‘don’t’ in some French dialects.

- (126) n’a pa parlé moué ça encore [332]
 NEG.IMPER speak 1SG that anymore
 ‘ne m’en parlez plus’
 ‘don’t talk to me about it anymore’

7 Noun phrases

Noun phrases consist at least of a noun. The noun can be supplemented by a number of additional modifiers, such as markers of number, gender, definiteness, specificity, numerals, quantifiers, adjectives, demonstratives, etc. These additional elements can place entities referred to by nouns at a certain location (demonstratives), assert a quality to the noun (adjectives), specify them out of a larger set (specific, non-specific), place them in a discourse (definite, indefinite articles) or they can quantify the noun (numerals, quantifiers). Noun phrases can typically accumulate several modifiers. Here I will deal with all of those found in DHC, their position relative to the noun, and the order of modifiers relative to each other when several of them are used. Before going into detail about DHC, it may be useful to discuss some of the properties of noun phrases in creole languages in more general terms.

7.1 Number, definiteness and specificity in creole languages

In creole languages, it is often the case that a bare noun is a form with no reference to a specific item, and no reference to number. Remember from Section 4.1, that nouns are invariant in DHC. The bare form is sometimes called ‘non-specific’ by creolists. Thus, a bare noun such as ‘house’ can refer to ‘a house’, or to several houses, ‘some houses’. Non-specificity is contrasted with ‘specific known’ and ‘specific unknown’ or with ‘definite’ and ‘indefinite’.

These two concepts of specificity and definiteness are often confused or blended. Definiteness functions at the discourse level: in languages that express definiteness, an indefinite article is used at first mention, and a definite article subsequently: “There is a **man** in the park. **The man** smokes a cigar”. Specificity, however, functions at the sentence level. A noun may refer to a specific entity, known or unknown to the hearer. If the entity is unknown, one would use a form meaning ‘one’, when known one would use ‘this’ or ‘that’. If the reference is not specific, then a bare noun would be used. The preceding story would be: “There is **one man** (specific unknown) in **one** (specific unknown) **park**. **This**

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man (specific known) smokes Ø cigar.” A noun without any modifier, i.e. a bare noun, would refer to a generic statement. The phrase “man in park smoke cigar” would mean that men in parks generally smoke cigars. Thus, the pseudo-English phrase “**lion** eat **antelope**”, would have to be interpreted as “lions eat antelopes” or as “a lion eats antelopes”, a generic statement.

Both nouns are nonspecific and (thus) neutral for number. It is a generic statement about something that lions do. In “**one** lion eat(s) **one** antelope”, both animals are specific individuals, unknown to the hearer. In “**that** lion eat(s) **that** antelope”, both animals are known to the hearer, and specific.

Whereas all Western European languages, including all of the lexifiers of creole languages, mark definiteness, not specificity, creoles may express specificity or definiteness. This is important to keep in mind. A generic statement is normally expressed in English with articles: *a lion eats antelopes*, or with plural forms, such as *Lions eat antelopes*. Also, *The lions eat antelopes* can have a generic meaning. In creoles, constructions with only bare nouns would be expected for such generic statements. A form resembling a definite article (often derived from a demonstrative of the lexifier) and a form resembling an indefinite article (often derived from the numeral ‘one’) are almost always present in creoles.

In modern Haitian, bare nouns are used for nonspecific entities, including its use in generic statements (DeGraff 2007: 116–117). The specific-unknown marker is *yon* (derived from the numeral ‘one’) and the specific-known marker is a post-nominal *la*.

This is relevant, as one wants to know whether DHC behaves like Haitian and many other creoles, or like French. Does DHC use definite articles, like French, or does it use elements marking specificity, like Modern Haitian? The distinction is not easy to determine, but based on the available materials, it seems definiteness. Before coming back to this, I first discuss some other categories.

7.2 Number

There does not seem to be obligatory number marking in DHC. The nominal ending *-s*, used in written French to indicate plurality, is frequent in the DHC texts, but this plural ending was not pronounced in either French or Creole, and the presence or absence of the suffix in the dialogues appears rather arbitrary. No inferences can be drawn from the ‘silent’ plural markers. In Table 7.1, first nouns with plural *-s* will be listed as they appear on each page when referring to plural entities (based on number indicated in the French version). They are

7.2 Number

divided into three groups: (1) with plural -s, (2) without plural -s, and (3) followed by *là-yo* which (see below) refers to definite plurals.

Table 7.1: Occurrence of plural marking with plural referents, indicating relative frequency

<i>With plural -s, or -x</i>	<i>Without plural -s in creole, but pluralized in French</i>	<i>N là yo</i>
45 jours 2	Touéle à vouéle 6	Z'acon <i>là yo</i> 21
350 tonnes, 200 gourdes 16, 17	Bon traitement 40	Gardien <i>là-yo</i> 148
Au z'eux 28	Ponton 62	Chaudières <i>là yo</i> 171
Six ans 43	z'afaire 67	Canal <i>là-yo</i> 188
Réparations 48	z'armateur 88	Z'animaux <i>là-yo</i> 195 (note irr. plural -aux also)
Pour z'armateurs 57	Z'emplette 93	pois <i>là-yo</i> 247
Z'habitans 77	Six foi 109	Boucan 224
2 barrils 103	Sac 113	
Deux paniés 123	quatre ponponnelle 123	
Quéque pobans z'olives 134	Réparation 154	
4 caisses 135	Bec corbin 211	
Nourrices 144		
Deux trois jours 163		
Chivrons 177		
Z'animaux <i>là-yo</i> 195		
Z'écumoirs 201		
Quinze jours 216		
Six pieds 231		
Trois pouces 238		
Total: 20	Total: 11	Total: 7

One can find forms with and without plural marking on the noun. The forms with a plural marker -s seem most frequent (21 cases), but the plurals without -s are also quite frequent (12). Being a literate speaker of standard French, one would expect Ducœurjoly to graphically pluralize plural nouns with a written

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<s> more often than fail to mark plurality (S. Goyette, p.c.). Ducoeurjoly's rather arbitrary inclusion of plural markers may also be influenced by the fact that most examples in column 1 involve units. Six of the plural nouns are followed by *là-yo*, which functions as a marker of definiteness/specificity.

A reasonable conclusion to draw would be that plurality is not obligatorily expressed in DHC when speaking about plural entities, which can be expressed with a plural ending or not. The marker *-yo*, is optional. The presence of visible plural markers has no consequences for the pronoun *-yo*, and there are remarkably many cases where the plural *-s* is absent in Creole. There is, thus, a possibility to express plurality in DHC, namely with a postnominal *yo*, no doubt derived from the third person plural pronoun *yo* 'they, them', in its turn derived from the French third person plural pronoun *eux*. It is optional and usually accompanied by *là* after nouns.

The plural marker *yo* follows possessives and determiners, if present.

- (1) n'avoyé cabrouet à nou yo [138]
 1PL-FUT-send cart TO 1PL PL
 'nous enverrons nos cabrouets'
 'we will send our carts'

- (2) Canal *là-yo* [188]
 'those canals'

- (3) miyor là-yo té souvent cilà-yo qui... [42]
 best/better DEF-PL PST often DEM-PL REL
 'les meilleurs étoient souvent **ceux** qui...'
 'the best were often **those** who...'

In French, indefinite plural nouns are preceded by *des*, and definite plural nouns by *les* or by personal possessive pronouns. The examples above are all definite. How about indefinite plurals in DHC?

In French, 'the boy' would be *le garçon*, definite plural 'the boys' *les garçons*, indefinite plural 'boys' *des garçons*, with neutral demonstrative *ces garçons* 'these/those boys', proximal demonstrative *ces garçons-ci* 'these boys' and distal demonstrative *ces garçons-là* 'those boys'. Just *garçons* or *garçon* is not normally possible in French.

In creoles generally, plurality can often be expressed optionally by a modifier based on the third person plural pronoun (like 'house-them'), or a noun meaning 'group' (like 'house-mob'). In DHC, this seems to be partly the case as well. There

7.3 Gender

are many **bare nouns** in the dialogues. Typically, the translation equivalent of indefinite plural nouns in French is a bare noun in DHC (e.g. creole *pois rouge*, French *des pois rouges* 252; DHC *tête*, French *des têtes* 151). There are no exceptions to the ca. 40 cases. In about one third of the cases, the DHC noun is written with a plural -s, but most often it is not. Remember that such an -s is written but not pronounced in French, and neither in DHC.

Definite (or perhaps -known) marking in plural nouns is marked in written French with definite plural articles written *les* (/le/), e.g., *la maison* ‘the house’, *les maisons* ‘the houses’. The translation equivalent of *les* in DHC is almost always *là-yo* (with spelling variants). The *là*-part originates from the postnominal distal markers specifying distance with the distance-neutral demonstrative *ce/ces*.

DHC translation equivalents of both *ces* (deictic) and *des* (indefinite plural) overwhelmingly *là-yo* after the noun, e.g., DHC *pois là-yo*, French *les fèves* ‘the beans’ 247; DHC *dans bassin là yo*, French *dans les bassins* ‘in the basins’, 163; DHC *voyage là yo*; French *ces voyages* ‘those trips’ 178. The element *yo*, if modifying a noun, is always accompanied by *là*, but the element *yo* does not appear as the sole modifier of a noun. The presence of only *là*, refers to single nouns. Thus, definiteness can be expressed in DHC (and in different ways) with both singular and plural nouns, as *là* and *là-yo* respectively, but there is no way to formally express just plurality in this source.

Thus, the DHC system of number and definiteness marking is:

- (4) a. Generic: bare noun
- b. Non-specific: bare noun
- c. Definite singular: (noun)-*là*
- d. Definite plural: (noun)-*là-yo*
- e. Indefinite plural: bare noun

It is therefore safe to conclude that number is not obligatorily expressed, and that it is obligatory only with definite plural nouns. The DHC system is thus in between the specificity marking of modern Haitian and definiteness marking of French.

7.3 Gender

Grammatical gender is not expressed in DHC. In French, grammatical gender is found in articles, demonstratives, and in adjectives (agreement with the noun, which bears gender). The French definite articles *le* (M), *la* (F), and *les* (PL) and

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the demonstratives *ce* M, *cette* F, *ces* PL are not inherited in DHC. Adjectives have no distinct forms for masculine or feminine nouns either.

This example illustrates the lack of gender. It combines the presence of a neutral indefinite article *nion* and an etymologically masculine adjective (but in fact neutral) with a feminine noun. There are many similar examples.

- (5) **nion** pacotille particulié [102]
 INDEF trade.item particular
 ‘une pacotille particulière’
 ‘a particular trade item’

Ducœurjoly comments on (the absence of) gender in creole several times in the *Vocabulaire* part as well: *Concubine* p.305, *Dur* p.312, *Elle* p.313, *Filleul*, *eule* p.319, *Le*, *la*, *les*, *Lequel*, *laquelle* p.327, *Meilleur-eure* p.332, *Pur*, *pure* p.345, *Quel*, *elle* p.346, *Un*, *une* p.352, *Vieux*, *vieille* p.354.

7.4 Definiteness/specificity/known

Definiteness or specificity is expressed in French with the definite articles *le*, *la*, *les*. Those forms have not been inherited in DHC. A postnominal *là* is used to express definiteness. Specificity does not seem to be expressed, and a bare noun indicates non-specificity. See also sections Section 7.1 and Section 7.2.

- (6) Terre-là ben mouillée [141]
 soil-DEF well wet
 La terre est-elle bien mouillée
 ‘Is the soil well wet?’

7.5 Attributive demonstratives

Demonstrative pronouns were discussed above in Section 6.8. The category of noun-modifying demonstratives cannot be formally or functionally distinguished from the post-posed definite article *-la*. The postnominal *là* is virtually the only translation equivalent of the French demonstratives.

- (7) tout bagage-là [138]
 all object-DEF/DEM
 ‘tous ces objets’
 ‘all these/those objects’

7.5 Attributive demonstratives

- (8) même case **là** [179]
 same house DEF/DEM
cette même case
 ‘this same building’
- (9) 4 fréquin **là** yo ces [107]
 ‘4 frequins’
 ‘these/those four sugar casks’
- (10) huit barrils-**là** yo [121]
 ‘ces huit barrils’
 ‘these/those eight barrels’
- (11) quatre pièces **là** -yo [127]
 ‘ces quatre pièces’
 ‘these/those four pieces’
- (12) voyage **là** yo. [178]
 ‘ces voyages’
 ‘these/those trips’

Note that many of them are accompanied by numerals. Only one case of a proximal marker modifying a noun, similar in use to French *-ci*, in *cette maison-ci* ‘this house’ is found in the material.

- (13) tous ça qui capable servi dans pays **cy**. [6]
 ALL DEM REL ABLE serve IN land HERE
 ‘tout ce qui peut être utile en **ce** pays.’
 ‘anything that can be useful in **this** country.’

In addition, *cilà ici* and *cilà là* are used in 118 and 119 as contrastive expressions.

- (14) **Cilà ici**, cé Moissac, **cilà là**, cé d’Estampe. [118]
 DEM here DEM (name) DEM there DEM (name)
 ‘En voici de Moissac, et en voilà d’Etampes.’
 ‘**These ones** [wines] from Moissac, and **those one** are from Etampes.’

The markers *là* and *ci/cy* invariably follow the noun.

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7.6 Quantifiers

A number of quantifiers are found in the dialogues. Numerals were listed in Section 6.6.

- (15) a. *deux trois* ‘some’ (Fr.: *quelques*) 163, 180, 229
 b. *quéque* ‘some’ (Fr.: *quelques*, archaic /kek/) 2, 134, 233
 c. *en pile* ‘much, many’ (Fr.: *beaucoup*) 43, 51, 95, 163, 184 (adv), 195,
 d. *tou(t) plein* ‘much, many’ (Fr.: *beaucoup*) 10, 38, 44, 52, 55, 97
 e. *à rien* ‘nothing’ (Fr. *rien*) 59, 66, 156
 f. *plisieurs* ‘several’ (Fr. *plusieurs*) 125
 g. *au moins* ‘at the least’ (Fr. *au moins*) 172
 h. *pitit brin* ‘little bit, few’ (Fr. *peu, petit peu*) 33, 38, 99, 105, 131, 244 (see
 also definition of *peu* in Voc. 341)
 i. *trop* ‘too much’ (Fr. *trop*) 18, 31, 62, 65, 105, 161, 187, 233, 252

There are two terms for ‘many, much’, with no perceivable difference in meaning in DHC. In the *Vocabulaire*, two translation equivalents are given for French in *ils sont beaucoup d’héritiers* ‘they are many heirs’ and in *il sait déjà beaucoup de latin* ‘he already knows a lot of Latin’. Both pairs are given here:

- (16) yo z’éritier **en pile** / yo **tout plein** z’éritiers (page 298)
 3PL heir MANY 3PL many heir(s)
 ‘ils sont beaucoup d’héritiers’
 ‘they are many heirs’
- (17) ly connaît déjà **en pile, tout plein, latin**. (page 298)
 3SG know already much much Latin
 ‘il sait déjà **beaucoup** de latin’
 ‘he already knows a lot of Latin’.

The phrase *tout plein* always precedes the noun. The phrase *en pile* may precede or follow the noun, regardless of whether it refers to animates or inanimates. There is no systematic difference between count nouns and non-count nouns, as both *en pile* and *tout plein* are used for countable and non-countables.

- (18) Ly fair d’iau **en pile** (postnominal) [50]
 3SG make water much
 ‘Fait-il **beaucoup** d’eau?’
 ‘Does it make a lot of water?’

7.6 Quantifiers

- (19) Ça pa étoné nou, ly fair **en pile** z'afaire, surtout en
DEM NEG surprise 1PL 3SG do much business especially IN
commission. (prenominal) [95]
commission
'Cela ne nous étonne pas, il fait **beaucoup** d'affaires sur-tout en
commission.'
'It doesn't surprise us, he does **a lot of** business, especially on
commission.'
- (20) L y en a sirop **en pile** dans bassin la yo. (postnominal) [163]
There.is syrup much in basin DEF PL
'Y a t-il **beaucoup** de sirop dans les bassins.'
'Is there **a lot of** syrup in the basins?'
- (21) Nou gagné **en pile** cannes coupé. (prenominal) [195]
1PL have much/many cane(s) cut
'Avons nous **beaucoup** de cannes de coupées'
'Do we have **a lot of** cut canes.'
- (22) Mo pas crére, à cause ly en à nion coin **tout plein** sable... [184]
1SG NEG believe BECAUSE THERE.IS INDEF corner much sandy
'... qui souffri **en pile** dan dernier schéh. 184
REL suffer much IN last drought
'J'en doute, parce qu'il y a un coin **très-sablonneux**, qui a **beaucoup**
souffert de la dernière sécheresse.'
'I doubt it, because there is a **very** sandy corner, which suffered **greatly**
from the last drought.'

Both *en pile* and *tou plein* can also be used as adverbs as well, modifying the verb or the whole clause.

- (23) Com mo soufri **tou plein** dans traverse.... [10]
AS 1SG suffer MUCH IN crossing
'Comme j'ai beaucoup souffert dans la traversée'
'As I suffered **a lot** in the crossing...'

In the *Vocabulaire* on p. 298, some additional examples are given.

7 Noun phrases

Table 7.2: Words for ‘much, many’ with examples from French, DHC with English translations

DHC	French	English
<i>En pile ou tout plein,</i>	BEAUCOUP, adv. de quantité,	A LOT, adverb of quantity,
– <i>ly en à monde en pile,</i>	– il y a beaucoup de gens,	There are a lot of people,
– <i>ly gagné l’argent en pile,</i>	– il a beaucoup d’argent,	He has a lot of money,
– <i>yo z’éritier en pile,</i>	– ils sont beaucoup d’héritiers,	They are many heirs,
– <i>(ou tout plein)</i>		
<i>yo tout plein z’éritiers</i>		
– <i>vous tout plein plus savant,</i>	–vous êtes beaucoup plus savant	- you are much wiser
– <i>ly connaît déjà en pile, tout plein, latin.</i>	– il sait déjà beaucoup de latin.	– he already knows a lot of Latin.

7.7 Compound nouns

Nominal compounds are fairly common in DHC. In French, such noun-noun combinations have to be connected by means of a preposition à ‘to’ or de ‘of’. In DHC, these connecting prepositions are usually lacking but not always. Here are some examples, some with and some without *de* in DHC.

(24)	DHC	FRENCH
a.	<i>mat perroquet</i>	<i>mât de perroquet</i> 4 ‘tallest mast on ship’
b.	<i>vergue misaine</i>	<i>vergue de misaine</i> 4 ‘foresail yard’
c.	<i>bord la mer</i>	<i>bord de la mer</i> 11 ‘seaside’
d.	<i>coup canon</i>	<i>le coup de canon</i> 44 ‘the cannon shot’
e.	<i>a coup de canon</i>	<i>Au coup de canon</i> 21 ‘(at) cannon shot’
f.	<i>vingtaine barrique</i>	<i>Vingtaine de barriques</i> 21 ‘twenty barrels’
g.	<i>coupe galette biscuit blanc.</i>	<i>un couple de galettes de biscuit blanc.</i> 36 ‘a couple of white biscuit patties’

It may be the case that the connective prepositions in principle are absent in DHC, except in some fossilized expressions. In Modern French, the connectors are hardly pronounced. See also chapter 11.

7.8 Combinations of nouns

Noun phrases can be combined with the markers *acque* /ak/ ‘with, and’ (28, 42, 62, 125, 141, 147, 151, 154, 191, 192, 193, 201, 204, 212, 218, 220, 221, 222, 252), *et* ‘and’ (22, 58, 64, 73, 77, 105, 170 etc.) and *ou ben* ‘or’ (26, 94, 164, 182, 232; also p. 338), or *ou* ‘or’ (123, 140, 149, 172).

7.8.1 *acque* ‘with, and’

The form *acque* (from French *avec* ‘with’) is used as a coordinator between nouns.

- (25) *Cannes* ***acque*** *vivres* ‘canes **and** food items’ (141)

It is also used with the instrumental meaning ‘with’, as in:

- (26) *yo va fouillé trou l’entourage* ***acque*** *louchet*. (221)
 3PL FUT dig hole area with spade
 ‘ils fouilleront les trous de l’entourage **avec** l’ouchet.’ [sic: louchet]
 ‘they will dig the holes of the entourage **with** the spade.’

Also phrases can be combined:

- (27) *ly semblé mo té voir canal là-yo* ***acque*** *trop plein engorgé*. (187)
 3SG seem 1SG PPST see canal DEF-PL with/and too many clog
 ‘il me semble avoir vu les canaux **et** le trop plein engorgés.’
 ‘I seem to have seen the channels **and** the overflow clogged.’

In other instances, this connector is not used to combine clauses. It is not clear whether that is a rule or an accidental gap in the data.

7.8.2 *et* ‘and’

The conjunction *et* is used between nouns, between adjectives, between phrases and between verbs. When there are three items, the conjunction is only used before the last noun or noun phrase.

- (28) *Nou gagné têtes* ***et*** *fontaines* [170]
 1PL have head and fountain
 ‘Nous avons des têtes **et** des fontaines’
 ‘We have heads **and** fountains’

7 Noun phrases

- (29) vou-té exposé bâtiment à yo, z'équipage **et** cargaison [58]
 2.POL expose ship POSS 3PL crew and cargo
 'vous exposiez leur bâtiment, l'équipage **et** la cargaison.'
 'you were exposing their ship, crew **and** cargo'
- (30) Beur à vou blanch **et** pitit brin trop salé. [105]
 Butter POSS 2.POL white and little bit too salty
 'Votre beurre est blanc **et** un peu trop salé?'
 'Your butter is white **and** a little too salty'

7.8.3 *Ou* ben, *ou* 'or'

There does not seem to be a functional or statistical difference between the short form *ou* and the long form *ou ben* 'or'. The first is identical to French *ou* 'or' and the second is from colloquial French *ou bien*.

- (31) Vou haimé ly à taffia **ou ben** à rum? [26]
 2.POL like 3SG PREP taffia OR PREP rum
 'L'aimez-vous au taffia **ou** au rum?'
 'Do you like/prefer [your drink with] taffia **or** rum?'
- (32) deux paniés **ou** quatre pomponnelle? [123]
 'deux paniers **ou** quatre pomponnelles?'
 'two baskets **or** four pompoms?' ¹

It is also used to connect verbs:

- (33) Nou fini (ou caba) sarclé, coupé **ou** planté, pièce la vou té dir [140]
 1PL finish weed cut OR plant lot DEM 2.POL PST say
 ou ordonné?
 WHERE ordered
 'Nous avons fini de sarcler, couper, **ou** planter la pièce que vous avez ordonnée.'
 'We have finished weeding, cutting, **or** planting the lot you ordered.'

¹The word *pomponnelles* is not used in modern French. It is probably related to *bombonne*, which refers to a glass container like a bottle.

7.9 Order noun-modifiers

There is no reason to assume that adjectives form a separate part of speech. The term ‘modifier’ is used here for elements that provide more information about the properties of a noun, similar to adjectives in French. One can have adjectives-verbs, plural markers, indefinite markers, definite markers and possessive markers.

7.9.1 Prenominal modifiers

The **indefinite article** *nion* precedes the noun:

- (34) *nion brebi* [43]
 INDEF sheep
 ‘une brebis’
 ‘a ewe’

The equivalents of **adjectives** can precede the noun, but not all do (see Section 7.9):

- (35) *grand mat* [4]
grand mât
 ‘big mast’

- (36) *gro caisse*
les grosses caisses [22]
 ‘the big chests’

Equivalents of adjectives that follow the noun are dealt with below.

Numerals precede the noun:

- (37) *deux paniés ou quatre pomponnelle?*
deux paniers ou quatre pomponnelles? [123]
 ‘two baskets or four pompoms?’²

Adpositions precede the noun:

²See preceding note.

7 Noun phrases

- (38) **en bloc pour** toute cargaison. [13]
 IN bulk FOR all cargo
 ‘**en bloc pour** toute la cargaison.’
 ‘in bulk for all cargo’

Almost all **quantifiers** precede the noun, except for **en pile** ‘much, a lot’ (see below Section 7.9.2):

- (39) **tout** n’écuse [186]
toute l’écuse
 ‘the **whole** locks’

The only exception is postnominal *en pile*, which can be both prenominal and postnominal (see above, Section 7.6).

When both an indefinite pronoun and an adjective are present, the pronoun precedes the adjective:

- (40) **nion grand** caze [218]
 a/one big house
 ‘une maison pincipale [sic].’
 ‘a big house’

When both are present, prepositions and ordinal numbers precede prenominal adjectives:

- (41) **pour dernier michant pitit** bois **neuf** nou té planté lien à deux [235]
 FOR last bad small wood new 1PL PST plant AGO two
 ans.
 year(s)
 ‘**pour ce dernier mauvais petit** bois **neuf**, que nous avons planté il y a deux ans.’
 ‘**for this last bad new** kindling, which we planted two years ago’

Several categories that are prenominal in French, are postnominal in DHC: definite articles, (optional) plural marking and pronominal possessives (see Section 7.9.2).

Some indefinite pronouns were presented above in Section 6.11.4, in connection with negation, namely the ones which can combine with the negative particle *pa*. Here are some that modify nouns:

7.9 Order noun-modifiers

- (42) a. *qui choy* ‘something’ (< Fr. *quelque chose*) 34
 b. *quéque* ‘some’ (< Fr. *quelque(s)*) 2, 134, 233
 c. *chaque* ‘every’ (< Fr. *chaque*) 132, 135, 136, 211
 d. *deux trois* ‘some’ (< Fr. *deux, trois*) 153, 163, 180, 188, 229, 238
 e. *quien* ‘belonging to’ (< Fr. *tien* ‘hold’) 31, 37, 96

The modifier *quéque* appear prenominally (as in *pobans z’olives / quéque pobans z’olives* ‘some jars of olives). The form *chaque* only appears in constructions like ‘of three pounds each’, and not in a relation. The expression *deux trois* appear prenominally.

7.9.2 Postnominal modifiers

The possessive pronouns follow the noun, preceded by the preposition *à*:

- (43) farine *à* **vous** [117]
 flour TO 2.PL
 ‘votre farine’
 ‘your flour’

The definite marker *là* follows the noun:

- (44) terre-**là**
 ‘la terre’ [239]
 ‘the ground’

The quantifier *en pil* ‘much, many’ may precede or follow the noun (see also Section 7.6):

- (45) L y en a **sirop en pile** dans bassin la yo. (postnominal) [163]
 THERE.IS syrup much IN basin DEF PL
 ‘Y a t-il **beaucoup de sirop** dans les bassins.’
 ‘Is there a **lot of syrup** in the basins?’
- (46) Nou gagné **en pile cannes** coupé. (prenominal) [195]
 1PL have many canes cut
 ‘Avons nous **beaucoup de cannes** de coupées’
 ‘Do we have a **lot of cut canes**.’

7 Noun phrases

There are also adjectives that follow the noun:

- (47) bois **neuf** [222]
 bois neuf
 ‘new wood’

Apart from a few exceptions (e.g. *nion l’usage miyor* (126)), it seems that the position of adjectives in relation to the noun is pretty much the same as in French, i.e. most adjectives are postnominal (colour adjectives: *biscouit blanc* (35, 36); *pois rouge* (252)), while a subset of adjectives occur before the noun they modify. Also, cardinal and ordinal numerals are found in the same position as in French: *treize pouces* (51), *cinq jours* (190), *huit nègres* (198), *quinze jours* (216); *deuxième cabanne* (158), *deuxième sirop* (170), *second rejeton* (181), *premier rejeton* (182), *premier balisage* (214) etc.

Adjectival verbs, i.e. adjectives etymologically derived from past participles, follow the noun (39, 40, 41, 43, 71, 183, 187).

- (48) nion travail **forcé** [41]
 INDEF work force
 ‘un travail forcé’
 ‘(a) forced labor’

- (49) nion cargaison **très-bien assorti** [71]
 one/a cargo very-well assorted
 ‘une cargaison très-bien assortie’
 ‘a very well-assorted cargo’

As mentioned above, the demonstrative marker *là* precedes the plural marker *yo*. The plural marker *yo* never appears without the definite marker *là* or a possessive marker (unless it is used as a personal pronoun).

- (50) matelot **là yo** [18]
 sailor DEF PL
 ‘les matelots’
 ‘the sailors’

When both are present, the possessive marker precedes the plural marker *yo*:

7.9 Order noun-modifiers

- (51) cabrouet à nou yo [138, 131]

cart TO 1PL PL

‘nos cabrouets’

‘our carts’

- (52) z’aide à ly yo tou sol [62]

help(er) TO 3SG 3PL all alone

‘ses aides seuls’

‘his assistants, they all alone’

There are no examples of a noun followed only by the plural marker *yo*; *yo* is only found in the combination *là yo*, or combined with a possessive pronoun. Also in the Vocabulaire, plural marker *yo* is preceded by a possessive:

- (53) Iy pa gagné même gens à ly yo (p. 343)

3SG NEG have same people TO 3SG PL

‘il n’a plus ces mêmes gens’

‘he doesn’t have the same people anymore’

Göbl-Gáldi (1934: 270 n. 30) mentions this as an exceptional case of *yo* without *là*, which is correct, but it seems to be limited to cases where a pronominal possessor is present.

7.9.3 Conclusion: order noun and modifiers

Thus, the order of noun modifiers seems to be as follows:

- (54) INDEF/QUANT/NUM-ADJ-N-PART/ADJ-QUANT-POSS/DEF-PL

The elements follow a general tendency observed in noun phrases: quality comes closest to the noun (e.g. adjectives), thereafter quantity, and then location (often deictics).

8 Verb phrases

raison ‘to be right’ [40, 103, 147], *gagné plaisir* ‘to enjoy, to have fun’ [82, 92], *gagné crédit* ‘to have funds’ 86, *gagné soin* ‘to make sure’ [211, 244]. (French: *avoir envie, avoir besoin, avoir raison, avoir plaisir, avoir credit*).

8.2 Serial verbs

Modern Haitian has several serial verb constructions, and they appear quite often. They can also be found in the DHC dialogues, but they are less frequent in DHC than in modern speech. Modern Haitian has ‘take’ serials (*I **take** knife cut bread*, for English ‘I cut the bread with a knife’), ‘give’ serials (*I send book **give** you* ‘I send the book to you’), ‘pass’ serials (*he big **pass** her*, for ‘he is bigger than she is’) and ‘come/go serials’ (*I send child **go** market* ‘I send the child to the market’). Only ‘give’ serials and ‘pass’ serials are attested in DHC.

8.2.1 ‘give’ serials

36, 156

The standard French verb *donner* ‘to give’ is not used in DHC. The meaning ‘to give’ is expressed with the verb *bay* ‘to give’ from dialectal French *bailler*, as it is in most Caribbean French creoles. The verb *bay* is used in ‘give’ serials.

- (3) Si chauffournié pas voyé la chau bay nou [156]
 IF lime-supplier NEG send ART? lime GIVE/TO 1PL
 Si le chaud-fournier ne nous envoie pas de la chaud, ...
 ‘If the lime-supplier does not send us lime, ...’

The form *la* is odd. It seems to be a French definite feminine article, but those have not been transmitted from French. A referee suggests that it could be that Ducœurjoly was thinking in French here.

8.2.2 ‘pass’ serials

[58, 109, 165, 197]

The French verb *passer* ‘to pass’ is used in DHC to indicate a comparative construction.

8.3 Reflexive constructions

- (4) Z'armateur à vou yo va savé vou **miyor** gré **passé** si
 Shipowner TO 2.POL 3PL FUT know 2.POL more gratefulness PASS IF
 vou-té exposé bâtiment à yo, z'équipage et cargaison. [58]
 2.POL-PST expose boat TO 3PL crew AND load
 'Vos armateurs vous sauront **meilleur** gré **que** si vous exposiez leur
 bâtiment, l'équipage et la cargaison.'
 'Your shipowners will be **more** grateful to you **than** if you exposed their
 vessel, crew and cargo.' (lit. 'know more gratefulness')

See also Section 9.12.3 for more information on *passé* comparatives.

8.3 Reflexive constructions

[31, 75, 84, 98, 102, 115] (156, 157)

Reflexives are expressed with a full personal pronoun as object, and a personal pronoun as subject, in contrast to French where a preverbal clitic is used (*me, te, se, nous, vous, se*). The reflexive elements are preverbal in French, but postverbal in DHC.

- (5) **mo** peur grisé **moué** [31]
 1SG afraid get.drunk 1SG
 'je crains de me griser'
 'I'm afraid of getting drunk'
- (6) **mo** pa souveni **moué** [84]
 1SG NEG remember 1SG
 'je ne m'en rappelle pas'
 'I don't remember'
- (7) **You** coné **vous** [102]
 2.POL know 2.POL
 'vous vous y connoissez'
 'You are knowledgeable about it'
- (8) **nou** va musé-**nou** [115]
 1PL FUT amuse-1PL
 'nous nous amuserons'
 'we will have fun' (we will amuse ourselves)

8 Verb phrases

- (9) **Nou** té voudré provisionné **nou**. [75]

1PL PST want provide 1PL

‘**Nous** voudrions **nous** approvisionner.’

‘We would like to stock up’

Where the pronouns have long and short forms, or emphatic and non-emphatic forms (see Section 6.7), the subject pronoun has the short form and the reflexive pronoun the emphatic/long form. Example (171) could have a clitic and a full pronoun, rather than a reflexive one. The verbs that have a reflexive pronoun in DHC, also have one in French.

Verbs that are reflexive in form but not in meaning, often do not show a reflexive marker in DHC ([33, 44, 119, 157, 162, 175, 176, 200, 211])

- (10) Mo dir yo couché bon-heur [200]

1SG say 3PL go.to.bed good-hour (early)

‘Je leur ai dit de **se** coucher de bonne heure’

‘I told them to go to bed early’

- (11) pour hinder grain là formé, et alé par-tou. [211]

FOR help grain DEF form and go EVERYWHERE

‘pour aider le grain à **se** former, et **se** répandre.’

‘... to help the grain to form (**itself**) and spread (**itself**)’

All the examples of reflexives given involve personal pronouns.

In modern Haitian, reflexives are expressed with a grammaticalized construction including the noun *kò* ‘body’ or *tèt* ‘head’, from the French words for *corps* ‘body’ or *tête* ‘head’. This is not found in the material, but it must also have been in use also in Duccœurjoly’s lifetime. In the same period, the colonialist Moreau de Saint-Méry (1750-1819) uses to the expression *Ibos pend’cor à yo* ‘The Igbo hang themselves’ this tragic habit of the Igbos in slavery. In Modern Haitian, one would say *Igbo yo pann tèt yo* or *Igbo yo pann kò yo*. Reflexives with ‘body’ or ‘head’ seem to be uncommon in early creole texts. Only a few potential examples with ‘body’ but not ‘head’ can be found, like *nous va beau maginé contes pour sauvé corps-nous* ‘we will imagine beautiful tales to save ourselves’, in a text from the 18th century (M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 82).

8.4 Self

The expression for ‘self’ in DHC is characterized by an element *même*, following the (short form of) the personal pronouns, like in French. These are the only two

8.5 Reciprocal

examples:

- (12) Mo tiré ly **mo-même** l'endrét? [110]
 1SG PULL 3SG 1G-SELF place
 Je l'ai tiré **moi-même** du lieu?
 'I pulled it **myself** from the place?'
- (13) Vini **vous-même** [115]
 Come 2SG.POL-SELF
 'Venez-y **vous même**'
 'Come (there) **yourself**'

8.5 Reciprocal

There are no examples of reciprocal constructions in the material.

8.6 Causative

DHC makes use of an analytic construction to express causatives. Three verbs can be used with causative meanings, all three probably beside their lexical meanings. Causative meanings are expressed with the verb *fair* (French *faire*) 'to make, to do' ([21, 23, 45, 49, 51, 68, 83, 85, 100, 103, 138, 151, 161, 191, 197, 212, 221, 236]?) or *quité* (French *quitter*) 'to leave' (241, 226) or *laissé* 'to let, to leave' (59).

- (14) **fair** yo **préparé** cordage [21]
 do 3PL prepare ropes
 'faites **préparer** des cordages'
 'have the ropes **prepared**' or 'make them **prepare** the ropes'
- (15) cilà vou-té **fair** moué **gardé** pour madame Dumas [37]
 DEM 2.POL-PST make 1SG reserve FOR mrs. Dumas
 'celle-ci que vous m'avez **fait réserver** pour madame Dumas'
 'this one that you **made** me **reserve** for Madame Dumas' OR 'you **made** me **keep** it for...'
- (16) quan vou va prêt vou va **fair** yo **verti** moué [68]
 WHEN 2SG.POL FUT ready 2SG.POL FUT make 3PL warn 1SG
 'quant vous serez prêt vous me **ferez prévenir**'

8 Verb phrases

‘when you are/will be ready, you **let me know**.’ or: ‘... you will **make** them **warn me**’

- (17) mo **fai** ly **fair** à Honfleur [39]

1SG MAKE 3SG *make* (city)

‘je l’ai **fait faire** à Honfleur’

‘I **had it done** in Honfleur’

- (18) en même temps mo va gagné plaisir **fair** vou **goûter** l’autre
IN same time 1SG FUT HAVE pleasure MAKE 2SG.POL taste other
qui choi [92]
something

‘j’aurai en même temps le plaisir de vous **faire goûter** quelque chose’

‘at the same time I will have the pleasure of **making** you **taste** some other thing’

The construction with the causative verb *fai(r)* is followed by the subject (pronoun) indicating the agent of the action of the main verb. Thus, the verbs of the main clause and of the subordinate clause are never adjacent, and there is always an intervening personal pronoun.

The verbs *laissé* ‘to let’ and *quité* ‘to leave’ are also used for causative meanings, but in a less forceful sense. They are used more rarely ([59, 226, 241]):

- (19) faut **laissé** déchargé bâtiment là [59]

NEC let unload ship DEF

‘il faut **laisser** décharger le navire’

‘the ship must be unloaded’ (lit. ‘it is necessary to let the ship be unloaded’)

The causative *laissé* tends to have a more permissive meaning. The final causative is *quité*, which also covers permissive and less forceful causation.

- (20) cilà-ly **quité** vini dan vieux cafés à ly [226]

this-here leave come IN old café TO 3SG

‘celui qu’il a **laissé** pousser dans ses vieux cafés.’

‘the one he **left** to grow/**let** grow in his old coffee plants’

- (21) Vou va crir M . . . , pour ly **quité** nou prend. [241]

2.POL FUT write (name) COMPL 3SG leave 1PL take

‘Vous écrierez à M, pour qu’il **permette** d’en prendre.’

‘You will write to M, asking him to **let** us take some.’

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

Thus, *quité* and *laissé* seem to have a more permissive meaning or a meaning without force, whereas *fair* has an agent who makes things happen, but this agent is not necessarily overtly expressed.

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

As in almost all creole languages, tense, mood, and aspect (TMA) are mostly expressed through preverbal particles in DHC. A list of all those appearing in the material follows below, with their modern Haitian Creole equivalents. Note that in several cases, the meanings are different in DHC compared to Modern Haitian. In addition, Modern Haitian has several TMA markers that are not found in DHC as TMA markers. My sources for Modern Haitian consulted are mostly (DeGraff 2007; Fattier 2013; Valdman 2015). It is notoriously difficult to classify the meanings of TMA markers found in languages because they often have overlapping and multiple meanings. That is also the case here. Here is an overview of the TMA markers in DHC, with an approximate indication of the semantic range, with their modern Haitian (MH) descendants (the meanings of which are not necessarily the same).

(22)	a. Tense	Example
	i. <i>té</i> PAST	221 MH: <i>te</i>
	ii. <i>va</i> FUTURE	56 MH: <i>a, av, ava, va, v'</i>
	iii. <i>sorti</i> RECENT PAST	46 MH: <i>sot, sòt</i>
	iv. <i>-ra/re?</i> FUTURE	
	v. <i>alé/allé</i> FUTURE	88 MH: -
	b. Aspect	
	i. <i>après</i> PROGRESSIVE	177 MH: <i>ap</i>
	ii. <i>caba</i> COMPLETIVE	146 MH: -
	iii. <i>coutumé</i> HABITUAL	32 MH: -
	iv. <i>dija</i> IAMITIVE	173 MH: <i>deja</i>
	v. <i>fini</i> COMPLETIVE	161 MH: <i>fin</i>
	c. Mood	
	i. <i>bisoin</i> NEED	85 MH: <i>bezwen</i>
	ii. <i>bligé</i> OBLIGATION	56 MH: <i>oblige</i>
	iii. <i>capab(le)</i> CAPACITY	6 MH: <i>kap, kab, kapab</i>
	iv. <i>doi</i> OBLIGATION	227 MH: <i>dwe</i>

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v. <i>fau</i> NECESSITY	112 MH: <i>fòk</i>
vi. <i>faudra</i> DEONTIC	195 MH: -
vii. <i>peu</i> ABILITY	72 MH: -
viii. <i>savé</i> POTENTIAL	116 MH: <i>sa</i>
ix. <i>vlé</i> VOLITION	147 MH: <i>vle</i>
x. <i>voudré</i> POLITE VOLITION	75 MH: -

A comparison of these markers with those found in Modern Haitian, indicates important differences. Some of the markers in DHC are not found in Modern Haitian, and there are a range of forms in Haitian with no equivalent in DHC (cf. [Valdman 2015](#): ch.8): *pran* (< Fr. *prendre* ‘to take’) and *konn* for habitual (< Fr. *connaître* ‘to know’), *fèk* for recent past or completive (< *fait que* ‘makes that’), *manyen* for attenuative (‘do a little’ < Fr. *manière*), *manke* and *prese* ‘almost’ (< Fr. *manquer* ‘to lack, to miss’, Fr. *presser* ‘to hurry’), *mete/met* for inchoative (< Fr. *mettre* ‘to put’), *mèt* for permission (< Fr. *mettre*), *fouti* for negative capacity, *pete* for inchoative, *tonbe* for inchoative (< Fr. *tomber* ‘to fall’), *vin* and *twouvé* for completive/inchoative (< Fr. *venir* ‘to come’, Fr. *trouver* ‘to find’).

All TMA particles have a French etymology, except for *caba*, which is from Spanish/Portuguese *acabar* ‘to finish’. This verb and the derived grammaticalized completive aspect marker are also found in other creoles of the Caribbean, including some creoles with non-Portuguese lexifiers, such as Virgin Islands Dutch Creole, and the Surinamese English-lexifier creoles. Bare verbs are discussed first, then individual TMA markers and in the next section combinations of TMA markers, both with one another and with other parts of the language such as person markers.

8.7.1 *bare* verbs

Not all verbs are preceded by TMA markers. In many creole languages, bare verbs usually have a present tense meaning when they are stative verbs and a past meaning when they are non-stative verbs.

- (23) Terrain là **paroître** moué assé bon [231 (present meaning)]
 Land DEF seem 1SG pretty good
 ‘Ce terrain paroît assez bon’
 ‘This land looks pretty good to me’

8.7 TMA: *tense, mood, aspect*

- (24) l'hospitalière **mandé** moué vivres, pour malade là-yo.
 hospital.employee ask 1SG food FOR sick DEF-PL
[148 (present meaning)]
 'l'hospitalière me demande des vivres pour les malades.'
 'the nurse asks me for food for the sick.'
- (25) Mouché mo bon **content** voir vous **rivé** là sur rade à nou
 Mister 1SG very happy see 2.POL arrive THERE LOC harbor TO 1PL
[1 (present meaning)]
 'Monsieur, je suis très-satisfait de vous voir arriver sur notre rade'
 'Sir, I am very pleased to see you arrive in our harbour'
- (26) Vou **loué** nion magasin? [7 (past meaning)]
 2.POL rent INDEF store
 'Avez-vous loué un magasin?'
 'Did you rent a store?'
- (27) Com mo **soufri** tou plein dans traversée.... [10 (past meaning)]
 AS 1SG suffer MUCH IN crossing
 'Comme j'ai beaucoup souffert dans la traversée'
 'As I suffered a lot during the crossing...'

We also find bare verbs with past and future/potential meaning. It does not seem to be the case that there is a distinction between stative verbs and non-stative verbs, found in a number of creole languages, where bare non-stative verbs would have a past reading and bare stative verbs a present reading. That distinction is found in modern Haitian Creole (DeGraff 2007: 102–103). The meanings and functions of TMA particles, alone and in combination, are discussed below.

8.7.2 *tense* 1: **té** 'past'

The preverbal marker *té* marks past tense. It can be used with plain verbs, including passive-like constructions. That is by far the most frequent use. It can also be used with roots derived from adjectives and as an independent locative verb.

- (28) nou **té** manqué mulets. [176]
 1PL PST lack mule(s)
 'nous manquions de mulets'
 'we lacked mules'

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- (29) Nou té parlé. [91]
 1PL PST speak
 ‘Nous en avons parlé.’
 ‘We **(have)** talked about it.’

Note that the translations have both *passé simple* forms (synthetic forms) and *passé composé* forms (analytic forms, with auxiliary forms from *avoir* ‘to have’). In French, the forms differ in aspectual connotations, and this particular distinction is not found in DHC creole.

- (30) Nou té voir ça en entrant [87]
 1PL PST see DEM IN enter-PRES.PART
 ‘Nous nous en sommes aperçus en entrant’
 ‘We noticed this when we entered.’

- (31) Ly té carené anvant nou parti [49]
 3SG PST careen BEFORE 1PL leave
 ‘Il a été caréné avant notre départ’
 ‘It (a ship) **was** careened before our departure.’

Here it is used with a modified adjective, indicating that there may not be a separate category of adjectives.

- (32) yo seré té trop long-temps [62]
 3PL IRR PST too long-time
 ‘[ils] seroient trop long-temps’
 ‘[they] would be too long’

- (33) mo té ben malade [83]
 1SG PST quite sick
 ‘J’étois bien malade’
 ‘I was very sick’

In this sentence, it is clear that *té* is not just a direct copy of the French verb *été*, but it functions as a past marker, also where French would not use *été*.

- (34) mo fair yo acheté comptant, ça mo té besoin. [85]
 1SG CAUS buy cash WHAT 1SG PST need
 ‘j’ai fait acheter au comptant, ce dont j’avois besoin.’
 ‘I had them buy in cash what I needed’

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

- (35) miyor lá-yo té souvent cilà-yo, qui té prouvé py grand
 better DEF-PL PST often that-PL REL.SUBJ PST feel MORE big
 désagrément acque z'équipage à yo. [42]
 inconvenience with crews
 'les meilleurs étoient souvent ceux qui éprouvoient plus de désagrément
 avec leurs équipages?'
 'the best ones were often those who experienced the most inconvenience
 with their crews.'

Past is not always expressed, for instance in the relative clause in this example:

- (36) aussi mo té surprend primié accueil vou fair nous? [81]
 also 1SG PST surprise first welcome 2.POL make 1PL
 'aussi étois-je surpris du premier accueil que vous nous avez fait?'
 'Also I was surprised at the first welcome you gave us?'

In creole languages, it is often the case that the case that past markers are used only in the beginning of a past narrative, as in (200). The particle *té* can also be used as a locative copula in the form of an independent verb, as in:

- (37) Yo té dan d'iau dempy cinq jours [190]
 3PL PST IN water since five day(s)
 'Il y a cinq jours quelles [sic: qu'elles] y étoient.'
 'They have been in the water for five days.'

Occasionally, *té* seems to be used as an independent verb, although a calque cannot be excluded:

- (38) Que li en até (168)
 THAT yana/exist PST (que li en a té)
 'Qu'il y en avoit'
 (I answered) 'that there were'

8.7.3 *tense 2: va* 'future'

The future meaning of the particle *va* is straightforward. It is quite frequent, and a French equivalent with a morphological plural is almost exceptionless. Here are some examples:

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- (39) quan vou **va** prêt vou **va** fair yo verti moué [68]
 when 2.POL FUT ready 2.POL FUT CAUS 3PL warn 1SG
 ‘quant vous serez prêt vous me ferez prévenir.’
 ‘when you are/will be ready, you let me know.’
- (40) Mo voir que vou **va** bligé viré en quille [56]
 1SG see THAT 2.POL FUT forced turn IN
 ‘Je vois que vous serez obligé de virer en quille’
 ‘I see you’ll be forced to keel’
- (41) Z’armateur à vou yo **va** savé vou miyor gré passé [58]
 Shipowner TO 2.POL 3PL FUT know 2.POL better gratitude pass
 ‘Vos armateurs vous sauront meilleur gré’
 ‘Your shipowners will be more grateful to you’
- (42) ça **va** dépende z’occupations mo **va** gagné. [116]
 that FUT depend occupations 1SG FUT have
 ‘cela dépendra des occupations que j’aurai.’
 ‘That will depend on the occupations I will have.’
- (43) Quand yo **va** fini battre, yo **va** debité. Pui dan quinze jours....
 When 3PL FUT finish cut.down 3PL FUT debit THEN IN 15 day(s)
nou **va** meté dy feu, ensuite nou **va** fair boucan là-yo [216]
 1PL FUT put fire then 1PL FUT make heap DEF_PL
 ‘Quand on **aura** fini d’abattre, on débitera. Quinze jours après nous
 mettrons le feu, ensuite nous ferons les tas (monceaux).’
 ‘When they **will** be done felling (the trees), they’ll cut them in pieces.
 Fifteen days later we **will** start a fire, then we **will** make the heaps.’

It is naturally also used with etymological adjectives, which behave like verbs in DHC:

- (44) dans 4 jours yo **va** capable tirer d’au² moulin. [174]
 In 4 day(s) 3PL FUT able pull water? mill
 ‘dans 4 jours ils **pourront** tirer au moulin.’
 ‘In four days they [animals] **will** be able to pull at the mill.’

²It is not clear whether this is a locative preposition (*de au?*) or a mistake for *d’au* ‘water’. It could in theory also be a typo for *tirer au moulin*, but *au* is not used elsewhere with a similar function. We do have *au z’eux et au rum* ‘with eggs and rum’ (28) and *au moins* ‘at least’.

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

In only one case, it precedes a noun, reflecting the relative flexibility of grammatical categories in the Creole:

- (45) *nou va rété-ly à hauteur quand ly va tems* [231]
 1PL FUT stop-3SG at height when 3SG FUT time
 ‘nous l’arrêterons plus ou moins haut quand il en sera temps.’
 ‘we will stop it at the appropriate height when the time will be right’ (lit. at height; more or less high)

The particle *va* is never used in combination with other TMA markers in the material. It is sometimes merged with personal pronouns, as in example (210) below, where *nou + va* becomes *n’a* (assuming that the verb is *voyé*, as elsewhere in DHC, and the space missing). For other examples, see Section 8.8.2.

- (46) *n’avoyé cabrouet à nou yo* [138] (< *nou va voyé*)
 1PL-FUT-send cart TO 1PL 3PL
 ‘nous enverrons nos cabrouets’
 ‘we will send our carts’

8.7.4 tense 3: *alé/allé* ‘future’

[65, 88, 126, 151]

In a few cases, a cliticized form of *alé/allé* is used as a future marker. It immediately precedes the verb. The four cases all combine with a negative marker or with a personal pronoun. See also Section 8.8.2.

- (47) *Vou p’alé blâmé sans doute prudence à moué* [88]
 2.POL NEG-go blame WITHOUT doubt prudence TO 1SG
 ‘Vous ne blâmez sans doute pas ma prudence’
 ‘You probably won’t blame my prudence’

More often *alé/allé* is used in its lexical meaning, ‘to go’ ([44, 143, 151, 177, 211, 212, 221]).

The question can be raised whether there is a meaning difference between the three future markers, for instance in the degree of certainty, as seems to be the case in Early Mauritian and Guyanese. It is remarkable that *alé/allé* tends to be associated with negatives, and perhaps with a higher degree of certainty than *va*, but it is uncertain.

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8.7.5 *tense 4: -ra/ré ??? ‘future’*

There are two somewhat mysterious in the material, perhaps typos or future inflections. French has a third person future ending *-ra*, and similar forms for other persons in the paradigm, and this seems to be found in the material. There are some utterances with French *faudra* ‘should’ (the 3d. person future form of the verb *falloir* ‘to need’) in the dialogues ([57, 155, 195, 218]), and these seem to be fossilized forms. The other form encountered is *voudr*, from the French verb *vouloir* ‘to want, to like’. In one case it is combined with the past marker *té*: *Mo té voudr* ‘I would like’ (Fr. *Je voudrais*). There are also two deviant forms in the *Vocabulaire* that seem to have a future form, presented here.

- (48) mir³ vora ly si bon Dieu vlé (page 311)
1SG?-?? see.FUT?? 3SG IF good God want
je le verrai s'il plaît à Dieu
'I will see him if God wants'
- (49) ly té valéré la mer. (page 292)
3SG PST swallow the?? sea
'il *avalerait* la mer.'
'it/he/she would swallow the sea' (i.e. 'he/she is very thirsty')

The verb *vora* in (217) could be a typo for *verra* ‘will see’, whereas the form *valéré* is reminiscent of *avalerait* ‘it/he/she would swallow’, as indicated by the French version. Notice that the verb is preceded by the past tense marker *té*. Note also that *la mer* ‘the sea’ is written separately, even though it would have been one morpheme, cf. modern Haitian *lanmè* ‘sea’.

Thus, it is not clear if the future markers *-ra/-re* is only found in fossilized forms, as in the dialogues, or whether they are more productive, also being applied to less frequent verbs.

8.7.6 Tense 5: *sorti* ‘recent past’

The verb *sorti* is not only a lexical verb with the meaning ‘to leave, to go out’, but it is also used for indicating recent past:

- (50) Mo **sorti** apprend... [46]
1SG RP learn
'Je **viens d'**apprendre'

³It is not clear what *mir* is. It seems to contain *mo* 1SG, but *-ir* is unclear. Perhaps a remnant of the future form or 'to go', *ir-*.

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

‘I **just** learned....’

- (51) ly **sorti** débarqué [100]

3SG RP disembark

‘il **vient d’être** débarqué’

‘he **just** disembarked’

- (52) charrois là-yo nou **sorti** fair l’embarcadair [147]

cartloads DEF-PL 1PL RP make pier

‘charrois que nous avons fait à l’embarcadair’

‘cartloads that we [**recently**] made at the pier’

The lexical meaning is also preserved in DHC (102, 221), e.g.:

- (53) yo **sorti** Bayonne [102]

3PL come.from (name)

‘ils **viennent de** Bayonne’

‘They **come from** Bayonne’

In [Sylvain \(1936: 91\)](#), *sorti/sot* still has the same meaning of “recent past”, and also in [DeGraff \(2007: 108\)](#).

8.7.7 Tense/aspect 1: *savé* ‘future’ ‘ability’

The preverbal marker *savé* has both aspectual and temporal meanings. It can refer to an uncertain future tense or a potential mood. Some French dialects also use *savoir* for *pouvoir*, so this may not be a creole innovation.

- (54) les⁴ autres **savé** alé cherché chivrons [177]

DEF.PL?? others know go search rafter(s)

‘les autres **pourront** aller chercher des chevrons’

‘The others will **be able** to go and get rafters’

- (55) nou **savé** roulé-ly sitôt nou caba planté №. 8 [146]

1PL ABLE run-3SG as.soon.as 1PL FIN plant nr. 8

‘nous **pourrons** la rouler aussitôt que nous aurons fini de planter le №. 8.’

‘we **can** run it/roll it as soon as we finish planting Nr. 8.’

⁴It is probably not the case that *les* is the French plural definite article, but rather an indication that *autre* should be pronounced with an initial *z-*, as in modern Haitian *zot*.

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- (56) chaloupe à vou **savé méné** aussi. [21]
 rowboat TO 2.POL able carry also
 ‘votre chaloupe **pourra** aussi en mener.’
 ‘your rowboat **can** also carry some.’

Note that it may also have an additional modal meaning, ‘ability’, to be discussed below in Section 8.7.18.

8.7.8 Aspect 1: *après/aprés* ‘progressive aspect’

In many French-lexifier creole languages, the French preposition *après* ‘after’, or abbreviations thereof, doubles as a progressive aspect marker. In modern HC (and many other creoles), it is abbreviated to *ap* or *pe*. In DHC, only the full form is encountered, and it is quite frequent. Sometimes it can also be interpreted as marking present tense.

- (57) L’entourage à savane **après** tombé [221]
 Entourage TO savanna PROG fall
 ‘L’entourage de la savane tombe’
 ‘The surroundings of the savanna are falling’
- (58) Pendant nou **après** parlé patates ... [148]
 WHILE 1PL PROG talk potato(es)
 ‘En parlant de patates...’
 ‘Speaking of potatoes...’ OR ‘while we were speaking of potatoes’
- (59) Nou **après** loché deuxième cabanne. [158]
 1PL PROG shake second hut
 ‘Nous **sommes** à locher la seconde cabane’
 ‘We are **busy** turning the molds in the second hut’
- (60) les autres savé alé cherché chivrons, pour caze à
 ??⁵others know go search rafter(s) FOR hut TO bagasse
 bagasse la nou **après** fair. [177]
 DEF 1PL PROG make
 ‘les autres pourront aller chercher des chevrons pour la case à bagasse
 qu’on bâtit.’
 ‘the others will be able to go and get rafters for the bagasse hut we **are**
 building.’

⁵See preceding note.

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

8.7.9 Aspect 2: *fini/caba* ‘completive aspect’

[44, 140, 146, 161, 216]

The verb *fini* ‘to finish’ can be used preverbally in order to indicate completive aspect, and in that position it is an aspectual particle. The particle *caba*, from the Spanish or Portuguese verb *acabar* ‘to finish’, is used with the same function.

- (61) Nou **fini** (ou **caba**) sarclé, coupé ou planté, pièce la vou té dir
 1PL FINISH weed cut plant piece DEF 2.POL PST say OR
 ou ordonné? [140]
 order

‘Nous avons **fini** de sarcler, couper, ou planter la pièce que vous avez ordonnée’

‘We have **finished** weeding, cutting, or planting the piece you told or ordered.’

- (62) nou savé roulé-ly sitôt nou **caba** planté №. 8 [146]
 1PL CAN roll-3SG as.soon.as 1PL FINISH plant nr. 8
 ‘nous pourrons la rouler aussitôt que nous aurons **fini** de planter le №. 8.’
 ‘we can roll it/run it as soon as we **finish** planting Nr. 8.’

There does not seem to be a meaning difference between *fini* and *caba*. They seem to be in free variation. The semantically related particle *soti* does have a different meaning, of recent past.

8.7.10 Mood 1: *bisoin* ‘need’ necessity

[9, 48, 61, 62, 63, 85, 125, 154, 221]

The form *bisoin* is not a preverbal particle but rather a noun or a verb, expressing a need or a necessity for something. It is included here as it does have a modal meaning in DHC, as in (228) *gagné besoin* ‘have a need for’.

- (63) Nou gagné **bisoin** plisieurs sorte toile, d’abord, bel Flandre [125]
 1PL have need several kind cloth first (name)
 ‘Nous avons **besoin** de plusieurs sortes de toile: d’abord, de belle Flandre’
 ‘We **need** several kinds of cloth: first, some Belle Flandre’

See also *mood* 5: *fau(t)* below.

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8.7.11 Mood 2: *capable* ‘potential mood’ ‘ability’ ‘capacity’

[6, 18, 23, 61, 67, 113, 174, 178, 221, 221]

The preverbal marker *capable* expresses ‘potential mood’ as well as ‘ability’ and ‘capacity’.

- (64) tou ça qui **capable** géné nou. [23]
 ALL DEM REL POT bother 1PL
 ‘tout ce qui **pourroit** nous gêner’
 ‘anything that **might** bother us’
- (65) mo gagné nion grand chaloupe qui **capable** fair voyage conséquens
 1SG have INDEF big boat REL POT make trip long [18]
 avec matelot là yo
 with sailor DEF PL
 ‘j’ai une grande chaloupe qui **peut** faire des voyages conséquens avec les matelots’
 ‘I have a big boat that is **able** to make long trips with the sailors’
- (66) positivement m’a gagné dan tem-là, nion étivé soucre que mo
 positively 1SG-FUT have in time-DEF INDEF stew sugar REL 1SG
capabe livré-vou
 ABIL deliver-2.POL
 ‘j’aurai positivement à cette époque une étuvée de sucre que je **pourrai** vous livrer.’
 ‘at that time I will positively have a stew of sugar that I **can** deliver to you.’
- (67) tous ça qui **capable** servi dans pays cy. [6]
 ALL DEM REL ABLE serve in country HERE
 ‘tout ce qui **peut** être utile en ce pays.’
 ‘anything that **can** be useful in this country.’

It is also used, not surprisingly, with roots that are etymologically adjectives, as they behave like verbs in the creole.

- (68) Vou **capable** tranquille à n’égard là [67]
 2.POL ABIL quiet IN regard DEF
 ‘Vous **pouvez** être tranquille à cet égard’
 ‘You **can** be at your ease in this regard’

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

In Modern Haitian Creole, the particle *ka* (*kap*, *kab*, *kapab*) expresses ability, permission and probability (Fattier 2013). In French, the meaning of its source word *capable*, is virtually limited to subjective mood, i.e. limited to animate agents, but in DHC, the use of *capable* is much broader, including objective mood.

8.7.12 Mood 3: *coutumé* ‘used to’ (habitual)

32, 227

In French, *coutume* is a noun meaning ‘habit, tradition, custom’. In DHC, it can also be used as a preverbal marker expressing habitual aspect, but ending in *-é*, suggesting that it is a verb rather than a noun. It is probably from the verb *s’accoutumer* ‘to get used to’. This interpretation is confirmed by the fact that it follows the negator and precedes the verb.

- (69) Vous **pas coutumé** boir punch donc? [32]
 2.POL NEG accustomed drink punch THEN
 ‘Vous n’êtes donc **pas habitué** à boire du punch?’
 ‘So you’re **not used** to drinking punch?’

It is also used once as a noun (227).

8.7.13 Mood 4: *doi*, *doué* ‘must’, obligation, probability

[9, 54, 65, 168, 194, 227, 239]

The particle/auxiliary *doi* is derived from French *doit* ‘must’, pronounced /dwa/ in Modern standard French, but earlier and in dialectal varieties as /dwe/. The spelling variation *doi*, *doué* suggests that the /dwe/ pronunciation existed at the time, perhaps as the only one. Modern Haitian has *dwe*. The meanings in French and in DHC show some overlap, but French has inflected forms and DHC does not. Meanings vary between obligation (234, 235), probability (235, 236), and epistemic (237).

- (70) vou **doi** sir personne pa lé comandé-vou com moué? [9]
 2.POL MUST sure nobody NEG ?? accommodate-2.POL like 1SG
 ‘soyez sûr que personne n’est plus accommodant que moi.’
 ‘You **must** be assured that no one is more accommodating than me.’
- (71) Yo **doi** vini jordy. [194]
 3PL MUST come today
 ‘Ils **doivent** venir aujourd’hui.’
 ‘They **have to** come today.’ or ‘They should arrive today’

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- (72) Membre là yo **doùé** avoir aussi fatigué. [54]
 Member DEF PL MUST have also tired
 ‘Les membres **doivent** aussi avoir fatigué?’ ‘The members **must** also have (become?) tired?’

The modal auxiliary *doi* is always followed by a verb (or an adjective, which behave much like verbs in DHC, as in *ly doi bon* ‘it must be good’). It can also have an epistemic value. In example (238), it expresses an implication (wetness of soil) as a consequence of an event (rain).

- (73) Avla assez-long-tems l’a⁶ plie tombé, terre-là **doi** assé mouillé.
 LOOK enough-long-time rain fall soil-DEM MUST quite wet [239]
 ‘Voilà assez long-temps qu’il pleut; la terre **doit** être assez mouillée.’
 ‘Look, it has been raining for quite a long time; the ground **must** be quite wet.’

8.7.14 Mood 5: *fau(t)* necessity, ‘must’

[11, 12, 20, 23, 43, 44, 52, 59, 111, 112, 151, 157, 165, 171, 177, 181, 197, 224, 233, 236, 241, 251]

The form *fau(t)* (presumably /fo/) is derived from French *faut* (/fo/). It is derived from the French verb *falloir* ‘to need’. See also Section 8.7.5 and Section 8.7.15 for another form derived from the same verb. The meanings in French and Creole are quite similar: *fau(t)* refers to a need or a necessity. It can refer both to an entity (person, thing) or an activity, in the latter case followed by *que* or *not*.

- (74) **Fau** voyé six monde qui connê [241]
 NEED send six people REL know
 ‘Il **faut** envoyer six personnes intelligentes’
 ‘You **have to** send six smart people’
- (75) **fau** qu’à 5 heur y-en-a marchandise à terre. [20]
 NEED THAT.at five o’clock there.is goods LOC land
 ‘**il faut qu’à 5 heures il y ait des marchandises a terre.**’
 ‘At 5 o’clock the goods **must** be ashore’

⁶I interpret *l’a* as part of the noun *plie* ‘rain’. The Modern Haitian noun for ‘rain’ is *lapli*. In DHC, one finds *là plie*, *l’a plie* and *la plie* ([238, 239, 240, 244]), suggesting a rather arbitrary spelling, where the author does not himself quite know what to do with this *la* element. The entry for ‘Pluie’ in the *Vocabulaire* confirms this: “La Pluie ou plutôt la pli..”, p.343.

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

- (76) **fau** mo alé pour bay z'ordres à z'acconniers à moué [44]
 NEED 1SG GO TO give order(s) TO stevedore TO 1SG
 'il **faut** que je me retire pour donner des ordres à mes acconniers'
 'I **have to** retire to give orders to my stevedores'

The person in need of something is indicated in rare cases following the modal form:

- (77) Ces ça qui **fau** moué [12]
 IT.IS that REL need 1SG
 'C'est ce qu'il me **faut**'
 'That's what I **need**'

This could be similar to colloquial French constructions like *C'est ça qu'il me faut, moi*.

8.7.15 Mood 6: *faudra*, *faudré* 'should'

[155, 172, 195, 218]

The forms *faudra* and *faudré* are derived from the future and subjunctive forms of the verb *falloir*. See also Section 8.7.5. It is used for irrealis or a more softened form of the need, sometimes expressing a feeling of impossibility to achieve the action, and/or a future action. The meanings in French and Creole seem to be quite similar. The form *faudra* refers to the third person in French and *faudré* to the first person, or to an irrealis form *faudrait* /*fodre*/.

- (78) **Faudra** préparer lissive [155]
 NEED.FUT prepare washing
 'Il **faudra** préparer la lessive.'
 'We **will have to** prepare the washing.'
- (79) ly té **faudré** au moins 5 ou 6 l'autre. [172]
 3SG PST need.FUT.IRR at least five or six other
 'il en **faudroit** au moins 5 ou 6 autres.'
 'I/we **needed** at least five or six more [pieces of fabric]'

The interpretation of 'necessity' is confirmed by the translation of French *faudra* to Creole *bisoin* 'need'.

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- (80) Vou va gagné **bisoin** z'accon [9]
 2.POL FUT have need flat-bottom-boats
 'Il vous **faudra** des accons'
 'You would **need** some flat-bottom-boats'

It is possible that *faudra* is more future-oriented (tense) and *faudré* more mood-oriented (mood).

8.7.16 Mood 6: *bligé* 'obligation'

56, 186

The verb *bligé* can be a full verb or a preverbal marker. It marks an obligation, perhaps one caused by external factors. There are only two examples in the dialogues, and the exact meaning is hard to determine.

- (81) Mo voir que vou va bligé viré en quille [56]
 1SG see THAT 2.POL FUT forced turn IN
 'Je vois que vous serez obligé de virer en quille'
 'I see you'll be forced to keel'

8.7.17 Mood 7: *peu* 'ability mood'

The marker *peu/pu* is only used twice in the material. It seems to refer to ability (subjective mood). Because of the paucity of examples, the division of semantic space between *capab* and *peu* is hard to establish. It is derived from an inflected form of the verb *pouvoir* 'to be able to'.

- (82) Yo fair tou ça yo té **peu**, pour bon contré. [72]
 3PL do ALL DEM 3PL PST ABIL for good meet
 'On a fait tout ce qu'il étoit **possible** pour bien rencontrer.'
 'We/they did everything we/they **could** to meet well.'
- (83) dan beau tem mo fair yo dégagé ça mo **pu** [51]
 IN good weather 1SG make 3PL clear.out DEM 1SG ABIL
 'au beau temps j'ai fait dégager ce que j'ai **pu**'
 'in fine weather, I cleared out what I **could**'

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

8.7.18 Mood 8: *savé* ‘potential mood’

[11, 17, 19, 21, 23, 24, 40, 53, 60, 62, 100, 116, 124, 141, 146, 162, 166, 169, 170, 171, 177, 196, 227, 231, 233, 240, 244].

The auxiliary or preverbal particle *savé* refers to a future event that may or may not happen, as a potential event. The future-related meaning was discussed above (8.7.7), together with other tense markers. The subject may be an animate being, or an inanimate entity. The original meaning ‘to know’ is also in use (58), but much more rarely than the TMA particle.

- (84) yo *savé* planté canne acque vivres? [141]
 3PL ABIL plant cane AND provisions
 ‘*peut-on* planter des cannes, et des vivres?’
 ‘can we plant canes and provisions?’

- (85) Alor que tout convini nou *savé* boir nion bol punch? [24]
 Now THAT all agree 1PL ABIL drink INDEF bowl punch
 ‘Maintenant que tout est convenu nous *pouvons* boire un bol de punch?’
 ‘Now that everything is agreed can we have a bowl of punch?’

It may also have an objective modal meaning.

- (86) cabrouets là yo *savé* sufi. [17]
 carts DEF PL ABIL suffice
 ‘les cabrouets, *peuvent* suffire.’
 ‘The carts may suffice’

- (87) chaleur là ly faire *savé* ben fair crére vou, que... [100]
 heat DEF 3SG CAUS know well CAUS believe 2.POL that
 ‘la chaleur qu’il fait *peut* bien vous faire croire qu[e]...’
 ‘the heat may well make you believe that ...’

Whereas *savoir* in French only can have animate subjects, the grammaticalized form in DHC can also have inanimate subjects.

8.7.19 Mood 9: *séré* counterfactual ‘would’

Counterfactual clauses describe a situation that is not true, but that is mentioned as a possible state of affairs. Such sentences are similar to conditional sentences,

8 *Verb phrases*

but the events are not necessarily ever realized, and the sentence is not necessarily complex.

Counterfactuals can be expressed with a preverbal particle *seré* followed by a main verb. Here are some examples:

- (88) mo **seré** charmé que navire à moué s'été déchargé py vitte-ment
 1SG COUNT delight THAT ship TO 1SG IRR unload MOST quick-ly
 possible [10]
 possible
 'je **serois** charmé que mon navire **fût** déchargé le plus tôt possible'
 'I **would** be delighted if my ship were unloaded as soon as possible'
- (89) maître charpentier à vou acque z'aide à ly yo tou sol, yo
 master carpenter TO 2.POL AND assistant TO 3SG 3PL ALL alone 3PL
seré té trop long-temps [62]
 COUNT PAST TOO.MUCH long-time
 'votre maître charpentier et ses aides seuls, y seroient trop long-temps'
 'It would take your master carpenter and his assistants alone too long'
- (90) **moté seré** crée-ly ply grand. [248] [*moté* = *mo té*]
 1SG.PAST IRR believe-3SG more big
 'je l'aurois cru plus grand.'
 'I would have thought it bigger.'

In the last sentence, the counterfactual is combined with the past tense marker *té* as it took place in the past (*moté* should be read as *mo té*). The form *seré* is probably derived from *serait* 'it would be' or *serez* 'you (polite, PL) would be'. Note the different orders *seré té* and *té seré* in the last two examples.

8.7.20 Mood 11: *Seté, s'été, c'été*: counterfactual clauses, irrealis

The forms *seté, s'été, c'été* have functions similar to *seré*. It is probably derived from French *c'était* 'it was'. The first three examples are close to counterfactuals, whereas the last one could be interpreted rather as irrealis.

- (91) mo **seré** charmé que navire à moué s'été déchargé py vitte-ment
 1SG IRR delight THAT ship TO 1SG IRR unload more quick-ADV
 possible [10]
 possible
 'je **serois** charmé que mon navire **fût** déchargé le plus tôt possible'

8.7 TMA: tense, mood, aspect

‘I would be delighted if my ship **were** unloaded as soon as possible’

- (92) *quan même vou s’été gagné vingt par jour.* [11]

When even 2.POL COUNT have 20 per day

‘... en **eussiez**-vous vingt par jour.’

‘(I have as many as are needed to supply all that the carts can remove from the seaside), even if you *had* twenty a day.’

- (93) *cila yo-c’été prend, dans l’ombre, ly savé mouri avant ly prend racine*

DEM 3PL-COUNT

[227]

take in shadow 3SG POT die BEFORE 3SG take root

‘celui pris à l’ombre pourroit périr avant de prendre racine’

‘the one [a plant] caught in the shade, could perish before taking root’

- (94) *ly semblé moué que yo savé*

3SG seem 1SG THAT 3PL ABIL

couit deuxième sirop pour fair soucre, que yo seté mélé

cook second syrup for make sugar

[170]

REL 3PL COUNT mix

‘il me semble qu’on **pourroit** cuire les seconds sirops pour en faire du sucre qu’on mêleroit.’

‘it seems to me that one **could** cook the second syrup in order to make sugar which one **would** mix.’

8.7.21 Mood 12: *vlé* ‘volitional mood’ ‘necessity’

[13, 14, 25, 34, 41, 53, 89, 122, 147, 221, 253]

Volition is expressed with a preverbal particle *vlé*. This form is widespread in French-lexifier creoles. The infinitive form of the French verb is *vouloir* /vul’war/, and the second person plural and second person polite form is *voulez* /vu’le/. It was first documented in the Lesser Antilles in 1655 and 1659 as *voulé* (Bakker, in press) in Lesser Antilles Pidgin French, and later continued in the Creole.

- (95) *mo vlé profiter pendant terre la mouillé pour planté cannes acque*

1SG VOL profit WHILE soil DEF wet FOR plant cane AND

potatoes.

[147]

potato(es)

‘je **veux** profiter de l’humidité de la terre pour planter des cannes, et des

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patates.’

‘I **want** to take advantage of the humidity of the earth to plant canes and potatoes.’

- (96) Si vou **vlé** mo va traité en bloc pour toute cargaison. [13]

IF 2.POL VOL 1SG FUT treat IN bulk FOR all load

‘Si vous **voulez** je traiterai en bloc pour toute la cargaison.’

‘If you **want** I will deal with all the cargo in bulk.’

It can also be used in a more abstract sense, referring not to an animate agent but a force.

- (97) N’équipage a moué pas, jamais murmuré quand circonstances **vlé**
Crew TO 1SG NEG NEVER murmur WHEN circumstance NEC
nion travail forcé. [41]

INDEF work force

Mon équipage n’a jamais murmuré, quand les circonstances ont **exigé** un travail forcé.

‘My crew never murmured, when circumstances **demand**ed hard labor.’

8.8 Combinations of TMA markers

[53, 57, 63, 147, 157, 172, 248], page 326

In the previous section, I have discussed all TMA markers occurring alone. It is also possible to combine several TMA markers with the same verb? The combination of TMA markers was a hot topic of discussion in creole studies in the decades before 2000. In many creoles, two or three preverbal markers can be combined. Several combinations are also possible in Modern Haitian (DeGraff 2007: 108). Fattier (2013) lists ten combinations of two TMA markers in Modern Haitian. In DHC as well, two (but not three) consecutive TMA markers can be combined with the same verb. In addition, some appear to merge with other grammatical markers, such as negative elements and personal pronouns.

8.8.1 Tense, mood and/or aspect combined

In DHC, combinations of mood and tense markers are used, in both orders (mood-tense, tense-mood), and tense and aspect, in that order. Here are examples from DHC:

8.8 Combinations of TMA markers

- (98) mo **séré té** coumencé ly jordy [147] (mood – tense)
 1SG IRR PST start 3SG today
 ‘je l’**aurois** commencée aujourd’hui’
 ‘I **would** have started it today.’
- (99) yo **seré té** trop long-temps, [63] (mood – tense)
 3PL IRR PST too long-time
 ‘[ils] **seroient** trop long-temps,’
 ‘they **would be/take** too long’
- (100) moté **seré** crée-ly ply grand [248] (tense – mood)
 1SG.PST CF believe-3SG MORE big
 ‘je l’**aurois** cru plus grand’
 ‘I **would have** thought it bigger/ that it would bigger’
- (101) ly **té faudré** au moins 5 ou 6 l’autre. [172] (tense – mood)
 3SG PST DEON at least 5 or 6 other
 ‘il en **faudroit** au moins 5 ou 6 autres.’
 ‘it **would take** at least 5 or 6 more.’
- (102) Mo **té voudré** pourtant ben dispensé moué [157] (tense – mood)
 1SG PST want.IRR well dispense 1SG
 ‘Je **voudrais** pourtant bien m’en dispenser’
 ‘However, I **would like** to dispense with it’ (Fr. *Je voudrais/Je voudrais*).
- (103) Inutilement mo **té voudré** opposé. (page 326) (tense – mood)
 Useless.ADV 1SG PST want.IRR oppose
 ‘inutilement **voudrais-je** m’y opposer.’
 ‘uselessly, I **would like** to oppose it.’

Remarkably, all combine *te* and a future-oriented modal particle. There is no obvious meaning difference between those with mood-tense order and those with tense-mood order. They all refer to an uncertain future event or state. Hazaël-Massieux (2008: 427) calls the *séré té* sequence a past conditional.

These two refer to a completed action in the future, combining tense and aspect, in the order tense-aspect-verb:

8.8 Combinations of TMA markers

- (108) **m'allé** veillé ça [151]
 1SG-GO watch DEM
 'J'y veillerai'
 'I will see to it' (*mo allé*)
- (109) positivement **m'a** gagné dan tem-là, nion étivé soucre [113]
 positive-ADV 1SG-FUT have in time-DEF INDEF stew sugar
 'j'aurai positivement à cette époque une étuvée de sucre'
 'At that time I will definitely have a sugar stew'
- (110) **m'avoyé** lieutenant à moué voir yo. [114]
 1SG-FUT-send lieutenant TO 1SG see 3PL
 'j'enverrai mon lieutenant les voir.'
 'I will send my lieutenant to see them.' (*mo-va-voyé*)

The abbreviated form *n'* for first person plural is only found before vowel-initial verbs, and a reduced form of *va* becoming *a*. Here are some examples of first person plural and the future tense marker:

- (111) **N'a** voir ça dans deux trois jours. [163]
 1PL-FUT see DEM in two three day(s)
 'Nous verrons cela dans quelques jours.'
 'We will see that in a few days'
- (112) **n'avoyé** cabrouet à nou yo [138]
 1PL-FUT-SEND carts TO 1PL 3PL
 'nous enverrons nos cabrouets'
 'we will send our carts'
- (113) d'abord **n'allé** roulé.. [151]
 BECAUSE 1PL-go roll
 'puisque nous allons rouler'
 'since we are going to run'⁸

⁸The verb *roulé* refers to the action of setting the sugar mill in motion and feed the cut cane between the rollers.

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- (114) To va fair yo filé serpes, acque haches, pour n'allé
 2.FAM FUT CAUS 3PL sharpen bill.hook(s) and axe(s) FOR 1PL-go
 battre bois neuf. [212]
 cut.down wood new
 'Tu feras aiguiser les serpes, et les haches, pour aller abattre un bois
 neuf.'
 'You will have bill hooks and axes sharpened to go and cut down new
 wood.'

In all cases, the verb has a future translation, so it is likely that the first person pronoun *nou* has merged with the future marker *va* to a form *na*, written <n'a>.

- (115) Lyen à long-tem mo n'a mangé biscouit blanc [35]
 YANA long-time 1SG NEG.PST? eat biscuit white
 'Il y a long-temps que je n'ai mangé du biscuit blanc'
 'It's been a long time since I ate white biscuit'

It is also striking that the French verb 'envoyer' which normally has the equivalent *voyé* in DHC, but *avoyé* only in the above cases, which suggests that the <a> is not part of the verb stem, but a shortened form of the future marker *va* after the negative marker *n-*. Thus, one can have first person pronouns merging with future particles.

8.8.3 Combinations of TMA with negative markers

The negative marker *pa(s)* always precedes the verb and all TMA markers. Here DHC contrasts with French, where *pa(s)* follows the inflected verb or auxiliary.

- (116) mai mo pa té conné si lité vendre 168 (negation – tense)
 but 1SG NEG PST know IF 3SG.PST sell
 j'ignorois s'il étoit vendu
 'I didn't know if it was sold'
- (117) ly⁹ pa té resté guère d'iau la rivière, yo té bligé l'évé tout
 3SG NEG PST stay hardly water THERE river 3PL PST obliged lift ALL
 n'écluse, ly pa té sufi acque la peine. (186)
 lock 3SG NEG PST suffice WITH effort
 'il ne restoit guère d'eau à la rivière, on a été obligé de lever toute
 l'écluse à peine y suffisoit-elle.'

8.8 Combinations of TMA markers

‘There was hardly any water left in the river, we had to lift the whole lock, it was not sufficient and worth it’

- (118) d’ailleur yo **pa té** **savé** calfeter necqué légèrement
 besides 3PL NEG PST POT caulk ONLY light-ADV
 [53] (negation -- tense -- mood)
 ‘d’ailleurs, on n’a pu calfater que très-légèrement’
 ‘we/they could only caulk very lightly’

In the last example, we have both a past marker *té* and a mood marker *savé*.

8.8.4 Tense, mood, aspect, negation: summary

Tense, mood, aspect, and negation are almost exclusively expressed with preverbal particles.

The particles can be combined. The orders seem to be:

- (119) a. NEG-TENSE
 b. NEG-TENSE-MOOD
 c. TENSE-ASPECT
 d. TENSE-MOOD
 e. MOOD-TENSE

all preceding the verb. There are no examples of aspect markers with negation, or with mood, but those may be an accidental gaps in the data, rather than an impossibility. The order is most likely (uncertainties marked with brackets):

- (120) pronoun – negation – (mood) – tense – (mood) – aspect – verb
 But there is no direct evidence for the order of mood and aspect, or for the order of three markers of tense, aspect, mood.

⁹In this example *ly* seems to function as an impersonal form here, as in French *il*.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

This chapter deals with word order in simple clauses. It will be discussed from the viewpoint of the order of the main constituents, and from the viewpoint of different sentence types, e.g. statements, questions, existentials.

9.1 Simple sentence types

The order of subject, negation, TMA, and verb is consistent:

- (1) Subject – (Negation) – (TMA) – Verb (object)

Temporal or spatial expressions may precede this, and such fronting does not have an effect on the order of the other constituents. Thus, there is no inversion.

9.2 Question words

The number of question words is limited, and they appear not to be bimorphemic, with few exceptions, in contrast to those found in Modern Haitian (Valdman 2015: 272–273). They are generally not identical to the ones found in Modern Haitian.

The following question words are attested ([5, 10, 12, 63, 74, 76, 78, 78, 139, 145, 167, 203, 211, 225, 237, 246]):

- (2) a. NON-PERSON: *qui ça, ça* ‘what?’ (Modern HC: *ki sa*)(French: *que, quoi, qu’est-ce que*) [74, 144, 167]
- b. PERSON: *qui cila* ‘who’ (Modern HC: *ki-moun*) (French: *qui*) [76]
- c. PLACE: *ou éti, ou été* ‘where’ (Modern HC: *ki-bò, kote*) (French: *ou*) *où éti* [139, 149, 211, 225] (also p. [309, 338, 355])
- d. QUANTITY: *comben* ‘how much/many’ (Modern HC: *konbe*) (French: *combien*) [10, 12, 63, 203, 246]
- e. NOUN: *qué, qui N* ‘which’ (Modern HC: *ki*) (French: *quell(le)*) [5, 15]
- f. MANNER: *comment* ‘how’ (Modern HC: *kijan*) (French: *comment*) [78, 98]

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The particle *qui/que* is used with nouns, roughly translatable to English ‘which’: *Qui cargaison* ‘which load’, *Qué por* ‘(in) which harbour’, *Qué distance* ‘which distance’, *Qué profondeur* ‘how deep’ ([5, 15, 230, 237]). French would have *quel/quelle/quells/quelles*.

9.3 Content questions

[5, 10, 12, 15, 63, 74, 76, 78, 98, 139, 141, 203, 211, 225, 230, 237, 246]

The question words always appear sentence-initially:

- (3) **comment** vou porté? [78]
how 2.POL behave
comment vous portez-vous?
‘How are you doing?’
- (4) **qui** cila mo gagné l’honneur parlé? [76]
WH person 1SG have honor speak
‘à **qui** ai-je l’honneur de parler?’
‘Who do I have the honor to speak to?’
- (5) **Ça** to répond-ly [167]
What 2SG answer-3SG
‘**Qu**’as-tu répondu?’
‘What did you answer him?’
- (6) **Comben** vou gagné z’accons? [10]
How.many 2.POL have flat-bottom-boats
‘**combien** avez-vous d’accons?’
‘how many flat-bottom-boats do you have?’
- (7) **Où éti** bec corbin làyo (...) [211]
WHERE WHERE beaks raven DEF.PL
Où sont les becs à corbin
‘Where are the raven’s beaks?’¹

¹Raven’s beaks are tools used in the sugar plants, “made in the shape of a large shovel, turned up at the sides, narrow at the end, without a handle, but two handles to carry it like an inventory. It is used to transport the syrup into the sugar forms (Ducœurjoly1802: II: 298). The term *bec de corbin* is also used for halberd, a weapon.

9.4 Polar questions

[1, 3, 7, 24, 32, 48, 50, 84, 113, 129, 131, 139, 141, 144, 153, 181, 189, 199, 205, 211, 225, 228, 230, 234, 237, 246, 251]

Gradable questions: [144, 225, 230, 237, 246]

The order of constituents in polar questions is the same as in statements. One can assume that there was an intonational difference, most likely a rising intonation as in colloquial French and modern Haitian. Here are some examples with different types of subjects:

- (8) To créé ly va rend tout plein?
 2.FAM believe 3SG FUT give much
 ‘Crois-tu qu’elle rende beaucoup?’
 ‘do you think it will give a big turn-out?’

[181]
- (9) nou savé boir nion bol punch?
 1PL POT drink INDEF bowl punch
 ‘nous pouvons boire un bol de punch?’
 ‘can we drink a bowl of punch?’

[24]
- (10) Vou pas peur ly piqué?
 2POL NEG afraid 3SG damage
 ‘Ne craignez-vous pas qu’il soit piqué?’
 ‘Don’t you fear that he will be damaged?’

[228]
- (11) yo savé planté canne acque vivres?
 3PL PERM plant cane and food
 ‘peut-on planter des cannes, et des vivres?’
 ‘can we plant canes and food?’

[141]
- (12) La ligne-là prêt?
 DEF line-DEF ready
 ‘La ligne est-elle prête’
 ‘Is the/that line ready?’

[234]

In the above examples, a question mark is sometimes placed with the French sentence, where it is lacking in the Creole sentence, but not in the French version. Sometimes it occurs in both languages, and sometimes in neither. All the examples quoted have no inversion. The final example is the one in which the questioning part shows a (fossilized?) inversion:

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- (13) Faut-il nou planté z'igname, semé dou riz? [250]
 DEB-3SG 1PL plant yam sow rice [*douriz* is one word]
 'Faut-il planter des ignames, semer du riz?'
 'Should we plant yams, sow rice?'

The fact that it is followed by a first person plural pronoun suggests that the third person clitic (not otherwise attested in the dialogues) is not a meaningful part of the verb phrase. A literal translation could be: 'it is needed we plant yams.' The dominant order in questions remains otherwise indistinguishable from statements.

9.5 Commands

Direct commands: [23, 36, 103, 107, 121, 151, 210]

Polite commands [143, 149, 161, 191, 212, 214, 222, 242, 244]

There are surprisingly few clear imperatives in the text, even when there are colonials who are in the position to issue commands to enslaved Haitians. Even the dialogues between colonials and the enslaved have a polite tone, thus underlying the artificial nature of the dialogue, according to Krämer (2023). In direct commands, the full verb is used. Usually, the form of the verb is based on the past participle or the infinitive.

- (14) **Helé** maître sucrier là. [151]
 Call master sugarmaker DEF
 'Appelle le maître sucrier.'
 'Call the sugar master'
- (15) **porté** bay-nou nion coupe galette biscouit blanc. [36]
 bring GIVE-1PL INDEF couple biscuit white
 'apporte-nous un couple de galettes de biscuit blanc.'
 'bring us a couple of white biscuit patties.'
- (16) **Fair** yo préte grand palan [23]
 make 3PL prepare big hoist
 'Faites apprêter le grand palan'
 'get the big hoist ready'

There are also somewhat more polite commands where a second person plural pronoun is followed by a verb with a future tense marker. These are used when the settlers communicate with the enslaved overseers.

9.6 Hortative: let us...

- (17) **To va fair** yo graisser moulin, acque cabrouets là-yo.
 2FAM FUT make 3PL grease mill AND cart(s) DEF 3PL [191]

‘**Tu feras** graisser les moulins, et les cabrouets’

‘You will have the mills and the carts greased’

There are no examples of negative imperatives in the dialogues, but some examples are found in the *Vocabulaire* part (see also Section 6.11.7). These are expressed with /napa/, written *n’a pas*, which is used only for the negative imperative.

- (18) **N’a pas** imaginé vou que..
 NEG.IMPER imagine 2.POL that [315]
 ‘ne vous imaginez pas que...’
 ‘Don’t imagine that...’

9.6 Hortative: let us...

Hortative are expressed with a particle *alon/anon* or *allons*, both of which are probably derived from French *allons* ‘let us (go)’. In a few cases, a French verb is used with the French hortative ending *-ons*. Here are a few examples:

- (19) **Anon** nou fini punch à-nou [44]
 GO.HORT 1PL finish punch TO 1PL
 ‘Finissons notre punch’
 ‘Let us finish our punch’

- (20) **voyon** farine à vou? [117]
 see-HORT flour TO 2.POL
 ‘voyons votre farine?’
 ‘let us look at your flour’

In modern Haitian, *anon* has become *ann*, and ‘let’s go’ and ‘let’s see’ are expressed as *ann ale* and *ann wè* respectively.

9.7 Presentationals: *avla*, *avlà*, *à vla*, *vlà*, *av là* ‘here you have...’

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[78, 101, 106, 108, 117, 126, 128, 133, 137, 152, 210, 239, 242, 247].

When presenting something to the interlocutor, people use the form *avlà* (many spelling variants), derived from French *voilà* ‘here you are’, etymologically ‘see there’. Here are some examples.

- (21) à vla nion heureux rencontre [78]
 PRES INDEF happy encounter
 ‘voilà une heureuse rencontre’
 ‘this is a happy meeting’
- (22) Avlà pois là-yo mo mète à côté [247]
 PRES bean DEF-3PL 1SG put TO side
 ‘Voilà les fèves que j’ai mises de côté’
 ‘Here are the beans that I have put aside’

9.8 Location: ‘there is/are’

General locatives are expressed with no verb but with a locative preposition, or with a phrase derived from French *il y a / il y en a* ‘there is/there are’. This is usually followed by an indication of the location, e.g. with a prepositional phrase starting with *dan* or *à*. For different spellings, see Section 6.2.3. and Section 6.4.2.

- (23) en proportion de ça qui dan rafraîchissoir. (no locative verb/copula)
 in proportion OF DEM REL in cooler [211]
 ‘en proportion de ce qu’il y a dans le rafraîchissoir’
 ‘in proportion to what there is in the cooler.’
- (24) fau qu’à 5 heur y-en-a marchandise à terre. (yana as locative) [20]
 DEON THAT-AT 5 hour there.is merchandise AT land
 ‘il faut qu’à 5 heures il y ait des marchandises à terre.’
 ‘It is necessary that there are goods ashore at 5 o’clock.’
- (25) ly en à nion coin tout plein sable [184]
 there.is INDEF corner MUCH sand
 ‘il y a un coin très-sablonneux’
 ‘there is a very sandy corner’

The last example has an implicit location. Such locative expressions are often identical to existential statements in creoles (and many non-creoles).

9.9 Existential sentences: ‘there is/there are’

In many creoles and some pidgins, existential statements and locative statements are expressed in the same way. They are often based on a form of a verb meaning ‘to have’. That is also the case in French, with the expression *il y a*, literally ‘it has there’ for ‘there is/are’. DHC (and many other French-lexifier creoles and pidgins) have taken over this phrase in the form *il y en a*, and extended its meaning. One can generalize over them with the word *yana*, which is probably close to the actual pronunciation. In fact, in the *Vocabulaire*, it is spelled once like this: *comben y-a-na?* (Fr. *combien il y en a-t-il?*) ‘how many are there?’, p. 305).

In DHC, existential statements are expressed with this expression in a variety of spellings <y en à>, <ly en a>, <ly en à>, <y-en-a>, <ly en en>, etc. ([20, 103, 106, 128, 163, 174, 177, 178, 184, 192, 196, 198, 201, 248]).

Here are some examples of *yana/liyana* from the dialogues.

- (26) com y en a choi dan bagage là, nou va sondé yo. [103]

AS there.is choice IN object DEF 1PL FUT probe 3PL

‘comme dans ces objets il y a du choix, nous allons les sonder.’

‘as **there is** choice in these objects, we are going to probe them.’

- (27) D’abord ly en a d’iau assé pour moulin, [177]

Because there.is water enough for mill

‘Puisqu’il y a assez d’eau pour le moulin, ...’

‘Since **there is** enough water for the mill’

In French, the past form would be *il y avait* ‘there was, there were’, but in DHC the past is expressed with a past tense particle *té* followed by the existential.

- (28) Que li en até (168)

THAT yana BE.PAST (*que li en a (été)*)

‘Qu’il y en **avait**’

(I answered) ‘that **there was** one’

In French, *il y a* is also used as an equivalent of English ‘ago’, and so it is in DHC, but it is placed, as in French, before the indicator of time. There is a variety of spellings, and there is no reason to believe that the ‘ago’ meaning is different in form from the ‘there is/are’ meaning.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

9.10 Negative existentials: ‘there is /there are no’

There is a negative existential sentence with the expression *ni a point*, in which **ni a** may be a different spelling for *n’y-en-a* /njana/, followed by *point* and *guère*, both archaic alternative to the modern French negator **pas**. Also *ly en a* /ljana/ is found. Sometimes one can find the form *necque*, is used, which is derived from *rien que* ‘nothing but, only’. These yield sentences that have a negative morpheme, but which does not carry a negative meaning.

- (29) **ni a point** guère navire là sur rade [66]
 there.are.no NEG ship in harbor
 ‘il y a très peu de navires en rade’
 ‘there are not many ships in the harbor’

- (30) **Ly en a necque** deux cent vingt-cinq [248]
 There.are only two hundred twenty-five
 ‘Il n’y en a que deux cent vingt-cinq’
 ‘There are only two hundred and twenty-five’

- (31) **ni n’ y en-a** necqué cilà vou té fair moué gardé pour madame
 NEG? there.are.no only THIS 2.POL PST CAUS 1SG keep for
 Dumas [37]
 (name)
 ‘il a que celle-ci que vous m’avez fait réserver pour madame Dumas’
 ‘There is only this one you made me reserve for Madame Dumas’

9.11 Negative sentences

Negative utterances are typically accompanied by a negative marker written *pas/pa*. Negative morphemes and sentences were also discussed in sections Section 6.11 and Section 8.8. Whereas the negative marker is postverbal in French, it is always preverbal in DHC, as in Modern HC and virtually all French-lexifier creoles. The marker also precedes non-verbal predicates, and TMA markers if present, but there are no examples where this marker is followed directly by a noun.

- (32) Ça **pa étoné** nou [95]
 THAT NEG amaze 1PL
 ‘Cela ne nous étonne pas’

9.11 Negative sentences

‘That does not surprise us’

- (33) *ly pas cuit assé* [209]

3SG NEG cook enough

‘il n’est pas assez cuit.’

‘It is not cooked enough’

- (34) *Ça pas tou-plein* [52]

DEM NEG much

‘Cela n’est pas beaucoup’

‘that is not much’

- (35) *Que yo soin, pas plein forme là-yo nion trait* [211]

HORT 3PL care NEG full form DEF-PL INDEF stroke

‘Qu’on ait soin de ne pas remplir les formes d’un trait’

‘Take care not to fill in the molds all at once’

The only possible exception is the following, but it could also be interpreted as part of the phrase *pas ben* ‘not good’.

- (36) *mai mo senti pas ben jordy* [33]

but 1SG feel NEG good today

‘mais je ne me sens pas bien aujourd’hui’

‘I am not feeling well today’

The negative marker follows the subject, and it precedes not only the verb but also the preverbal tense-mood-aspect markers and the more emphatic negative marker *jamais* ‘never’ and in one case also *trop* ‘too much’.

- (37) *N’équipage a moué pas, jamais murmuré* [41]

Crew TO 1SG NEG never complain

‘Mon équipage n’a jamais murmuré’

‘My crew has never complained’

- (38) *Comme morne là pa trop haché ravines* [233]

AS hill DEF NEG very cut gully/gullies

‘Comme ce morne n’est pas trop coupé de ravines,...’

‘As this hill is not much cut by gullies,...’

9 Syntax: simple clauses

The negative marker follows the subject, but it precedes not only the verb but also tense-mood-aspect markers. Here are examples with tense: *té* expressing past tense, and *alé* expressing future or present tense, and examples with the modal markers *capable* expressing ability, *save* expressing possibility, *coutume* expressing habituality and *bisoin* expressing need.

- (39) peut-être yo **pas té** nommé vou? [84]
 may-be 3PL NEG PST name 2PL
 ‘sans doute on ne vous aura pas nommé’
 ‘they probably have not named you?’
- (40) Vou **p’alé** blâmé sans doute prudence à moué [88]
 2.POL NEG-go blame without doubt prudence TO 1SG
 ‘Vous ne blâmez sans doute pas ma prudence’
 ‘You probably won’t blame my caution’
- (41) Vou **pas coutumé** boir punch donc? [32]
 2.POL NEG habit drink punch then
 ‘Vous n’êtes donc **pas habitué** à boire du punch?’
 ‘So you’re not used to drinking punch?’
- (42) mai mo **pas capable** entreprendre ly avant nion mois [61]
 but 1SG NEG capable undertake 3SG before one month
 ‘mais je **ne puis** l’entreprendre **que** dans un mois’
 ‘but I **can only** undertake it in a month’
- (43) vou **pa savé** plaindre vous [19]
 2.POL NEG PERM complain 2.POL
 ‘vous ne **pouvez pas** vous plaindre’
 ‘you **can’t** complain’
- (44) Ly **pa besoin** maître charpentier à vou [62]
 3SG NEG NEED master carpenter TO 2PL
 ‘Il n’est **pas besoin** de votre maître charpentier’
 ‘There is **no need** for your master carpenter’

Thus, the negative marker is *pa(s)* and found in between subject and TMA or verb.

9.12 Comparative sentences

There are three ways to express a comparative construction. One is based on the French way with a derivative of *plus* ‘more’ (in DHC: *py* or *ply*, probably pronounced /pi/ or /pli/), the other a verbal construction derived from French *passer* ‘to pass’, probably inspired by African serial verb constructions. In addition, there is the word *miyor*, from French *meilleur* meaning ‘better’, that is used, covering the meanings of both French *meilleur* ‘better’ and *mieux* ‘best’. The word *davantage* ‘more’ is also used once.

9.12.1 particle *p(l)y*

The particle *p(l)y* can be used as a modifier of an adjective.

- (45) Cilà ici paroît-moué **py** fraîche, et **py** blanch? [119]
 DEM HERE seem-1SG MORE fresh and MORE white
 ‘Celle-ci me paroît **plus** fraîche, et **plus** blanche?’
 ‘This one seems fresher to me, and whiter’

- (46) moté seré crére-ly **ply** grand. [248]
 1SG.PST CF believe-3SG MORE big
 ‘je l’aurois cru **plus** grand.’
 ‘I would have thought it bigger/ that it would be bigger’

It can also modify a combination of an adjective and a noun.

- (47) **py** grand désagrément [42]
 MORE big inconvenience
 ‘**plus** de désagrément’
 ‘**more** inconvenience’

- (48) vous pa allé trouvé nion **plu** bel blan, ni nion l’usage [126]
 2.POL NEG go find INDEF MORE beautiful white NEG INDEF use
miyor.
 better
 ‘vous n’en trouverez-pas d’un **plus** beau blanc, ni d’un **meilleur** usage.’
 ‘you will not find a finer white one, nor one of a **better** use.’

It can also modify an adverb.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

- (49) pour yo savé agir py facilement dan cale là. [23]
 FOR 3PL ABIL operate MORE easy-ADV in cargo.hold DEF
 ‘pour pouvoir agir **plus** facilement dans la cale.’
 ‘to be able to operate **more** easily in the cargo hold [of a ship]’

9.12.2 *Miyor/millor* ‘better, best’

The *miyor/millor* ‘better, best’ is used in adverbial and nominal positions, and sometimes in combination with *py* ‘more’.

- (50) ça va millor [238]
 DEM FUT better
 ‘cela n’en sera que mieux’
 ‘it will be better’ ‘it will only be **better**’
- (51) Bravo, ça va encore py miyor. [29]
 Bravo DEM FUT even MORE BETTER
 ‘Bravo, cela sera encore mieux.’
 ‘Bravo, that will be even **better**.’

In contrast to French, no distinction is made between masculine and feminine forms. The *Vocabulaire* (p.332) explicitly specifies that *miyor* can be used “au féminin comme au masculin” (in both masculine and feminine), confirming that there are no gender distinctions in DHC.

9.12.3 *passé* ‘surpass’

The ‘pass’ construction can be seen as a serial verb construction. See also Section 8.2.2., in the context of serial verbs. Similar constructions are found in other creole languages as well, with translation equivalents such as ‘more’, ‘pass’, ‘win’. The construction with *pase* is also used in modern HC.

- (52) six foi passé qué yo fair. [109]
 six time PASS THAT 3SG do
 ‘six fois **plus** qu’on n’en fait.’
 ‘six times **more** than they/we do’

9.12 Comparative sentences

- (53) To pa fair yo coupé **passé** ça qui faut pour vingtquatre heures
 2SG NEG CAUS 3PL cut PASS DEM
 [197]

REL NEED for 24 hour(s)

‘Tu n’en as pas fait couper **plus que** pour vingt-quatre heures’

‘You didn’t make them cut **more than** was needed for twenty-four hours’

- (54) Ly va **passé** ça qui fau pour Mouché [165]
 3SG FUT PASS DEM REL NEED for Mister

‘Il y en aura **plus qu’il** n’en faut pour M.’

‘There will be more than enough for Mr.’

In one case, *passé* is used in combination with *miyor*. Here, the verb *passé* seems to have a function similar to ‘than’, and similar to French *que*.

- (55) Z’armateur à vou yo va savé vou **miyor** gré **passé** si
 Shipowner TO 2.POL 3PL FUT know 2.POL more gratefulness PASS IF
 vou-té exposé bâtiment à yo, z’équipage et cargaison. [58]
 2.POL-PST expose boat TO 3PL crew AND load

‘Vos armateurs vous sauront **meilleur** gré **que** si vous exposiez leur bâtiment, l’équipage et la cargaison.’

‘Your shipowners will be **more** grateful to you **than** if you exposed their vessel, crew and cargo.’ (lit. ‘know more gratefulness’)

9.12.4 *Davantage* ‘more’, ‘further’

There is one example with *davantage* ‘more’, which is given a comparative meaning in the translation. In French, the word *davantage* means ‘more’.

- (56) acque bon traitement, yo taché z’ome **davantage** [40]
 WITH good treatment 3PL attach man MORE
 ‘avec de bons traitemens on s’attache **mieux** les hommes’
 ‘with good treatment men become **more** attached’

9.12.5 Summary comparatives

In short, *py* and *miyor* are used to indicate a higher degree of something, but if *a* is present, the serial verb *passé* is used. They are combined with adjectives or adjective/noun combinations.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

9.13 Superlative

There are few examples of a superlative. As in French, it is almost always expressed with ‘plus’, like the comparative. The definite article makes it a superlative in French, otherwise, it is a comparative construction. Thus, in French, *plus grand* is ‘bigger’ and *le plus grand* is ‘the biggest’. In superlatives in DHC, the French definite article is missing, judged by the French translation. Instead, the ‘new’ postposed definite article *la* is used.

- (57) **miyor** lá-yo té souvent cilà-yo, qui té prouvé py
 better/best DEF-3PL PST often DEM-PL REL.SUBJ display MORE big
 grand désagrément acque z’équipage à yo. [42]
 inconvenience with crew TO 3PL
 ‘les **meilleurs** étoient souvent ceux qui éprouvoient plus de désagrément
 avec leurs équipages’
 ‘the **best ones** were often those who experienced the most inconvenience
 with their crews’

The following examples illustrate how adverbial superlatives, or at least expressions of excess, can be expressed:

- (58) **py** vittement possible 10
 ‘le **plus** tôt possible’
 ‘as soon as possible’
- (59) tancher **miyor** possible [51]
 étancher le mieux possible
 ‘seal as **well** as possible’

In the *Vocabulaire* one can find (p. 287) the following:

- (60) c’est **pli** grand z’afair [287]
 it.is more/most big case
 ‘c’est **la plus** grande affaire’
 ‘it’s the biggest deal’

There are two irregular comparatives and superlatives in French (*bon, bien* ‘good, well’ > *meilleur, mieux*; and *mauvais, mal* > *pire*. Of these, only *meilleur* is used in DHC, occurring as *miyor/millor* ([29, 42, 51, 58, 238], etc.) occurs in the

9.14 Intransitive sentences

Dialogues. The only instance of *mieux* in the material appears as part of the fixed expression *tan mieu* ‘so much the better’ (39) (French: *tant mieux*). The form *pir* can be found once in the *Vocabulaire*, p.346.

- (61) vous conné qui chose qui **pir** (p. 346)
 2.POL know some thing REL.SUBJ worse
 ‘connoisssez-vous quelque chose de **pis**²’
 ‘do you know something worse’

9.14 Intransitive sentences

[5, 13, 41, 43, 119, 143, 144?, 147, 151, 161, 171, 184, 186, 194, 237, 240, 241, 244, 252, 253]

There are remarkably few intransitives sentences in the dialogues, which most likely has to do with the nature of the material, the dialogues in which activities with objects are discussed. Sentences with a subject and a verb, always appear in the order subject noun phrase first, then the verb phrase. The verbal stem may be preceded by tense-mood-aspect markers and by a negative element. Here are some examples.

- (62) Yo doi vini jordy [194]
 3PL MUST come today
 ‘Ils doivent venir aujourd’hui’
 ‘they must arrive today’
- (63) Drét to va fini terré.... 161
 AS_SOON_AS 2SG FUT FINISH dig
 ‘Dès que tu auras fini de terror...’
 ‘As soon as you’re done digging...’
- (64) nou va semé l’autre côté 252
 1PL FUT sow other side
 ‘nous en sèmerons ailleurs’
 ‘we will sow at the other side’

Also non-specific/indefinite subjects seem to be placed before the verb. Objects will be placed after the verb phrase, see the next subsection.

² *Pis* is an archaic form for *pire*.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

9.15 Transitive sentences

In transitive sentences, the order of subject, verb and object is virtually always SVO (also called AVO, as subjects in transitive sentences are fundamentally different from subjects in intransitive sentences, cross-linguistically). There is no perceivable difference between full noun phrases, single nouns and pronouns as for ordering, and the order in subordinate clauses is the same as in main clauses. Object sentences also follow the verb. In French, pronominal clitics end up in different locations vis-à-vis the verb. There is a special issue, however, with relative clauses in DHC.

Here are some examples of AVO sentences, with nouns and pronouns.

- (65) Vieux là-yo va sarclé hayies là-yo, et nourrices là-yo va semé
 Old DEF PL FUT weed hedge DEF PL AND childminder DEF
 plant [145]
 PL FUT sow plant
 ‘Tes vieux sarcleront les haies, et les nourrices jetteront ou sèmeront le
 plant.’
 ‘Your/the old people will weed the hedges, and the childminders will sow
 the plant(s)’
- (66) Ly fair d’iau en pile [50]
 3SG make water much
 ‘Fait-il beaucoup d’eau?’
 ‘Does it make a lot of water?’ AVO
- (67) vou gagné nion cargaison très-bien assorti [71]
 2.POL have INDEF load very-well assorted
 ‘vous aviez une cargaison très-bien assortie’
 ‘you had a very well assorted cargo’ AVO
- (68) **Mo sorti apprend**, Mouché, **qué** vou té éprouvé damage dan
 1SG RP learn sir COMPL 2SG.POL PAST undergo
 traversée. [46]
 damage LOC crossing
 ‘**Je viens d’apprendre**, Monsieur, **que** vous avez éprouvé des dommages
 dans la traversée’
 ‘**I have just learned**, Sir, **that** you suffered damage during the crossing’
 AVS(O)

9.15 Transitive sentences

Sometimes (rarely) the subject is repeated in a pronominal form.

- (69) **Z'armateur à vou yo** va savé vou miyor gré ...
 Shipowner TO 2.POL 3PL FUT know 2.POL more gratefulness [58]
 'Vos armateurs vous sauront meilleur gré'
 'Your shipowners, they will be more grateful to you (lit. 'know more gratefulness') A PRO V O

Almost always, subject, verb and object are adjacent, but there are three general exceptions. First, there can be an adverbial phrase between the verb and the object ([2, 57, 59, 88, 94, 169, 207, 221]).

- (70) nou va fair **ensuite** nion visite complete [59]
 1PL FUT make then INDEF visit complete
 'nous en ferons **ensuite** une visite complete'
 'we will **then** make a complete visit' A V ADV O
- (71) malgré ça mo mété **necque** 45 jours dans traversée à moué. [2]
 despite that 1SG put only 45 day in crossing TO 1SG
 'néanmoins je n'ai mis **que** 45 jours dans ma traversée'
 'Despite that, I **only** used 45 days for my crossing' ADV A V ADV O

Second, in the context of transitive sentences, it is also useful to mention that constituents may be fronted, and that has no consequences for the order of A, V and O if the fronted constituent is temporal or locational, sometimes also in the form of a sentence ([24, 41, 51, 92, 153, 182, 190, 216, 249])

- (72) **dan beau tem** mo fair yo dégagé ça mo pu [51]
 IN good weather 1SG make 3PL clear.out DEM 1SG ABIL
 'au beau temps j'ai fait dégager ce que j'ai pu'
 'in fine weather, I made them clear out what I could' ADV A V O
- (73) **En grand canne** ly té rend vingt fois vingt formes [182]
 LOC big cane 3SG PST produce 20 times 20 form(s)
 'En grandes cannes, elle a rendu quatre cents forms'
 'In great canes, it rendered four hundred molds' ADV A V O

9 Syntax: simple clauses

In questions when involving a fronted question word, the order is no longer AVO. In these examples it is O S V ([5, 10, 144, 167, 203]).

- (74) **Comben la chaud** yo mète dan grande [203]
 HOW.MUCH lime 3PL put IN big
 ‘**Quelle quantité de chaud** a-t-on mis à la grande?’
 ‘**How much lime** did we/they put in the big one (kettle)?’
- (75) **Ça** nou va faire acque nourrices, et vieux monde? [144]
 WHAT 1PL FUT do WITH caretakers AND old people
 ‘**Que** ferons-nous avec les nourrices, et les vieux?’
 ‘**What** will we do with the caretakers and the old people?’
- (76) **Ça** to répond-ly [167]
 What 2SG answer-3SG
 ‘**Qu**’as-tu répondu?’
 ‘**What** did you answer him?’

Note that verb and subject are inversed in both English and French, yielding OVS in such types of questions, but otherwise there is no inversion in DHC.

Third, a cleft sentence may have an object in the beginning of the sentence ([12, 37, 198])

- (77) **C’es ça** qui fau moué [12]
 DEM/COP DEM REL.SUBJ NEED 1SG
 ‘**C’est ce** qu’il me faut’
 ‘**This is** what I need’

In imperatives involving a transitive action, the subject is as a rule implicit, but sometimes the subject/agent is indicated ([155, 195, 218]).

- (78) **Helé** maître sucrier là. [151]
 Call master sugarmaker DEF
 ‘**Appelle** le maître sucrier.’
 ‘**Call** the sugar master’
- (79) **Voyon** farine à vou? [117]
 See.HORT flour TO 2.POL
 ‘**voyons** votre farine?’
 ‘**let us look at** your flour’

9.16 Ditransitives: double object constructions

- (80) **Faudra** préparer lissive [155]
 NEED.FUT prepare washing
 ‘Il faudra préparer la lessive.’
 ‘We will have to prepare the washing.’
- (81) **Faut** burlé boucan là-yo [224]
 NECESSARY burn wood.grill DEF PL
 ‘Il faut brûler les boucans’
 ‘we need to light up the wood grills’

9.16 Ditransitives: double object constructions

Double object constructions are ditransitive constructions in which both an object and an indirect object are present. In some languages, one of the two arguments is marked with a case marker or a preposition, in other languages it is the order of elements that reveals the semantic roles. In many European languages, both types of constructions are found, e.g. English: *I give the book to the girl* or *I give the girl the book*. With two animates, the first will be interpreted as the receiver, and the second as the object: *I give the dog the cat*. In French, the double object construction is not possible, unless a preposition is placed before the indirect object: *Je donne le livre à la fille* but not *Je donne la fille le livre*.

In DHC, there are a number of patterns in constructions with two objects, or with an object and an indirect object. One should distinguish between those with pronouns, and those with full noun phrases. In French, pronominal double object constructions with pronouns tend to be expressed with preverbal clitics, as in *je-le-lui-donne* ‘I give it to him’ (subject-object-indirect object – verb). The order with full nouns is different: *la femme donne le livre à la fille* (subject-verb-object-indirect object).

9.16.1 Double object constructions with only personal pronouns

In sentences with only pronouns, the generalized order is:

- (82) subject – (TMA) – verb – indirect object – object

In the following example, it is a construction with two objects.

- (83) comben vou-va loué **mo ly**? [63]
 how.much 2.POL-FUT rent 1SG 3SG
 ‘combien **me le** louerez-vous?’

9 Syntax: simple clauses

‘For how much will you rent it to me?’

9.16.2 Double object constructions with only full nouns/noun phrases

[44, 60, 195]

There are few examples in the material with full noun phrases. Two examples have the order:

(84) Verb – nominal object – preposition – indirect object

And the third example has the order:

(85) Verb – indirect object - nominal object

These are the sentences:

(86) *fau mo alé pour bay z’ordres à z’acconniers à moué*
MUST 1SG go FOR give order TO
(V-O-PREP-IO) [44]
stevedore TO 1SG

‘il faut que je me retire pour **donner des ordres** à mes acconniers’
‘I have to go to **give orders** to my stevedores’

(87) *vou pas savé dispensé vou bay nion carène en plein, à batiment à*
2.POL NEG ABIL dispense 2.POL give
vou. [60] (V-O-prep-IO)
INDEF hull IN full TO ship TO 2.POL

‘qu’il vous est indispensable de **donner une carène** en plein à votre **bâtiment**.’

‘it is essential for you to give a full hull to your boat’

(88) *pour bay z’animaux là-yo z’écumes³* [195]
FOR give animal.PL DEF-PL scum
‘pour **donner des écumes** aux animaux’
‘to give **sugar foam** to animals’

Animacy does not seem to play a role in the choice of word order.

³The French term *écume* means ‘foam’. In this context, it might refer to the byproduct of cane processing, which is commonly used as a fertilizer, and animal food.

9.16 Ditransitives: double object constructions

9.16.3 Double object constructions with nouns and personal pronouns

In most cases of double object constructions, one of the objects is pronominal and the other is nominal. Here, one encounters a range of different orders after the verb, and a preposition may or may not be present. The preposition can be *ba(y)*, a grammaticalized form from the lexical verb *bay* ‘to give’, or *à*, directly copied from French. The latter is not found in Modern Haitian, the first is in use. The following orders are found in the DHC material:

- ... V - pronominal indirect object – nominal object
[9, 17, 33, 37, 65, 125, 148, 150, 166, 168, 176, 250]
- B. ... V - preposition – nominal object - pronominal indirect object

Type A is by far the most frequent.

Examples of Type A:

(89) *verb - pronominal indirect object – nominal object*

(90) **l’hospitalière mandé moué vivres, pour malade là-yo.**
nurse ask 1SG food for sick DEF-PL [148]

‘l’hospitalière me demande des vivres pour les malades.’
‘the nurse asks me for food for the sick.’

(91) **mo va ba-vou quien à z’equipage qui tré bel.** [37]
1SG FUT give-2.POL THAT to crew REL.SUBJ very good
‘je vais vous en donner de celui d’équipage, qui est très beau.’
‘I’m going to give you some of that from the crew, which is very good.’

(92) **m’a ba vou 6 gourdes.** [65]
1SG.FUT give 2PL six gourd
‘je vous donnerai 6 gourdes.’
‘I will give you six gourds’ (‘gourd’ is also the name of a local currency)

(93) **Nou va bay yo l’air, en battant lizière-là.**
1PL FUT give 3PL air PREP beat-PRES.PART [250]
border-DEF

‘Nous leur donnerons de l’air en abattant la lisière.’
‘We will give them air by knocking down the selvage.’

9 Syntax: simple clauses

- (94) Mo mandé-vou pardon [33]
 1SG ask-2.POL pardon
 ‘Pardonnez-moi’
 ‘Excuse me’
- (95) ... si vous savé livre ly nion boucaut. [166]
 IF 2.POL ABIL deliver 3SG INDEF/one barrel
 ‘... si vous pourrez lui en livrer un boucaut.’
 ‘... whether you can deliver him a barrel’
- (96) porté bay-nou nion coupe galette, biscuit blanc. [36]
 bring give/TO-1PL INDEF couple cake biscuit white
 ‘apporte-nous un couple de galettes de biscuit blanc.’
 ‘bring us a couple of white biscuit patties.’

Here *bay* is interpreted as the grammaticalized preposition derived from the verb *bay* ‘to give’, as in the next examples.

Here is an example of Type B:

- (97) *B. Verb - nominal object – verb - pronominal indirect object*
 (Type C)

- (98) Si chauffournié pas voyé la⁴ chau bay nou.... [156]
 IF lime-supplier NEG send DEF? lime give/TO 1PL
 ‘Si le chaux-fournier ne nous envoie pas de la chaux,’
 ‘If the lime-supplier does not send us lime,’

A similar example can be found in the *Vocabulaire*:

- (99) porté z’acra ba moué. P. 286
 bring acra give/TO 1SG
 ‘apporte-moi des acras’
 ‘bring me acras’

⁴In modern Haitian, the word for ‘lime’ is *lacho*, with an integrated French definite article. That is probably already the case here as well.

9.17 Emphasis and fronting

[20, 21, 35, 51, 112, 153, 182, 187, 190, 216]

As mentioned above, the normal sentential order is S V O. However, constituents can be fronted for emphasis. The fronted elements are usually temporal, sometimes circumstantial. Nominal constituents can be fronted for emphasis as well.

- (100) *fau qu'à 5 heur y-en-a marchandise à terre.*
 NEC that.at five hour there.is goods on
 [20]

land

'il faut qu'à 5 heures il y ait des marchandises a terre.'
 'the goods must be ashore at 5 o'clock.'

- (101) *A coup de canon z'accon la yo va à bord*
 At shot of cannon fellow DEF PL FUT on board
 [21]
 'Au coup de canon les accons seront à bord'
 'At the cannon shot, the fellows will be on board'

- (102) *Lyen à long-tem mo n'a mangé biscuit blanc*
 AGO long time 1SG NEG eat biscuit white
 [35]
 'Il y a long-temps que je n'ai mangé du biscuit blanc'
 'It's been a long time since I ate white biscuit'

An example of a fronted local expression:

- (103) *En grand canne Iy té rend vingt fois vingt formes*
 LOC big cane 3SG PST produce 20 times 20 form(s)
 [182]
 'En grandes cannes, elle a rendu quatre cents formes'
 'In great canes, it rendered four hundred molds'

Examples with a specific fronting marker are rare.

- (104) *A propos n'écluse, yo visité yo?*
 As regards locks 3PL visit 3PL
 [187]
 'A propos d'écluse, les a-t-on visitées'
 'Speaking of locks, have they been visited?'

9 Syntax: simple clauses

When a noun is fronted, the translation is formed as a passive construction.

- (105) **Grand chaudier là** **acque** batterie, yo démonté [154]
 Big kettle DEF and last.kettle 3PL dismantle
 ‘La grande chaudière et la batterie sont démontées’
 ‘The big kettle and the last kettle are dismantled’

No examples of fronting of verbs or nouns or noun phrases are found in the dialogues. Only question words are always fronted (see Section 9.2. and Section 9.3). The function of fronting is to emphasize the fronted element.

- (106) **Qué por** bâtiment à vou yé? [15]
 WHICH tonnage ship TO 2.POL BE
 ‘De quel port est votre bâtiment?’
 ‘Which tonnage does your boat have?’

The word *por* can be interpreted as ‘harbour’ or ‘tonnage’. The answer to this question makes it clear that it relates to the size of the ship rather than the harbor (see Willaumez 1831: 460–461).

9.18 Subject reprise

In the dialogues, there are almost no examples of an emphatic and a reduced pronoun in the same sentence (but see the section about reflexives, Section 8.3). In the grammar part of the *Vocabulaire*, one can find an example like this one, where the pronouns *toué* and *to* are used side by side, similar to *toi* and *tu* in French.

- (107) **Toué,** **to** qui fair, tant brave à toué
 2S.FAM.EMP 2S REL make brave to 2SG
 ‘toi qui fais tant le brave’
 ‘You who are so brave’ (D. p. 353)

This is one of the two examples from the dialogues:

- (108) Et **moué, mo** va gagné aussi nion douzaine sac d’igo? [113]
 And 1SG 1SG FUT have also one dozen bag indigo
 ‘Et moi j’aurai aussi une douzaine de sacs d’indigo?’
 ‘And as for me, will I also get a dozen bags of indigo?’

This resembles the colloquial French ‘moi, je...’ construction with a full pronoun and a clitic. Clearly, both *moué* and *mo* have a subject function. See Section 6.7 and chapter 14 for discussion.

9.19 Passive constructions

[10, 22, 24, 49, 71, 100, 154, 157, 168, 188, 190, 199, 228, 245]

Passive constructions of the European type (e.g. English ‘The dog was fed by the man’) are rare or absent in creole languages. Typically, an auxiliary is used with the main verb in past participle form, and the theme/object has become the subject of the clause, and the agent can be expressed with phrase starting with the preposition *by* (in French *par*). In creoles, an active equivalent is used, like ‘they kicked the ball’, rather than ‘the ball was kicked (by the girl)’. This is a simple example of an agentless passive:

- (109) Mouché, tout planté [245]
 Sir all plant
 ‘Monsieur, tout est planté’
 ‘Sir, everything is planted’
- (110) Soucrier premier quart là-yo, verti? 199
 Sugar.maker first shift DEF-PL notify?
 ‘Les sucriers du premier quart sont ils prévenus?’
 ‘Have the sugar makers in the first shift been notified?’

There are also examples of sentences that are translated with a passive construction in French, but rendered as active in the Creole, like this one:

- (111) Yo dire nou vou gagné nion cargaison très-bien assorti, sur-tout
 3PL say 1PL 2.POL have INDEF load very-well
 bon di vin. [71]
 assorted especially good wine
 ‘On nous a dit que vous aviez une cargaison très-bien assortie sur-tout en bon vin.’
 ‘We were told that you had a very well assorted cargo, especially in good wine’

There are also examples like the following, where an auxiliary is used with a verb in a clearly passive meaning, and there is an invariant form of the verb in all functions.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

- (112) mo pa té conné si **lité vendre** [168]
 1SG NEG PST know IF IRR send
 ‘j’ignorois s’il **étoit vendu**
 ‘I didn’t know if it **was sold**’

The only examples that might indicate a ‘*by* phrase’ are the following:

- (113) Mo fair yo tou débarrassée **par** gardien là-yo [188]
 1SG make 3PL ALL clear BY guard DEF-PL
 ‘j’ai tout fait débarrasser **par** les gardiens’
 ‘I had everything cleared **by** the guards’
- (114) anvant ly barassé **par** di vin [22]
 BEFORE 3SG clutter BY wine
 ‘avant qu’il ne soit embarrassé **par** le vin’
 ‘before he gets cluttered **by** the wine’

In short, it seems that DHC has more possibilities for passivization than modern Haitian, but passive constructions are used less frequently than in French. William Jennings (p.c.) points out that: “the expletive *ne* with a subjunctive has not been necessary in spoken French for a very long time. The Féraud dictionary of 1787 says it makes a phrase sound elegant, suggesting that not using the *ne* in such phrases is acceptable”.

9.20 Discourse markers

Discourse markers are much more frequent in spoken language than in written language. One type refers to the truth value of the preceding utterance. French has *oui* ‘yes’, *si* ‘yes (after a negative statement)’, and *non* ‘no’. Only *oui* has been documented in the dialogues (142, 213).

A few discourse markers have been documented as well. These include exclamations and hesitation markers. They tend to be sentence-initial:

- (115) a. *Ma foi* 81 ‘frankly’ ‘well’
 b. *Eh ben* 92 ‘well’
 c. *Tan mieu* 39 ‘so much the better’

In the spoken language, they would have been more frequent than in these written texts.

9.21 External possession

External possession is the name of a construction in which the possessor is expressed as part of the verb phrase rather than the noun phrase. It is found in Ducœurjoly's material. It also exists in French, but the two languages behave differently.

- (116) z'oreille à moué fair **mo** mal. (page 337)
 ear TO 1SG make 1SG pain
 'l'oreille **me** fait mal'
 'My ear hurts **me**'

9.22 Copulas and zero-copulas

The term copula is a widely used in linguistics, but it is a misnomer, based on an earlier ethnocentric norm about how languages should be. Copulas are frequent in English and other Western European languages, and hence they were experienced as a norm. Yet many languages do not use copulas, or they do not use them in all positions where European languages would use them. The term copula is also unfortunate from descriptive viewpoint, in that it covers several semantic categories, where Western European languages typically use a copula, often an inflected form of the verb 'to be', but many other languages don't. Yet, in this section the term copula and zero-copula are used for convenience. In other languages, not necessarily the same form is used in all copula-triggering contexts. The contexts can be generalized under the cover term 'non-verbal predication'. One can distinguish at least the following functions that require a copula in languages like English and French.

- Equative or identificational: a one-to-one relation, like 'John is my father', 'Elizabeth was the queen of Great Britain'. These typically involve two nouns or noun phrases.
- Inclusion: one out of many/ a set: 'Johanna is a football player'. These also typically involve two nouns, and a specific entity will be included in a broader class.
- Existential: 'there are unicorns', or 'there are lions in Africa'. These typically involve one noun or noun phrase, typically generic, and a location, and the nouns may follow the copula.

9 Syntax: simple clauses

- Location: ‘there is a squirrel in the garden’, ‘my car is in the garage’, ‘the dogs are in the kitchen’. These typically involve one noun or noun phrase, and an indication of a location. The nouns may follow the copula. The noun is often specific. Different forms may be used depending on the specificity of the noun.
- Attributive: ‘John is big’. These typically involve a noun and an adjective, or a property predicate, which is not nominal. These predicates may be preceded by adverbial modifiers like ‘very’ or ‘somewhat’.
- Possessive: ‘the house is mine’ ‘this car is John’s’. These typically involve two nouns (or noun phrases), where one indicates the possessor and the other the possessed.

French would use a form of the copula *être* ‘to be’ for (a), (b), (e) and (f), and a form *il y a* (from the verb ‘to have’, litt. ‘it has there’) ⁵ for (c) and (d). Modern Haitian Creole (DeGraff 2007: [104, 112, 113, 114]; Fattier 2013) would use the copula *se* for nominal predicates (a) and (b), a form derived from the verb ‘to have’ for (c) and (d) (here the verb *gen/genyen*, derived from French *gagner* ‘to obtain’, which expresses predicative possession), and a zero copula for (b), (d) (e) and a copula *se* for (f). ⁶ For emphatic constructions, the patterns may change. Here I listed the most common ones. There is dialectal variation in MHC.

Examples of most of the types can be found in the dialogues:

- Equative: [12?, 20, 28?, 53, 66, 70, 73, 78?, 186]
- Inclusion: [62, 70, 94, 108, 123]
- Existential: [20, 37, 66, 78, 103, 106, 128, 163, 174, 177, 178, 184, 192, 196, 198, 201, 248]
- Locative zero-copula: [21, 157, 173] (the distinction between locative and existential is not always clear-cut)

⁵John **est** mon père; Johanna **est** une joueuse de football; **il y a** des licornes; **il y a** des lions en Afrique; **il y a** un écureuil dans le jardin; ma voiture **est** dans le garage; John **est** grand; John **est** très grand; la maison **est** à moi. (French)

⁶Jan **se** papa m; Johanna yon jwè foutbòl; **gen** likorn; **genyen** lyon an Afrik; **gen** yon ekirèy nan jaden an; machin mwen an nan garaj; Jan gwo; Jan gwo anpil; kay la **se** pou mwen. (Modern Haitian Creole).

9.22 Copulas and zero-copulas

- **Attributive zero-copulas:** [12, 18, 20, 23, 27, 28, 31, 32, 37, 44, 47, 52, 60?, 61, 62, 65, 66, 73, 81, 83, 85, 97, 98, 100, 101, 105, 107, 141, 146, 147, 153, 154, 157, 160, 164, 176, 195, 196, 199, 201, 202, 204, 208, 210, 227, 233, 234, 235, 245, 246?]

Attributive zero-copulas with *te* past markers: [42, 49, 183, 186, 229]

Attributive zero-copulas with *va* future markers: [18, 21, 29, 56, 68, 157, 180, 214, 231, 238]

Attributive zero-copulas with mood markers: [10, 11, 62, 248] (*séré, sété*), 9 (*doi*)

- Possessives are not found in the dialogues, but there are some in the *Vocabulaire*.

In the majority of cases, no copula is used in DHC where French would use them. This is the case for all attributive constructions (a), which are by far the most frequent of the copula constructions, and all locative constructions (d). The attributives, including those modified by an adverb, can also be preceded by markers of tense (*té* past tense, *va* future tense). Nonverbal predicates may also be preceded by mood markers like *doi* ‘must’ (obligation) and *seré* and *sété* for counterfactuals and irrealis (see Section 8.7). The mood markers *seré* and *sété* are etymologically related to the verb ‘to be’, but they no longer have a copulative function (see Section 8.7.19 and Section 8.7.20). There are no apparent differences between third person subjects and first and second persons in the choice of copulas.

Here, examples are given of the six types mentioned above, followed by a short comparison between the phenomena in the dialogues and in the *Vocabulaire* part and a conclusion.

9.22.1 Equative contexts

There are only a few cases of equative contexts in the dialogues, and their equative status is often not straightforward. No copula is used.

- (117) Vous **premier** à qui mo laissé ly pour prix-là [66]
 2.POL first TO WHO.REL 1SG LET 3SG FOR price-DEF
 ‘Vous êtes le **premier** à qui je l’aurai laissé pour ce prix’
 ‘You are the first to whom I have sold it for this price’

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- (118) Messieu, vos [SIC?] serviteur. [70]
 Sir-PL ??? servant
 ‘Messieurs, **je suis** votre serviteur.’
 ‘Gentlemen, **I am** your servant’
- (119) Cé but à moué [74]
 DEM/COP goal TO 1SG
 ‘C’est là mon but’
 ‘That is my goal’
- (120) Cé nion affair fini [20]
 COP? INDEF deal finished
 ‘C’est une affaire faite’
 ‘It’s a done deal’

9.22.2 Inclusive contexts

When a nominal predicate is used to indicate inclusion, the vast majority of the examples contain the element *cé*, etymologically a combination of a weak demonstrative and a copula (French *ce* ‘this, that’ and *est* ‘is’). In DHC, this could be interpreted as a copula.

- (121) mo entrepreneur [62]
 1SG entrepreneur
 ‘Je suis entrepreneur’
 ‘I am an entrepreneur’
- (122) Vou coné M... cé nion ben digne homme [94]
 2SG.POL know [name] COP/DEM INDEF very decent man
 ‘Vous connoissez M... **c’est** un bien digne homme’
 ‘You know M... **he** is a very worthy man’

9.22.3 Existential contexts

It is not always easy to distinguish between existential and locative contexts. See also Section 9.8 and Section 9.9. Existential contexts trigger a form glossed as *yana*, derived from French *il y en a* ‘there are’, spelled in various way in Duceœurjoly (1802b).

9.22 Copulas and zero-copulas

- (123) Ly en a **necque** deux cent vingt-cinq [248]
 There.are only two hundred twenty-five
 ‘Il n’y en a **que** deux cent vingt-cinq’
 ‘There are **only** two hundred and twenty-five’
- (124) Ly en en néqué jouc demain [198]
 YANA only until tomorrow
 ‘Il n’y en a **que** ce qu’il faut jusqu’à demain’
 ‘There is **only** enough until tomorrow’

9.22.4 Locative contexts

For locative contexts, zero-copulas are found as well as the *yana* form from French *il y en a*.

An example of a locative zero-copula (the form *va* here is not a form of a verb ‘to go’, but a future marker; see Section 8.7) with a locative meaning:

- (125) sucre la yo qui **dan** purgerie. [157]
 sugar DEF PL REL.SUBJ IN purgery
 ‘les sucres qui **sont** à la purgerie.’
 ‘the sugars that **are in** the purgery [building where sugars are whitened]’
- (126) A coup de canon z’accon la yo **va** à bord [21]
 PREP shot of cannon stevedore DEF PL FUT LOC board
 ‘Au coup de canon les accons **seront** à bord’
 ‘when the gun goes off the stevedores **will be on** board’
- (127) Ly dan dernier d’iau qui ben clair. [160]
 3SG IN last water REL.SUBJ very clear
 ‘Elle **est** à sa dernière eau qui est très-claire.’
 ‘[the land] **is at** its last water which is very clear’

The locative may be extended to the temporal, in the sense of being located at a certain point in time, with a zero copula. This is a common process in languages.

- (128) Nou en été p. 317
 1PL in summer
 ‘Nous sommes en été’
 ‘we are in the summer’

9 Syntax: simple clauses

Here is an example of a locative with the *yana* construction

- (129) L y en a sirop en pile dans bassin la yo. [163]
 YANA syrup much in basin DEF PL
 ‘Y a t-il beaucoup de sirop dans les bassins.’
 ‘Is there a lot of syrup in the basins?’

Perhaps the zero-copula is used for countable nouns and the *yana* construction with mass nouns. For more discussion, see Section 9.8 and Section 9.9.

9.22.5 Attributive contexts

No copula is used in attributive contexts. Tense and mood markers may be used preceding the attributive.

- (130) Beur à vou blanch et pitit brin trop salé [105]
 Butter TO 2SG.POL white AND little bit too salty
 ‘Votre beurre est blanc et un peu trop salé?’
 ‘Is your butter white and a little too salty?’ or: ‘Your butter is white and a little too salty’
- (131) quan vou va prêt vou va fair yo verti moué [68]
 WHEN 2SG.POL FUT ready 2SG.POL FUT CAUS 3.PL warn 1SG
 ‘quant vous serez prêt vous me ferez prévenir’
 ‘When you will be ready, you will make them warn me’
- (132) mo seré charmé que navire à moué s’été déchargé py vittement
 1SG IRR delighted COMP ship TO
 possible [10]
 1SG IRR unload most quickly possible
 ‘je serois charmé que mon navire fût déchargé le plus tôt possible’
 ‘I would be delighted if my ship be unloaded as quickly as possible’
- (133) vou doi sir personne pa lé comandé-vou com
 2SG.POL MUST sure nobody NEG ?? command-2SG.POL
 moué? [9]
 like 1SG
 ‘soyez sûr que personne n’est plus accommodant que moi’
 ‘You must be sure that no one is more accommodating than me’

9.22 Copulas and zero-copulas

- (134) ça va encore py miyor. [29]
 DEM FUT even more better
 ‘cela sera encore mieux’
 ‘That will be even better’

9.22.6 Possessive contexts

There are no examples of possessive predicates in the dialogues, but the phenomenon is discussed in the *Vocabulaire*. The form *tien* or its palatalized form *quien* is used (see also Section 6.7, Section 8.1 and Section ?? for discussion of possession, and Section 13.1).

- (135) Caze la **qien** à M. un tel p. 318
 House DEF BELONG TO Mr a certain
 ‘Cette maison est à M. un tel.’
 ‘This house belongs to Mr. So-and-so’

- (136) Petit la **qien** a moue p. 318
 Small DEF BELONG TO 1SG
 ‘Cet enfant est à moi’
 ‘This child is mine’

9.22.7 The copula *yé*

If one would rely on the description of non-verbal predication and the verb ‘to be’ in the grammatical section of the *Vocabulaire*, one would get a rather distorted idea of the facts.

Ducœurjoly (1802b: 316–317) describes the equivalents of the French verb *être* ‘to be’, where he provides a paradigm with the form *yé*, e.g.:

- (137) a. *Mo yé* for French *je suis* ‘I am’,
 b. *to yé* for French *tu es* ‘you are’,
 c. *vou yé* for French *vous êtes* ‘you (plural) are’

In the dialogues, however, a zero-copula is used, also with pronouns as subject: *mo bon content* ‘I am pretty satisfied’ (1, also [62, 70]) and *vou premier* ‘you are the first’ (French: *vous êtes le premier* (42, 66, p. 219). Here is another example without *yé* from the dialogues:

9 Syntax: simple clauses

- (138) Yo vigoureux [42]
 3PL strong
 ‘Ils sont vigoureux’
 ‘They are strong’

In the dialogues, all in all only three cases of *yé* are found ([15, 44, 139]):

- (139) z’abitude déyé ensemble [44]
 habit OF.BE together
 ‘l’habitude d’être ensemble’
 ‘the habit of being together’
- (140) Qué por bâtiment à vou yé? [15]
 WHICH tonnage ship TO 2.PL BE
 ‘De quel port est votre bâtiment?’
 ‘Which tonnage does your boat have?’
- (141) Thélémaque ou éte⁷ nou yé? [139]
 (name) where 1.PL BE
 ‘Thélémaque où en sommes-nous?’
 ‘Thélémaque, where are we?’

A common denominator for these three cases is not easy to find. Two have questions as their context, and one a nominalization.

9.22.8 Summary copula

In many contexts in which a copula would be triggered in French or English, a zero copula is used. Here we can notice a clear dichotomy between the *Vocabulaire*, in which *yé* is given as the translation equivalent for ‘to be’, but even though the French text contains many dozens of forms of *être* and its inflected forms, this form is only found three times in the dialogues. The use of the copula in DHC differs from both Modern Haitian and from French. A copula is found in all contexts in French, either in the form of a verb ‘to be’ or ‘it has’ (locative and existential), and four forms are used in DHC: zero, *se*, *ye* and *yana*. In MHC we find zero, *se*, *ye* and *gen(yen)*, in partially different contexts.

⁷ou éte (found in different spellings) is the grammaticalized form of the locative question word, probably from *ou est-il* ‘where is he/it’. See Section 9.2 and Section 9.3.

10 Clause combining

Sentences and clauses can be combined in a range of ways. They can be combined in coordinate constructions, with a connector with a meaning like ‘and’, ‘or’, but’.

They can also be combined in constructions where one clause is dependent on another, i.e. main clauses and subordinate clauses. Nominal forms may be specified in a relative clause, and relative clauses may also provide extra information on the nominal entity. Verbs of speaking may contain an embedded clause, or two sentences may be combined by means of a conjunction. I will start with coordinate clauses, and then continue with subordinate clauses.

10.1 Coordinate clauses

Two clauses can be combined where both are main clauses. A number of connecting elements can be used. All of them are derived from French. Several of these connectors can also be used to combine noun phrases. Those are discussed in Section 7.8.

- (1) *et* ‘and’ [4, 17, 18, 22, 39, 40, 44, 51, 62, 64, 77, 79, 80, 93, 105, 113, 115, 119, 125, 134, 135, 144, 145, 147, 149, 150, 158, 170, 171, 175, 176, 179, 181, 201, 206, 210, 211, 218, 221, 224, 233, 238, 242, 244, 252].
- (2) *épy, et py* ‘and, then, and then’ [62, 93, 176]
- (3) *acquē* ‘and’
 - a. Coordinator: [28, 43, 62, 125, 128, 141, 147, 151, 154, 187, 191, 192, 193, 201, 204, 212, 218, 220, 252].
 - b. Preposition: [28, 40, 42, 43, 62, 143?, 144, 186?, 221].
- (4) *mai(s)* ‘but’ [33, 37, 49, 52, 59, 61, 97, 100, 103, 111, 116, 147, 168, 211].
- (5) *car* ‘for’ (reason) [82, 109, 227]
- (6) *ou* ‘or’ [23, 149, 172]
- (7) *ou ben ??* ‘or’ [26, 94, 164, 182, 232]

10 Clause combining

10.1.1 *et* ‘and’

The coordinator *et* /e/ is directly taken over from French *et* /e/, and it has the same functions, including the connection of adjectives and noun phrases (see Section 7.8.1) and the connection of sentences.

- (8) pour hinder grain là formé, **et** alé par-tou. [211]
 FOR help grain DEF form and go everywhere
 ‘pour aider le grain à se former, **et** se répandre.’
 ‘to help the grain to form **and** spread’
- (9) Avlà ly ben tiré, **et** chargé tou souit pour fond là pas [206]
 PRES 3SG well shoot and charge immediately for bottom DEF not burn
 bourlé.

‘Voilà qui est bien tiré, **et** chargez de suite pour que le fond ne brûle pas’
 ‘That is well shot, **and** load immediately so that the bottom does not burn’

- (10) Nou va commencé aussi par farine **et** gro caisse [22]
 1PL FUT start also by flour and big crate
 ‘Nous commencerons aussi par la farine, **et** les grosses caisses’
 ‘We will also start with the flour **and** the large crates’

10.1.2 *acque* ‘and’

The coordinator *acque* is derived from the French preposition *avec* ‘with’. Apart from being a preposition, it can also be a coordinating conjunction ‘and’. That is an innovation in DHC, as that is not possible in French. It can also be used for connecting noun phrases (see Section 7.8.1). It is much more frequent than its equivalent *et*, and eventually, it will supplant it. In Modern HC, the only coordinator is *ak*.

- (11) Grand chaudier là **acque** batterie, yo démonté [154]
 Big kettle DEF and last.kettle 3PL dismantle
 ‘La grande chaudière **et** la batterie sont démontées’
 ‘The large kettle **and** the last kettle are dismantled’
- (12) To va fair yo graisser moulin, **acque** cabrouets là-yo. [191]
 2SG FUT make 3PL grease mill and carts DEF-PL
 ‘Tu feras graisser les moulins, **et** les cabrouets’

10.1 Coordinate clauses

‘You will have the mills **and** the carts greased’

It is not clear whether there is a functional or pragmatic difference between *et* and *acque* in DHC; there does not seem to be one.

10.1.3 *épy, et py* ‘moreover, besides’

The spelling variants *épy* and *et py* are both derived from French *et puis* ‘and, then, and then’. It has a more emphatic meaning in Creole ‘moreover, besides’, compared to *et* and *acque*.

- (13) Mo savé fair carène à vou, **épy** maître charpentier à vou
 1SG ABIL make hull TO 2.POL MOREOVER master carpenter TO 1PL.POL
acque z’aide à ly yo tou sol [62]
 and helper TO 3SG ALL alone

‘Je pourrai faire votre carène, **d’ailleurs**, votre maître charpentier et ses aides seuls’

‘I could make your hull, **moreover**, your master carpenter and his assistants alone’

- (14) Volontier, **épy** nou vini en ville nécqué pour fair z’emplette à
 Gladly moreover 1PL come in city only for make shopping TO
 nou [93]
 1PL

‘Volontiers, nous ne sommes **d’ailleurs** venus en ville que pour faire nos emplettes’

‘Gladly, **moreover** we only came to town to do our shopping’

- (15) Yo vigoureux, **et py** la pli qui tombé ly bay nou
 3PL vigorous besides rain REL.SUBJ fall 3SG give 1PL water enough
 d’iau assé pour moulin d’iau... [176]
 for mill water

‘Ils sont vigoureux; **d’ailleurs** la pluie qui a tombé nous donne assez d’eau..’

‘They are vigorous; **besides** the rain that fell gives us enough water..’

10.1.4 *mai(s)* ‘but’

The coordinator *mai/mais*, from French *mais* ‘but’, indicates some kind of contrast between the two clauses. It connects phrases and sentences.

10 Clause combining

- (16) Ça vrai, **mai** mo pas capable entreprendre ly avant nion mois
 3SG.INAN true but 1SG NEG ABIL undertake 3SG before one month
[61]

‘Cela est vrai, **mais** je ne puis l’entreprendre que dans un mois’

‘This is true, **but** I can only undertake it in a month from now’

10.1.5 *car* ‘for’

The coordinator *car* ‘for’ indicates a reason. It has the same function as in French.

- (17) Ça ben Cap-Breton, **car** yo vendé-nou de l’endrét-là six foi
 3SG.INAN well (name) for 3PL sell-1PL FROM place-DEM six time
 passé qué yo fair. [109]
 exceed THAN 3PL make

‘Est-ce bien du Cap Breton, **car** on nous en vend de cet endroit, six fois plus qu’on n’en fait.’

‘Is it from Cap-Breton, **for** they sell us six times more from that place than they make’.

10.2 Relative clauses

Relative clauses are clauses that provide extra information about a noun or noun phrase, or its more precise identification. Some relative clauses provide extra information about the noun (called non-restrictive or non-defining relative clauses), and others restrict the number of references to a specific person or entity (called restrictive or defining relative clauses). Examples are ‘The house, which is beautiful’ and ‘The animal (that) I have chosen....’. The first one provides extra information about the noun, and the second one restricts the choice of referents. In English, *that* and *which* can be the relative pronouns, but there can also be relative clauses without a pronoun (zero relatives), as in ‘The chair I sit on’, or relatives without a specific head, such as ‘anyone who...’.

In French, different relative pronouns are used for persons/entities that are object or subject, e.g. *le garçon qui m’a vu* ‘the boy who (SUBJ) has seen me (OBJ)’ and *le garçon que j’ai vu* ‘the boy that (OBJ) I (SUBJ) have seen’.

In DHC, relative clauses can be introduced by *que*, *qui*, or nothing (a zero marker). The marker is the same, whether it refers to a plural or single referent, or to masculine or feminine referents. But *qui* is used for subject referents and *que* for object referents.

10.2.1 *qui*: subject relative clauses

In relative clauses where the relative pronoun has the function of subject, one finds *qui* and not *que* as a relative pronoun, following the French rule. The relative pronoun can be followed by a verb (including etymological adjectives), or a prepositional phrase.

- (18) quatre pièces là-yo, **qui** paroître même qualité [127]
 four piece DEM-PL REL.SUBJ seem same quality
 ‘ces quatre pièces, **qui** paroissent de même qualité’
 ‘those four pieces, **which** appear to be of the same quality’

- (19) jambon **qui** excellent [101]
 ham REL.SUBJ excellent
 ‘du jambon **qui** est excellent’
 ‘ham **which** is excellent’

- (20) nion grand chaloupe **qui** capable fair voyage conséquens [18]
 INDEF big rowboat REL.SUBJ ABIL make trip long
 ‘une grande chaloupe **qui** peut faire des voyages conséquens’
 ‘a large rowboat **that** can make long trips’

- (21) sucre la yo **qui** dan purgerie. [157]
 sugar DEF PL REL.SUBJ IN purgery
 ‘les sucres **qui** sont à la purgerie.’
 ‘the sugars **that** are in the purgery [building where sugars are whitened]’

A special case can be identified as those relatives preceded by *tou/tous/tout*, without a clear meaning difference. The antecedent can be singular or plural, and animate or inanimate, and the form is always *tou/tous/tout – ça – qui*. They are all subject relative clauses.

- (22) tous ça **qui** capable servi dans pays cy. [6]
 ALL DEM REL.SUBJ ABIL serve in country HERE
 ‘**tout ce qui** peut être utile en ce pays.’
 ‘**anything that** can be useful in this country.’

- (23) tou ça **qui** pas capable alé dan bois [221]
 ALL DEM REL.SUBJ NEG ABIL go in woods
 ‘**tous ceux qui** ne pourront pas aller dans le bois’
 ‘all those who will not be able to go into the woods’

10 Clause combining

- (24) **tou ça qui** capable géné nou. [23]

ALL DEM REL.SUBJ ABIL bother 1PL

‘**tout ce qui** pourroit nous gêner’

‘**anything that** might bother us’

- (25) **tout ça qui** nécessaire à radoub [11]

ALL DEM REL.SUBJ necessary LOC refit

‘**tout ce qui** est nécessaire au radoub’

‘**everything (that is)** needed for the refit’

The French equivalents are *ce* and *ceux* rather than *ça*.

10.2.2 à *qui*: indirect object relative clauses

In relative clauses where the relative pronoun has the function of indirect object, one finds *à qui* and not *que* as a relative pronoun, following the French rule.

- (26) Vou premier à **qui** mo laissé ly pour prix-là [66]

2.POL first TO REL 1SG leave 3SG for price-DEM

‘Vous êtes le premier **à qui** je l’aurai laissé pour ce prix’

‘You are the first **to whom** I sold it for this price’

- (27) Ly va passé ça qui fau pour Mouché ... à **qui** mo [165]

3SG FUT PASS DEM REL.SUBJ necessary for Mr TO REL 1SG sell

vendre 1000 veltes.

1000 veltes

‘Il y en aura plus qu’il n’en faut pour M... **à qui** j’en ai vendu mille veltes.’

‘There will be more than enough for Mr... **to whom** I have sold a thousand veltes’¹

10.2.3 *que*: object relative clauses

In relative clauses where the relative pronoun has the function of object, one finds *que* and not *qui* as a relative pronoun, following the French rule.

- (28) nion étivé soucre **que** mo capabe livré-vou [113]

INDEF stew sugar REL 1SG ABIL deliver-2.POL

‘une étuvée de sucre **que** je pourrai vous livrer’

‘a stew of sugar **that** I can deliver to you’

¹A *velte* is an older French measure for liquids, ca. 7 liters.

10.2 Relative clauses

- (29) gro caisse **que** nou va l'ouvri pour rangé marchandise [22]
 big box(es) REL 1PL FUT open FOR arrange goods
 'les grosses caisses **que** nous ouvrirons pour arranger les marchandises'
 'the large boxes **that** we will open to arrange the goods'

In some rare cases, possibly an object pronoun is used as well, unless *ly* here refers to the host.

- (30) grand palan, **que** nou gagné nec qu'à chargé **ly** en rivant [23]
 big hoist REL 1PL have ONLY TO charge 3SG IN arrive.PROG
 'le grand palan **que** nous n'ayons qu'à **le** charger en arrivant'
 'the big hoist **that** we only have to load [it] when we arrive'

All examples with 'que' have inanimate referents, but this may be a matter of chance.

10.2.4 Relative clauses without a relativizer

[51, 88, 100, 116, 177, 184, 235, 247]

Relative clauses without relative pronouns are not uncommon in DHC. Such constrictions are not found in French. Omission of relative pronouns seems to be possible with both subject and object relatives, and with both animate and inanimate referents. They are most frequent with object relatives in the material.

Ducœurjoly remarks the following about the omission of the relativizer: "*que* is sometimes deleted, especially when it deals with the first and second person"². (*Vocabulaire* p. 346)

- (31) cilà Ø vou té voir (p. 346)
 that 2.POL PST see
 'celui **que** vous avez vu'
 'the one (that) you saw'
- (32) confiance Ø z'armateur à moué cordé moué [88]
 trust shipowners to 1SG place 1SG
 'la confiance **que** mes armateurs m'accordent'
 'the trust **that** my shipowners place in me'

²⁴ *Que* se supprime quelquefois, sur-tout quand il est question de la première et seconde personne"

10 Clause combining

- (33) chaleur là Ø ly faire [100]
 heat DEF 3SG do
 ‘la chaleur **qu**’il fait’
 ‘how hot it is’ (lit. ‘The heat **that** it makes’; cf. French *il fait chaud* ‘it makes warm’)
- (34) z’occupations Ø mo va gagné. [116]
 occupation(2) 1SG FUT have
 ‘des occupations **que** j’aurai.’
 ‘occupations **that** I will have.’

This is clearly an innovation in DHC vis-à-vis French. It is not clear whether there are grammatical or pragmatic reasons behind the omission of relative pronouns, or whether it is a case of free variation.

10.2.5 Headless relative clauses

There are no examples of headless relative clauses in the material. This is what comes closest:

- (35) Ces ça qui fau moué, [12]
 IT_IS DEM REL NEED 1SG
 ‘C’est ce qu’il me faut.’
 ‘That is what I need’ or ‘that is necessary to me’

10.3 Clauses after verbs of speaking

[39, 43, 46, 48, 53, 65, 71, 86, 90, 113, 149, 168, 183, 200]

Under this heading, I take not only verbs of speaking, but also asking, and mental that are connected with speaking, like ‘to hope, to know, to believe, to think, to learn/get to know’.

In many languages, the use of a complementizer can be optional (e.g. English ‘I said (that) he was coming’), and some languages use different complementizers for questions and for statements, including French, (e.g. French *que* for statements and *si* for questions, or English *that* versus *if/whether*).

In DHC, these verbs may be followed by a zero-complementizer or a complementizer *que* ‘that’, and after questions, a zero complementizer or *si*, ‘if, whether’. A zero-complementizer is not used in French, unless there is a direct quote. Here are some examples.

10.3 *Clauses after verbs of speaking*

10.3.1 ‘to say’ with zero-complementizer

Sometimes no complementizer is used.

- (36) Yo **dire** Ø nou vou gagné nion cargaison très-bien assorti,
 3PL say 1PL 2.POL have INDEF load very-well assorted especially
 sur-tout bon di vin. [71]
 good wine
 ‘On nous a **dit que** vous aviez une cargaison très-bien assortie sur-tout en
 bon vin.’
 ‘We were **told that** you had a very well assorted cargo, especially in good
 wine’

10.3.2 ‘to say’ as a complementizer is not attested

There is no example of a strict ‘say’ with a complementizer, but these verbs are rare. Here are examples ‘to believe’ with and without complementizers.

- (37) mo **crére** vou va trouvé ly bon [39]
 1SG believe 2.POL FUT find 3SG good
 ‘je **crois que** vous le trouverez bon’
 ‘I believe you will find it good’
- (38) Vou doi **crére que** mo pa allé prendre la caze à vou tou
 2.POL MUST believe that 1SG NEG FUT take house TO 2.POL ALL object
 bagage là yo [65]
 DEF PL
 ‘Vous devez **croire que** je ne prendrai pas chez vous tous ces objets’
 ‘You must believe that I will not take all these objects of you to your
 house’

There is one example with an question, and here the complementizer is *si*.

- (39) (person X) voyé jordy **mandé si** vous savé livre ly
 (name) send today ask IF 2.POL ABIL deliver 3SG one/INDEF
 nion boucaut. [166]
 barrel
 ‘(X) a envoyé savoir aujourd’hui **si** vous pourrez lui en livrer un boucaut.’
 ‘he sent X today to **ask if** you can deliver a barrel to him.’

10 Clause combining

The verb *con(n)é* ‘to know’ is encountered with *que*, *si* and zero complement:

- (40) Vous **coné** aussi **que** mo payé en denrées [113]
 2.POL know also that 1SG pay in foods
 ‘Vous **savez** aussi **que** je paye en denrée’
 ‘You also **know** **that** I pay in commodities’
- (41) mo pa té **conné si** lité vendre [168]
 1SG NEG PST know IF IRR send
 ‘j’**ignore**is s’il étoit vendu’
 ‘I didn’t know if it was sold’
- (42) Vous té **coné** Ø vous gagné crédit là³ caze à moué [86]
 2.POL PST know COMP 2.POL have credit DEF house TO 1SG
 ‘Vous **saviez** **que** vous avez crédit chez moi’
 ‘You knew you have credit with me’

In short, it seems that there are several possibilities for *verba dicendi*, but the full range of possibilities and restrictions cannot be determined on the basis of the available material.

10.3.3 Indirect questions

Indirect questions can be formed with the conjunction *si* ‘if, whether’, introducing the embedded question. See also Section 10.4.10.

- (43) mo pa té **conné si** lité vendre, [168]
 1SG NEG PST know IF IRR sell
 ‘j’**ignore**is s’il étoit vendu’
 ‘I didn’t know if it was sold’
- (44) M. Guildivier l’Embarcadair Maho, voyé jordi mandé
 (name) master.distiller (place) send today ask WHETHER
si vous savé livre ly nion boucaut. [166]
 2.POL ABIL deliver 3SG a/one barrell
 ‘M Guildivier de l’Embarcadair du Maho a envoyé savoir aujourd’hui si
 vous pourrez lui en livrer un boucaut.’

³It could be that *là* actually belongs to *caze*, as in Modern Haitian *lakay mwen* ‘at my place, at my house’, where *la* is part of the noun. The accent in the sentence would otherwise indicate that it is the postposed determiner.

10.4 Subordinate clauses with conjunctions

‘Mr. Guildivier master distiller at Maho sent today a request *whether* you can deliver a barrel to him.’

10.3.4 The connector *que/qué*: after verbs of mental activity, not after verbs of speaking

- (45) a. *Que*: [10, 22, 23, 24, 43, 56, 65, 66, 89, 100, 103, 149, 168, 170, 183, 198, 211, 211, 230, 242]
 b. *Qué*: [15, 44, 46, 111, 113, 113, 117, 237]
 c. *Quéé*: [48]

The connector *que/qué* has several functions. The spelling does not seem to indicate a difference in meaning. However, when the meaning is ‘which’ when preceding a noun, the spelling *qué* seems to be more common ([10, 15, 230, 237]). It can function as an object relative clause marker (see discussion in Section 10.2.1–10.2.3).

It is remarkable, that there are no cases of *que/qué* following verbs of speaking like *dir(e)* ([17, 71, 149, 200]), even when they would be used in French. There are a number of examples where *que/qué* is used after verbs of mental activity: *apprend* ‘to learn/find out’ (48), *voir* ‘to see, to realize’ (56), *créer* ‘to believe, to think’ ([65, 90]), *coné* ‘to know’ (113), *conten* ‘be happy’ (89), *semblé* ‘seem’ (170), *esperé* ‘to hope’. An example:

- (46) Mo *esperé que* ly va bay nou tou même. [183]
 1SG hope THAT 3SG FUT give 1PL all same
 J’espère qu’elle nous en donnera autant cette fois
 ‘I hope (that) it will give us the same this time.’

There are also sentences where *qué* is lacking after these verbs, e.g. in [90] after *créer* ‘to believe’.

10.4 Subordinate clauses with conjunctions

The subordinating conjunctions in DHC are listed first, and then discussed and exemplified. There are almost a dozen of these conjunctions connecting clauses.

10.4.1 Conjunctions

The following subordinate conjunctions are found in the material.

10 Clause combining

- (47) a. *à cause* ‘because’ reason [184, 227, 238],
 b. *auparavant* ‘before’ temporal, sequential [59]
 c. *d’abord* ‘because’ causal [19, 28, 38, 65, 151, 177]
 d. *drêt* ‘as soon as’ temporal, sequential [161]
 e. *parce* ‘because’ cause [39, 61, 85, 100, 138, 204, 221, 227]
 f. *pendant* ‘while’ temporal [83, 147, 221]
 g. *quan, quant* ‘when’ temporal [18, 41, 61, 64, 68, 97, 147, 149, 151, 214, 216, 231, 247]
 h. *quan même* ‘if’ conditional [11]
 i. *si* ‘if’ conditional [13, 17, 58, 123, 156, 176, 221]
 j. *si* ‘whether, if’ indirect question [166, 168]
 k. *sitôt* ‘as soon as’ temporal [146]

10.4.2 *À cause* ‘because’

The conjunction *à cause* ‘because’ is not present in standard French, but it is common in colloquial spoken French.

- (48) Nion pied et dimi, à cause là plie va mené deux trois
 one foot and half because the rain FUT wash.away two three inch
 pouces bon terre dan fond [238]
 good soil IN bottom
 ‘A dix-huit pouces, **parce que** la pluie y entraînera deux ou trois pouces
 de bonne terre au fond’
 ‘[we will plant at] at eighteen inches, **because** the rain will wash away
 two or three inches of good soil down there.’
- (49) Ly doi bon, à cause ly dan soleil
 3SG MUST good because 3SG in sun
 ‘Il doit être bon **parce qu’il** est exposé au soleil’
 ‘It must be good **because** it is exposed to the sun’

10.4.3 *Auparavant* ‘before’

The conjunction *auparavant* is used with the meaning ‘before’, i.e. the main clause refers to an action to be completed before the action referred to in the subordinate clause. It only appears once in the material. The complex French word *auparavant* is an adverb with the meaning ‘previously’.

10.4 Subordinate clauses with conjunctions

- (50) **auparavant** décidé à rien, faut laissé déchargé bâtiment là [59]
 before decide thing must let unload boat DET
 ‘avant de rien décider, il faut laisser décharger le navire’
 ‘before deciding anything, you have to let the ship unload’

The use of this adverb as a conjunction is an innovation in DHC.

10.4.4 *D’abord* ‘because’

The conjunction *d’abord* is used with a causal or motivational meaning. This is also an innovation. The French adverbial expression *d’abord* (see Section 4.4) has a very different meaning: ‘first, first of all’. It is used twice with the latter meaning ([125, 135]) as well.

- (51) M’allé veillé ça, fau ben **d’abord** n’allé roulé, mo faire aussi
 1SG-FUT wake.up 3SG MUST well because 1PL-FUT run 1SG make also
 remonter grand chaudière acque batterie là (151)
 reassemble big kettle and the last.kettle
 ‘J’y veillerai, il faut, **puisque** nous allons rouler, que je fasse aussi
 remonter la grande chaudière et la batterie.’
 ‘I’ll see to it, we have to, **since** we’re going to be running [the equipment],
 I must also have the big kettle and the last kettle reassembled.’
- (52) **D’abord** ly en a d’iau assé pour moulin, nous va
 because THERE.IS water enough for mill 1PL FUT use only
 employé nécque z’animaux qui faut pour charrier canne [176]
 animal REL.SUBJ needed for transport cane
 ‘**Puisqu’il** y a assez d’eau pour le moulin, nous n’emploierons que les
 animaux nécessaires au charroi des cannes’
 ‘**Since** there is enough water for the mill, we will only use the animals
 necessary for the transport of the canes.’
- (53) mo pa allé prendre la caze à vou tou bagage là yo,
 1SG NEG FUT take home TO 2.POL ALL object TO 3PL, because
d’abord mo gagné à bord [65]
 1SG have on board
 je ne prendrai pas chez vous tous ces objets, puisque j’en ai à bord
 ‘I will not take all these items from you, **since** I have some on board’

10 Clause combining

10.4.5 *Drét* ‘as soon as’

The conjunction *drét* is derived from the French word *droit* ‘right’, where it has both a legal sense and the meaning ‘correct’. This conjunction is not used as such in French. It has the meaning ‘right after’ in DHC. This is the only example in the dialogues:

- (54) **Drét** to va fini terré, to va fair yo fermé tout finettres à bâtimens [161]
 AS_SOON_AS 2SG FUT finish dig 2SG FUT CAUS all window TO building
 ‘Dès que tu auras fini de terrer, tu feras fermer les fenêtres des bâtimens’
 ‘As soon as you have finished digging, you will have the windows of the buildings closed.’

10.4.6 *Parce* cause

In French, a reason can be expressed with the conjunction *parce que* ‘because’. The full expression is not used in DHC, but one can find an abbreviated form *parce*, with the same meaning and function as the full phrase in French.

- (55) Vou va faire yo meté tout bagage-là dan passager⁴, [138]
 2.POL FUT make 3PL put all object-DEF LOC *passager*,
parce n’avoyé cabrouet à nou yo, prend yo, après-démain l’embarcadair
 à nou.
 ‘Vous ferez mettre tous ces objets au passager, **parce que** nous enverrons nos cabrouets les prendre aprèsdemain à notre embarcadair.’
 ‘You will put all these objects in the (passenger), **because** we will send our carts to fetch them the day after tomorrow at our landing stage.’
- (56) ... **parce** mo haimé n’équipage à moué ben nourri. [39]
 because 1SG love crew TO 1SG well feed
 ‘... **parce que** j’aime que mon équipage soit bien nourri.’
 ‘... **because** I like my crew to be well fed.’

10.4.7 *Pendant* ‘while’, temporal, also ‘however, yet’

The conjunction *pendant* is historically connected with the preposition *pendant* ‘during’. Its meaning seems to extend also into causal meanings when considering the French equivalents.

⁴The meaning of this word is not quite clear. Passenger seat?

10.4 Subordinate clauses with conjunctions

- (57) mo vlé profiter **pendant** terre la mouillé [147]
 1SG want profit while earth DEF wet
 ‘je veux profiter de l’humidité de la terre’
 ‘I want to take advantage of it **while** the **soil** is humid’
- (58) **pendant** yo va balisé ma fair yo couper lianes. [221] [ma = mo va]
 WHILE 3PL FUT 1SG .FUT CAUS 3PL cut vine
 ‘**parce qu’**en balisant je ferai couper de la liane.’
 ‘**by/while** marking out [cutting away small trees], I will have the vine cut’

A second meaning of *pendant* is ‘however’ or ‘yet’.

- (59) mo té ben malade, **pendant** mo fair yo prende qui choi là
 1SG PST very ill WHILE 1SG make 3PL take something house TO
 caze à vou. [83]
 2.POL
 ‘J’étois bien malade, **cependant** j’ai fait prendre quelque chose chez vous.’
 ‘I was very ill, **while/however** I had something taken at your house.’

10.4.8 *Quan, quand, quant* ‘when’ temporal

The three forms *quan*, *quand*, and *quant* seem undifferentiated in function. They are derived from the French conjunction *quand* ‘when’ (also an interrogative marker ‘when?’). The conjunction typically refers to two states/actions that occur at the same time, or one of the states/actions has consequences for another. The functions overlap with French. Here are some examples:

- (60) **quan** vou va prêt vou va fair yo verti moué. [68]
 WHEN 2.POL FUT ready 2.POL FUT CAUS 3PL warn 1SG
 ‘**quant** vous serez prêt vous me ferez prévenir’
 ‘**when** you will be ready, you will let them warn me’
- (61) nou va rété-ly à hauteur **quand** ly va tems [231]
 1PL FUT stop-3SG at height when 3SG FUT time
 ‘nous l’arrêterons plus ou moins haut **quand** il en sera temps.’
 ‘we will stop it at the appropriate height **when** the time is right’ (lit. at height)

The sentences with *quan* can precede or follow the main clause.

10 Clause combining

10.4.9 *Quan même* ‘even if’, conditional

There is only one example with *quan même* as a conjunction. In French, *quand même* means ‘anyway’ or ‘nevertheless’, and it is an adverb rather than a conjunction. The meaning of the conjunction in DHC seems to be ‘even if’.

- (62) **quan même** vou s’été gagné vingt par jour [11]
 WHEN SELF 2P.POL IRR have twenty per day
 ‘en eussiez-vous vingt par jour’
 ‘Even if you had twenty a day’

10.4.10 *si* ‘if’, conditional

The conjunction *si* has two quite distinct functions. It can introduce a conditional sentence, and it can introduce a subordinate sentence after a verb of speaking/thinking (see Section 10.3). This is an example of a conditional sentence.

- (63) **si** vou vlé mo va fair yo sorti pieux pour refair ly
 COND 2SG.POL want 1SG FUT CAUS bring.out stake FOR do.again 3SG [221]
 ‘Si vous voulez, je ferai aussi sortir des pieux pour le refaire,’
 ‘If you want, I will make them bring out the stakes to redo it’

Both functions are also present in French. Conditional sentences are introduced by the conjunction *si*, and the conditional clause may precede or follow the main clause.

- (64) **Si** cé vrai Brisard, nou va prende chacun deux paniés ou quatre
 IF DEM true Brisard 1PL FUT take each two basket or four [123]
 pomponnelle⁵?
 pompoms
 ‘Si c’est de la vraie Brisard, nous en prendrons chacun deux paniers ou quatre pomponnelles?’
 ‘If it’s the real Brisard [drink], we will each take two baskets or four pompoms?’

⁵The word *pomponnelles* is not used in modern French. It is probably related to *bombonne*, which refers to a glass container like a bottle.

10.5 Small clauses

- (65) la pli qui tombé ly bay nou d'iau assé pour moulin d'iau
 rain REL.SUBJ fall 3SG give 1PL water enough for mill water run
 marché si nou té manqué mulets. [176]
 if 1PL PST lack mules
 'la pluie qui a tombé nous donne assez d'eau pour faire marcher le moulin
 à eau, si nous manquions de mulets.'
 'the rain that has fallen gives us enough water to operate the water-mill,
 if we ran out of mules.'

The conjunction is homophonous with the conjunction that introduces indirect questions and requests. See also Section 10.3.3.

10.4.11 *sitôt* 'as soon as'

The conjunction *sitôt* is reminiscent of the French expression *aussitôt* 'right away' and more archaic *sitôt*. It is only found once in the materials:

- (66) nou savé roulé-ly *sitôt* nou caba planté №. [8 146]
 1PL ABIL roll-3SG as.soon.as 1PL FINISH plant nr 8
 'nous pourrons la rouler **aussitôt que** nous aurons fini de planter le №. 8'
 'we can roll it **as soon as** we finish planting Nr. 8.'

10.4.12 General about conjunctions

Most of the 10 conjunctions are different from French. Some differ mostly in form (DHC *parce*, French *parce que*), most have acquired a new function as a conjunction, different from French (e.g. *drèt*). The innovated conjunctions are derived from French prepositions and adverbs.

10.5 Small clauses

Small clauses are clauses that lack a finite verb and that have no infinitive marker. They are a type of subordinate clause, but they are not complete clauses. There are some in the material, all of them introduced by a preposition functioning as a kind of subordinator. Typically, the preposition is often directly followed by a verb ([56, 90]), or a subject intervenes ([161, 176, 200]). I will give some examples.

- (67) *Pour* [56, 72?, 93, 97, 112, 125, 147, 150, 151, 156, 161, 164, 170, 173, 176, 179, 181, 190, 192, 195, 208?, 211, 212, 214, 218, 221, 222, 241, 244] (both prepositions and markers of small clauses)

10 Clause combining

(68) *Par* [90]

10.5.1 Purpose clauses with *pour*

The preposition *pour* introduces small clauses indicating a purpose.

(69) Mo voir que vou va bligé viré en quille, **pour** réparer bâtiment à
 1SG see that 2.POL FUT oblige turn in keel FOR repair ship TO
 vou. [56]

2.POL

‘Je vois que vous serez obligé de virer en quille, **pour** réparer votre bâtiment.’

‘I see that you’ll be forced to keel **in order to** repair your vessel.’

(70) Mo dir yo couché bon-heur, **pour** yo là sus chaudière à yo, à
 1SG say 3PL sleep early for 3PL DEF LOC kettle TO 3PL at
 minuit. [200]
 midnight

‘Je leur ai dit de se coucher de bonne heure **pour** être à leur chaudière à minuit.’

‘I told them to go to bed early **to** be at their kettles at midnight.’

(71) to va fair yo fermé tout finettres à bâtimens **pour** l’air pas cheché
 2SG FUT make 3PL close all window TO building FOR air NEG dry
 trop vîtement terre là. [161]
 too quickly land DEF

‘tu feras fermer les fenêtres des bâtimens, **afin que** l’air ne la dessèche pas trop promptement.’

‘you will (have to) close all the windows of the buildings, **so that** the air does not dry the land too quickly.’

(72) la pli qui tombé ly bay nou d’iau assé **pour** moulin d’iau
 rain REL fall 3 give 1PL water enough for mill water run
 marché [176]

‘la pluie qui a tombé nous donne assez d’eau **pour** faire marcher le moulin à eau’

‘the rain that has fallen gives us enough water **to** run the watermill’

10.5 Small clauses

10.5.2 Means clauses with *par*

The French preposition *par* means ‘by’, and it can also be used in a small clause indicating a means. There is only one example in the material.

- (73) Mo crére vou commencé **par** mandé moué di vin. [90]
 1SG believe 2.SG start by ask 1SG wine
 ‘Je crois que vous avez commencé **par** me demander du vin.’
 ‘I believe you started **by** asking me for wine.’

10.5.3 Purpose clauses with a zero marker

In some cases, purpose clauses have no overt marker introducing the purpose clause.

- (74) Mo parlé douleur là-yo, vini fair merain acque z’essentes?
 1SG speak house-carpenters DEF-PL come make plank and wall(s) [220]
 ‘J’ai parlé aux douleurs, **pour qu’**ils viennent faire du merrain, et des essentes.’
 ‘I spoke to the axe-workers, **so that** they come to make staves, and wooden walls’

11 Grammatical observations from ducœurjoly's encyclopedic *Vocabulaire*

Apart from the dialogues, Ducœurjoly also produced a French-Haitian *Vocabulaire*, which is not a vocabulary or dictionary in a modern sense, but rather a mixture between a dictionary, a vocabulary, a grammar and an encyclopaedia.

In that part of his book, one can find a number of observations on the grammar of creole, some of which cannot be found in the dialogues. I only discuss them briefly, as I base my grammatical description on the text of the dialogues, and not on the author's grammatical remarks. It is useful, however, to mention them here.

In Section 6.7, I already discussed the distinction between emphatic and non-emphatic pronouns, which had been described as case-marking. Ducœurjoly also mentions that *du* 'of the' is replaced by *dans* 'in', in ways that take practice to master (there are no examples of this, however, in the dialogues)¹. The same is said about *des*, a plural form of *de/du*². Similarly, inflected and other forms of the verb *être* 'to be' can be omitted or used in complex ways³. On p. 292-293, Ducœurjoly mentions that *aucun* 'none' is not used, and the indefinite article *nion* has taken over its function, in combination with a negative marker⁴. On p. 309, he mentions that *tel* 'such a' is used, but there are no examples in the dialogues⁵.

¹*Du*, se supprime dans la plupart des phrases, et est remplacé par *dans*; il faut une grande habitude pour en saisir l'application (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 311, vol. II)

²*Des*, les se suppriment dans beaucoup d'occasions, — ly sorti prison, — ly en à savans qui soutini, — ly gagné fruits excellens, — yo voir z'arbres.

³La grande habitude peut seule faciliter l'application de ce verbe [*être*], nous allons néanmoins en donner quelques exemples. (...). Il s'exprime de différentes manières, ou se supprime suivant les circonstances, que l'usage seul peut faire distinguer, et dont l'étude deviendroit trop pénible. (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 316–317, vol. II)

⁴*Aucun*: Il n'a pas d'équivalent en créole. Il est remplacé par *nion* ly pas gagné nion moyen, ou nion faculté (Creole) il n'a aucune faculté. (French)

⁵Tel: *mr. nion tel ly vini mandé vous.* (Creole) *monsieur un tel est venu vous demander.* (French) *ly bougé dan tel rie* (Creole) *il demeure dans telle rue* (French)

11 Grammatical observations from *ducœurjoly's encyclopedic Vocabulaire*

Ducœurjoly also provides which is identified in the dialogues. For instance, the connector *de* can be omitted in what seems to be free variation ⁶. He also discusses the initial consonants resulting from liaison (p. 285, p. 286, p. 287, p. 292). Otherwise, he does not seem to add information. He discusses a number of individual prepositions, adverbs, demonstrative pronouns, personal pronouns, question words, etc.

⁶“Il est beaucoup de phrases où l’on supprime *de*, mais il n’y a pas de règle.” (Ducœurjoly 1802b: 308, vol. 2)

12 Sociolinguistic observations

The persons involved in the dialogues involve different types of societal classes, including plantation owners, settlers and enslaved workers and middlemen. There are European ship captains, an owner of a sugar refinery and an owner of a coffee plantation, and there is a Black stewadore, Black shipwrights and Black commanders. One dialogue is between a ship captain and ‘settlers’, who could be of European and African descent. All enslaved people seem to be local creoles rather than African-born *bozals*. In all cases, the use of the Creole language seems a natural choice. It was not uncommon for people of European descent to be able express themselves in Creole. In his travel account, the Swiss traveller Justin Girod de Chantrons described the use of Creole in Haiti in his 1785 travel account as follows “In any case, the Creole language has prevailed. Not only is it that of people of color, but even of whites living in the colony, who speak it more readily than French, either out of habit or because they like it better.”¹ (Girod de Chantrons 1785: 159 as cited in Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 35).

From a sociolinguistic point of view, one could expect different varieties of creoles as spoken by the people of European descent and the people of African descent. This is not the case. All speech seems to reflect one particular variety. There is no reflection of different language use among the different classes in the dialogues, except in a few cases to be discussed below. These differences are so minimal that, at least in the perception, or in the ideal world, of Ducœurjoly, there were no notable differences in speech.

12.1 Pronouns

There is one obvious sociolinguistic observation to be made, and that is the use of second person pronouns. In Modern HC, the uniform second person pronoun is *ou*. In DHC, one can find three forms for the second person pronoun. DHC is closer to French, in that a distinction is made between the familiar form *to/toué*

¹« Quoi qu’il en soit, le langage créole a prévalu. Non seulement il est celui des gens de couleur, mais même des Blancs domiciliés dans la colonie, qui le parlent plus volontiers que le français, soit par habitude, soit parce qu’il leur plaît davantage. »

12 Sociolinguistic observations

and the polite form *vou*. There are ten speakers: a White ship captain (in three dialogues: 1, 2 and 3), a Black stevedore (dialogue 1), a Black contractor (2), settlers of unspecified ethnic background (3), a White sugar refinery owner (4), a White owner of a dwelling (5) and two Black commanders (5, 6). The Ship captains consistently use the polite form, with the Black craftsmen and the settlers, all of whom address the captains with the polite forms. However, in the conversation with the owners of a refinery and a dwelling, it is asymmetric: the owners use the polite form and the Black commanders use the familiar form (turns [143, 147, 149, 181, 191, 197, 212, 222, 242, 244]). There is only one exception, where the owner addresses his commander with the polite form (228). Thus, the use of the pronouns seems to be based more on differences in types of trade, and not on skin color.

It cannot be established what form the enslaved use with one another. See also Section 6.7 for discussion about personal pronouns.

12.2 Lexical variation: two forms for ‘second’

In Section 6.6. we mentioned that there are two forms for ‘second’ in the dialogues. In [157] and [169], the French form *seconde* ‘second’ (in line) is translated with ‘deuxième’. The speaker is the ‘maître sucrier’. In [180], *second* is used both in French and Creole, and the speaker is the owner of the sugar plant, no doubt a person of European extraction. It is possible that this reflects a difference between European usage and non-European usage, but the evidence is thin.

There are many loans from French in the material, which is not surprising, as the speakers in the dialogues discuss mostly technical matters. The adoption of loans for lexical gaps happens in all languages, and Haitian also has the possibility of expanding the lexicon with technical terminology.

12.3 Connective elements between nouns: *à* and *de*

French is a language in which the equivalent of compounding always involves a connecting preposition, typically *à* “to” or *de* “of”. In DHC, virtually all compounds display two adjacent nouns; for compounds, see Section 7.7. However, in some cases, one can encounter connective elements *de* and *à* between two nouns, potentially indicating a social or stylistic difference. For the use of both connectors as locative and possessive prepositions, see Section 6.5.2. Those cases with *de*, however, seem either fossilized expressions, like *à coup de canon* “At the sound of the cannon” (21) (French: *Au coup de canon*), and in a few cases, these

12.3 Connective elements between nouns: *à* and *de*

resemble the use in French, as in *frequins beure de 80 liv. chaque* “butter casks of 80 lb. each” and *barriques de vin* “wine barrels” (132).

There are more examples of quasi-compounds with the connector *à*. In many cases they are copies of French quasi-compounds: *caze à bagasse la* “the bagasse hut” (French: *la case à bagasse*), *tête à canne* “heads of cane” (French: *les/des têtes à canne*), *moulin à bête* “treadmill for animals” (French: *moulin à bêtes*) ([177, 179, 192, 195]). There are two cases, where the French and Creole version have different prepositions: *L’entourage à savane* “the surroundings of the savannah” (French: *L’entourage de la savane*) and *tout finettres à bâtimens* “the windows of the buildings” (French: *les fenêtres des bâtimens*).

Thus, there seems to be some flexibility with the equivalents of English compounds: often without connector, sometimes with connector, and then sometimes the one used in French, and sometimes a different one. It may not indicate a social difference.

13 Unsolved issues

This monograph is an attempt to provide a grammar of Ducœurjoly's variety of Haitian Creole which is as complete as possible, based on the closed corpus of the dialogues. There are a few minor that should be mentioned where the interpretation of the text is not completely clear. Obviously, the previous text is also based on interpretations and solutions possible typographical errors, in spelling, etc., but the level of confidence for the points discussed in the previous chapters is much higher for the ones discussed in this chapter. The result has become a coherent grammatical description. Yet, there are a number of forms in the grammar where there are uncertainties about the interpretation. I will deal with them one by one, and propose solutions.

13.1 *quien à*

[31, 37, 96]

The form *quien à* is used three times, and its meaning and function are not completely clear. Based on information in the *Vocabulaire*, it seems to relate to possession, perhaps as a form of *tiens/tenir* 'to hold'. The link between *tien* and *quien* in DHC was already made by Goodman (1984).

- (1) A *quien à* vou. [31]
 TO QUIEN TO 2.POL
 'A la vôtre.'
 'Cheers!'
- (2) mo va ba-vou *quien à* z'equipage qui tré-bel. [31]
 1SG FUT give-you QUIEN to crew REL.SUBJ. very-beautiful
 'je vais vous en donner de celui d'équipage, qui est très-beau.'
 'I will give you **some of** the crew's, which are very beautiful.'
- (3) Mo té crée ly té fair *quien à* vou aussi? [96]
 1SG PST believe 3SG PST do QUIEN TO 2.POL also
 'Je croyais qu'il faisoit aussi les vôtres?'

13 Unsolved issues

‘I thought he did yours too?’

It seems that in all three cases, the form is followed by a possessive expression. Perhaps a fitting but clumsy translation would be ‘the one owned by...’. Indeed, in the *Vocabulaire* p. 352 one can find examples such as *quien à toué* along with *tien à toué* for 2SG.POSS, like ‘which belongs to you’. Goodman (M. [Goodman 1984](#)) links Ducœurjoly’s *tien à toi* ‘your’s with Modern Haitian *kin-a-m* ‘mine’. The form spelled *qien* in the *Vocabulaire* ([Ducœurjoly 1802b](#): 318) must be interpreted as a spelling variant of *quien*, obviously cognate with *kin-*.

- (4) Caze la **qien** à M. un tel
‘Cette maison est à M. un tel.’
‘this house belongs to Mr. So-and-so’
- (5) Petit la **qien** a mouè;
‘Cet enfant est à mo’
‘this child is mine’
- (6) Valet là **qien** a vous;
‘Ce valet est à vous’
‘this valet is yours’

William Jennings points out, that this could indeed be the Northern Haitian possessive form *kin/ken*: Se *kin a Mari* ‘It’s Mary’s’, and points to [Valdman et al. \(2015: 16\)](#).

13.2 *qui ça li s’agit*

The French expression *il s’agit de* (lit. It REFL handles of) means something like ‘it is about’.

- (7) Cé but à moué, qui ça li s’agit? [74]
DEM goal TO 1SG Q 3SG? handle
‘C’est là mon but; de quoi s’agit-il?’
‘That is my goal; what is it about?’

The most likely solution would be that *li* is a third person form like *ly*, with a fossilized form of the verb.

13.3 vos

The form *vos* only occurs once.

- (8) Messieu, **vos** serviteur. [70]
 Mister ?? servant
 ‘Messieurs, je suis votre serviteur.’
 ‘Gentlemen, I am your servant.’

Normally, possessives follow the noun (also in modern Haitian). Thus, one would have expected *serviteur à vou*. If it a direct loan from French, it would have been *votre* or an abbreviated form *vot*. Thus, *vos* could be a typo for *vot(re)*. Alternatively, as suggested by one of the referees, it reflects the elision of /t/, thus a pronunciation /vo/. That makes sense.

13.4 d’au moulin

The form *d’au* is found only once in the dialogues. It appears in connection with *moulin* ‘mill’. There is an ambiguity here between the possibility that it refers to water (elsewhere: *d’iau*) or a preposition *de* ‘of’ and/or *au* ‘to the’.

- (9) dans 4 jours yo va capable tirer **d’au** moulin. [174]
 in 4 days 3PL FUT ABIL pull ??? water mill
 ‘dans 4 jours ils pourront tirer au moulin.’
 ‘in 4 days they will be able to pull at the (water) mill’

In other cases in DHC, the form *d’iau* ([50, 160, 176, 177, 186, 190, 192, 244]) is used for water, and then the interpretation would be: ‘pull water in the mill’. Alternatively, it would a preposition perhaps combining *de* ‘of’ and *au* ‘to, at’. Then the interpretation would be ‘pull from the mill’. A referee suggest that it is a typo.

13.5 sufi acque la peine

In this example, it is unclear what *sufi acque la peine* means.

- (10) yo té bligé lèvé tout n’écluse, ly pa té **sufi acque la peine**
 3PL PST obliged lift all lock 3SG NEG PST suffice with the effort
 [186]

‘on a été obligé de lever toute l’écluse à peine y suffisoit-elle’

13 Unsolved issues

‘There was so little water left in the river that we had to open the dam.’

Perhaps it means rather ‘hardly it was sufficient’, with the meanings: be.sufficient with the effort. Cf. the French expression *ça suffit (avec ça)!* ‘enough with this!’. The translation was suggested by William Jennings.

13.6 *yo tou débarrassée*

The position of *tou* ‘all’ in *yo tou débarrassée* is unusual here, but common in French. the sentence means: ‘I made them all clear by those guards’. Alternatively, *tou* would modify the following verb/participle, and then it would be ‘I made them all-cleared by the guards’. The first solution seems more attractive. The position of *tou* is unusual if it refers to an object.

- (11) Mo fair yo **tou** débarrassée par gardien là-yo [188]
 1SG make 3PL ALL clear by guard DEF PL
 ‘J’ai **tout** fait débarrasser par les gardiens’
 ‘I had **everything** cleared by the guards’

13.7 *yo que*

In one sentence it is not quite clear what the combination of *yo* ‘they’ and *que* ‘that’ relates to.

- (12) mais **yo que** mété dans chaque en proportion de ça qui dan
 But 3PL ?? put IN each in proportion OF DEM REL.SUBJ in
 rafraîchissoir [211]
 cooler
 ‘mais d’en mettre dans chaque en proportion de ce qu’il y a dans le
 rafraîchissoir.’
 ‘(make sure.), but that they put some in each in proportion to what is in
 the cooler’

Possibly the *que* element refers back to the ‘make sure’ in the previous sentence, which was a negative advice. Still, the order of *yo* and *que* is unexpected. A referee suggests that it could be a fossilized subjunctive.

13.8 *pendant là tiré*

The meaning of *là*, which normally is a determiner of a noun, is not quite clear in this example:

- (13) Faudra pendant là tiré chivrons [218]
 NECESSARY during ?? pull rafter
 ‘Il faudra pendant ce temps, tirer des chevrons’
 ‘During this time, it will be necessary to pull rafters’

It cannot be a nominal modifier as it is preceded by a preposition or conjunction. It cannot be a place adverbial ‘there’, as it is preceded by an indicator of time. The French translation suggests that it refers to a time period. Perhaps the noun *temps* ‘time’ was accidentally omitted.

13.9 *q uée*

In one case, a form *q uée* is used. It is clearly a typo. If one would think it is a typo for the complementizer *qué* ‘that’, then the preceding *vou* has an unclear function. This interpretation is based on an assumption that *vou* is part of the error.

- (14) Vou crée vou q uée [navire à vou gagné besoin
 2SG.POL believe 2SG.POL COMPL ship to 2SG.POL
 réparations? [48]

‘Croyez-vous **que** votre navire ait besoin de réparations?’
 ‘Do you believe **that** your ship needs repair?’

14 Final words

I hope this grammar will benefit students of Haitian and of creole languages in general, and of course speakers of Haitian. This is the first detailed and in-depth study of an older stage of the Haitian language. A number of isolated structural observations based on the same material were made in the past, as discussed above in Section 2.5., and some of these appear to be erroneous on closer scrutiny. The results indicate that in-depth study of the grammatical properties of DHC show that it is in several respects different from modern Haitian Creole, yet so similar that there is no doubt that it provides a reliable representation of the language at the time, and a (partial) precursor of the modern language. Even though the corpus is limited it is sufficient to extract numerous details of the grammar of the language. In this final chapter, I want to discuss XXX things: the fact that it shares traits with modern Northern and Southern Haitian Creole; the older creole and the modern one; language attitudes by Ducœurjoly and some later observers relating his work; some previous erroneous observations on DHC and the quality of the material

14.1 Northern and Southern Haitian

It is important to note, that in French colonial times, Cap Haïtien in Northern Haiti was the capital city of Saint-Domingue (the old French colonial name for Haiti) from 1711 to 1770. In 1770, the capital was moved to Port-au-Prince in the south. Between 1804 and 1820, after the Haitian Revolution, the capital city was briefly moved to the North again, and then again to the south.

There are differences between the dialects of Northern Haiti and Southern Haiti. DHC contains features that are continued in Northern Haiti and others that are continued in Southern Haiti. These differences have not been discussed here, as they are dealt with in Fattier (1994, 2000). Goodman already observed some phenomenon in Ducœurjoly that are not found in the main modern variety of Haitian Creole, or (M. F. Goodman 1964: 107) only in the Northern variety.

14 Final words

14.2 Ducœurjoly's Creole and the modern Creole

Ducœurjoly's Creole language is quite close to modern Haitian Creole. There are two reasons, however, that contribute to the impression that it looks more like French than it looks like modern Haitian. One is the French spelling used, with only minor deviations to indicate deviant pronunciations. The other is the frequent use of French loans, or at least what one can assume to be French loans, or nonce-loans or codeswitches. Many of these French loanwords are technical terms from the shipbuilding and ship repair industry and from specialized work in the sugar production, which were probably not shared by all sectors of the Haitian-speaking population and not widely known by French speakers either. Because of this, a fair number of derivational morphemes occur, as some expressions appear to have been borrowed *in toto*. Moreover, one may also encounter a high number of French-influenced items in In Modern HC, especially when these are texts translated from French. In the professional dialogues, such borrowings are quite natural.

Ducœurjoly's dialogues had the purpose of introducing prospective settlers to the life on the island, and knowledge of the language of the bulk of the population was one obvious means of integrating the new colonials into the new society. His dialogues showed that the language was considered a fully expressive language by the author, in which everything could be discussed. He showed this by having technical dialogues in his book about seafaring, shipbuilding, and industrial and agricultural activities. Obviously, a number of loans were introduced to make this possible, also in order to adjust to the intended audience. It shows that also older Haitian was a natural language which could adjust to special situations and adopt technical vocabulary from sugar production, shipbuilding and other technical activities.

There are good reasons to assume that the Haitian texts are translations (by the author) of texts first conceived in French. If Haitian would have been the point of departure, one would expect a higher number of circumlocutions for the technical vocabulary, at least occasionally, which makes it more likely that French was the basis, and Haitian with French technical loans the translated text.

This grammatical study will make it easier to compare Ducœurjoly's Creole not only to Modern Haitian, but also to other French-lexifier Creoles of the Caribbean and elsewhere, which I hope will be undertaken.

14.3 Language attitudes

Language attitudes are relevant from at least three perspectives in connection with this grammatical study based on a book published more than two centuries ago. One is the attitude of the author of the book, who, as mentioned before, never expressed a negative attitude towards the language. For him, it was a language like all others. Second, there are attitudes of the speakers of the language at that time, not only the enslaved but also other colonials like Ducœurjoly. The book does not reveal anything about that. The dialogues contain no metalinguistic remarks, and there does not seem to be any elsewhere in the book either. Lastly, the attitudes of modern linguists, which may influenced by their own views of the language of the speakers. This can manifest itself in statements expressed by modern authors concerning an assumed inability of the colonials to learn the creole language (parallel to the equally erroneous idea that the enslaved were unable to learn the European language), and a view that, even after a 20 year presence and interaction with native speakers, Ducœurjoly could not have achieved competence in the creole at an acceptable level, as it is his second language. There is nothing in the book that casts doubt on his fluency. It is of course possible that his idiolect is influenced more by the sociolects of people living in his household, or by the speech of creole foreman, rather than a more basilectal creole spoken by the enslaved workers in the field.

Also at the time, Haitian Creole was a fully expressive language. There are no negative remarks on the language anywhere in the book, in contrast to some later discussions of Haitian and other creole languages. The author may express negative attitudes towards some segments of the Haitian population, but not about the language. I have found no evidence for this claim of the supposed inferiority of Ducœurjoly's language that was expressed in DeGraff (2000): "It is in this context that new speech varieties were created that were perceived as related, but distinct from and inferior to, the French spoken by French settlers (Girod de Chantrans 1785; Moreau de Saint-Méry 1797; Ducœurjoly 1802b; Descourtilz 1809)." This supposed inferiority of the language, however, is nowhere reflected in Ducœurjoly's book. Similarly, in Krämer (2023) negative attitudes towards the creole language are attributed to Ducœurjoly, but without a concrete example, and only using quotes from a different person a century later. Ducœurjoly had no negative attitude towards the creole.

14.4 Erroneous observations: case distinctions in personal pronouns in DHC

Several people have mentioned that Ducœurjoly's Haitian Creole is exceptional among creoles in that it shows (unlike modern Haitian and virtually all creoles) case marking in personal pronouns. First and second person pronouns would have different forms for subject and object. It was first mentioned by Sylvain in her grammar of Haitian Creole. The second to observe this was Alleyne (1966: 281), who mentioned the "two-case declension system for personal pronouns (*mo*, subject case, *mwé* oblique case)". Also Fattier (1995: 138–1939) mentions this distinction between "*to*" (forme sujet), "*toué*" et "*vou*" (formes d'objet direct, "*vou*" étant la forme de politesse)". DeGraff (2008: 301), referring to Fattier, further mentioned that "eighteenth and nineteenth-century varieties" of Haitian Creole showed "overt marking of morphological case on HC pronouns". Most recently, Aboh & DeGraff (2016) used material from DHC to claim that there were case differences in early stages of Haitian Creole. This is what they write:

We have documentation of 18th-century Creole varieties in Haiti that show robust case distinctions in pronouns such as nominative 1SG *mo* vs. accusative 1SG *moé*, and nominative 2SG *to* vs. accusative 2SG *toué*. Here are two examples from Ducœurjoly (1802b: 353) with the French translations given there: HC: *To va bay moué nouvelles* / French: *Tu m'en diras des Nouvelles* 'You(+SG) will give me news' vs. HC: *Mo te byen di toué*/ Fr: *Je te l'avais bien dit* 'I had told you well.'

[inaccuracies in quote maintained; "Tu m'en diras des nouvelles 'You(+SG) will give me news' vs. HC: *Mo té byen di toué*/ Fr: *Je te l'avois bien dit*]

Sometimes it is claimed that other older sources likewise show a subject-object distinction, but those sources appear to go back to earlier erroneous observations. Sylvain (1936: 62–63) writes that there are older texts and conservative texts like proverbs and fables in which a subject-object distinction is maintained, but unfortunately she gives no examples or references.

In the text of the song *Lisette quitté la plaine*, which is several decades older than Ducœurjoly (1757 according to Hazaël-Massieux (2008: 87), we do not find case distinctions. One version of the text can be found on p. 392–393 of vol. 2 in Ducœurjoly 1802, this and other versions also in Hazaël-Massieux 2008). In the song, the form *moué* is used for subject, object/oblique and possessive (*à moué*), and the clitic form *mo* for subject only, parallel to the development in French where clitic *je* is restricted to subjects, whereas *moi* can be used for both subject and object, and *me* only as a cliticized form. In the even older text *La Passion de Notre Seigneur selon St Jean en Langage Negre*, the form *moé* is used

14.4 Erroneous observations: case distinctions in personal pronouns in DHC

as subject, object, oblique and possessive (*à moé*) (G. Hazaël-Massieux 1996a). This text dates from around 1730, and it is said to be from Northern Haiti ((M.-C. Hazaël-Massieux 2008: 60). In DHC, *moué* and *mo* can be used for both subject and object.

Goodman (1964: 34), on the other hand, was aware of the two sets of personal pronouns for emphasis rather than case marking. He gave the following examples (where DJ stands for Duceœurjoly): “DJ, 326: *mo di* ‘je dis’; 332: *vous fair mo mal* ‘vous me faites mal’”, with the same form for subject and object. Goodman indicated that the forms could be used both for both functional positions, as he explicitly mentions in a later article: “However, *mo* is recorded both as subject and object in an early work, *Ducoeur-Joly* 1802, which was evidently based on the northern Haitian dialect (Cap Haitien) of that period.” (M. Goodman 1984: 123).

These examples are from the *Vocabulaire* part, not from the dialogues, and their conclusion about a case distinction seems misguided. These sentences may indeed create the impression that there was case distinction. It is, however, more likely that the phenomenon described relates to emphatic versus non-emphatic pronouns. Indeed, the vast majority of usages of *mo* refers to subjects, and the vast majority of *moué* refers to oblique forms, either object or when governed by a preposition (often *à* in possessives: *à moué*, not * *à mo*). Yet, the existence of double forms discussed above that the contrast between emphatic and non-emphatic plays a more important role. Here are some examples with the non-emphatic forms in an oblique position, contradicting the claim by Aboh & DeGraff (2016):

- (1) *comben vou-va loué mo ly?* [63]
how.much 2.POL-FUT rent 1SG 3G
‘combien **me** le louerez-vous?’
‘for how much will you rent it **to me**?’
- (2) *Ça va arrangé mo ben* [114]
THIS FUT suit 1SG well
‘Cela **m**’arrangera très-bien’
‘That will suit **me** very well’

Also in the *Vocabulaire* part there are cases of *mo* in object position:

- (3) *z’oreille à moué fair mo mal.* (page 337) *l’oreille me fait mal*
ear TO 1SG make 1SG pain
‘My ear hurts **me**’

14 *Final words*

And here are some examples of *moué* and *toué* as subject (also 113)

- (4) **moué, mo** coné monde à moué [43]
 1SG.EMPH 1SG know people TO 1SG
 ‘**moi**, je connois mon monde’
 ‘(me), I know my people’
- (5) **Toué, to** qui fair, tant brave à toué
 2SG 2SG REL make so.much courageous PREP 2SG
 ‘**toi** qui fais tant le brave’
 ‘**you** who acted so bravely’

14.5 *Quality of the dialogues*

My strong impression, after studying the dialogues thoroughly, is that the dialogues display a reliable representation of Haitian Creole of the late 1700s. He had acquired an excellent grasp of the language, after having lived for twenty in close proximity of native and second language speakers of the Creole. This impression is shared by a range of people with much better knowledge of modern and colonial Haitian Creole than I have, among them Annegret Bollée, Dominique Fattier, (indirectly) Michel DeGraff, Morris Goodman, Guy Hazaël-Massieux, Marie-Christine Hazaël-Massieux, and Albert Valdman. It is my sincere hope that my effort to make this older version of this fascinating language will bear fruit to all those who speak or study Haitian Creole. It is a descriptive, but it can also contribute to the study of changes in creole languages, and shed a light on the genesis of the language. Displaced Africans created a new language for internal communication between themselves, using building blocks from French language, as an act of resistance against one of the most cruel inventions of humankind, enslavement and colonialism. This book is a contribution to the memory of these courageous and creative people.

Appendix A: Appendix: The dialogues in Duccœurjoly, in French and Creole.

This appendix contains a diplomatic edition of the texts of the dialogues. Only a few superficial changes have been made. The French convention of adding space before commas and similar signs, has not been followed. Commas are written here behind the words without a space. Also, a few remarks have been added between square brackets, when there are good reasons to assume that there is a typographical error in the text. The original text is maintained, and an alternative is presented in square brackets.

It should be mentioned that some of the titles of the dialogues are different in the table of contents, and we give them here in translation:

Conversation between a Captain of a ship, arriving from Europe, and a Black stevedore. (speaking turns 1-45)

Dialogue between a Captain arriving from France, and a Negro contractor of Careening.

(speaking turns 46-68)

Conversation between a Captain and settlers.

(speaking turns 69-138)

Conversation between a Sugar Refinery Owner and the Negro Commander of his Dwelling.

(speaking turns 139-211)

Conversation between another Owner of a Dwelling planted with coffee, and his Negro Commander.¹

(speaking turns 212-253)

¹Conversation entre un Capitaine de navire, arrivant d'Europe, et un Nègre Aconier. Dialogue entre un Capitaine arrivant de France, et un Nègre entrepreneur de Carénage. Conversation entre un Capitaine et des Habitants. Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur de son Habitation. Conversation entre un autre Propriétaire d'Habitation plantée en café, et son Nègre Commandeur.

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

A.1 CONVERSATION ENTRE UN CAPITAINE DE NAVIRE, ARRIVANT D'EUROPE, ET UN MAITRE ACCONIER.

- | | |
|--|---|
| 1 LE MAÎTRE. Monsieur, je suis très-satisfait de vous voir arriver sur notre rade: avez-vous fait une heureuse traversée? | Le Maître. Mouché mo ben content voir vous rivé là sur rade à nou: vou té fair nion bon traversée? |
| 2 Le CAPIT. J'ai éprouvé un ouragan, le sixième jour de mon départ; ensuite quelques vents contraires, néanmoins je n'ai mis que 45 jours dans ma traversée. | Le Capit. Mo té suyé nion zouragan sixième jour depart à moué; ensuite quéque vent contraire, malgré ça mo mété necque 45 jours dans traversée à moué. |
| 3 Le M. Avez-vous essuyé des dommages? | Le M. Vou té suyé damage? |
| 4 Le C. J'ai perdu mon grand mât de perroquet, et cassé une vergue de misaine. | Le C. Mo perdi grand mat perroquet à moué, et cassé nion vergue misaine. |
| 5 Le M. De quoi est composée votre cargaison? | Le M. Qui cargaison vous gagné? |
| 6 Le C. De vin, farine, savon, chandelle, huile, toiles à voile, toiles à matelas, toiles fines, mouchoirs, bas, souliers, bijoux, enfin un peu de tout ce qui peut être utile en ce pays. | Le C. Di vin, farine, savon, chandelle, houil, touéle à vouéle, touile matelas, touéle fin, mouchoir, bas, souliers, bijou, enfin tous ça qui capable servi dans pays cy. |
| 7 Le M. Avez-vous loué un magasin? | Le M. Vou loué nion magazin? |
| 8 Le C. J'en ai un dans la rue du Bacq. | Le C. Mo gagné nion rue Bacq. |
| 9 Le M. Il vous faudra des accons, je viens vous offrir mes services, soyez sûr que personne n'est plus accommodant que moi. | Le M. Vou va gagné besoin z'accon, mo vini offri vous service à moué, vou doi sir personne pa lé comandé-vou com moué? |

*A.1 CONVERSATION ENTRE UN CAPITAINE DE NAVIRE, ARRIVANT
D'EUROPE, ET UN MAITRE ACCONIER.*

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|----|--|---|
| 10 | Le C. Comme j'ai beaucoup souffert dans la traversée, je serois charmé que mon navire fût déchargé le plus tôt possible: combien avez-vous d'accons? | Le C. Com mo soufri tou plein dans traversée, mo seré charmé que navire à moué s'été déchargé py vittement possible, comben vou gagné z'accons? |
| 11 | Le M. J'en ai autant qu'il en faut pour fournir à tout ce que les cabrouets pourront enlever du bord de la mer, en eussiez-vous vingt par jour. | Le M. Mo gagné ça qui fau pour fournir tou ça cabrouet là yo va savé enlevé bord la mer, quan même vou s'été gagné vingt par jour. |
| 12 | Le C. C'est ce qu'il me faut. Combien me prendrez-vous par voyage d'accon? | Le C. C'es ça qui fau moué, comben vou va prendre moué par voyage z'accon? |
| 13 | Le M. Si vous voulez je traiterai en bloc pour toute la cargaison. | Le M. Si vou vlé mo va traité en bloc pour toute cargaison. |
| 14 | Le C. Je le veux bien. | Le C. Mo vlé ben. |
| 15 | Le M. De quel port est votre bâtiment? | Le M. Qué por bâtiment à vou yé? |
| 16 | Le C 350 tonneaux. | Le C. 350 tonneaux. |
| 17 | Le M. Vous me donnerez 200 gourdes, et je m'engage à mettre votre cargaison à terre en 4 jours, si, comme je vous ai dit, les cabrouets peuvent suffire. | Le M. Vou va baye moué 200 gourdes, et mo engagé moué mété tout cargaison à vou à terre en 4 jours, si com mo dir vou, cabrouets là yo savé sufi. |
| 18 | Le C- C'est trop cher; vous n'observez-pas que j'ai une grande chaloupe qui peut faire des voyages conséquens avec les matelots, et vous n'avez pas envie de faire mon chargement quand je serai prêt. | Le C. Ça trop cher; vou pa prin gard mo gagné nion grand chaloupe qui capable fair voyage conséquens avec matelot là yo, et vou pa gagné envie fair chargement à moué quand mo va pret. |
| 19 | Le M. Puisque vous promettez m'employer pour le chargement, je diminuerai 25 gourdes. ... vous ne pouvez pas vous plaindre! | Le M. D'abord vou prometté employé moué pour chargement, mo va ouété 25 gourdes....., vou pa savé plaindre vou! |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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|----|---|---|
| 20 | Le C. C'est une affaire faite; nous commencerons demain matin; il faut qu'à 5 heures il y ait des marchandises a terre. | Le C. Cé nion affair fini; nou va commencé démain matin; fau qu'à 5 heur y-en-a marchandise à terre. |
| 21 | Le M. Au coup de canon les accons seront à bord, faites préparer des cordages ou amarres, nous mènerons une vingtaine de barriques de vin à la traîne, votre chaloupe pourra aussi en mener. | Le M. A coup de canon z'accon la yo va à bord, fair yo préparé cordage, nou va mené nion vingtaine barrique di vin la traîne, chaloupe à vou savé mené aussi. |
| 22 | Le C. Nous commencerons aussi par la farine, et les grosses caisses que nous ouvrirons pour arranger les marchandises en magasin, avant qu'il ne soit embarrassé par le vin et autres encombrages. | Le C. Nou va commencé aussi par farine et gro caisse que nou va l'ouvri pour rangé marchandise dan magazin anvant ly barassé par di vin et l'autre z'encombrage. |
| 23 | Le M. Il faut débarrasser tout ce qui est auprès du grand panneau, pour pouvoir agir plus facilement dans la cale. Faites apprêter le grand palan que nous n'ayons qu'à le charger en arrivant, votre équipage peut aussi mettre sur l'avant tout ce qui pourroit nous gêner, | Le M. Fau débarrassé tou ça qui coté grand panneau, pour yo savé agir py facilement dan cale là. Fair yo prété grand palan, que nou gagné nec qu'à chargé ly en rivant, z'équipage à vou savé aussi mété su l'avant, tou ça qui capable géné nou. |
| 24 | Le C. Maintenant que tout est convenu nous pouvons boire un bol de punch? | Le C. Alor que tout convini nou savé boir nion bol punch? |
| 25 | Le M. Volontiers; je le veux bien. | Le M. Volontier, mo vlé ben. |
| 26 | Le C. L'aimez-vous au taffia ou au rum? | Le C. Vou haimé ly à taffia ou ben à rum? |
| 27 | Le M. Cela m'est parfaitement égal. | Le M. Cé tout même. |

*A.1 CONVERSATION ENTRE UN CAPITAINE DE NAVIRE, ARRIVANT
D'EUROPE, ET UN MAITRE ACCONIER.*

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| 28 | Le C. Puisque cela est ainsi,
nous allons la faire aux œufs, et
au rum. | Le C. D'abord ça com ça, nou
va fair ly au z'eux acque rom. |
| 29 | Le M. Bravo, cela sera encore
mieux. | Le M. Bravo, ça va encore py
miyor. |
| 30 | Le C. A vôtre santé! | Le C. A santé à vou? |
| 31 | Le M. A la vôtre.
Il est trop fort, je crains de me
griser. | Le M. A quien à vou. Ly trop
fort, mo peur grisé moué. |
| 32 | Le C. Vous n'êtes donc pas
habitué à boire du punch? | Le C. Vou pas coutumé boir
punch donc? |
| 33 | Le M. Pardonnez - moi, mais je
ne me sens pas bien
aujourd'hui, j'ai même très peu
mangé. | Le M. Mo mandé-vou pardon,
mai mo senti pas ben jordy, mo
mangé même necque pitit brin. |
| 34 | Le C. Voulez-vous prendre
quelque chose? | Le C. Vou-vlé prende qui choy? |
| 35 | Le M. Il y a long-temps que je
n'ai mangé du biscuit blanc,
j'en prendrai un morceau. | Le M. Lyen à long-tem mo n'a
mangé biscouit blanc, mo va
prend nion morçeau. |
| 36 | Le C. Hé! gros Jean,
apporte-nous un couple de
galettes de biscuit blanc. | Le C. Hé! gros Jean, porté
bay-nou nion coupe galette
biscouit blanc. |
| 37 | GROS JEAN. Monsieur, il a que
celle-ci que vous m'avez fait
réserver pour madame Dumas;
mais je vais vous en donner de
celui d'équipage, qui est
très-beau. | Gros Jean. Mouché, ni n'y en-a
necqué cilà vou-té fair moué
gardé pour madame Dumas,
mai mo va ba-vou quien à
z'equipe qui tré-bel. |
| 38 | Le M. Puisque vous n'en-avez
que très - peu en réserve, je
mangerai de l'autre, je l'aime
beaucoup. | Le M. D'abord vou gagné
necqué pitit brin en réserve, mo
va mangé l'autre, mo haimé ly
tou plein. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 39 | Le C. Tant mieux, je crois que vous le trouverez bon, je l'ai fait faire à Honfleur, et bien recommandé, parce que j'aime que mon équipage soit bien nourri. | Le C. Tan mieu, mo crée vou va trouvé ly bon, mo fai ly fair à Honfleur, et ben recommandé, parce mo haimé n'équipage à moué ben nourri. |
| 40 | Le M. Vous avez raison, avec de bons traitemens on s'attache mieux les hommes, et l'on a droit d'en exiger le service convenu. | Le M. Vou gagné raison, acque bon traitement, yo taché z'ome davantage, et yo savé exiger service yo convini. |
| 41 | Le C. Mon équipage n'a jamais murmuré, quand les circonstances ont exigé un travail forcé. | Le C. N'équipage a moué pas, jamais murmuré quand circonstances vlé nion travail forcé. |
| 42 | Le M. Vous êtes heureux; j'ai connu bien des capitaines; les meilleurs étoient souvent ceux qui éprouvoient plus de désagrément avec leurs équipages? | Le M. Vou ben heuru; mo coné en pile capitaine, miyor là-yo té souvent cilà-yo, qui té prouvé py grand désagrément acque z'équipage à yo. |
| 43 | Le C. Cela dépend du choix, car, comme dit le proverbe, il ne faut qu'une brebis galeuse pour gâter un troupeau; moi, je connois mon monde. Il y a six ans que le maître navigue avec moi; la plupart des autres m'ont suivi depuis plusieurs voyages. | Le C. Ça dépende à choix, car, tan com proverbe la dir, fau necqué nion brebi galeux pour gâter nion troupeau; moué, mo coné monde à moué, ly en à six ans, que maître là navigué acque moué; plu-part les autres suivre moué dans py plusieurs voyages. |

A.1 CONVERSATION ENTRE UN CAPITAINE DE NAVIRE, ARRIVANT D'EUROPE, ET UN MAITRE ACCONNIER.

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| <p>44 Le M. Ainsi vous vous
connoissez mutuellement, et
l'habitude d'être ensemble,
contribue beaucoup à
s'ympatiser.
Finissons notre punch, il faut
que je me retire pour donner
des ordres à mes acconniers,
afin qu'ils soient ici, même
avant le coup de canon.</p> | <p>Le M. Com ça vou coné-vou
mitiyuellement, et z'abitude
déyé ensemble, contribué tou
plein à cordé vous.
Anon nou fini punch à-nou, fau
mo alé pour bay z'ordres à
z'acconniers à moué, afin qué
yo ici, même anvant coup
canon.</p> |
| <p>45 Le C. C'est bien penser, je vais
de mon côté faire tout disposer
pour les recevoir.</p> | <p>Le C. Cé ben songé, mo va côté
à moué fair yo tout préparé
pour recevoir yo.</p> |

Entre un Capitaine arrivant de France, et un Charpentier de Navire, entrepreneur

- | | |
|---|---|
| <p>46 L'ENTREPRENEUR. Je viens
d'apprendre, Monsieur, que
vous avez éprouvé des
dommages dans la traversée.</p> | <p>L'ENTREPRENEUR. Mo sorti
apprend, Mouché, qué vou té
éprouvé damage dan traversée.</p> |
| <p>47 LE CAPITAINE. Cela est vrai.</p> | <p>Le Capitaine. Ça vrai.</p> |
| <p>48 L'Entr. Croyez-vous que votre
navire ait besoin de
réparations?</p> | <p>L'Entr. Vou crée vou q uée
[SIC: typo for qué] navire à vou
gagné bisoin réparations?</p> |
| <p>49 Le C. Il a été caréné avant notre
départ, mais le coup d'ouragan
ma [SIC m'a] mis dans le cas de
lui faire encore donner un
radoub.</p> | <p>Le C. Ly té carené anvant nou
parti, mai coup z'ouragan là
mété moué dan cas fair ly bay
encor nion radoub.</p> |
| <p>50 L'Entr. Fait-il beaucoup d'eau?</p> | <p>L'Entr. Ly fair d'iau en pile?</p> |
| <p>51 Le C. Les premiers jours d'après
l'orage, nous en faisons trente -
six pouces par vingt-quatre
heures; mais au beau temps j'ai
fait dégager ce que j'ai pu, et
étancher le mieux possible;
à présent nous n'en faisons que
treize pouces.</p> | <p>Le C. Primié jours après
z'orage, nou té fair trente-six
pouces par vingt-quatre heurs;
mai dan beau tem mo fair yo
dégagé ça mo pu, et tancher
miyor possible, nou fair à
présent necqué treize pouces.</p> |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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|----|---|---|
| 52 | L'Entr. Cela n'est pas beaucoup, néanmoins il faut y pourvoir. | L'Entr. Ça pas tou-plein, mais pourtant faut pourvoir à ça. |
| 53 | Le C. C'est mon intention, d'ailleurs, on n'a pu calfater que très-légèrement entre les bordages écartés, je veux que cela soit fait à fonds. | Le C. Cé z'intention à moué, d'ailleur yo pa té savé calfeter necqué légèrement, entre bordage carté là yo, mo vlé ça fait à fond. |
| 54 | L'Entr. Les membres doivent aussi avoir fatigué? | L'Entr. Membre là yo doué avoir aussi fatigué. |
| 55 | Le C. Beaucoup. | Le C. Tou plein. |
| 56 | L'Entr. Je vois que vous serez obligé de virer en quille, pour réparer votre bâtiment. | L'Entr. Mo voir que vou va bligé viré en quille, pour réparer bâtiment à vou. |
| 57 | Le C. Je voudrais pourtant bien m'en dispenser, cela deviendra fort coûteux aux armateurs. | Le C. Mo té voudré pourtant ben dispensé moué, ça va divini coûteux pour z'armateurs. |
| 58 | L'Entr. Vos armateurs vous sauront meilleur gré que si vous exposiez leur bâtiment, l'équipage et la cargaison. | L'Entr. Z'armateur à vou yo va savé vou miyor gré passé si vou-té exposé bâtiment à yo, z'équipage et cargaison. |
| 59 | Le C. Je sais cela comme vous, mais avant de rien décider, il faut laisser décharger le navire, nous en ferons ensuite une visite complete..... | Le C. Mo coné ça tan quon vou, mais auparavant décidé à rien, faut laissé déchargé bâtiment là, nou va fair ensuite nion visite complete... |
| 60 | L'Entr. Vous voyez monsieur qu'il vous est indispensable de donner une carène en plein à votre bâtiment. | L'Entr. Vou voir mouché, vou pas savé dispensé vou bay nion carène en plein, à batiment à vou. |
| 61 | Le C. Cela est vrai, mais je ne puis l'entreprendre que dans un mois, parce que j'ai besoin de mon maître charpentier au magasin. | Le C. Ça vrai, mai mo pas capable entreprendre ly avant nion mois, parce mo gagné bisoin maître charpentier à moué dan magasin. |

*A.1 CONVERSATION ENTRE UN CAPITAINE DE NAVIRE, ARRIVANT
D'EUROPE, ET UN MAITRE ACCONIER.*

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|---|--|
| <p>62 L'Entr. Il n'est pas besoin de votre maître charpentier, je suis entrepreneur, j'ai des pontons, des ouvriers, etc, tout ce qui est nécessaire au radoub. Je pourrai faire votre carène, d'ailleurs, votre maître charpentier et ses aides seuls, y seroient trop long-temps, puisque vous avez aussi une partie de l'envergure à réparer.</p> <p>63 Le C. J'ai le temps de pourvoir à tout cela, j'aurai seulement besoin d'un ponton, combien me le louerez-vous?</p> <p>64 L' Entr. Je les loue ordinairement 6 gourdes par jour, quant on prend aussi chez moi, l'étoupe, le suif et le goudron; autrement, c'est une portugaise.</p> <p>65 Le C. Vous devez croire que je ne prendrai pas chez vous tous ces objets, puisque j'en ai à bord, et c'est trop cher à une portugaise; je vous donnerai 6 gourdes.</p> <p>66 L'Entr. Vous êtes le premier à qui je l'aurai laissé pour ce prix, vous profitez de la circonstance où il y a très-peu de navires en rade; je vous prie seulement de n'en parler à personne.</p> <p>67 Le C. Vous pouvez être tranquille à cet égard, je ne rends jamais compte de mes affaires, qu'à mes armateurs.</p> | <p>L'Entr. Ly pa bisoin maître charpentier à vou, mo entrepreneur, mo, gagné ponton, z'ouvrier, etc, tout ça qui nécessaire à radoub. Mo savé fair carène à vou, épy maître charpentier à vou acque z'aide à ly yo tou sol, yo seré té trop long-temps, puisque vou gagné aussi nion partie z'envergure pour réparer.</p> <p>Le C. Mo gagné temps pourvoir tou ça, mo va tan seulement bisoin nion ponton, comben vou-va loué mo ly?</p> <p>L'Entr. Mo loué yo ordinairement 6 gourdes par jour, quant yo prend là caze à moué, n'étoupe, souif et godron; l'autrement cé nion portugaise.</p> <p>Le C. Vou doi crére que mo pa allé prendre la caze à vou tou bagage là yo, d'abord mo gagné à bord, ça trop cher à nion portugaise; m'a ba vou 6 gourdes.</p> <p>L'Entr. Vou primier à qui mo laissé ly pour prix-là; vou profité que ni a point guère navire là sur rade; mo prié vou tant seulement vou pas dir personne à rien.</p> <p>Le C. Vou capable tranquille à n'égard là, mo pa jamais rend compte z'affaire à moué qu'à z'armateur à moué.</p> |
|---|--|

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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|----|---|---|
| 68 | L'Entr. Adieu Monsieur, quant vous serez prêt vous me ferez prévenir. | L'Entr. Adieu Mouché, quan vou va prêt vou va fair yo verti moué. |
|----|---|---|

A.2 Conversation entre un Capitaine et des Habitans.

- | | | |
|----|---|---|
| 69 | LES HABITANS. Monsieur, nous avons l'honneur de vous saluer. | Les Habitans. Mouché nou l'honneur salué vou. |
| 70 | LE CAPITAINE. Messieurs, je suis votre serviteur. | Le Capitaine. Messieu, vos [SIC?] serviteur. |
| 71 | H. On nous a dit que vous aviez une cargaison très-bien assortie sur-tout en bon vin. | H. Yo dire nou vou gagné nion cargaison très-bien assorti, sur-tout bon di vin. |
| 72 | Le C. On a fait tout ce qu'il étoit possible pour bien rencontrer. | Le C. Yo fair tou ça yo té peu, pour bon contré. |
| 73 | H. C'est le moyen d'avoir bientôt le débit. | H. Cé moyen gagné bentot débit. |
| 74 | Le C. C'est là mon but; de quoi s'agit-il? | Le C. Cé but à moué, qui ça li s'agit? |
| 75 | H. Nous voudrions nous approvisionner. | H. Nou té voudré provisionné nou. |
| 76 | Le C. Cela est très-possible, mais à qui ai-je l'honneur de parler? | Le C. Ça très-possible, mai qui cila mo gagné l'honneur parlé? |
| 77 | H. Nous sommes M.r .. et moi, habitans de. . . je me nomme J. . . et M.r P... je fais de l'indigo et monsieur de sucre. | H. Mouché et moué nou z'habitans de.... yo hélé moué J. . et mouché P.. mo fair l'indigo et mouché soucier. |
| 78 | Le C. Quoi c'est Mr. P.. voilà une heureuse rencontre, comment vous portez-vous? | Le C. Quoi cé M.° P. . . à vla nion heureux rencontre, comment vou porté? |
| 79 | H. Très-bien Dieu merci; et vous? | H. tré ben gran merci bon Dieu; et vou? |
| 80 | Le C. Comme vous voyez très-bien et toujours disposé à vous obliger. | Le C. Com vou voir, tré ben, et toujours pret bligé vou. |

A.2 Conversation entre un Capitaine et des Habitans.

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| 81 | H. J'en suis persuadé, aussi
étois-je surpris du premier
accueil que vous nous avez fait? | H. Mo ben souré, aussi mo té
surprend primié accueil vou
fair nous? |
| 82 | Le C. Ma foi je n'avois pas le
plaisir de vous remettre, car à
mon dernier voyage, je n'ai pas
eu celui de vous voir? | Le C. Ma foi mo pas té gagné
plaisir remettre-vou, car dernié
voyage à moué, mo pas té
gagné cila voir vou? |
| 83 | H. Cela est vrai, J'étois bien
malade, cependant j'ai fait
prendre quelque chose chez
vous. | H. Ça vrai, mo té ben malade,
pendant mo fair yo prende qui
choï là caze à vou. |
| 84 | Le C. Cela peut être, je ne m'en
rappelle pas, sans doute on ne
vous aura pas nommé? | Le C. Ça possible, mo pa
souveni moué, peut-être yo pas
té nommé vou? |
| 85 | H. Il est possible; car j'ai fait
acheter au comptant, ce dont
j'avois besoin. | H. Ça possible, parce mo fair yo
acheté comptant, ça mo té
bisoin. |
| 86 | Le C. Vous saviez que vous avez
crédit chez moi, ce que je ne
ferois pas à tout le monde. | Le C. Vou té coné vou gagné
crédit là caze à moué, mo pa
fair autant à tout monde? |
| 87 | H. Nous nous en sommes
aperçus en entrant. | H. Nou té voir ça en entrant. |
| 88 | Le C. Vous ne blâmez sans
doute pas ma prudence; la
confiance que mes armateurs
m'accordent, la commande. | Le C. Vou p'alé blâmé sans
doute prudence à moué;
confiance z'armateur à moué
cordé moué ly commandé ly. |
| 89 | H. Nous sommes au contraire
très - flatés que vous veuillez
bien nous distinguer. | H. Nou ben conten contraire
que vous vlé ben distingué nou. |
| 90 | Le C. Je crois que vous avez
commencé par me demander
du vin. | Le C. Mo crére vou commencé
par mandé moué di vin. |
| 91 | H. Nous en avons parlé. | H. Nou té parlé. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 92 | Le C. Eh bien! nous allons déjeuner ensemble; j'aurai en même temps le plaisir de vous faire goûter quelque chose, comme du bœuf à la mode, du jambon, du beurre, etc. | Le C. Eh ben, nou va dijiné ensemble, en même temps mo va gagné plaisir fair vou goûter l'autre qui choi, com bœuf la mode, jambon, di beurre, etc. |
| 93 | H. Volontiers, nous ne sommes d'ailleurs venus en ville, que pour faire nos emplettes chez vous et diner chez..... | H. Volontier, épy nou vini en ville nécqué pour fair z'emplette à nou la caze à vou, et diné la caze à M . . . |
| 94 | Le C. Vous connoissez M... c'est un bien digne homme, je lui ai vendu il y a trois jours pour 3 ou 4 mille livres de différentes marchandises. | Le C. Vou coné M.... cé nion ben digne homme, mo vende ly li en à troi jour pour 3 ou ben 4 mille livres marchandises. |
| 95 | H. Cela ne nous étonne pas, il fait beaucoup d'affaires sur-tout en commission. | H. Ça pa étoné nou, ly fair en pile z'afaire, surtout en commission. |
| 96 | Le C. Je croyois qu'il faisoit aussi les vôtres? | Le C. Mo té crére ly té fair quien à vou aussi? |
| 97 | H. Cela est vrai, mais nous aimons beaucoup à faire notre choix, surtout quand nous avons des approvisionnemens conséquens à faire. | H. Ça vrai, mai nou haimé tou plein fair choi à nou, sur-tout quan nou gagné z'approvisionnement conséquent pour fair. |
| 98 | Le C. C'est fort bien, allons mettons nous à table.
..... | Le C. Cé ben, alon nou meté nou à table. |
| | Comment trouvez-vous ce vin? | Comment vou trouvé di vin là? |
| 99 | H. Un peu chargé, il me semble qu'il sent aussi le fût. | H. Pitit brin chargé, ly semblé moué l y senti goû fût aussi. |
| 100 | Le C. Il vous paroît chargé parce qu'il n'est pas posé, il vient d'être débarqué, et la chaleur qu'il fait peut bien vous faire croire qu'il a le goût du fût, mais nous en goûterons d'autre. | Le C. Ly paroître vou chargé, parce ly pa posé, ly sorti débarqué, chaleur là ly faire savé ben fair crére vou, que ly gagné goû fût, mai nou va goûté l'autre. |

A.2 Conversation entre un Capitaine et des Habitans.

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| 101 | H. Voilà du jambon qui est excellent? | H. Avlà jambon qui excellent? |
| 102 | Le C. Vous vous y connoissez; c'est une pacotille particulière ils viennent de bayonne je vous engage à en prendre 2 ou 3 de ce boucaud, avant qu'ils soient enlever. | Le C. Vou coné vou, cé nion pacotille particulié, yo sorti Bayonne mo engagé vou prend 2 3 dan boucaud là avan yo enlevé yo. |
| 103 | H. Vous avez raison, faites en mettre 6 à part, que nous prendrons à nous deux; mais comme dans ces objets il y a du choix, nous allons les sonder. Mettez y notre marque, ainsi que sur ces 2 barril [SIC: barrils] de bœuf à la mode? | H. Vou gagné raison, fair yo meté 6 à part, que nou va prend à nou deux; mai com y en a choi dan bagage là, nou va sondé yo. Meté marque à nou, tan com là sur 2 barrils beuf la mode là yo? |
| 104 | Le C Voilà qui est fait. | Le C. Vlà ça fait. |
| 105 | L' H. Votre beurre est blanc et un peu trop salé? | L'H. Beur à vou blanch et pitit brin trop salé. |
| 106 | Le C. Il y en a d'autre, goûtez-le en voilà un parti d'Iximude qui vous conviendra. | Le C. Ly en a l'autre, goûté-ly av là nion parti Ixi-imude qui va convini vous. |
| 107 | L'H. Il est très-bon, mettez-nous ces 4 frequins de coté. (1)
Maintenant voyons votre autre vin? | L'H. Ly tré-bon, meté 4 fréquin là yo à coté;
Astor à nou nou voir l'autre di vin à vou? |
| 108 | Le C. En voici du Ségur; celui-ci est du Château-Margau; voilà le Haut Brion, j'en ai aussi du Cap-Breton en bouteilles. | Le C. Cila là cé Ségur, cilà ici cé Château - Margau, avlà Hau Brion, mo gagné aussi Cap-Breton en bouteille. |
| 109 | H. Est-ce bien du Cap Breton, car on nous en vend de cet endroit, six fois plus qu'on n'en fait. | H. Ça ben Cap-Breton, car yo vendé-nou de l'endrét-là six foi passé qué yo fair. |
| 110 | Le C. Je l'ai tiré moi-même du lieu? | Le C. Mo tiré ly mo-même l'endrét? |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 111 | H. Alors nous y croyons, mais avant de faire notre choix, il faut connoître les conditions aux-
quelles vous nous vendez; ensuite nous parlerons des prix. | H. Alors nou crére à ly, mai avant nou fair choi-a nou fau, coné conditions qué vou vende-nou, ensuite nou va parlé prix. |
| 112 | Le C. Vous connoissez les usages, il faut que dans trois mois je fasse mes recouvrements pour opérer mon chargement? | Le C. Vou coné z'usage, fau dan troi mois mo fair recouvremens à moué, pour fair chargement à moué? |
| 113 | H. Vous savez aussi que je paye en denrée, j'aurai positivement à cette époque une étuvée de sucre que je pourrai vous livrer. Et moi j'aurai aussi une douzaine de sacs d'indigo? | H. Vou coné aussi qué mo payé en denrées, positivement m'a gagné dan tem-là, nion étivé soucre qué mo capabe livré-vou. Et moué, mo va gagné aussi nion douzaine sac d'igo? |
| 114 | Le C. Cela m'arrangera très-bien, j'enverrai mon lieutenant les voir. | Le C. Ça va arrangé mo ben, m'avoyé lieutenant à moué voir yo. |
| 115 | H. Venez-y vous même, nous nous amuserons, et vous nous ferez plaisir? | H. Vini vou-même, nou va musé-nou, et vou va fair nou plaisir? |
| 116 | Le C. Je ferai mon possible, mais je ne puis pas vous promettre; cela dépendra des occupations que j'aurai. | Le C. Ma fair possible à moué, mai mo pa savé promette-vou, ça va dépende z'occupations mo va gagné. |
| 117 | H. Maintenant continuons: Voilà six barriques de vin de Haut Brion que nous marquons: voyons votre farine? | H. Astor anon-nou continé: Avla six barriques vin Haut-Brion, qué nou marqué, voyon farine à vou? |
| 118 | Le C. En voici de Moissac, et en voilà d'Estampes. | Le C. Cilà ici, cé Moissac, cilà là, cé d'Estampe. |
| 119 | H. Celle-ci me paroît plus fraîche, et plus blanche? | H. Cilà ici paroît-moué py fraîche, et py blanch? |
| 120 | Le C. Vous avez le choix. | Le C. Vou gagné choix. |
| 121 | H. Marquez-nous ces huit barrils? | H. Marqué huit barrils-là yo? |

A.2 Conversation entre un Capitaine et des Habitans.

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| 122 | Le C. Voulez-vous de l'anisette de Marie Brisard. | Le C. Vou vlé z'anisette à Marie Brisard. |
| 123 | H. Si c'est de la vraie Brisard, nous en prendrons chacun deux paniers ou quatre pomponnelles? | H. Si cé vrai Brisard, nou va prende chacun deux paniés ou quatre pomponnelle? |
| 124 | Le C. Je puis vous l'assurer. | Le C. Mo savé souré-ly vou. |
| 125 | H. Mettez-y une étiquette. Nous avons besoin de plusieurs sortes de toile: d'abord, de belle Flandre, pour nous faire des chemises; ensuite du brin de Dinant, et du Vimoutier, pour habiller nos nègres au premier de l'an? | H. Meté nion tiquette. Nou gagné bisoin plisieurs sorte toile, d'abord, bel Flandre, pour fair nou chimises; ensuite brin Dinan, acque Vimoutier, pour biller nègre à nou, pour bon jour bonne année? |
| 126 | Le C. J'en ai de superbe, voilà du vrai Courtrai, vous n'en trouverez-pas d'un plus beau blanc, ni d'un meilleur usage. | Le C. Mo gagné qui superbe, avlà vrai Courtrai, vous pa allé trouvé nion plu bel blan, ni nion l'usage miyor. |
| 127 | H. Nous prendrons ces quatre pièces, qui paroissent de même qualité? | H. Nou va prende quatre pièces là-yo, qui paroître même qualité? |
| 128 | Le C. C'est le même numéro, . . . les voilà avec vos autres effets, . . . cette balle de brin vous conviendra aussi, il y en a quatre pièces toutes semblables. | Le C. Cé même numéro, avla-yo acque les z'autres bagages, . . . balle brin – là va couveni vou aussi; ly en à quatre pièces qui tout semblé. |
| 129 | H. Et celle là? | H. Et cilà-là? |
| 130 | Le C. C'en-est encore du même. | Le C. Cé encor même là. |
| 131 | H. Nous la prendrons aussi? Récapitulons un peu nos objets. | H. Nou va prende ly aussi?
A non [SIC: anon] - nou capitulé pitit brin bagage à nou yo. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| <p>132 Le C. On a pris note:
liv. s. [sou, sol]
6 Jambons de Bayonne, à 24 15
2 Barils de bœuf à la mode, à 30
4 frequins beurre, de 80 liv.
chaque, à . 1 5
6 Barriques de vin de Haut
Brion, à . . . 240
8 Barils farine Moissac, à . . . 82
4 Paniers anisette M. Bd ., à 26
10
4 Pièces toile Courtrai, aunant
ensemble 168, à 15
8 Pièces brin 7/8 aunant 521 1/2,
à . . . 4 15</p> | <p>Le C. Yo prend la note:
liv. s.
6 Jambons, à 3 gourdes.
2 Barils bœuf à la mode, à 30
4 frequins beure de 80 liv.
chaque, à . . . 1 5
6 Barriques de vin, à 240
8 Barils farine, à . . . 82
4 Paniers l'anisette, à 26 10
4 Pièces toile Courtrai, 168
aunes, à 15
8 Pièces brin 7/8, 521.
1/2 aunes, à 4 15</p> |
| <p>133 Le C. Voilà tout.</p> | <p>Le C. Avla tout.</p> |
| <p>134 H. Nous oublions le vin du
Cap-Breton, quelques pobans
d'olives, d'anchois, des capres,
et des cornichons.</p> | <p>H. Nou blié di vin Cap-Breton,
quéque pobans z'olives,
z'anchoix, capres, et
cornichons.</p> |
| <p>135 Le C. Nous allons les ajouter:
1°. 4 Caisses de vin, chacune de
25 bouteilles, et 6 pobans de
chaque espèce des autres.</p> | <p>Le C. Nou va jouté yo:
D'abord, 4 caisses vin
Cap-Breton, de 25 bouteilles, et
6 pobans chaque l'espèce les
autres.</p> |
| <p>136 H. Mettez en une caisse de
chacune douze pobans.</p> | <p>H. Meté nion caisse de 12
pobans de chaque.</p> |
| <p>137 Le C. Les voilà.</p> | <p>Le C. Avla yo.</p> |
| <p>138 H. Vous ferez mettre tous ces
objets au passager, parce que
nous enverrons nos cabrouets
les prendre après-demain à
notre embarcadere.</p> | <p>H. Vou va faire yo meté tout
bagage-là dan passager, parce
n'avoyé cabrouet à nou yo,
prend yo, après-démain
l'embarcadere à nou.</p> |

A.3 Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur de son Habitation.

A.3 Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur de son Habitation.

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| <p>139 LE PROPRIÉTAIRE. Hh bien!
Thélémaque où en
sommes-nous?</p> | <p>Le Propriétaire. Hh bien!
Thélémaque ou été nou yé?</p> |
| <p>140 THÉLÉMAQUE. Nous avons
fini de sarcler, couper, ou
planter la pièce que vous avez
ordonnée.</p> | <p>Thélémaque. Nou fini (ou caba)
sarclé, coupé ou planté, pièce la
vou té dir ou
ordonné?</p> |
| <p>141 Le P. La terre est-elle bien
mouillée, bien humide, peut-on
planter des cannes, et des
vivres?</p> | <p>Le P. Terre-là ben mouillée, yo
savé planté canne acque vivres?</p> |
| <p>142 Th. Oui Monsieur.</p> | <p>Th. Oui Mouché.</p> |
| <p>143 Le P. Hh bien! tu ira demain
avec le grand atelier, fouiller la
pièce N°. 8, le petit atelier ira
chercher du plant.</p> | <p>Le P. Hh ben! to va allé demain
acque grand atellier, fouiller la
piece №. 8, le pitit atellier valé
hcherché [SIC] plant.</p> |
| <p>144 Th. Que ferons-nous avec les
nourrices, et les vieux?</p> | <p>Th. Ça nou va faire acque
nourrices, et vieux monde?</p> |
| <p>145 Le P. Tes vieux sarcleront les
haies, et les nourrices jetteront
ou sèmeront le plant.</p> | <p>Le P. Vieux là-yo va sarclé
hayies là-yo, et nourrices là-yo
va semé plant.</p> |
| <p>146 Th. Monsieur, la pièce №. 5 est
bientôt bonne à couper, nous
pourrons la rouler aussitôt que
nous aurons fini de planter le
№. 8.</p> | <p>Th. Mouché, piece №.5, bentôt
bon pour coupé, nou savé
roulé-ly sitôt nou caba planté
№. 8.</p> |
| <p>147 Le P. Tu as raison, je l'aurois
commencée aujourd'hui, mais
les mulets sont fatigués des
charrois que nous avons fait à
l'embarcadair de la dernière
étuvée, et je veux profiter de
l'humidité de la terre pour
planter des cannes, et des
patates.</p> | <p>Le P. To gagné raison, mo séré
té coumencé ly jordy, mais
miletts là-yo fatigués charrois
là-yo nou sorti fair
l'embarcadair, pour dernière
n'etivée, et pi mo vlé profiter
pendant terre la mouillé pour
planté cannes acque patates.</p> |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 148 | Th. En parlant de patates, l'hospitière me demande des vivres pour les malades. | Th. Pendant nou après parlé patates, l'hospitière mandé moué vivres, pour malade là-yo. |
| 149 | Le P. Tu dira aux gardiens des environs ou tu travailles, de couper soixante régimes de bananes, et de fouiller cinq ou six paniers de patates, que les cabrouets prendront devant leurs ajoupa, en revenant à midi. | Le P. To va dir gardien là-yo côté ou éti to travail, coupé trois vingt régimes bananes, et fouillé cinq ou six paniers patates, que cabrouets là-yo, va prend douvan joupa à yo, quant ya [SIC: yo?] vini à midy. |
| 150 | Th. On me demande aussi du suif pour graisser les cabrouets, et pour les moulins. | Th. Yo mandé moué aussi suif pour graisser cabrouets là-yo, et pour moulin là-yo. |
| 151 | Le P. J'y veillerai, il faut, puisque nous allons rouler, que je fasse aussi remonter la grande chaudière et la batterie. Quand nous couperons le №. 5, tu feras mettre des têtes à cannes de côté, pour couvrir une caze à bagasse. Appelle le maître sucrier. | Le P. M'allé veillé ça, fau ben d'abord n'allé roulé, mo faire aussi remonter grand chaudière acque batterie là. Quand nou va coupée №. 5, to va faire yo mété tête à canne à côté, pour couvrir nion caze à bagasse. Helé maître sucrier là. |
| 152 | Le Sucr. Monsieur, me voilà. | Le sucr. Avla moué, Mouché. |
| 153 | Le P. Dans quelques jours nous allons couper le №. 5. Tout est-il en état dans la sucrerie? | Le P. Dans deux trois jours nou va couper №. 5. Tout qui chose dan soucreri ly en état? |
| 154 | S. La grande chaudière et la batterie sont démontées. Le flambeau a besoin de quelques réparations. | S. Grand chaudier là acque batterie, yo demonté; flambeau la besoin réparation. |
| 155 | P. Les maçons doivent y travailler aujourd'hui. — Il faudra préparer la lessive. | P. Maçon là yo doit travailler jordy. — Faudra préparer lissive. |
| 156 | S. Si le chaud-fournier ne nous envoie pas de la chaud, nous n'avons rien à mettre dans le vesou. | S. Si chaufournié pas voyé la chau bay nou, nou pas gagné à rien pour metté dans vezou. |

*A.3 Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur
de son Habitation.*

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| 157 | P. Il en a promis pour demain, il sera à temps- — Il faut se dépêcher sur les sucres qui sont à la purgerie. | P. Ly promettre ly pour demain, ly va assé tems. — Fau dépêcher la sus sucre la yo qui dan purgerie. |
| 158 | S. Nous sommes à locher la seconde cabane; demain nous les planterons, et ferons les fonds. | S. Nou après loché deuxième cabanne. Demain nou va planté yo, et nou va faire fonds. |
| 159 | P. A t-on préparé la terre. | P. Yo préparé terre là. |
| 160 | S. Elle est à sa dernière eau qui est très-claire. | S. Ly dan dernier d'iau qui ben clair. |
| 161 | P. Dès que tu auras fini de terrer, tu feras fermer les fenêtres des bâtimens, afin que l'air ne la dessèche pas trop promptement. | P. Drét to va fini terré, to va fair yo fermé tout finettes à bâtimens pour l'air pas cheché trop vîtement terre là. |
| 162 | S. Je crois qu'il suffira de deux terres. On pourroit même se contenter de plumoter la première. | S. Mo crée ly va assés deux terres, yo savé meme contenté plimoter premier là. |
| 163 | P. Nous verrons cela dans quelques jours. — Y a t-il beaucoup de sirop dans les bassins. | P. N'a voir ça dans deux trois jours. — Ly en a sirop en pile dans bassin la yo. |
| 164 | S. Le grand est aux trois quarts. Nous avons encore soixante ou quatre-vingts pots ou canaris à y mettre. | S. Grand là quasi plein, nous gagné encor trois vingt, ou ben quatre vingt canaris pour vidé. |
| 165 | P. Il y en aura plus qu'il n'en faut pour M... à qui j'en ai vendu mille veltes. | P. Ly va passé ça qui fau pour Mouché ... à qui mo vendre 1000 veltes. |
| 166 | S. M Guildivier de l'Embarcadere du Maho a envoyé savoir aujourd'hui si vous pourrez lui en livrer un boucaut. | S. M Guildivier l'Embarcadere Maho, voyé joridy mandé si vous savé livre ly nion boucaut. |
| 167 | P. Qu'as-tu répondu? | P. Ça to répond-ly. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 168 | S. Qu'il y en avoit, mais que j'ignorois s'il étoit vendu. Il doit renvoyer demain. | S. Que li en até, mai mo pa té conné si lité vendre, ly doi renvoye demain. |
| 169 | P. Le grand bassin contient 2500 veltes, ainsi on pourra lui en livrer un boucaut. | P. Grand bassin la tien ben 2500 veltes ainsi yo savé livré-ly nion boucaut. |
| 170 | S. Nous avons des têtes et des fontaines en assez grande quantité; il me semble qu'on pourroit cuire les seconds sirops pour en faire du sucre qu'on mêleroit. | S. Nou gagné têtes et fontaines assé ly semblé moué que yo savé couit deuxième sirop pour fair soucre, que yo seté mêlé. |
| 171 | P. Pendant qu'on réparera les chaudières, et que la maçonnerie sèchera, on pourra cuire les sirops dans les chaudières à clarifier. Il faut d'ailleurs, avant de commencer à rouler, cueillir le maïs qui est dans le №. 4. | P. Pendant yo va reparer chaudières là yo, et maçonne la va chéché, yo savé conit [SIC] sirop dans chaudière à clarifier. Aussi ben fau nous casser mayes qui dans №. 4, avan nous commencé rouler. |
| 172 | S. Nous n'avons que deux blanchets à la sucrerie; il en faudroit au moins 5 ou 6 autres. | S. Nou gagné nécque deux blanchets ly té faudré au moins 5 ou 6 l'autre. |
| 173 | P. J'ai donné de la toile pour en faire 8, afin qu'il y en ait toujours de propres. — Les mulets sont-ils en état? | P. Mo dija bay toile pour yo fair 8, pour y en a toujours qui net. — Mulets là yo en état? |
| 174 | S. Il y en a deux de blessés au garrot, mais dans 4 jours ils pourront tirer au moulin. | S. Ly en a deux qui blessés la sus garrot, dans 4 jours yo va capable tirer d'au moulin. |
| 175 | P. Et les autres? | P. Et les autre là yo. |
| 176 | S. Ils sont vigoureux; d'ailleurs la pluie qui a tombé nous donne assez d'eau pour faire marcher le moulin à eau, si nous manquions de mulets. | S. Yo vigoureux, et py la pli qui tombé ly bay nou d'iau assé pour moulin d'iau marché si nou té manqué milets. |

*A.3 Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur
de son Habitation.*

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| <p>177 P. Puisqu'il y a assez d'eau pour le moulin, nous n'emploierons que les animaux nécessaires au charroi des cannes; les autres pourront aller chercher des chevrons pour la case à bagasse qu'on bâtit.</p> | <p>P. D'abord ly en a d'iau assé pour moulin, nous va employé nécque z'animaux qui faut pour charrier canne; les autres savé alé cherché chivrons, pour caze à bagasse la nou après fair.</p> |
| <p>178 S. Monsieur, il y a deux cabrouets à bœuf qui pourront faire ces voyages.</p> | <p>S. Mouché, y en a deux cabrouets bœuf qui capable fair voyage là yo.</p> |
| <p>179 P. Je les réservoirs pour charroyer les têtes à canne, pour couvrir cette même case, et pour donner aux animaux.</p> | <p>P. Mo té réservé yo pour charrié tête à canne, pour couvrir même case là, et pour bay z'animaux là yo.</p> |
| <p>180 S. On charroiera la couverture dans quelques jours. Les têtes seront fanées.</p> | <p>S. Yo va charrié couverture là dans deux trois jours. Tête là yo va fané.</p> |
| <p>181 P. Il faut débarrasser cette pièce qui est à son second rejeton, pour la brûler et planter de suite. Crois-tu qu'elle rende beaucoup?</p> | <p>P. Fau débarasser pièces là qui dan second rejeton, pour broulé-ly et planté tou suit... To crére ly va rend tout plein?</p> |
| <p>182 S. En grandes cannes, elle a rendu quatre cents formes; en premiers, rejetons, trois cents et quelques.</p> | <p>S. En grand canne ly té rend vingt fois vingt formes; premier rejeton, té bay quinze ou ben seize vingt.</p> |
| <p>183 P. J'espère qu'elle nous en donnera autant cette fois.</p> | <p>P. Mo esperé que ly va bay nou tou même.</p> |
| <p>184 S. J'en doute, parce qu'il y a un coin très-sablonneux, qui a beaucoup souffert de la dernière sécheresse.</p> | <p>S. Mo pas crére, à cause ly en à nion coin tout plein sablé qui souffri en pile dan dernier schéh.</p> |
| <p>185 P. Nous l'avons arrosée, dans le temps.</p> | <p>P. Nou té rouzé ly dan tems là.</p> |
| <p>186 S. C'est là dernière arrosée; il ne restoit guère d'eau à la rivière, on a été obligé de lever toute l'écluse à peine y suffisoit-elle.</p> | <p>S. C'est dernier nou té rouzé; ly pa té resté guère d'iau la rivière, yo té bligé lévé tout n'écluse, ly pa té sufi acque la peine.</p> |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 187 | P. A propos d'écluse, les a-t-on visitées il me semble avoir vu les canaux et le trop plein engorgés. | P. A propos n'écluse, yo visité yo? ly semblé mo té voir canal là-yo acque trop plein engorgé. |
| 188 | S. J'ai tout fait débarrasser par les gardiens, les maçons ont réparé hier quelques dégradations. | S. Mo fair yo tou débarrassée par gardien là-yo, maçon là-yo commandé deux trois côté qui té dégradé. |
| 189 | P. A-t-on mis des formes neuves à la trempe? | P. Yo mété forme neuf trempé. |
| 190 | S. Il y a cinq jours quelles y étoient, on les a changées d'eau aujourd'hui, on en fera autant demain, pour leur ôter l'aigreur. | S. Yo té dan d'iau dempy cinq jours, yo changé yo jordy, demain yo va fair autant pour ouéter gou sir à yo. |
| 191 | P. Tu feras graisser les moulins, et les cabrouets. | P. To va fair yo graisser moulin, acque cabrouets là-yo. |
| 192 | S. Il y a une dent cassée au grand rouleau du moulin à bêtes, et un cul d'œuf, et une crapaudine à retremper à celui à l'eau. | S. Y en a nion dent cassé dan grand rouleau moulin à bête, nion quiou z'oeuf acque nion crapaudine pour retrempé dan moulin d'iau. |
| 193 | S[SIC: P]. A-t-on fait avertir le charpentier, et le forgeron. | P. Yo verti charpentier là acque machoquier là. |
| 194 | S. Ils doivent venir aujourd'hui. | S. Yo doi vini jordy. |
| 195 | P. C'est bien: il faudra nettoyer le bac pour donner des écumes aux animaux; on y hachera aussi des têtes à cannes. | P. C'est ben, faudra nétéyé bac là pour bay z'animaux là-yo z'écumes, yo va haché tête à canne là dan. |
| | ... | ... |
| | Avons nous beaucoup de cannes de coupées. | Nou gagné en pile cannes coupé. |
| 196 | S. Le parc est plein, il y en a encore pour les cabrouets jusqu'à minuit; on pourra commencer à chauffer à cette heure. | S. Parc là plein, ly en a encor pour cabrouet là-yo jouc minuit, yo savé commencé chauffé à l'heur là. |

*A.3 Conversation entre un Propriétaire de Sucrerie et le Nègre Commandeur
de son Habitation.*

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| 197 | P. Tu n'en as pas fait couper plus que pour vingt-quatre heures, tu sais qu'elles aigriroient. | P. To pa fair yo coupé passé ça qui faut pour vingt-quatre heures, to conné yo va sur. |
| 198 | S. Il n'y en a que ce qu'il faut jusqu'à demain, qu'on continuera de couper. | S. Ly en en néqué jouc demain, que yo va continé coupé. |
| 199 | P. Les sucriers du premier quart sont ils prévenus? | P. Soucrier premier quart là-yo, verti? |
| 200 | S. Je leur ai dit de se coucher de bonne heure pour être à leur chaudière à minuit. | S. Mo dir yo couché bon-heur, pour yo là sus chaudière à yo, à minuit. |
| 201 | P. Y a-t-il des mèches, et de l'huile dans les lampes? les écumoirs, et les cuillers sont-ils propres? | P. Y en a mèche acque l'huile dan lampes? z'écumoirs, et couillers là-yo propres. |
| 202 | S. Tout ça est en état, ainsi que le rafraîchissoir. | S. Tou ça en état, rafraîchissoir là-ytou. |
| 203 | P. Quelle quantité de chaux a-t-on mis à la grande? | P. Comben la chaux yo mété dan grande. |
| 204 | S. On a mis une chopine de cendre, et un tiers de chaux, parce que les cannes sont de bonne qualité. | S. Yo mété nion chopine cendre acque nion tiers la chaux, parce canne là-yo, nion bon qualité. |
| 205 | P. Cela a-t-il assez dégraissé le vezou? | P. Ça dégraissé visou là assé? |
| 206 | S. La lessive l'a parfaitement purifié; voyez le sirop, et la batterie. | S. Lessive là purifié ly très-ben, gueté sirop là, et batterie là. |
| 207 | P. Le sirop demande encore une cuillerée de lessive. | P. Sirop là mandé encor nion couiller lessive. |
| 208 | S. La batterie est bonne à tirer; prenons la preuve. | S. Batterie là bon pour tiré, allons nous prend preuve . . . |
| 209 | P. Encore un instant, il n'est pas assez cuit. | P. Encor pitit moment, ly pas cuit assé. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 210 | S. Voilà qui est bien tiré, et chargez de suite pour que le fond ne brûle pas. | S. Avlà ly ben tiré, et chargé tou souit pour fond là pas bourlé. |
| 211 | P. Où sont les becs à à corbin, a-t-on tappé les formes? Qu'on ait soin de ne pas remplir les formes d'un trait; mais d'en mettre dans chaque en proportion de ce qu'il y a dans le rafraîchissoir. On aura soin aussi de remuer de temps à autre, pour aider le grain à se former, et se répandre. | P. Où éti bec corbin là-yo, yo tape forme là-yo? Que yo soin, pas plein forme là-yo nion trait; mais yo que mété dans chaque en proportion de ça qui dan rafraîchissoir. Yo va gagné soin aussi, mouvé ly tems en tems pour hinder grain là formé, et alé par-tou. |

A.4 Conversation entre un autre Propriétaire d'Habitation plantée en café, et son Nègre Commandeur.

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| 212 | L'HABITANT. Tu feras aiguïser les serpes, et les haches, pour aller abattre un bois neuf. | L'Habitant. To va fair yo filé serpes, acque haches, pour n'allé battre bois neuf. |
| 213 | LE NÈGRE. Ouï Monsieur. | Le Nègre. Oui Mouché. |
| 214 | H. Quand le premier balisage sera fait, tu mettras huit nègres de hache à abattre le gros bois. | H. Quant primier balisage là va fait, to va meté huit nègres hache pour battre gros bois. |
| 215 | N. Oui Monsieur. | N. Oui Mouché. |
| 216 | H. Quand on aura fini d'abattre, on débitera. Quinze jours après nous mettrons le feu, ensuite nous ferons les tas (monceaux). | H. Quand yo va fini battre, yo va débité. Pui dan quinze jours nou va meté dy feu, ensuite nou va fair boucan là-yo? |
| 217 | N. Oui Monsieur. | N. Oui Mouché. |
| 218 | H. Il faudra pendant ce temps, tirer des chevrons, des poteaux, et des travers, pour bâtir une maison principale [SIC]. | H. Faudra pendant là tiré chivrons, acque poteaux, et travers pour bâtir nion grand caze. |

*A.4 Conversation entre un autre Propriétaire d'Habitation plantée en café,
et son Nègre Commandeur.*

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| 219 | N. Oui Monsieur. | N. Oui Mouché. |
| 220 | H. J'ai parlé aux douleurs, pour qu'ils viennent faire du merrain, et des essentes. | H. Mo parlé douleur là-yo, vini fair merain acque z'essentes? |
| 221 | N. Monsieur, j'ai vu dans ce bois quelques beaux pieds d'acajou; on pourroit faire quelques madriers.
L'entourage de la savane tombe: Si vous voulez, je ferai aussi sortir des pieux pour le refaire, parce qu'en balisant je ferai couper de la liane.
Il faudra aussi des gaules ou des perches.
Les nourrices, et tous ceux qui ne pourront pas aller dans le bois, fouilleront les trous de l'entourage avec l'ouchet. | N. Mouché, mo té voir dans bois là, bel pieds l'acajou, yo capable fair madriers.
L'entourage à savane après tombé, si vou vlé mo va fair yo sorti pieux pour refair ly, pendant yo va balisé ma fair yo couper lianes.
Nou gagné besoin gaules aussi. Nourrices, et tou ça qui pas capable alé dan bois, yo va fouillé trou l'entourage acque louchet. |
| 222 | H. Il est temps de mettre le feu au bois neuf; tu observeras de le faire mettre sous le vent. | H. Ly tems pour mété dy feu dans bois neuf, to va prin gard yo mété ly là sou vent. |
| 223 | N. Oûi Monsieur. | H. Oui Mouché. |
| 224 | H. Il faut brûler les boucans dessoucher, nettoyer, aligner, et planter des cafés. | H. Faut bourlé boucan là-yo, dessouché, netéyé, aligué [SIC aligné], et planté café. |
| 225 | N. Monsieur, ou prendrons-nous du plant? | H. Mouché, ou éti nou va prend plant? |
| 226 | H. M . . . , m'en a promis de celui qu'il a laissé pousser dans ses vieux cafés. | H. M promettre moué, dan cilà-ly quité vini dan vieux cafés à ly. |
| 227 | N. Il doit être bon parce qu'il est exposé au soleil; car, celui pris à l'ombré pourroit périr avant de prendre racine en l'y exposant, au lieu que celui-là, y est déjà fait. | N. Ly doi bon, à cause ly dan soleil, car, cila yo-c'été prend, dans l'ombre, ly savé mouri avant ly prend racine, si yo té metély, enguise cila-là coutumé. |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 228 | H. Ne craignez-vous pas qu'il soit piqué (1)? | H. Vou pas peur ly piqué? |
| 229 | N. J'en ai arraché quelques pieds par-ci par-là, ils étoient tous biens sains. | N. Moté raché deux trois pieds côté-cy côté-là yo tou été ben sain. |
| 230 | H. A quelle distance planterons-nous ce café? | H. Que distance, nou va planté café là? |
| 231 | N. Ce terrain paroît assez bon, je crois qu'on peut le mettre à six pieds, nous l'arrêterons plus ou moins haut (1) quand il en sera temps. | N. Terrain là paroître moué assé bon, mo crée yo savé mété ly à six pieds, nou va rété-ly à hauteur quand ly va tems. |
| 232 | H. Le planterons-nous carrément, ou en quinconce? | H. Nou va planté-ly carré, ou ben quinconce? |
| 233 | N. Comme ce morne n'est pas trop coupé de ravines, il faut tâcher de le planter en quinconce, parce qu'au lieu de vingt mille pieds, il en tiendra vingt-un mille et quelques cents. | N. Comme morne là pa trop haché ravines, faut taché planté ly quinconce en guise vingt mille pieds, ly savé tienbé vingt-nion mille et quéque cents. |
| 234 | H. La ligne est – elle prête (2)? | H. La ligne-là prêt? |
| 235 | N. Monsieur, elle n'est marquée qu'à cinq pieds, pour ce dernier mauvais petit bois neuf, que nous avons planté il y a deux ans. | N. Mouché, ly marqué nec à cinq pieds pour dernier michant pitit bois neuf nou té planté lien à deux ans. |
| 236 | H. Il faut faire des piquets, et aligner de suite, après quoi nous fouillerons les trous. | H. Fau fair yo fair piquets, aligner tou souite, ensuite nous va fouillé trou là-yo. |
| 237 | N. A quelle profondeur fouillera-t-on? | N. Qué profondeur ya[SIC: yo] fouillé yo? |
| 238 | H. A dix - huit pouces, parce que la pluie y entraînera deux ou trois pouces de bonne terre au fond: cela n'en sera que mieux. | H. Nion pied et dimi, à cause là plie va méné deux trois pouces bon terre dan fond: ça va millor. |

*A.4 Conversation entre un autre Propriétaire d'Habitation plantée en café,
et son Nègre Commandeur.*

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| 239 | N. Voilà assez long-temps qu'il pleut; la terre doit être assez mouillée. | N. Avla assez-long-tems l'a plie tombé, terre-là doi assé mouillé. |
| 240 | H. Nous sommes dans la saison; il pleuvra encore, nous pouvons planter. | H. Nou dan saison, l'a plie va tombé encor, nou savé planté. |
| 241 | N. Il faut envoyer six personnes intelligentes chercher de bon plant, et demain nous commencerons.
Vous écrirez à M, pour qu'il permette d'en prendre. | N. Fau voyé six monde qui connê, cherché bon plant, demain nou va commencé.
Vou va crir M . . . , pour ly quité nou prend. |
| 242 | H. Voilà une lettre, tu feras attention qu'on échevelle (1) bien les racines, et sur-tout qu'on ne ploye pas les pivots en terre. | H. Avlà nion lettre, to va prend garde yo chivelé ben racine là-yo, et surtout que yo pas plié pivot là yo dan terre. |
| 243 | N. Oûi Monsieur. | N. Oui Mouché. |
| 244 | H. Tu auras soin aussi de bien fouler le fond et très-peu sur la superficie, pour que l'eau puisse pénétrer. | H. To va gagné soin aussi fair yo ben foulé dan fond et pitit brin en haut, pour d'iau la plie savé pénétré. |
| 245 | N. Monsieur, tout est planté. | N. Mouché, tout planté. |
| 246 | H. Combien en est-il entré? | H. Comben qui entré l'adan? |
| 247 | N. Voilà les fèves que j'ai mises de côté, à chaque centaine. | N. Avlà pois là-yo mo mété à côté, quand mo-té compté cent. |
| 248 | H. Il n'y en a que deux cent vingt-cinq, qui font vingt-deux mille cinq cents pieds; je l'aurois cru plus grand. | H. Ly en a necque deux cent vingt-cinq, ça fair vingt-deux mille cinq cents pieds, moté seré crére-ly ply grand. |
| 249 | N. J'en ai encore mis bien près du bois, qui languira. | N. Encor mo mété côté à bois qui va languir. |
| 250 | H. Nous leur donnerons de l'air en abattant la lisière. | H. Nou va bay yo l'air, en battant lizièrè-là. |
| 251 | N. Faut-il planter des ignames, semer du riz? | N. Faut-il nou planté z'igname, semé dou riz? |

A Appendix: The dialogues in Ducœurjoly, in French and Creole.

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| 252 | H. Oui, nous y mettrons des ignames, et des pois rouges; le riz sèche trop le terrain, nous en sèmerons ailleurs. | H. Oui, nou va meté z'igname acque pois rouge; riz-là cheché trop terrain nou va semé l'autre côté. |
| 253 | N. Comme il vous plaira. | N. Comme vou va vlé. |

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